Choices and Transformation —the Odyssey

Generally seen as one of the two earliest works of Western literature (the other being the *Iliad*), the *Odyssey* merges two different historical eras. The story takes place in the twelth century BCE, the historical date of the Trojan War, but its composition has been dated to four centuries later. Both works are attributed to Homer, and both are written in the form of an epic, a long narrative poem typically set in a war of historical significance. Unlike the *Iliad*, the *Odyssey*—or "the story of Odysseus"—does not focus on the "cunning hero's" glory on the battlefield, but on his homecoming after the war.

Not much is known about Homer, the storyteller, who might have lived around the eighth century BCE. Legend has it that Homer was a blind poet from a coastal town, identified as Smyrna or Chios on the Aegean Sea. Some think he told his stories orally, by singing; his songs were transmitted by memory and were unified into a single written text much later. (An oral tradition existed in this part of the world until quite recently.) Others are impressed by the elaborate structure of the epic, and insist that Homer could not have composed 12,109 lines of poetry (the length of the *Odyssey*) without the aid of writing.

Both the *Iliad* and the *Odyssey* are centered around the Trojan War. According to Homer, the conflict began when Paris, prince of Troy, fell in love with Helen. He eloped with this beautiful woman who was also Queen of Sparta. Her husband Menelaus, the Spartan king, sought help from his brother Agamemnon, the powerful King of Mycenae. They formed a great alliance of Greek armies, vowing to destroy the city of Troy. Odysseus, King of Ithaca, was one of the Greek kings who joined the expedition. The *Iliad* focuses on the action in the tenth and final year of the war, not long before the city's downfall. The *Odyssey* tells how, after another ten years, the Greek hero Odysseus finally gets to go home, with the blessing and constant help of Athena, goddess of war and wisdom. But by then the sons of rival noblemen are competing to marry his wife Penelope and plotting to kill his son Telemachus. How

is Penelope coping—what does it mean to wait or not to wait? How is Telemachus taking it—is growing up all about being "his father's son"? Held up for a decade by hostile gods and amorous goddesses, what choices are left for Odysseus? Above all, how may he be father, husband, and king again?

The *Odyssey* has lived in the Western imagination as a story of monsters, shipwrecks, and adventures that take readers to strange lands, including the Underworld. But the epic is also a story about self-understanding, or transformation, gained through a physical or psychological journey of twenty years—of "godlike Odysseus," of "wise" Penelope, and of "clear-headed" Telemachus. Reading the epic in our times, how do we see the heroes' choices? What do we make of the Greek ideas of hospitality, immortality, and time as moving in a cycle?

The epic opens in the last month of Odysseus's homecoming and flashes back to scenes in Troy and subsequent encounters before the journey's end. It comprises twenty-four books, which can be divided into the journey of Telemachus (Books 1–4); the wanderings and homecoming of Odysseus (Books 5–12); and the ultimate reunion and revenge (Books 13–24). This selection contains excerpts from seven books (1, 2, 5, 16, 19, 21, 23) where Telemachus, Odysseus and Penelope take centre stage.

The *Odyssey* was written in pre-classical Homeric Greek. We read it in an English translation by Stanley Lombardo who, publishing the work in 2000, tries to capture the oral flavour of Homer by finding a balance between poetic composition and oral performance. His short verse lines impress a critic as "fresh, quick, and verbally engaging to the modern ear."[1]

Julie Chiu

[1] A remark of Joseph Russo, quoted on the back cover of *The Odyssey*, tr. Stanley Lombardo (Indianapolis/Cambridge: Hackett, 2007).

from

Odyssey

by Homer

ODYSSEY 1

Speak, Memory—
Of the cunning hero,
The wanderer, blown off course time and again
After he plundered Troy's sacred heights.
Speak
Of all the cities he saw, the minds he grasped,
The suffering deep in his heart at sea
As he struggled to survive and bring his men home
But could not save them, hard as he tried—
The fools—destroyed by their own recklessness
When they ate the oxen of Hyperion the Sun,
And that god snuffed out their day of return.

Of these things,
Speak, Immortal One,
And tell the tale once more in our time.

From Homer, *Odyssey*, translated by Stanley Lombardo. Copyright © 2000 Hackett Publishing Company, Inc. Reprinted by permission of Hackett Publishing Company, Inc. All rights reserved.

By now, all the others who had fought at Troy—
At least those who had survived the war and the sea—
Were safely back home. Only Odysseus
Still longed to return to his home and his wife.
The nymph Calypso, a powerful goddess—
And beautiful—was clinging to him
In her caverns and yearned to possess him.
The seasons rolled by, and the year came
In which the gods spun the thread
For Odysseus to return home to Ithaca,
Though not even there did his troubles end,
Even with his dear ones around him.
All the gods pitied him, except Poseidon,
Who stormed against the godlike hero
Until he finally reached his own native land.

But Poseidon was away now, among the Ethiopians,
Those burnished people at the ends of the earth—
Some near the sunset, some near the sunrise—
To receive a grand sacrifice of rams and bulls.
There he sat, enjoying the feast.
The other gods
Were assembled in the halls of Olympian Zeus,
And the Father of Gods and Men was speaking.
He couldn't stop thinking about Aegisthus,
Whom Agamemnon's son, Orestes, had killed:

"Mortals! They are always blaming the gods
For their troubles, when their own witlessness
Causes them more than they were destined for!
Take Aegisthus now. He marries Agamemnon's
Lawful wife and murders the man on his return
Knowing it meant disaster—because we did warn him,
Sent our messenger, quicksilver Hermes,
To tell him not to kill the man and marry his wife,
Or Agamemnon's son, Orestes, would pay him back
When he came of age and wanted his inheritance.
Hermes told him all that, but his good advice
Meant nothing to Aegisthus. Now he's paid in full."

Athena glared at him with her owl-grey eyes:

"Yes, O our Father who art most high—
That man got the death he richly deserved,
And so perish all who would do the same.
But it's Odysseus I'm worried about,
That discerning, ill-fated man. He's suffered
So long, separated from his dear ones,
On an island that lies in the center of the sea,
A wooded isle that is home to a goddess,
The daughter of Atlas, whose dread mind knows
All the depths of the sea and who supports
The tall pillars that keep earth and heaven apart.
His daughter detains the poor man in his grief,
Sweet-talking him constantly, trying to charm him
Into forgetting Ithaca. But Odysseus,
Longing to see even the smoke curling up
From his land, simply wants to die. And yet you
Never think of him, Olympian. Didn't Odysseus
Please you with sacrifices beside the Greek ships
At Troy? Why is Odysseus so odious, Zeus?"

Zeus in his thunderhead had an answer for her:

"Quite a little speech you've let slip through your teeth,
Daughter. How could I forget godlike Odysseus?
No other mortal has a mind like his, or offers
Sacrifice like him to the deathless gods in heaven.
But Poseidon is stiff and cold with anger
Because Odysseus blinded his son, the Cyclops
Polyphemus, the strongest of all the Cyclopes,
Nearly a god. The nymph Thoösa bore him,
Daughter of Phorcys, lord of the barren brine,
After mating with Poseidon in a scalloped sea-cave.
The Earthshaker has been after Odysseus
Ever since, not killing him, but keeping him away
From his native land. But come now,
Let's all put our heads together and find a way
To bring Odysseus home. Poseidon will have to

Put aside his anger. He can't hold out alone
Against the will of all the immortals."

And Athena, the owl-eyed goddess, replied:

"Father Zeus, whose power is supreme,
If the blessed gods really do want
Odysseus to return to his home,
We should send Hermes, our quicksilver herald,
To the island of Ogygia without delay
To tell that nymph of our firm resolve
That long-suffering Odysseus gets to go home.
I myself will go to Ithaca
To put some spirit into his son—
Have him call an assembly of the long-haired Grecks
And rebuke the whole lot of his mother's suitors.
They have been butchering his flocks and herds.
I'll escort him to Sparta and the sands of Pylos
So he can make inquiries about his father's return
And win for himself a name among men."

Athena spoke, and she bound on her feet
The beautiful sandals, golden, immortal,
That carry her over landscape and seascape
On a puff of wind. And she took the spear,
Bronze-tipped and massive, that the Daughter uses
To level battalions of heroes in her wrath.
She shot down from the peaks of Olympus
To Ithaca, where she stood on the threshold
Of Odysseus' outer porch. Holding her spear,
She looked like Mentes, the Taphian captain,
And her eyes rested on the arrogant suitors.

They were playing dice in the courtyard,
Enjoying themselves, seated on the hides of oxen
They themselves had slaughtered. They were attended
By heralds and servants, some of whom were busy

Blending water and wine in large mixing bowls,
Others wiping down the tables with sponges
And dishing out enormous servings of meat.

Telemachus spotted her first.
He was sitting with the suitors, nursing
His heart's sorrow, picturing in his mind
His noble father, imagining he had returned
And scattered the suitors, and that he himself,
Telemachus, was respected at last.
Such were his reveries as he sat with the suitors.
And then he saw Athena.
He went straight to the porch,
Indignant that a guest had been made to wait so long.
Going up to her he grasped her right hand in his
And took her spear, and his words had wings:

"Greetings, stranger. You are welcome here.
After you've had dinner, you can tell us what you need."

Telemachus spoke, and Pallas Athena
Followed him into the high-roofed hall.
When they were inside he placed her spear
In a polished rack beside a great column
Where the spears of Odysseus stood in a row.
Then he covered a beautifully wrought chair
With a linen cloth and had her sit on it
With a stool under her feet. He drew up
An intricately painted bench for himself
And arranged their seats apart from the suitors
So that his guest would not lose his appetite
In their noisy and uncouth company—
And so he could inquire about his absent father.
A maid poured water from a silver pitcher
Into a golden basin for them to wash their hands
And then set up a polished table nearby.
Another serving woman, grave and dignified,

Set out bread and generous helpings
From the other dishes she had. A carver set down
Cuts of meat by the platter and golden cups.
Then a herald came by and poured them wine.

Now the suitors swaggered in. They sat down
In rows on benches and chairs. Heralds
Poured water over their hands, maidservants
Brought around bread in baskets, and young men
Filled mixing bowls to the brim with wine.
The suitors helped themselves to all this plenty,
And when they had their fill of food and drink,
They turned their attention to the other delights,
Dancing and song, that round out a feast.
A herald handed a beautiful zither
To Phemius, who sang for the suitors,
Though against his will. Sweeping the strings
He struck up a song. And Telemachus,
Putting his head close to Pallas Athena's
So the others wouldn't hear, said this to her:

"Please don't take offense if I speak my mind.
It's easy for them to enjoy the harper's song,
Since they are eating another man's stores
Without paying anything—the stores of a man
Whose white bones lie rotting in the rain
On some distant shore, or still churn in the waves.
If they ever saw him make landing on Ithaca
They would pray for more foot speed
Instead of more gold or fancy clothes.
But he's met a bad end, and it's no comfort to us
When some traveler tells us he's on his way home.
The day has long passed when he's coming home.
But tell me this, and tell me the truth:
Who are you, and where do you come from?
Who are your parents? What kind of ship
Brought you here? How did your sailors
Guide you to Ithaca, and how large is your crew?
I don't imagine you came here on foot.

And tell me this, too. I'd like to know,
Is this your first visit here, or are you
An old friend of my father's, one of the many
Who have come to our house over the years?"

Athena's seagrey eyes glinted as she said:

"I'll tell you nothing but the unvarnished truth.
I am Mentes, son of Anchialus, and proud of it.
I am also captain of the seafaring Taphians.
I just pulled in with my ship and my crew,
Sailing the deep purple to foreign ports.
We're on our way to Cyprus with a cargo of iron
To trade for copper. My ship is standing
Offshore of wild country away from the city,
In Rheithron harbor under Neion's woods.
You and I have ties of hospitality,
Just as our fathers did, from a long way back.
Go and ask old Laertes. They say he never
Comes to town any more, lives out in the country,
A hard life with just an old woman to help him.
She gets him his food and drink when he comes in
From the fields, all worn out from trudging across
The ridge of his vineyard plot.
I have come
Because they say your father has returned,
But now I see the gods have knocked him off course.
He's not dead, though, not godlike Odysseus,
No way in the world. No, he's alive all right.
It's the sea keeps him back, detained on some island
In the middle of the sea, held captive by savages.
And now I will prophesy for you, as the gods
Put it in my heart and as I think it will be,
Though I am no soothsayer or reader of birds.
Odysseus will not be gone much longer
From his native land, not even if iron chains
Hold him. He knows every trick there is
And will think of some way to come home.
But now tell me this, and I want the truth:

Tall as you are, are you Odysseus' son?
You bear a striking resemblance to him,
Especially in the head and those beautiful eyes.
We used to spend quite a bit of time together
Before he sailed for Troy with the Argive fleet.
Since then, we haven't seen each other at all."

Telemachus took a deep breath and said:

"You want the truth, and I will give it to you.
My mother says that Odysseus is my father.
I don't know this myself. No one witnesses
His own begetting. If I had my way, I'd be the son
Of a man fortunate enough to grow old at home.
But it's the man with the most dismal fate of all
They say I was born from—since you want to know."

Athena's seagrey eyes glinted as she said:

"Well, the gods have made sure your family name
Will go on; since Penelope has borne a son like you.
But there is one other thing I want you to tell me.
What kind of a party is this? What's the occasion?
Some kind of banquet? A wedding feast?
It's no neighborly potluck, that's for sure,
The way this rowdy crowd is carrying on
All through the house. Any decent man
Would be outraged if he saw this behavior."

Telemachus breathed in the salt air and said:

"Since you ask me these questions as my guest—
This, no doubt, was once a perfect house,
Wealthy and fine, when its master was still home.
But the gods frowned and changed all that
When they whisked him off the face of the earth.
I wouldn't grieve for him so much if he were dead,
Gone down with his comrades in the town of Troy,
Or died in his friends' arms after winding up the war.

The entire Greek army would have buried him then,
And great honor would have passed on to his son.
But now the whirlwinds have snatched him away
Without a trace. He's vanished, gone, and left me
Pain and sorrow. And he's not the only cause
I have to grieve. The gods have given me other trials.
All of the nobles who rule the islands—
Doulichium, Samê, wooded Zacynthus—
And all those with power on rocky Ithaca
Are courting my mother and ruining our house.
She refuses to make a marriage she hates
But can't stop it either. They are eating us
Out of house and home, and will kill me someday."

And Pallas Athena, with a flash of anger:

"Damn them! You really do need Odysseus back.
Just let him lay his hands on these mangy dogs!
If only he would come through that door now
With a helmet and shield and a pair of spears,
Just as he was when I saw him first,
Drinking and enjoying himself in our house
On his way back from Ephyre. Odysseus
Had sailed there to ask Mermerus' son, Ilus,
For some deadly poison for his arrowheads.
Ilus, out of fear of the gods' anger,
Would not give him any, but my father
Gave him some, because he loved him dearly.
That's the Odysseus I want the suitors to meet.
They wouldn't live long enough to get married!
But it's on the knees of the gods now
Whether he comes home and pays them back
Right here in his halls, or doesn't.
So it's up to you
To find a way to drive them out of your house.
Now pay attention and listen to what I'm saying.
Tomorrow you call an assembly and make a speech
To these heroes, with the gods as witnesses.
The suitors you order to scatter, each to his own.

Your mother—if in her heart she wants to marry—
Goes back to her powerful father's house.
Her kinfolk and he can arrange the marriage,
And the large dowry that should go with his daughter.
And my advice for you, if you will take it,
Is to launch your best ship, with twenty oarsmen,
And go make inquiries about your long-absent father.
Someone may tell you something, or you may hear
A rumor from Zeus, which is how news travels best.
Sail to Pylos first and ask godly Nestor,
Then go over to Sparta and red-haired Menelaus.
He was the last home of all the bronzeclad Greeks.
If you hear your father's alive and on his way home,
You can grit your teeth and hold out one more year.
If you hear he's dead, among the living no more,
Then come home yourself to your ancestral land,
Build him a barrow and celebrate the funeral
Your father deserves. Then marry off your mother.
After you've done all that, think up some way
To kill the suitors in your house either openly
Or by setting a trap. You've got to stop
Acting like a child. You've outgrown that now.
Haven't you heard how Orestes won glory
Throughout the world when he killed Aegisthus,
The shrewd traitor who murdered his father?
You have to be aggressive, strong—look at how big
And well-built you are—so you will leave a good name.
Well, I'm off to my ship and my men,
Who are no doubt wondering what's taking me so long.
You've got a job to do. Remember what I said."

And Telemachus, in his clear-headed way:

"My dear guest, you speak to me as kindly
As a father to his son. I will not forget your words.
I know you're anxious to leave, but please stay
So you can bathe and relax before returning
To your ship, taking with you a costly gift,
Something quite fine, a keepsake from me,

The sort of thing a host gives to his guest."

And Athena, her eyes grey as saltwater:

"No, I really do want to get on with my journey.
Whatever gift you feel moved to make,
Give it to me on my way back home,
Yes, something quite fine. It will get you as good."

With these words the Grey-eyed One was gone,
Flown up and away like a seabird. And as she went
She put courage in Telemachus' heart
And made him think of his father even more than before.
Telemachus' mind soared. He knew it had been a god,
And like a god himself he rejoined the suitors.

They were sitting hushed in silence, listening
To the great harper as he sang the tale
Of the hard journeys home that Pallas Athena
Ordained for the Greeks on their way back from Troy.

His song drifted upstairs, and Penelope,
Wise daughter of Icarius, took it all in.
She came down the steep stairs of her house—
Not alone, two maids trailed behind—
And when she had come among the suitors
She stood shawled in light by a column
That supported the roof of the great house,
Hiding her cheeks behind her silky veils,
Grave handmaidens standing on either side.
And she wept as she addressed the brilliant harper:

"Phemius, you know many other songs
To soothe human sorrows, songs of the exploits
Of gods and men. Sing one of those
To your enraptured audience as they sit
Sipping their wine. But stop singing this one,
This painful song that always tears at my heart.
I am already sorrowful, constantly grieving

For my husband, remembering him, a man
Renowned in Argos and throughout all Hellas."

And Telemachus said to her coolly:

"Mother, why begrudge our singer
Entertaining us as he thinks best?
Singers are not responsible; Zeus is,
Who gives what he wants to every man on earth.
No one can blame Phemius for singing the doom
Of the Danaans: it's always the newest song
An audience praises most. For yourself,
You'll just have to endure it and listen.
Odysseus was not the only man at Troy
Who didn't come home. Many others perished.
You should go back upstairs and take care of your work,
Spinning and weaving, and have the maids do theirs.
Speaking is for men, for all men, but for me
Especially, since I am the master of this house."

Penelope was stunned and turned to go,
Her son's masterful words pressed to her heart.
She went up the stairs to her room with her women
And wept for Odysseus, her beloved husband,
Until grey-eyed Athena cast sleep on her eyelids.

All through the shadowy halls the suitors
Broke into an uproar, each of them praying
To lie in bed with her. Telemachus cut them short:

"Suitors of my mother—you arrogant pigs—
For now, we're at a feast. No shouting, please!
There's nothing finer than hearing
A singer like this, with a voice like a god's.
But in the morning we will sit in the meeting ground,
So that I can tell all of you in broad daylight
To get out of my house. Fix yourselves feasts
In each others' houses, use up your own stockpiles.
But if it seems better and more profitable

For one man to be eaten out of house and home
Without compensation—then eat away!
For my part, I will pray to the gods eternal
That Zeus grant me requital: Death for you
Here in my house. With no compensation."

Thus Telemachus. And they all bit their lips
And marveled at how boldly he had spoken to them.
Then Antinous, son of Eupeithes, replied:

"Well, Telemachus, it seems the gods, no less,
Are teaching you how to be a bold public speaker.
May the son of Cronus never make you king
Here on Ithaca, even if it is your birthright."

And Telemachus, taking in a breath:

"It may make you angry, Antinous,
But I'll tell you something. I wouldn't mind a bit
If Zeus granted me this—if he made me king.
You think this is the worst fate a man can have?
It's not so bad to be king. Your house grows rich,
And you're held in great honor yourself. But,
There are many other lords on seawashed Ithaca,
Young and old, and any one of them
Could get to be king, now that Odysseus is dead.
But I will be master of my own house
And of the servants that Odysseus left me."

Then Eurymachus, Polybus' son, responded:

"It's on the knees of the gods, Telemachus,
Which man of Greece will rule this island.
But you keep your property and rule your house,
And may no man ever come to wrest them away
From you by force, not while men live in Ithaca.
But I want to ask you, sir, about your visitor.
Where did he come from, what port
Does he call home, where are his ancestral fields?

Did he bring news of your father's coming
Or was he here on business of his own?
He sure up and left in a hurry, wouldn't stay
To be known. Yet by his looks he was no tramp."

And Telemachus, with a sharp response:

"Eurymachus, my father is not coming home.
I no longer trust any news that may come,
Or any prophecy my mother may have gotten
From a seer she has summoned up to the house.
My guest was a friend of my father's from Taphos.
He says he is Mentes, son of Anchialus
And captain of the seafaring Taphians."

Thus Telemachus. But in his heart he knew
It was an immortal goddess.

And now
The young men plunged into their entertainment,
Singing and dancing until the twilight hour.
They were still at it when the evening grew dark,
Then one by one went to their own houses to rest.

Telemachus' room was off the beautiful courtyard,
Built high and with a surrounding view.
There he went to his bed, his mind teeming,
And with him, bearing blazing torches,
Went true-hearted Eurycleia, daughter of Ops
And Peisenor's grandaughter. Long ago,
Laertes had bought her for a small fortune
When she was still a girl. He paid twenty oxen
And honored her in his house as he honored
His wedded wife, but he never slept with her
Because he would rather avoid his wife's wrath.
Of all the women, she loved Telemachus the most
And had nursed him as a baby. Now she bore
The blazing torches as Telemachus opened
The doors to his room and sat on his bed.

He pulled off his soft tunic and laid it
In the hands of the wise old woman, and she
Folded it and smoothed it and hung it on a peg
Beside the corded bed. Then she left the room,
Pulled the door shut by its silver handle,
And drew the bolt home with the strap.

There Telemachus
Lay wrapped in a fleece all the night through,
Pondering the journey Athena had shown him.

ODYSSEY 2

Dawn's pale rose fingers brushed across the sky,
And Odysseus' son got out of bed and dressed.
He slung his sharp sword around his shoulder,
Then tied oiled leather sandals onto his feet,
And walked out of the bedroom like a god.
Wasting no time, he ordered the heralds
To call an assembly. The heralds' cries
Rang out through the town, and the men
Gathered quickly, their long hair streaming.
Telemachus strode along carrying a spear
And accompanied by two lean hounds.
Athena shed a silver grace upon him,
And everyone marveled at him as he entered.
The elders made way as he took his father's seat.

First to speak was the hero Aegyptius,
A man bowed with age and wise beyond telling.
His son, Antiphus, had gone off to Troy
In the ships with Odysseus (and was killed
In the cave of the Cyclops, who made of him

His last savage meal). Of three remaining sons,
One, Eurynomus, ran with the suitors,
And the other two kept their father's farm.
But Aegyptius couldn't stop mourning the one that was lost
And was weeping for him as he spoke out now:

"Hear me now, men of Ithaca.
We have never once held assembly or sat
In council since Odysseus left.
Who has called us together today?
Which of the young men, or of the elders,
Has such urgent business as this?
Has he had news of the army's return,
Some early report he wants to tell us about?
Or is there some other public matter
He wants to address? He's a fine man
In my eyes; and may Zeus bless him."

Telemachus was glad to hear these words,
And he rose from his seat, eager to speak.
There he stood, in the midst of the assembly,
And the herald Peisenor, a wise counselor,
Placed the staff in the hands of Odysseus' son.
In his speech he addressed old Aegyptius first:

"You won't have to look very far to find out
Who called this assembly. I called it myself.
No, I have not had news of the army's return,
Any early report I could tell you about.
Nor is there any other public matter
I want to address. It's a private matter,
My own need. Trouble has come to my house
In two forms. First, I have lost my noble father.
He was your king once, and like a father
To all of you, gentle and kind. And now,
There is even greater trouble, far greater,
Which will destroy my house and home.
Suitors have latched on to my mother,
Against her will, and they are the sons

Of the noblest men here. They shrink
From going to her father Icarius' house
So that he could arrange his daughter's dowry
And give her away to the man he likes best.
Instead, they gather at our house day after day,
Slaughtering our oxen and sheep and fat goats,
Living high and drinking wine recklessly.
We've lost almost everything, because
We don't have Odysseus to protect our house.
We can't defend ourselves. If it came to a fight
We would only show how pathetic we are.
Not that I wouldn't defend myself
If I had the power. Things have gone too far.
The ruin of my house has become a public disgrace.
You should all be indignant, and feel shame
Before your neighbors, and fear the wrath
Of the gods, who may yet turn against you.
I beg you by Olympian Zeus and by Themis,
Who calls and dismisses assemblies of men,
Stop this, my friends, and let me be alone
In my grief—unless my father, Odysseus,
Was your enemy and did you some harm
And now you are paying me back in malice
By urging these suitors on. Better for me
If you yourselves, Ithacans all,
Were to eat up my treasures and flocks.
Then I might get restitution someday.
I'd go through the town and bend people's ears
And ask for our goods until they were all given back.
But there is nothing I can do now. There's no cure
For what you are making me suffer now."

He spoke in anger, bursting into tears
As he threw the scepter onto the ground.
The crowd was motionless with pity. No one
Had the heart to respond to him harshly,
Except Antinous, who now said:

"Well, the big speaker, the mighty orator.

You've got some nerve, Telemachus,
Laying the blame on us. It's not the suitors
Who are at fault, but your own mother,
Who knows more tricks than any woman alive.
It's been three years now, almost four,
Since she's been toying with our affections.
She encourages each man, leading us on,
Sending messages. But her mind is set elsewhere.
Here's just one of the tricks she devised:
She set up a great loom in the main hall
And started weaving a sizeable fabric
With a very fine thread, and she said to us:

'Young men—my suitors, since Odysseus is dead—
Eager as you are to marry me, you must wait
Until I finish this robe—it would be a shame
To waste my spinning—a shroud for the hero
Laertes, when death's doom lays him low.
I fear the Achaean women would reproach me
If he should lie in death shroudless for all his wealth.'

"We were persuaded by this appeal to our honor.
Every day she would weave at the great loom,
And every night she would unweave by torchlight.
She fooled us for three years with her craft.
But in the fourth year, as the seasons rolled by,
And the moons waned, and the days dragged on,
One of her women who knew all about it
Told us, and we caught her unweaving
The gloried shroud. Then we forced her to finish it.
Now here is the suitors' answer to you,
And let every Achaean hear it as well:
Send your mother away with orders to marry
Whichever man her father likes best.
But if she goes on like this much longer,
Torturing us with all she knows and has,
All the gifts Athena has given her,
Her talent for handiwork, her good sense,
Her cleverness—all of which go far beyond

That of any of the heroines of old,
Tyro or Alcmene or garlanded Mycene,
Not one of whom had a mind like Penelope's,
Even though now she is not thinking straight—
We will continue to eat you out of house and home
For as long as she holds to this way of thinking
Which the immortal gods have put in her breast.
She is building quite a reputation for herself,
But at your expense. As for us, we're staying put
Until she chooses one of the Achaeans to marry."

Telemachus, drawing a deep breath, responded:

"Antinous, I cannot throw out of my house
The mother who bore me and raised me.
As for my father, he may be alive or dead
But he is not here. It would not be fair
If I had to pay a great price to Icarius,
As I would if I sent my mother back to him
On my own initiative. And the spirits would send me
Other evils, for my mother would curse me
As she left the house, and call on the Furies.
And men all over would hold me at fault.
So I will never tell my mother to leave.
As for you, if you don't like it,
If this offends your sense of fairness,
Get out of my house! Fix yourselves feasts
In each others' houses, use up your own stockpiles.
But if it seems better and more profitable
For one man to be eaten out of house and home
Without compensation—then eat away!
But I will pray to the gods eternal
That Zeus grant me requital: Death for you
Here in my house. With no compensation."

[Lines 162–282 are omitted. The assembly continues. Telemachus announces his wish to set sail in search of news about his father. Mentor, an old friend of Odysseus, asks men of Ithaca to rebuke the suitors and is ridiculed. The assembly breaks and the suitors go off to Odysseus's house.]

Telemachus, though, went down to the shore,
Washed his hands in the surf, and prayed to Athena:

"Hear me, god of yesterday. You came to our house
And commanded me to sail the misty sea
In search of news of my long-absent father.
Now the townspeople are blocking all that,
Especially the suitors, those arrogant bastards."

He prayed, and Athena was with him,
Looking just like Mentor and with Mentor's voice.
Her words flew to Telemachus on wings:

"You won't turn out to be a fool or a coward,
Telemachus, not if any of Odysseus' spirit
Has been instilled in you. Now there was a man
Who made sure of his words and deeds! Don't worry,
You'll make this journey, and it won't be in vain.
If you're really Odysseus' and Penelope's son,
You'll finish whatever you set your mind to.
You know, few sons turn out to be like their fathers;
Most turn out worse, a few better.
No, you don't have it in you to be a fool or a coward,
And you've got something of Odysseus' brains,
So there's reason to think you'll finish this job.
Never mind, then, about the suitors' schemes.
They're mad, not an ounce of sense or justice in them,
And they have no idea of the dark death
Closing in on them, doomed all to die on a single day.
As for you, the journey you have your heart set on
Won't be delayed. I myself, your father's old comrade,
Will equip a fast ship and sail along with you.
You get the provisions and stow them aboard,
Wine in jars and barley meal in tight skins,
Food that will stick to men's ribs. I'll go through town
And round up a volunteer crew. There are plenty of ships
In Ithaca, old and new. I'll scout out the best one,
Get her rigged, and launch her onto the open sea."

Thus Athena, daughter of Zeus.

[Lines 319–365 are omitted. Telemachus goes back to his house, where the suitors are again gathered, busy slaughtering animals for another feast. They mock Telemachus for his plan to set sail for Pylos. Telemachus goes on to his father's treasure chamber to prepare provisions for his voyage.]

The close-fitting, double doors were locked,
And the room was watched day and night
By a wise old stewardess, Eurycleia,
Daughter of Ops, son of Peisenor. Telemachus
Had summoned her and now spoke to her there:

"Nurse, siphon me off some wine in jars,
The sweetest, mellowest wine we have
After what you are holding in reserve
For Odysseus, that unlucky man,
Should he ever return from the jaws of death.
Fill twelve jars and fit them with lids,
And pour some barley meal into well-sewn skins.
I'll need twenty quarts of ground barley meal.
But don't let anyone know. Just have all this
Ready to go. I'll pick it up this evening
After my mother has gone to bed upstairs.
I'm off to Sparta and to sandy Pylos
To see if I can get some news of my father."

He spoke, and Eurycleia gave a shrill cry.
She sobbed as her words went out to him:

"Ah, where did you get this idea, child?
Why would you want to travel abroad, you,
A beloved only son? Zeus-born Odysseus
Perished far from home, in a strange land.
These men, as soon as you are gone, will plot
To have you killed by treachery, and then divide
All these things among themselves. No, stay here
With what is yours. There is no need for you
To wander and suffer on the barren sea."

And Telemachus, in his cool-headed way:

"Don't worry, nurse. There is a god
Behind all this. But swear you won't say
Anything to my mother for a dozen days or so,
Or until she misses me herself or has heard
That I am gone. I don't want her crying."

And the old woman swore to the gods
That she would say nothing. That done,
She drew the wine for him in jars
And poured the barley meal into skins,
While Telemachus went back to join the suitors.

[Lines 406–446 are omitted. Assuming the form of Telemachus, Athena recruits sailors and borrows a ship from Noemon. She then comes to Telemachus looking like Mentor, and urges Telemachus to set sail. Telemachus stocks the ship with provisions and is ready for the journey.]

Telemachus called to the crew to rig the sail.
Falling to, they raised the fir mast,
Set it in its socket, braced it with forestays
And hauled up the white sail. The wind
Bellied the canvas, and an indigo wave
Hissed off the bow as the ship sped on.
When they had made all the tackle secure
In their swift black ship, they set out bowls
Brimming with wine, and poured libations
To the immortal gods, most of all
To the daughter of Zeus with seagrey eyes.

The ship bore through the night and into the dawn.

[Books 3 and 4 are omitted. Encouraged by Athena, still in the disguise of Mentor, Telemachus visits Pylos and impresses King Nestor with his speech. Nestor recalls the Greeks' journeys home after falling Troy, and tells how Agamemnon is murdered by his wife's lover and avenged by his son. Telemachus continues his travel to Sparta, where he is warmly received by King Menelaus and Helen, the wife come home. Helen speaks of Odysseus's visit to Troy disguised as a beggar while Menelaus describes his own journey home, revealing the hearsay that Odysseus is kept by Calypso on her island. In Ithaca, the suitors now plan to ambush Telemachus when he sails home.]

ODYSSEY 5

Dawn reluctantly
Left Tithonus in her rose-shadowed bed,
Then shook the morning into flakes of fire.

Light flooded the halls of Olympus
Where Zeus, high Lord of Thunder,
Sat with the other gods, listening to Athena
Reel off the tale of Odysseus' woes.
It galled her that he was still in Calypso's cave:

"Zeus, my father—and all you blessed immortals—
Kings might as well no longer be gentle and kind
Or understand the correct order of things.
They might as well be tryannical butchers
For all that any of Odysseus' people
Remember him, a godly king as kind as a father.
No, he's still languishing on that island, detained
Against his will by that nymph Calypso,
No way in the world for him to get back to his land.
His ships are all lost, he has no crew left
To row him across the sea's crawling back.
And now the islanders are plotting to kill his son
As he heads back home. He went for news of his father
To sandy Pylos and white-bricked Sparta."

Storm Cloud Zeus had an answer for her:

"Quite a little speech you've let slip through your teeth,
Daughter. But wasn't this exactly your plan
So that Odysseus would make them pay for it later?
You know how to get Telemachus
Back to Ithaca and out of harm's way
With his mother's suitors sailing in a step behind."

Zeus turned then to his son Hermes and said:

"Hermes, you've been our messenger before.
Go tell that ringleted nymph it is my will
To let that patient man Odysseus go home.
Not with an escort, mind you, human or divine,
But on a rickety raft—tribulation at sea—
Until on the twentieth day he comes to Scheria
In the land of the Phaeacians, our distant relatives,
Who will treat Odysseus as if he were a god
And take him on a ship to his own native land
With gifts of bronze and clothing and gold,
More than he ever would have taken back from Troy
Had he come home safely with his share of the loot.
That's how he's destined to see his dear ones again
And return to his high-gabled Ithacan home."

Thus Zeus, and the quicksilver messenger
Laced on his feet the beautiful sandals,
Golden, immortal, that carry him over
Landscape and seascape on a puff of wind.
And he picked up the wand he uses to charm
Mortal eyes to sleep and make sleepers awake.

Holding this wand the tough quicksilver god
Took off, bounded onto Pieria
And dove through the ether down to the sea,

Skimming the waves like a cormorant,
The bird that patrols the saltwater billows
Hunting for fish, seaspume on its plumage,

Hermes flying low and planing the whitecaps.

BOOK 5

When he finally arrived at the distant island
He stepped from the violet-tinctured sea
On to dry land and proceeded to the cavern
Where Calypso lived. She was at home.
A fire blazed on the hearth, and the smell
Of split cedar and arbor vitae burning
Spread like incense across the whole island.
She was seated inside, singing in a lovely voice
As she wove at her loom with a golden shuttle.
Around her cave the woodland was in bloom,
Alder and poplar and fragrant cypress.
Long-winged birds nested in the leaves,
Horned owls and larks and slender-throated shorebirds
That screech like crows over the bright saltwater.
Tendrils of ivy curled around the cave's mouth,
The glossy green vine clustered with berries.
Four separate springs flowed with clear water, criss-
Crossing channels as they meandered through meadows
Lush with parsley and blossoming violets.
It was enough to make even a visiting god
Enraptured at the sight. Quicksilver Hermes
Took it all in, then turned and entered
The vast cave.
Calypso knew him at sight.
The immortals have ways of recognizing each other,
Even those whose homes are in outlying districts.
But Hermes didn't find the great hero inside.
Odysseus was sitting on the shore,
As ever those days, honing his heart's sorrow,
Staring out to sea with hollow, salt-rimmed eyes.

Calypso, sleek and haloed, questioned Hermes
Politely, as she seated him on a lacquered chair:

"My dear Hermes, to what do I owe
The honor of this unexpected visit? Tell me
What you want, and I'll oblige you if I can."

The goddess spoke, and then set a table
With ambrosia and mixed a bowl of rosy nectar.

The quicksilver messenger ate and drank his fill,
Then settled back from dinner with heart content
And made the speech she was waiting for:

"You ask me, goddess to god, why I have come.
Well, I'll tell you exactly why. Remember, you asked.
Zeus ordered me to come here; I didn't want to.
Who would want to cross this endless stretch
Of deserted sea? Not a single city in sight
Where you can get a decent sacrifice from men.
But you know how it is: Zeus has the aegis,
And none of us gods can oppose his will.
He says you have here the most woebegone hero
Of the whole lot who fought around Priam's city
For nine years, sacked it in the tenth, and started home.
But on the way back they offended Athena,
And she swamped them with hurricane winds and waves.
His entire crew was wiped out, and he
Drifted along until he was washed up here.
Anyway, Zeus wants you to send him back home. Now.
The man's not fated to rot here far from his friends.
It's his destiny to see his dear ones again
And return to his high-gabled Ithacan home."

He finished, and the nymph's aura stiffened.
Words flew from her mouth like screaming hawks:

"You gods are the most jealous bastards in the universe—
Persecuting any goddess who ever openly takes
A mortal lover to her bed and sleeps with him.
When Dawn caressed Orion with her rosy fingers,
You celestial layabouts gave her nothing but trouble
Until Artemis finally shot him on Ortygia—
Gold-throned, holy, gentle-shafted assault goddess!
When Demeter followed her heart and unbound
Her hair for Iasion and made love to him
In a late-summer field, Zeus was there taking notes
And executed the man with a cobalt lightning blast.
And now you gods are after me for having a man.
Well, I was the one who saved his life, unprying him

From the spar he came floating here on, sole survivor
Of the wreck Zeus made of his streamlined ship,
Shivering it with lightning on the wine-dark sea.
I loved him, I took care of him, I even told him
I'd make him immortal and ageless all of his days.
But you said it, Hermes: Zeus has the aegis
And none of us gods can oppose his will.
So all right, he can go, if it's an order from above,
Off on the sterile sea. How I don't know.
I don't have any oared ships or crewmen
To row him across the sea's broad back.
But I'll help him. I'll do everything I can
To get him back safely to his own native land."

The quicksilver messenger had one last thing to say:

"Well send him off now and watch out for Zeus' temper.
Cross him and he'll really be rough on you later."

With that the tough quicksilver god made his exit.

Calypso composed herself and went to Odysseus,
Zeus' message still ringing in her ears.
She found him sitting where the breakers rolled in.
His eyes were perpetually wet with tears now,
His life draining away in homesickness.
The nymph had long since ceased to please.
He still slept with her at night in her cavern,
An unwilling lover mated to her eager embrace.
Days he spent sitting on the rocks by the breakers,
Staring out to sea with hollow, salt-rimmed eyes.
She stood close to him and started to speak:

"You poor man. You can stop grieving now
And pining away. I'm sending you home.
Look, here's a bronze axe. Cut some long timbers
And make yourself a raft fitted with topdecks,
Something that will get you across the sea's misty spaces.
I'll stock it with fresh water, food and red wine—
Hearty provisions that will stave off hunger—and

I'll clothe you well and send you a following wind
To bring you home safely to your own native land,
If such is the will of the gods of high heaven,
Whose minds and powers are stronger than mine."

Odysseus' eyes shone with weariness. He stiffened,
And shot back at her words fletched like arrows:

"I don't know what kind of send-off you have in mind,
Goddess, telling me to cross all that open sea on a raft,
Painful, hard sailing. Some well-rigged vessels
Never make it across with a stiff wind from Zeus.
You're not going to catch me setting foot on any raft
Unless you agree to swear a solemn oath
That you're not planning some new trouble for me."

Calypso's smile was like a shower of light.
She touched him gently, and teased him a little:

"Blasphemous, that's what you are—but nobody's fool!
How do you manage to say things like that?
All right. I swear by Earth and Heaven above
And the subterranean water of Styx—the greatest
Oath and the most awesome a god can swear—
That I'm not planning more trouble for you, Odysseus.
I'll put my mind to work for you as hard as I would
For myself, if ever I were in such a fix.
My heart is in the right place, Odysseus,
Nor is it a cold lump of iron in my breast."

With that the haloed goddess walked briskly away
And the man followed in the deity's footsteps.
The two forms, human and divine, came to the cave
And he sat down in the chair which moments before
Hermes had vacated, and the nymph set out for him
Food and drink such as mortal men eat.
She took a seat opposite godlike Odysseus
And her maids served her ambrosia and nectar.
They helped themselves to as much as they wanted,
And when they had their fill of food and drink

Calypso spoke, an immortal radiance upon her:

"Son of Laertes in the line of Zeus, my wily Odysseus,
Do you really want to go home to your beloved country
Right away? Now? Well, you still have my blessings.
But if you had any idea of all the pain
You're destined to suffer before getting home,
You'd stay here with me, deathless—
Think of it, Odysseus!—no matter how much
You missed your wife and wanted to see her again.
You spend all your daylight hours yearning for her.
I don't mind saying she's not my equal
In beauty, no matter how you measure it.
Mortal beauty cannot compare with immortal."

Odysseus, always thinking, answered her this way:

"Goddess and mistress, don't be angry with me.
I know very well that Penelope,
For all her virtues, would pale beside you.
She's only human, and you are a goddess,
Eternally young. Still, I want to go back.
My heart aches for the day I return to my home.
If some god hits me hard as I sail the deep purple,
I'll weather it like the sea-bitten veteran I am.
God knows I've suffered and had my share of sorrows
In war and at sea. I can take more if I have to."

The sun set on his words, and the shadows darkened.
They went to a room deep in the cave, where they made
Sweet love and lay side by side through the night.

Dawn came early, touching the sky with rose.

Odysseus put on a shirt and cloak,
And the nymph slipped on a long silver robe
Shimmering in the light, cinched it at the waist
With a golden belt and put a veil on her head.
What to do about sending Odysseus off?
She handed him an axe, bronze, both edges honed.

The olive-wood haft felt good in his palms.
She gave him a sharp adze, too, then led the way
To the island's far side where the trees grew tall,
Alder and poplar and silver fir, sky-topping trees
Long-seasoned and dry that would keep him afloat.
Calypso showed him where the trees grew tall
Then went back home, a glimmer in the woods,
While Odysseus cut timber.
Working fast,
He felled twenty trees, cut them to length,
Smoothed them skillfully and trued them to the line.
The glimmer returned—Calypso with an auger—
And he drilled the beams through, fit them up close
And hammered them together with joiners and pegs.
About the size of a deck a master shipwright
Chisels into shape for a broad-bowed freighter
Was the size Odysseus made his wide raft.
He fit upright ribs close-set in the decking
And finished them with long facing planks.
He built a mast and fit in a yardarm,
And he made a rudder to steer her by.
Then he wove a wicker-work barrier
To keep off the waves, plaiting it thick.
Calypso brought him a large piece of cloth
To make into a sail, and he fashioned that, too.
He rigged up braces and halyards and lines,
Then levered his craft down to the glittering sea.

Day four, and the job was finished.
Day five, and Calypso saw him off her island,
After she had bathed him and dressed him
In fragrant clothes. She filled up a skin
With wine that ran black, another large one
With water, and tucked into a duffel
A generous supply of hearty provisions.
And she put a breeze at his back, gentle and warm.

Odysseus' heart sang as he spread sail to the wind,
And he steered with the rudder, a master mariner

Aboard his craft. Sleep never fell on his eyelids
As he watched the Pleiades and slow-setting Boötes
And the Bear (also known as the Wagon)
That pivots in place and chases Orion
And alone is aloof from the wash of Ocean.
Calypso, the glimmering goddess, had told him
To sail with the stars of the Bear on his left.
Seventeen days he sailed the deep water,
And on the eighteenth day the shadowy mountains
Of the Phaeacians' land loomed on the horizon,
To his eyes like a shield on the misty sea.

[Lines 282–502 are omitted. Coming back from Ethiopia, Poseidon is enraged to find Odysseus sailing on the sea. He raises a big storm that destroys the raft and throws the man overboard. After much struggle in the open sea, Odysseus reaches dry land with the help of the goddesses Ino and Athena.]

[Books 6 to 15 are omitted. Odysseus is discovered by Nausicaa, daughter of King Alcinous, who rules the land where Odysseus finds himself. With the help of Nausicaa, Odysseus wins the king's favour and the offer of a safe passage home. Odysseus entertains the king by recounting his adventures in the last ten years. Impressed by Odysseus's storytelling, Alcinous honours his promise and has his men escort Odysseus to Ithaca. Athena appears before Odysseus, now back in his homeland, and makes him look like an old beggar. In the new disguise, Odysseus visits his swineherd to find out about the situation at home. Meanwhile, Athena goes to Sparta and instructs Telemachus to go home by a route safe from the suitors' ambush. She also tells him to go to the swineherd instead of going home in the city.]

ODYSSEY 16

Meanwhile, in the hut, Odysseus
And the noble swineherd had kindled a fire

And were making breakfast in the early light.
They had already sent the herdsmen out
With the droves of swine.
The dogs fawned
Around Telemachus and did not bark at him
As he approached. Odysseus noticed
The dogs fawning and heard footsteps.
His words flew fast to Eumaeus:

"Eumaeus, one of your men must be coming,
Or at least someone you know. The dogs aren't barking
And are fawning around him. I can hear his footsteps."

His words weren't out when his own son
Stood in the doorway. Up jumped the swineherd
In amazement, and from his hands fell the vessels
He was using to mix the wine. He went
To greet his master, kissing his head
And his shining eyes and both his hands.

And as a loving father embraces his own son
Come back from a distant land after ten long years,
His only son, greatly beloved and much sorrowed for—

So did the noble swineherd clasp Telemachus
And kiss him all over—he had escaped from death—
And sobbing he spoke to him these winged words:

"You have come, Telemachus, sweet light!
I thought I would never see you again
After you left in your ship for Pylos. But come in,
Dear child, let me feast my eyes on you
Here in my house, come back from abroad!
You don't visit the farm often, or us herdsmen,
But stay in town. It must do your heart good
To look at that weeviling crowd of suitors."

And Telemachus, in his clear-headed way:

"Have it your way, Papa. But it's for your sake I've come,
To see you with my own eyes, and to hear from you
Whether my mother is still in our house,
Or someone else has married her by now,
And Odysseus' bed, with no one to sleep in it,
Has become a nest of spider webs."

The swineherd answered him:

"Yes, she's in your house, waiting and waiting
With an enduring heart, poor soul,
Weeping away the lonely days and nights."

He spoke, and took the young man's spear.
Telemachus went in, and as he crossed
The stone threshold, Odysseus stood up
To offer him his seat, but Telemachus,
From across the room, checked him and said:

"Keep your seat, stranger. We'll find another one
Around the place. Eumaeus here can do that."

[Lines 51–164 are omitted. Odysseus, still speaking as a stranger, makes Telemachus talk about the suitors and his family. Telemachus sends the swineherd off to tell Penelope and nobody else that he is safe and back.]

The swineherd's departure
Was not unnoticed by Athena. She approached
The farmstead in the likeness of a woman,
Beautiful, tall, and accomplished in handiwork,
And stood in the doorway of Eumaeus' hut,
Showing herself to Odysseus. Telemachus
Did not see her before him or notice her presence,
For the gods are not visible to everyone.
But Odysseus saw her, and the dogs did, too,
And they did not bark, but slunk away whining
To the other side of the farmstead. The goddess
Lifted her brows, and Odysseus understood.

He went out of the hut, past the courtyard's great wall,
And stood before her. Athena said to him:

"Son of Laertes in the line of Zeus,
Tell your son now and do not keep him in the dark,
So that you two can plan the suitors' destruction
And then go into town. As for myself,
I will not be gone long. No, I am eager for battle."

With this, she touched him with her golden wand.
A fresh tunic and cloak replaced his rags,
And he was taller and younger, his skin tanned,
His jawline firm, and his beard glossy black.
Having worked her magic, the goddess left,
And Odysseus went back into the hut.
His son was astounded. Shaken and flustered,
He turned away his eyes for fear it was a god,
And words fell from his lips in nervous flurries:

"You look different, stranger, than you did before,
And your clothes are different, and your complexion.
You must be a god, one of the immortals
Who hold high heaven. Be gracious to us
So we can offer you acceptable sacrifice
And finely wrought gold. And spare us, please."

And godlike Odysseus, who had borne much:

"I am no god. Why liken me to the deathless ones?
No, I am your father, on whose account you have suffered
Many pains and endured the violence of men."

Saying this, he kissed his son, and let his tears
Fall to the ground. He had held them in until now.
But Telemachus could not believe
That this was his father, and he blurted out:

"You cannot be my father Odysseus.

You must be some spirit, enchanting me
Only to increase my grief and pain later.
No mortal man could figure out how to do this
All on his own. Only a god could so easily
Transform someone from old to young.
A while ago you were old and shabbily dressed,
And now you are like the gods who hold high heaven."

And Odysseus, from his mind's teeming depths:

"Telemachus, it does not become you to be so amazed
That your father is here in this house. You can be sure
That no other Odysseus will ever come.
But I am here, just as you see, home at last
After twenty years of suffering and wandering.
So you will know, this is Athena's doing.
She can make me look like whatever she wants:
A beggar sometimes, and sometimes a young man
Wearing fine clothes. It's easy for the gods
To glorify a man or to make him look poor."

He spoke, and sat down. And Telemachus
Threw his arms around his wonderful father
And wept. And a longing arose in both of them
To weep and lament, and their shrill cries
Crowded the air

like the cries of birds—
Sea-eagles or taloned vultures—
Whose young chicks rough farmers have stolen
Out of their nests before they were fledged.

Their tears were that piteous. And the sun,
Its light fading, would have set on their weeping,
Had not Telemachus suddenly said to his father:

"What ship brought you here, Father,
And where did the crew say they were from?

I don't suppose you came here on foot."

And Odysseus, the godlike survivor:

"I'll tell you the truth about this, son.
The Phaeacians brought me, famed sailors
Who give passage to all who come their way.
They brought me over the sea as I slept
In their swift ship, and set me ashore on Ithaca
With donations of bronze and clothing and gold,
Splendid treasures that are now stored in caves
By grace of the gods. I have come here now
At Athena's suggestion. You and I must plan
How to kill our enemies. List them for me now
So I can know who they are, and how many,
And so I can weigh the odds and decide whether
You and I can go up against them alone
Or whether we have to enlist some allies."

Telemachus took a deep breath and said:

"Father, look now, I know your great reputation,
How you can handle a spear and what a strategist you are,
But this is too much for me. Two men
Simply cannot fight against such superior numbers
And superior force. There are not just ten suitors,
Or twice that, but many times more. Here's the count:
From Dulichium there are fifty-two—
The pick of their young men—and six attendants.
From Samê there are twenty-four,
From Zacynthus there are twenty,
And from Ithaca itself, twelve, all the noblest,
And with them are Medon the herald,
The divine bard, and two attendants who carve.
If we go up against all of them in the hall,
I fear your vengeance will be bitter indeed.
Please try to think of someone to help us,
Someone who would gladly be our ally."

And Odysseus, who had borne much:

"I'll tell you who will help. Do you think
That Athena and her father, Zeus,
Would be help enough? Or should I think of more?"

Telemachus answered in his clear-headed way:

"You're talking about two excellent allies,
Although they do sit a little high in the clouds
And have to rule the whole world and the gods as well."

And Odysseus, who had borne much:

"Those two won't hold back from battle for long.
They'll be here, all right, when the fighting starts
Between the suitors and us in my high-roofed halls.
For now, go at daybreak up to the house,
And keep company with these insolent hangers-on.
The swineherd will lead me to the city later
Looking like an old, broken-down beggar.
If they treat me badly in the house,
Just endure it. Even if they drag me
Through the door by my feet, or throw things at me,
Just bear it patiently. Try to dissuade them,
Try to talk them out of their folly, sure,
But they won't listen to you at all,
Because their day of reckoning is near.
And here's something else for you to keep in mind:
When Athena in her wisdom prompts me,
I'll give you a signal. When you see me nod,
Take all the weapons that are in the hall
Into the lofted storeroom and stow them there.
When the suitors miss them and ask you
Where they are, set their minds at ease, saying:
'Oh, I have stored them out of the smoke.
They're nothing like they were when Odysseus
Went off to Troy, but are all grimed with soot.
Also, a god put this thought into my head,
That when you men are drinking, you might
Start quarreling and someone could get hurt,
Which would ruin your feasting and courting.

Steel has a way of drawing a man to it.'
But leave behind a couple of swords for us,
And two spears and oxhide shields—leave them
Where we can get to them in a hurry.
Pallas Athena and Zeus in his cunning
Will keep the suitors in a daze for a while.
And one more thing before you go.
If you are really my son and have my blood
In your veins, don't let anyone know
That Odysseus is at home—not Laertes,
Not the swineherd, not anyone in the house,
Not even Penelope. You and I by ourselves
Will figure out which way the women are leaning.
We'll test more than one of the servants, too,
And see who respects us and fears us,
And who cares nothing about either one of us
And fails to honor you. You're a man now."

And Odysseus' resplendent son answered:

"You'll soon see what I'm made of, Father,
And I don't think you'll find me lacking.
But I'm not sure your plan will work
To our advantage. Think about it.
It'll take forever for you to make the rounds
Testing each man, while back in the house
The high-handed suitors are having a good time
Eating their way through everything we own.
I agree you should find out which of the women
Dishonor you, and which are innocent.
But as for testing the men in the fields,
Let's do that afterward, if indeed you know
Something from Zeus, who holds the aegis."

[Lines 340–517 are omitted. The ship that Telemachus has sailed in reaches the Ithacan port. A herald announces Telemachus's return, unaware of his wish to keep it a secret. The suitors scheme on the next move suggesting to kill Telemachus. On the other hand, the swineherd tells Penelope of the suitors' earlier ambush plot. She confronts Antinous about it.]

BOOK 19

[Books 17 and 18 are omitted. Telemachus goes home to Penelope, relating to her what he hears in Pylos and Sparta, including Odysseus's detention in Calypso's island. Odysseus arrives later with the swineherd as an old beggar. He begs among the suitors to test them out for decency. He is insulted by another beggar, his own servants as well as the suitors Antinous and Eurymachus. Penelope shows herself to the suitors and creates a big stir, and more nasty words are directed at Odysseus.]

ODYSSEY 19

So Odysseus was left alone in the hall,
Planning death for the suitors with Athena's aid.
He spoke winged words to Telemachus:

"Telemachus, get all the weapons out of the hall.
When the suitors miss them and ask you
Where they are, set their minds at ease, saying:
'Oh, I have stored them out of the smoke.
They're nothing like they were when Odysseus
Went off to Troy, but are all grimed with soot.
Also, a god put this thought into my head,
That when you men are drinking, you might
Start quarreling and someone could get hurt,
Which would ruin your feasting and courting.
Steel has a way of drawing a man to it.'"

Thus Odysseus. Telemachus nodded,
And calling Eurycleia he said to her:

"Nurse, shut the women inside their rooms
While I put my father's weapons away,
The beautiful weapons left out in the hall
And dulled by the smoke since he went off to war.

I was just a child then. But now I want
To store them away, safe from the smoke."

And Eurycleia, his old nurse, said:

"Yes, child, you are right
To care for the house and guard its wealth.
But who will fetch a light and carry it for you,
Since you won't let any of the women do it?"

Telemachus coolly answered her:

"This stranger here. I won't let anyone
Who gets rations be idle, even a traveler
From a distant land."

Telemachus' words sank in,
And the nurse locked the doors of the great hall.
Odysseus and his illustrious son sprang up
And began storing away the helmets, bossed shields,
And honed spears. And before them Pallas Athena,
Bearing a golden lamp, made a beautiful light.
Telemachus suddenly blurted out to his father:

"Father, this is a miracle I'm seeing!
The walls of the house, the lovely panels,
The beams of fir, and the high columns
Are glowing like fire. Some god is inside,
One of the gods from the open sky."

Odysseus, his mind teeming, replied:

"Hush. Don't be too curious about this.
This is the way of the gods who hold high heaven.
Go get some rest. I'll remain behind here
And draw out the maids—and your mother,
Who in her grief will ask many questions."

And Telemachus went out through the hall

By the light of blazing torches. He came
To his room, lay down, and waited for dawn.
Odysseus again was alone in the hall,
Planning death for the suitors with Athena's aid.

Penelope, wary and thoughtful,
Now came from her bedroom, and she was like
Artemis or golden Aphrodite.
They set a chair for her by the fire
Where she always sat, a chair inlaid
With spiraling ivory and silver
Which the craftsman Icmalius had made long ago.
It had a footstool attached, covered now
With a thick fleece.
Penelope sat down,
Taking everything in. White-armed maids
Came out from the women's quarters
And started to take away all of the food,
Clearing the tables and picking up the cups
From which the men had been drinking.
They emptied the braziers, scattering the embers
Onto the floor, and then stocked them up
With loads of fresh wood for warmth and light.

Then Melantho started in on Odysseus again:

"Are we going to have to put up with you all night,
Roaming through the house and spying on the women?
Go on outside and be glad you had supper,
Or you'll soon stagger out struck with a torch."

And Odysseus answered from his teeming mind:

"What's wrong with you, woman? Are you mean to me
Because I'm dirty and dressed in rags
And beg through the land? I do it because I have to.
That's how it is with beggars and vagabonds.
You know, I too once lived in a house in a city,
A rich man in a wealthy house, and I often gave

Gifts to wanderers, whatever they needed.
I had servants, too, countless servants,
And plenty of everything else a man needs
To live the good life and be considered wealthy.
But Zeus crushed me. Who knows why?
So be careful, woman. Someday you may lose
That glowing beauty that makes you stand out now.
Or your mistress may become fed up with you.
Or Odysseus may come. We can still hope for that.
But even if, as seems likely, he is dead
And will never return, his son, Telemachus,
Is now very much like him, by Apollo's grace,
And if any of the women are behaving loosely
It won't get by him. He's no longer a child."

None of this was lost on Penelope,
And she scolded the maidservant, saying:

"Your outrageous conduct does not escape me,
Shameless whore that you are, and it will be
On your own head. You knew very well,
For you heard me say it, that I intended
To question the stranger here in my halls
About my husband; for I am sick with worry."

Then to Eurynome, the housekeeper, she said:

"Bring a chair here with a fleece upon it
So that the stranger can sit down and tell his tale
And listen to me. I have many questions for him."

So Eurynome brought up a polished chair
And threw a fleece over it, and upon it sat
Odysseus, patient and godlike.
Penelope, watchful, began with a question:

"First, stranger, let me ask you this:
Who are you and where are you from?"

Odysseus, his mind teeming, answered her:

"Lady, no one on earth could find fault with you,
For your fame reaches the heavens above,
Just like the fame of a blameless king,
A godfearing man who rules over thousands
Of valiant men, upholding justice.
His rich, black land bears barley and wheat,
The trees are laden with fruit, the flocks
Are always with young, and the sea teems with fish—
Because he rules well, and so his people prosper.
Ask me, therefore, about anything else,
But not about my birth or my native land.
That would fill my heart with painful memories.
I have many sorrows, and it wouldn't be right
To sit here weeping in another's house,
Nor is it good to be constantly grieving.
I don't want one of your maids, or you yourself,
To be upset with me and say I am awash with tears
Because the wine has gone to my head."

And Penelope, watching, answered him:

"Stranger, the gods destroyed my beauty
On the day when the Argives sailed for Ilion
And with them went my husband, Odysseus.
If he were to come back and be part of my life,
My fame would be greater and more resplendent so.
But now I ache, so many sorrows
Has some spirit showered upon me.
All of the nobles who rule the islands—
Dulichium, Samê, wooded Zacynthus—
And all those with power on rocky Ithaca
Are courting me and ruining this house.
So I pay no attention to strangers
Or to suppliants or public heralds. No,
I just waste away with longing for Odysseus.
My suitors press on, and I weave my wiles.

First some god breathed into me the thought
Of setting up a great loom in the main hall,
And I started weaving a vast fabric
With a very fine thread, and I said to them:

'Young men—my suitors, since Odysseus is dead—
Eager as you are to marry me, you must wait
Until I finish this robe—it would be a shame
To waste my spinning—a shroud for the hero
Laertes, when death's doom lays him low.
I fear the Achaean women would reproach me
If he should lie in death shroudless for all his wealth.'
"So I spoke, and their proud hearts consented.
Every day I would weave at the great loom,
And every night unweave the web by torchlight.
I fooled them for three years with my craft.
But in the fourth year, as the seasons rolled by,
And the moons waned, and the days dragged on,
My shameless and headstrong serving women
Betrayed me. The men barged in and caught me at it,
And a howl went up. So I was forced to finish the shroud.
Now I can't escape the marriage. I'm at my wit's end.
My parents are pressing me to marry,
And my son agonizes over the fact
That these men are devouring his inheritance.
He is a man now, and able to preside
Over a household to which Zeus grants honor.
But tell me of your birth, for you are not sprung,
As the saying goes, from stock or stone."

[Lines 178–223 are omitted. Odysseus makes up a story about his identity, saying he comes from the island of Crete, where he once received Odysseus as a guest, when Odysseus was blown off course on his way to Troy. It is all lies, but Odysseus tells them as if they were true.]

So her lovely cheeks coursed with tears as she wept
For her husband, who was sitting before her.
Odysseus pitied her tears in his heart,
But his eyes were as steady between their lids

As if they were made of horn or iron
As he concealed his own tears through guile.
When Penelope had cried herself out,
She spoke to him again, saying:

"Now I feel I must test you, stranger,
To see if you really did entertain my husband
And his godlike companions, as you say you did.
Tell me what sort of clothes he wore, and tell me
What he was like, and what his men were like."

And Odysseus, from his mind's teeming depths:

"Lady, it is difficult for me to speak
After we've been apart for so long. It has been
Twenty years since he left my country.
But I have an image of him in my mind.
Odysseus wore a fleecy purple cloak,
Folded over, and it had a brooch
With a double clasp, fashioned of gold,
And on the front was an intricate design:
A hound holding in his forepaws a dappled fawn
That writhed to get free. Everyone marveled
At how, though it was all made of gold,
The hound had his eye fixed on the fawn
As he was strangling it, and the fawn
Twisted and struggled to get to its feet.
And I remember the tunic he wore,
Glistening like onionskin, soft and shiny
And with a sheen like sunlight. There were
Quite a few women who admired it.
But remember, now, I do not know
Whether Odysseus wore this at home,
Or whether one of his men gave it to him
When he boarded ship, or someone else,
For Odysseus was a man with many friends.
He had few equals among the Achaeans.
I, too, gave him gifts—a bronze sword,
A beautiful purple cloak, and a fringed tunic,

And I gave him a ceremonious send-off
In his benched ship. And one more thing:
He had a herald, a little older than he was,
And I will tell you what he looked like.
He was slope-shouldered, with dark skin
And curly hair. His name was Eurybates,
And Odysseus held him in higher esteem
Than his other men, because they thought alike."

These words stirred up Penelope's grief.
She recognized the unmistakeable tokens
Odysseus was giving her. She wept again,
And then composed herself and said to him:

"You may have been pitied before, stranger,
But now you will be loved and honored
Here in my halls. I gave him those clothes.
I folded them, brought them from the storeroom,
And pinned on the gleaming brooch,
To delight him. But I will never welcome him
Home again, and so the fates were dark
When Odysseus left in his hollow ship
For Ilion, that curse of a city."

And Odysseus, from his mind's teeming depths:

"Revered wife of Laertes' son, Odysseus,
Do not mar your fair skin with tears any more,
Or melt your heart with weeping for your husband.
Not that I blame you. Any woman weeps
When she has lost her husband, a man with whom
She has made love and whose children she has borne—
And the husband you've lost is Odysseus,
Who they say is like the immortal gods.
Stop weeping, though, and listen to my words,
For what I am about to tell you is true.
I have lately heard of Odysseus' return,
That he is near, in the rich land of Thesprotia,
Still alive. And he is bringing home treasures,

Seeking gifts, and getting them, throughout the land.
But he lost his trusty crew and his hollow ship
On the wine-dark sea. As he was sailing out
From the island of Thrinacia, Zeus and Helios
Hit him hard because his companions had killed
The cattle of the Sun. His men went under,
But he rode his ship's keel until the waves
Washed him ashore in the land of the Phaeacians,
Whose race is closely akin to the gods'.
They treated him as if he were a god,
Gave him many gifts, and were more than willing
To escort him home. And he would have been here
By now, but he thought it more profitable
To gather wealth by roaming the land.
No one is as good as Odysseus
At finding ways to gain an advantage.
I had all this from Pheidon, the Thesprotian king.
And he swore to me, as he poured libations
There in his house, that a ship was already launched,
And a crew standing by, to take him home.
He sent me off first, since a Thesprotian ship
Happened to be leaving for Dulichium,
But before I left, Pheidon showed me
All the treasure Odysseus had amassed,
Bronze, gold, and wrought iron, enough to feed
His children's children for ten generations,
All stored there for him in the halls of the king.
Odysseus, he said, had gone to Dodona
To consult the oak-tree oracle of Zeus
And ask how he should return to Ithaca—
Openly or in secret—after being gone so long.
So he is safe, and will come soon.
He is very near, and will not be away long
From his dear ones and his native land.
I will swear to this. Now Zeus on high
Be my witness, and this hospitable table,
And the hearth of flawless Odysseus himself—
That everything will happen just as I say:
Before this month is out Odysseus will come,

In the dark of the moon, before the new crescent."

And Penelope, watching him carefully:

"Ah, stranger, may your words come true.
Then you would know my kindness, and my gifts
Would make you blessed in all men's eyes.
But I know in my heart that Odysseus
Will never come home, and that you will never
Find passage elsewhere, since there is not now
Any master in the house like Odysseus—
If he ever existed—to send honored guests
Safely on their way, or to welcome them.
But still, wash our guest's feet, maidens,
And prepare a bed for him. Set up a frame
And cover it with cloaks and lustrous blankets
To keep him cozy and warm. When golden Dawn
Shows her first light, bathe him and anoint him,
So he can sit side by side with Telemachus
And share in the feast here in the hall.
And anyone who causes this man any pain
Will regret it sorely and will accomplish nothing
Here in this house, however angry he gets.
For how would you ever find out, stranger,
Whether or not I surpass all other women
In presence of mind, if you sit down to dinner
Squalid and disheveled here in my hall?
Our lives are short. A hard-hearted man
Is cursed while he lives and reviled in death.
But a good-hearted man has his fame spread
Far and wide by the guests he has honored,
And men speak well of him all over the earth."

And Odysseus, his mind teeming, answered her:

"Revered wife of Odysseus, Laertes' son,
I lost all interest in cloaks and blankets
On the day I left the snowy mountains of Crete
In my long-oared ship. I will lie down tonight,

As I have through many a sleepless night,
On a poor bed, waiting for golden-throned Dawn.
Nor do I have any taste for foot-baths,
And none of the serving women here in your hall
Will touch my feet, unless there is some old,
Trustworthy woman who has suffered as I have.
I would not mind if she touched my feet."

And Penelope, watching him carefully:

"Of all the travelers who have come to my house,
None, dear guest, have been as thoughtful as you
And none as welcome, so wise are your words.
I do have an old and trustworthy woman here,
Who nursed and raised my ill-starred husband,
Taking him in her arms the day he was born.
She will wash your feet, frail as she is.
Eurycleia, rise and wash your master's—that is,
Wash the feet of this man who is your master's age.
Odysseus' feet and hands are no doubt like his now,
For men age quickly when life is hard."

At this, the old woman hid her face in her hands.
Shedding warm tears, she spoke through her sobs:

"My lost child, I can do nothing for you.
Zeus must have hated you above all other men,
Although you were always godfearing. No one
Burned more offerings to the Lord of Lightning,
So many fat thighbones, bulls by the hundreds,
With prayers that you reach a sleek old age
And raise your glorious son. And now the god has
Deprived you alone of your day of return.
And I suppose, stranger, women mocked him, too,
When he came to some man's gloried house
In a distant land, just as these cheeky bitches
All mock you here. It is to avoid their insults
That you will not allow them to wash your feet.
But Penelope, Icarius' wise daughter,

Has asked me to do it, and I will,
For her sake and for yours,
For my heart is throbbing with sorrow.
But listen now to what I have to say.
Many road-weary strangers have come here,
But I have never seen such a resemblance
As that between you and Odysseus,
In looks, voice—even the shape of your feet."

And Odysseus, from his mind's teeming depths:

"Oh, everyone who has seen us both says that,
Old woman, that we are very much alike,
Just as you yourself have noticed."

And the old woman took the shining basin
She used for washing feet, poured
Cold water into it, and then added the hot.

[Lines 423–551 are omitted. Eurycleia is washing Odysseus's feet when she notices an old scar on his thigh, which betrays his identity. Odysseus got it as a boy when he was hunting a boar with his grandfather. The old nurse wants to tell Penelope of her discovery, but Odysseus stops her from doing so while Athena diverts Penelope's mind.]

When she had washed him and rubbed on oil,
Odysseus pulled his chair close to the fire again
To keep warm, and hid the scar with his rags.

Penelope now resumed their talk:

"There's one more thing I want to ask you about,
And then it will be time to get some sleep—
At least for those to whom sweet sleep comes
Despite their cares. But some god has given me
Immeasurable sorrow. By day
I console myself with lamentation
And see to my work and that of my women.
But at night, when sleep takes hold of others,

I lie in bed, smothered by my own anxiety,
Mourning restlessly, my heart racing.
Just as the daughter of Pandareus,
The pale nightingale, sings sweetly
In the greening of spring, perched in the leaves,
And trills out her song of lament for her son,
Her beloved Itylus, whom she killed unwittingly,
Itylus, the son of Zethus her lord—
So too my heart is torn with dismay.
Should I stay here with my son
And keep everything safe and just as it is,
My goods, my slaves, my high-gabled house,
Honoring my husband's bed and public opinion—
Or should I go with whoever is best
Of all my suitors, and gives me gifts past counting?
And then there's my son. While he was young
And not yet mature, he kept me from leaving
My husband's house and marrying another.
But now that he's grown and come into manhood,
He begs me to leave, worried because
These Achaean men are devouring his goods.
But listen now to a dream I had
And tell me what it means. In my dream
I have twenty geese at home. I love to watch them
Come out of the water and eat grains of wheat.
But a huge eagle with a hooked beak comes
Down from the mountain and breaks their necks,
Killing them all. They lie strewn through the hall.
While he rides the wind up to the bright sky.
I weep and wail, still in my dream,
And Achaean ladies gather around me
As I grieve because the eagle killed my geese.
Then the eagle comes back and perches upon
A jutting roofbeam and speaks to me
In a human voice, telling me not to cry:

'Take heart, daughter of famed Icarius.
This is no dream, but a true vision
That you can trust. The geese are the suitors,

And I, who was once an eagle, am now
Your husband come back, and I will deal out doom,
A grisly death for all of the suitors.'

"So he spoke, and I woke up refreshed.
Looking around I saw the geese in the house,
Feeding on wheat by the trough, as before."

And Odysseus, his mind teeming:

"Lady, there is no way to give this dream
Another slant. Odysseus himself has shown you
How he will finish this business. The suitors' doom
Is clear. Not one will escape death's black birds."

And Penelope, in her circumspect way:

"Stranger, you should know that dreams
Are hard to interpret, and don't always come true.
There are two gates for dreams to drift through,
One made of horn and the other of ivory.
Dreams that pass through the gate of ivory
Are deceptive dreams and will not come true,
But when someone has a dream that has passed
Through the gate of polished horn, that dream
Will come true. My strange dream, though,
Did not come from there. If it had,
It would have been welcome to me and my child.
One more thing, and, please, take it to heart.
Dawn is coming, the accursed dawn of the day
Which will sever me from the house of Odysseus.
I will announce a contest. Odysseus
Used to line up axes inside his hall,
Twelve of them, like the curved chocks
That prop up a ship when it is being built,
And he would stand far off and send an arrow
Whizzing through them all. I will propose
This contest to my suitors, and whoever
Can bend that bow and slip the string on its notch

And shoot an arrow through all twelve axes,
With him will I go, leaving behind this house
I was married in, this beautiful, prosperous house,
Which I will remember always, even in my dreams."

And Odysseus, from the depths of his teeming mind:

"Revered wife of Laertes' son, Odysseus,
Do not put off this contest any longer,
For Odysseus will be here, with all his cunning,
Handling that polished bow, before these men
Could ever string it and shoot through the iron."

Then Penelope, still watching him:

"If you were willing, stranger, to sit here
Beside me in my halls and give me joy,
Sleep would never settle upon my eyes.
But we cannot always be sleepless,
For every thing there is a season, and a time
For all we do on the life-giving earth.
I will go now to my room upstairs
And lie on my bed, which has become
A sorrowful bed, wet with my tears
Since the day Odysseus left
For Ilion, that accursed city.
I will lie there, but you can lie here
In the hall. Spread some blankets on the floor,
Or have the maids make up a bed for you."

Saying this, Penelope went upstairs
To her softly lit room, not alone,
For her women went up with her.
Once in her room she wept for Odysseus,
Her beloved husband, wept until Athena
Let sweet sleep settle upon her eyelids.

[Book 20 is omitted. Odysseus spends a night in his palace and wakes up to suffer more humiliations from the goatherd and the suitors, one of whom

hurling an ox's hoof at him. But Odysseus also finds comfort in the kindness of the swineherd and the cowherd.]

ODYSSEY 21

Owl-eyed Athena now prompted Penelope
To set before the suitors Odysseus' bow
And the grey iron, implements of the contest
And of their death.

[Lines 5–39 are omitted. Penelope goes to her bedroom to fetch the key for the store room, where lies Odysseus's curved bow. It is a much treasured gift from a deceased friend of Odysseus. Odysseus has kept it at home as a memento of his friend.]

Penelope came to the storeroom
And stepped onto the oak threshold
Which a carpenter in the old days had planed,
Leveled, and then fitted with doorposts
And polished doors. Lovely in the half-light,
She quickly loosened the thong from the hook,
Drove home the key and shot back the bolts.
The doors bellowed like a bull in a meadow
And flew open before her. Stepping through,
She climbed onto a high platform that held chests
Filled with fragrant clothes. She reached up
And took the bow, case and all, from its peg,
Then sat down and laid the gleaming case on her knees
Her eyes welling with tears. Then she opened the case
And took out her husband's bow. When she had her fill
Of weeping, she went back to the hall
And the lordly suitors, bearing in her hands
The curved bow and the quiver loaded

With whining arrows. Two maidservants
Walked beside her, carrying a wicker chest
Filled with the bronze and iron gear her husband
Once used for this contest. When the beautiful woman
Reached the crowded hall, she stood
In the doorway flanked by her maidservants.
Then, covering her face with her shining veil,
Penelope spoke to her suitors:

"Hear me, proud suitors. You have used this house
For an eternity now—to eat and drink
In its master's absence, nor could you offer
Any excuse except your lust to marry me.
Well, your prize is here, and this is the contest.
I set before you the great bow of godlike Odysseus.
Whoever bends this bow and slips the string on its notch
And shoots an arrow through all twelve axes,
With him will I go, leaving behind this house
I was married in, this beautiful, prosperous house,
Which I will remember always, even in my dreams."

Penelope said this, and then ordered Eumaeus
To set out for the suitors the bow and grey iron.
All in tears, Eumaeus took them and laid them down,
And the cowherd wept, too, when he saw
His master's bow. Antinous scoffed at them both:

"You stupid yokels! You can't see farther than your own noses.
What a pair! Disturbing the lady with your bawling.
She's sad enough already because she's lost her husband.
Either sit here in silence or go outside to weep,
And leave the bow behind for us suitors. This contest
Will separate the men from the boys. It won't be easy
To string that polished bow. There is no man here
Such as Odysseus was. I know. I saw him myself
And remember him well, though I was still a child."

So Antinous said, hoping in his heart
That he would string the bow first and shoot an arrow

Through the iron. But the only arrow
He would touch first would be the one shot
Into his throat from the hands of Odysseus,
The man he himself was dishonoring
While inciting his comrades to do the same.

And then Telemachus, with a sigh of disgust:

"Look at me! Zeus must have robbed me of my wits.
My dear mother declares, for all her good sense,
That she will marry another and abandon this house,
And all I do is laugh and think it is funny.
Well, come on, you suitors, here's your prize,
A woman the likes of whom does not exist
In all Achaea, or in sacred Pylos,
Nowhere in Argos or in Mycenae,
Or on Ithaca itself or on the dark mainland.
You all know this. Why should I praise my mother?
Let's get going. Don't start making excuses
To put off stringing the bow. We'll see what happens.
And I might give that bow a try myself.
If I string it and shoot an arrow through the axeheads,
It won't bother me so much that my honored mother
Is leaving this house and going off with another,
Because I would at least be left here as someone
Capable of matching his father's prowess."

With that he took off his scarlet cloak, stood up,
And unstrapped his sword from his shoulders.
Then he went to work setting up the axeheads,
First digging a long trench true to the line
To hold them in a row, and then tamping the earth
Around each one. Everyone was amazed
That he made such a neat job of it
When he had never seen it done before.
Then he went and took his stance on the threshold
And began to try the bow. Three times
He made it quiver as he strained to string it,
And three times he eased off, although in his heart
He yearned to draw that bow and shoot an arrow

Through the iron axeheads. And on his fourth try
He would have succeeded in muscling the string
Onto its notch, but Odysseus reined him in,
Signaling him to stop with an upward nod.
So Telemachus said for all to hear:

"I guess I'm going to be a weakling forever!
Or else I'm still too young and don't have the strength
To defend myself against an enemy.
But come on, all of you who are stronger than me—
Give the bow a try and let's settle this contest."

And he set the bow aside, propping it against
The polished, jointed door, and leaning the arrow
Against the beautiful latch. Then Telemachus
Sat down on the chair from which he had risen.

[Lines 144–327 are omitted. The suitors take turns to string the bow. All try and fail, except Antinous and Eurymachus, the two strongest among them. Odysseus secretly reveals himself to the faithful cowherd and swineherd. When Eurymachus, too, fails to string the bow, Antinous proposes to feast in honour of the Archer God and continue with the contest the next day. Still in disguise, Odysseus asks to try the bow and is humiliated by Antinous.]

It was Penelope who answered Antinous:

"It is not good, or just, Antinous,
To cheat any of Telemachus' guests
Who come to this house. Do you think
That if this stranger proves strong enough
To string Odysseus' bow, he will then
Lead me to his home and make me his wife?
I can't imagine that he harbors this hope.
So do not ruin your feast on that account.
The very idea is preposterous."

Eurymachus responded to this:

"Daughter of Icarius, wise Penelope,
Of course it's preposterous that this man

Would marry you. That's not what we're worried about.
But we are embarrassed at what men—and women—will say:
'A bunch of weaklings were wooing the wife
Of a man they couldn't touch—they couldn't even string
His polished bow. Then along came a vagrant
Who strung it easily and shot through the iron.'
That's what they'll say, to our lasting shame."

And Penelope, her eyes narrowing:

"Eurymachus, men who gobble up
The house of a prince cannot expect
To have a good reputation anywhere.
So there isn't any point in bringing up honor.
This stranger is a very well-built man
And says he is the son of a noble father.
So give him the bow and let us see what happens.
And here is my promise to all of you.
If Apollo gives this man the glory
And he strings the bow, I will clothe him
In a fine cloak and tunic, and give him
A javelin to ward off dogs and men,
And a double-edged sword, and sandals
For his feet, and I will give him passage
To wherever his heart desires."

This time it was Telemachus who answered:

"As for the bow, Mother, no man alive
Has a stronger claim than I do to give it
To whomever I want, or to deny it—
No, none of the lords on rocky Ithaca
Nor on the islands over toward Elis,
None of them could force his will upon me,
Not even if I wanted to give this bow
Outright, case and arrows and all,
As a gift to the stranger.
Go to your rooms,
Mother, and take care of your work,

Spinning and weaving, and have the maids do theirs.
This bow is men's business, and my business
Especially, since I am the master of this house."

Penelope was stunned and turned to go,
Her son's masterful words pressed to her heart.
She went up the stairs to her room with her women
And wept for Odysseus, her beloved husband,
Until grey-eyed Athena cast sleep on her eyelids.

Downstairs, the noble swineherd was carrying
The curved bow across the hall. The suitors
Were in an uproar, and one of them called out:

"Where do you think you're going with that bow,
You miserable swineherd? You're out of line.
Go back to your pigsties, where your own dogs
Will wolf you down—a nice, lonely death—
If Apollo and the other gods smile upon us."

Afraid, the swineherd stopped in his tracks
And set the bow down. Men were yelling at him
All through the hall, and now Telemachus weighed in:

"Keep going with the bow. You'll regret it
If you try to obey everyone. I may be
Younger than you, but I'll chase you back
Into the country with a shower of stones.
I am stronger than you. I wish I were as strong
When it came to the suitors. I'd throw more than one
Out of here in a sorry state. They're all up to no good."

This got the suitors laughing hilariously
At Telemachus. The tension in the room eased,
And the swineherd carried the bow
Across to Odysseus and put it in his hands.
Then he called Eurycleia aside and said:

"Telemachus says you should lock the doors to the hall,

And if the women hear the sound of men groaning
Or being struck, tell them not to rush out
But to sit still and do their work in silence."

Eumaeus' words sank in, and Eurycleia
Locked the doors to the crowded hall.

Meanwhile, Philoetius left without a word
And barred the gates to the fenced courtyard.
Beside the portico there lay a ship's hawser
Made of papyrus. Philoetius used this
To secure the gates, and then he went back in,
Sat down on the chair from which he had risen,
And kept his eyes on Odysseus.

He was handling the bow, turning it over and over
And testing its flex to make sure that worms
Had not eaten the horn in its master's absence.
The suitors glanced at each other
And started to make sarcastic remarks:

"Ha! A real connoisseur, an expert in bows!"

"He must have one just like it in a case at home."

"Or plans to make one just like it, to judge by the way
The masterful tramp keeps turning it in his hands."

"May he have as much success in life
As he'll have in trying to string that bow."

Thus the suitors, while Odysseus, deep in thought,
Was looking over his bow. And then, effortlessly,

Like a musician stretching a string
Over a new peg on his lyre, and making
The twisted sheep-gut fast at either end,

Odysseus strung the great bow. Lifting it up,

He plucked the string, and it sang beautifully
Under his touch, with a note like a swallow's.
The suitors were aghast. The color drained
From their faces, and Zeus thundered loud,
Showing his portents and cheering the heart
Of the long-enduring, godlike Odysseus.
One arrow lay bare on the table. The rest,
Which the suitors were about to taste,
Were still in the quiver. Odysseus picked up
The arrow from the table and laid it upon
The bridge of the bow, and, still in his chair,
Drew the bowstring and the notched arrow back.
He took aim and let fly, and the bronze-tipped arrow
Passed clean through the holes of all twelve axeheads
From first to last. And he said to Telemachus:

"Well, Telemachus, the guest in your hall
Has not disgraced you. I did not miss my target,
Nor did I take all day in stringing the bow.
I still have my strength, and I'm not as the suitors
Make me out to be in their taunts and jeers.
But now it is time to cook these men's supper,
While it is still light outside, and after that,
We'll need some entertainment—music and song—
The finishing touches for a perfect banquet."
He spoke, and lowered his brows. Telemachus,
The true son of godlike Odysseus, slung on
His sharp sword, seized his spear, and gleaming in bronze
Took his place by his father's side.

[Book 22 is omitted. Odysseus reveals his true identity and shoots an arrow through Antinous's throat. Eurymachus tries to persuade Odysseus to spare the rest of the suitors, but Odysseus insists that they pay in full for having courted his wife. With the blessing of Athena, Odysseus's team of four, including Telemachus, the swineherd and the cowherd, kill all the suitors, sparing only the bard and the herald. Eurycleia names the twelve women servants who have had an amorous relation with the suitors. With Odysseus's consent, Telemachus hangs all twelve to death.]

ODYSSEY 23

The old woman laughed as she went upstairs
To tell her mistress that her husband was home.
She ran up the steps, lifting her knees high,
And, bending over Penelope, she said:

"Wake up, dear child, so you can see for yourself
What you have yearned for day in and day out.
Odysseus has come home, after all this time,
And has killed those men who tried to marry you
And who ravaged your house and bullied your son."

And Penelope, alert now and wary:

"Dear nurse, the gods have driven you crazy.
The gods can make even the wise mad,
Just as they often make the foolish wise.
Now they have wrecked your usually sound mind.
Why do you mock me and my sorrowful heart,
Waking me from sleep to tell me this nonsense—
And such a sweet sleep. It sealed my eyelids.
I haven't slept like that since the day Odysseus
Left for Ilion—that accursed city.
Now go back down to the hall.
If any of the others had told me this
And wakened me from sleep, I would have
Sent her back with something to be sorry about!
You can thank your old age for this at least."

And Eurycleia, the loyal nurse:

"I am not mocking you, child. Odysseus
Really is here. He's come home, just as I say.
He's the stranger they all insulted in the great hall.
Telemachus has known all along, but had
The self-control to hide his father's plans
Until he could pay the arrogant bastards back."

Penelope felt a sudden pang of joy. She leapt
From her bed and flung her arms around the old woman,
And with tears in her eyes she said to her:

"Dear nurse, if it is true, if he really has
Come back to his house, tell me how
He laid his hands on the shameless suitors,
One man alone against all of that mob."

Eurycleia answered her:

"I didn't see and didn't ask. I only heard the groaning
Of men being killed. We women sat
In the far corner of our quarters, trembling,
With the good solid doors bolted shut
Until your son came from the hall to call me,
Telemachus. His father had sent him to call me.
And there he was, Odysseus, standing
In a sea of dead bodies, all piled
On top of each other on the hard-packed floor.
It would have warmed your heart to see him,
Spattered with blood and filth like a lion.
And now the bodies are all gathered together
At the gates, and he is purifying the house
With sulfur, and has built a great fire,
And has sent me to call you. Come with me now
So that both your hearts can be happy again.
You have suffered so much, but now
Your long desire has been fulfilled.
He has come himself, alive, to his own hearth,
And has found you and his son in the hall.
As for the suitors, who did him wrong,
He's taken his revenge on every last man."

And Penelope, ever cautious:

"Dear nurse, don't gloat over them yet.
You know how welcome the sight of him
Would be to us all, and especially to me
And the son he and I bore. But this story

Can't be true, not the way you tell it.
One of the immortals must have killed the suitors,
Angry at their arrogance and evil deeds.
They respected no man, good or bad,
So their blind folly has killed them. But Odysseus
Is lost, lost to us here, and gone forever."

And Eurycleia, the faithful nurse:

"Child, how can you say this? Your husband
Is here at his own fireside, and yet you are sure
He will never come home! Always on guard!
But here's something else, clear proof:
The scar he got from the tusk of that boar.
I noticed it when I was washing his feet
And wanted to tell you, but he shrewdly clamped
His hand on my mouth and wouldn't let me speak.
Just come with me, and I will stake my life on it.
If I am lying you can torture me to death."

Still wary, Penelope replied:

"Dear nurse, it is hard for you to comprehend
The ways of the eternal gods, wise as you are.
Still, let us go to my son, so that I may see
The suitors dead and the man who killed them."

And Penelope descended the stairs, her heart
In turmoil. Should she hold back and question
Her husband? Or should she go up to him,
Embrace him, and kiss his hands and head?
She entered the hall, crossing the stone threshold,
And sat opposite Odysseus, in the firelight
Beside the farther wall. He sat by a column,
Looking down, waiting to see if his incomparable wife
Would say anything to him when she saw him.
She sat a long time in silence, wondering.
She would look at his face and see her husband,
But then fail to know him in his dirty rags.
Telemachus couldn't take it any more:

"Mother, how can you be so hard,
Holding back like that? Why don't you sit
Next to father and talk to him, ask him things?
No other woman would have the heart
To stand off from her husband who has come back
After twenty hard years to his country and home.
But your heart is always colder than stone."

And Penelope, cautious as ever:

"My child, I am lost in wonder
And unable to speak or ask a question
Or look him in the eyes. If he really is
Odysseus come home, the two of us
Will be sure of each other, very sure.
There are secrets between us no one else knows."

Odysseus, who had borne much, smiled,
And his words flew to his son on wings:

"Telemachus, let your mother test me
In our hall. She will soon see more clearly.
Now, because I am dirty and wearing rags,
She is not ready to acknowledge who I am.
But you and I have to devise a plan.
When someone kills just one man,
Even a man who has few to avenge him,
He goes into exile, leaving country and kin.
Well, we have killed a city of young men,
The flower of Ithaca. Think about that."

And Telemachus, in his clear-headed way:
"You should think about it, Father. They say
No man alive can match you for cunning.
We'll follow you for all we are worth,
And I don't think we'll fail for lack of courage."

And Odysseus, the master strategist:

"Well, this is what I think we should do.

First, bathe yourselves and put on clean tunics
And tell the women to choose their clothes well.
Then have the singer pick up his lyre
And lead everyone in a lively dance tune,
Loud and clear. Anyone who hears the sound,
A passerby or neighbor, will think it's a wedding,
And so word of the suitors' killing won't spread
Down through the town before we can reach
Our woodland farm. Once there we'll see
What kind of luck the Olympian gives us."

They did as he said. The men bathed
And put on tunics, and the women dressed up.
The godlike singer, sweeping his hollow lyre,
Put a song in their hearts and made their feet move,
And the great hall resounded under the tread
Of men and silken-waisted women dancing.
And people outside would hear it and say:

"Well, someone has finally married the queen,
Fickle woman. Couldn't bear to keep the house
For her true husband until he came back."

But they had no idea how things actually stood.

Odysseus, meanwhile, was being bathed
By the housekeeper, Eurynome. She
Rubbed him with olive oil and threw about him
A beautiful cloak and tunic. And Athena
Shed beauty upon him, and made him look
Taller and more muscled, and made his hair
Tumble down his head like hyacinth flowers.

Imagine a craftsman overlaying silver
With pure gold. He has learned his art
From Pallas Athena and Lord Hephaestus,
And creates works of breathtaking beauty.

So Athena herself made his head and shoulders

Shimmer with grace. He came from the bath
Like a god, and sat down on the chair again
Opposite his wife, and spoke to her and said:

"You're a mysterious woman.
The gods
Have given to you, more than to any
Other woman, an unyielding heart.
No other woman would be able to endure
Standing off from her husband, come back
After twenty hard years to his country and home.
Nurse, make up a bed for me so I can lie down
Alone, since her heart is a cold lump of iron."

And Penelope, cautious and wary:

"You're a mysterious man.
I am not being proud
Or scornful, nor am I bewildered—not at all.
I know very well what you looked like
When you left Ithaca on your long-oared ship.
Nurse, bring the bed out from the master bedroom,
The bedstead he made himself, and spread it for him
With fleeces and blankets and silky coverlets."

She was testing her husband.
Odysseus
Could bear no more, and he cried out to his wife:

"By God, woman, now you've cut deep.
Who moved my bed? It would be hard
For anyone, no matter how skilled, to move it.
A god could come down and move it easily,
But not a man alive, however young and strong,
Could ever pry it up. There's something telling
About how that bed's built, and no one else
Built it but me.
There was an olive tree
Growing on the site, long-leaved and full,

Its trunk thick as a post. I built my bedroom
Around that tree, and when I had finished
The masonry walls and done the roofing
And set in the jointed, close-fitting doors,
I lopped off all of the olive's branches,
Trimmed the trunk from the root on up,
And rounded it and trued it with an adze until
I had myself a bedpost. I bored it with an auger,
And starting from this I framed up the whole bed,
Inlaying it with gold and silver and ivory
And stretching across it oxhide thongs dyed purple.
So there's our secret. But I do not know, woman,
Whether my bed is still firmly in place, or if
Some other man has cut through the olive's trunk."

At this, Penelope finally let go.
Odysseus had shown he knew their old secret.
In tears, she ran straight to him, threw her arms
Around him, kissed his face, and said:

"Don't be angry with me, Odysseus. You,
Of all men, know how the world goes.
It is the gods who gave us sorrow, the gods
Who begrudged us a life together, enjoying
Our youth and arriving side by side
To the threshold of old age. Don't hold it against me
That when I first saw you I didn't welcome you
As I do now. My heart has been cold with fear
That an imposter would come and deceive me.
There are many who scheme for ill-gotten gains.
Not even Helen, daughter of Zeus,
Would have slept with a foreigner had she known
The Greeks would go to war to bring her back home.
It was a god who drove her to that dreadful act,
Or she never would have thought of doing what she did,
The horror that brought suffering to us as well.
But now, since you have confirmed the secret
Of our marriage bed, which no one has ever seen—
Only you and I and a single servant, Actor's daughter,

Whom my father gave me before I ever came here
And who kept the doors of our bridal chamber—
You have persuaded even my stubborn heart."

This brought tears from deep within him,
And as he wept he clung to his beloved wife.

Land is a welcome sight to men swimming
For their lives, after Poseidon has smashed their ship
In heavy seas. Only a few of them escape
And make it to shore. They come out
Of the grey water crusted with brine, glad
To be alive and set foot on dry land.

So welcome a sight was her husband to her.
She would not loosen her white arms from his neck,
And rose-fingered Dawn would have risen
On their weeping, had not Athena stepped in
And held back the long night at the end of its course
And stopped gold-stitched Dawn at Ocean's shores
From yoking the horses that bring light to men,
Lampus and Phaethon, the colts of Dawn.

Then Odysseus said to his wife:

"We have not yet come to the end of our trials.
There is still a long, hard task for me to complete,
As the spirit of Tiresias foretold to me
On the day I went down to the house of Hades
To ask him about my companions' return
And my own. But come to bed now,
And we'll close our eyes in the pleasure of sleep."

And Penelope calmly answered him:

"Your bed is ready for you whenever
You want it, now that the gods have brought you
Home to your family and native land.
But since you've brought it up, tell me

About this trial. I'll learn about it soon enough,
And it won't be any worse to hear it now."

And Odysseus, his mind teeming:

"You are a mystery to me. Why do you insist
I tell you now? Well, here's the whole story.
It's not a tale you will enjoy, and I have no joy
In telling it.
Tiresias told me that I must go
To city after city carrying a broad-bladed oar,
Until I come to men who know nothing of the sea,
Who eat their food unsalted, and have never seen
Red-prowed ships or the oars that wing them along.
And he told me that I would know I had found them
When I met another traveler who thought
The oar I was carrying was a winnowing fan.
Then I must fix my oar in the earth
And offer sacrifice to Lord Poseidon,
A ram, a bull, and a boar in its prime.
Then at last I am to come home and offer
Grand sacrifice to the immortal gods
Who hold high heaven, to each in turn.
And death shall come to me from the sea,
As gentle as this touch, and take me off
When I am worn out in sleek old age,
With my people prosperous around me.
All this Tiresias said would come true."

Then Penelope, watching him, answered:

"If the gods are going to grant you a happy old age,
There is hope your troubles will someday be over."

While they spoke to one another,
Eurynome and the nurse made the bed
By torchlight, spreading it with soft coverlets.
Then the old nurse went to her room to lie down,
And Eurynome, who kept the bedroom,

Led the couple to their bed, lighting the way.
When she had led them in, she withdrew,
And they went with joy to their bed
And to their rituals of old.

Telemachus and his men
Stopped dancing, stopped the women's dance,
And lay down to sleep in the shadowy halls.

After Odysseus and Penelope
Had made sweet love, they took turns
Telling stories to each other. She told him
All that she had to endure as the fair lady
In the palace, looking upon the loathsome throng
Of suitors, who used her as an excuse
To kill many cattle, whole flocks of sheep,
And to empty the cellar of much of its wine.
Odysseus told her of all the suffering
He had brought upon others, and of all the pain
He endured himself. She loved listening to him
And did not fall asleep until he had told the whole tale.

He began with how he overcame the Cicones
And then came to the land of the Lotus-Eaters,
And all that the Cyclops did, and how he
Paid him back for eating his comrades.
Then how he came to Aeolus,
Who welcomed him and sent him on his way,
But since it was not his destiny to return home then,
The stormwinds grabbed him and swept him off
Groaning deeply over the teeming saltwater.
Then how he came to the Laestrygonians,
Who destroyed his ships and all their crews,
Leaving him with only one black-tarred hull.
Then all of Circe's tricks and wiles,
And how he sailed to the dank house of Hades
To consult the spirit of Theban Tiresias
And saw his old comrades there
And his aged mother who nursed him as a child.

Then how he heard the Sirens' eternal song,
And came to the Clashing Rocks,
And dread Charybdis and Scylla,
Whom no man had ever escaped before.
Then how his crew killed the cattle of the Sun,
And how Zeus, the high lord of thunder,
Slivered his ship with lightning, and all his men
Went down, and he alone survived.
And he told her how he came to Ogygia,
The island of the nymph Calypso,
Who kept him there in her scalloped caves,
Yearning for him to be her husband,
And how she took care of him, and promised
To make him immortal and ageless all his days
But did not persuade the heart in his breast.
Then how he crawled out of the sea in Phaeacia,
And how the Phaeacians honored him like a god
And sent him on a ship to his own native land
With gifts of bronze and clothing and gold.

He told the story all the way through,
And then sleep, which slackens our bodies,
Fell upon him and released him from care.

The Grey-eyed One knew what to do next.
When she felt that Odysseus was satisfied
With sleep and with lying next to his wife,
She roused the slumbering, golden Dawn,
Who climbed from Ocean with light for the world.
Odysseus got up from his rose-shadowed bed
And turned to Penelope with these instructions:

"My wife, we've had our fill of trials now,
You here, weeping over all the troubles
My absence caused, and I, bound by Zeus
To suffer far from the home I yearned for.
Now that we have both come to the bed
We have long desired, you must take charge
Of all that is mine in the house, while I

See to replenishing the flocks and herds
The insolent suitors have depleted.
I'll get some back on raids, some as tribute,
Until the pens are full again. But now,
I want you to know I am going to our farm
To see my father, who has suffered terribly
On my account. You don't need me to tell you
That when the sun rises the news will spread
That I have killed the suitors in our hall. So,
Go upstairs with your women and sit quietly.
Don't look outside or speak to anyone."

Odysseus spoke and put on his beautiful armor.
He woke Telemachus, and the cowherd
And swineherd, and had them arm also.
They strapped on their bronze, opened the doors
And went out, Odysseus leading the way.
It was light by now, but Athena hid them
In darkness, and spirited them out of the city.

[Book 24 is omitted. Led by Hermes, the ghosts of the suitors reach the Underworld. Agamemnon rejoices at Odysseus's deeds and sings praises of Penelope. Odysseus reunites with his father Laertes, who then joins with Odysseus and Telemachus in dealing with some of the suitors' families, now desperate for revenge. When the two parties meet, Athena intervenes and makes them swear a binding oath of peace.]

GLOSSARY

(First appearance noted by book and line number.)

/əˈkiːənz/ ***Achaeans*** (A-kee′-unz): General term used by Homer to refer to Greeks. 2.139

/iːˈdʒɪsθəs/ ***Aegisthus*** (Ee-jis′-thus): Son of Thyestes and Pelopia. He seduces Clytemnestra, wife of Agamemnon, while Agamemnon is away fighting the Trojan War and helps her slay Agamemnon when he returns. Orestes avenges this action years later by murdering both Clytemnestra and Aegisthus. 1.35

/ˈiəʊləs/ ***Aeolus*** (Ee′-oh-lus): King of the island Aeolia and keeper of the winds. 10.2

/ˌægəˈmemnən/ ***Agamemnon*** (A-ga-mem′-non): Son of Atreus and Aerope; brother of Menelaus; husband of Clytemnestra. He commands the Greek forces in the Trojan War. He is killed by his wife and her lover when he returns home; his son, Orestes, avenges this murder. 1.36

/ælˈsɪnəʊəs/ ***Alcinous*** (Al-si′-no-us): Grandson of Poseidon; king of the Phaeacians; husband of Arete and father of Nausicaa. He graciously entertains Odysseus and gives him riches and safe transport to Ithaca. 6.12

/ælkˈmiːniː/ ***Alcmene*** (Alk-mee′-nee): Wife of Amphitryon; mother of Heracles (by Zeus). 2.131

/ænˈtɪnəʊəs/ ***Antinous*** (An-ti′-no-us): Son of Eupeithes; an Ithacan noble and the primary leader of Penelope's suitors. He is the first suitor slain by Odysseus. 1.404

/ˈæntɪfəs/ ***Antiphus*** (An′-ti-fus): Name given to two of Odysseus' companions, one of whom is the son of Aegyptius, the last of Odysseus' companions eaten by the Cyclops. 2.17

/ˌæfrəʊˈdaɪtɪ/ ***Aphrodite*** (A-fro-deye′-tee): Goddess of love and beauty. Daughter of Zeus and Dione; wife of Hephaestus. During a sexual liaison, Aphrodite and Ares are caught in a trap set by Hephaestus and exposed to the laughter of the gods. 4.17

/əˈpləʊ/ ***Apollo*** (A-pol′-oh): Patron god of music and the arts. Son of Zeus and Leto; brother of Artemis. Also called Phoebus Apollo, he is associated with the lyre and archery. It is on the day of his festival that the suitors are murdered. 3.309

/ˈɑːgaɪvz/ ***Argives*** (Ar′-geyvz): The Greeks who fight at Troy under the leadership of Agamemnon. 1.228

/ˈɑːgɒs/ ***Argos*** (Ar′-gos): City or district in the northeastern Peloponnese, Greek region of the Achaeans. 1.364

/ˈɑːtəmɪs/ ***Artemis*** (Ar′-te-mis): Goddess of the hunt and the moon. Daughter of Zeus and Leto; sister of Apollo. Like her brother, Artemis brings natural death to mortals, but she is the slaughterer of female mortals in particular. 4.127

/əˈθiːnə/ ***Athena*** (A-thee′-na): Goddess of wisdom, crafts, and battle. Daughter of Zeus; usually said to have sprung from his head. She is also called Pallas Athena and the Grey-eyed One. She frequently appears to Odysseus and helps him return home. 1.49

/ˈætləs/ ***Atlas*** (At′-las): Titan who holds up the pillars of the sky; father of Calypso. 1.58

/kəˈlɪpsəʊ/ ***Calypso*** (Ka-lip′-soh): Goddess, daughter of Atlas. Her name is a play on a Greek word meaning "to conceal." She detains Odysseus for seven years on her island, Ogygia, offering him immortality if he remains. 1.17

/kəˈrɪbdɪs/ ***Charybdis*** (Ka-rib′-dis): Whirlpool situated opposite Scylla. 12.107

/sɪˈkəʊniːz/ ***Cicones*** (Si-koh′-neez): Allies of Troy, the first people Odysseus encounters (and raids) on his return home. Maron, the priest, gives Odysseus some excellent wine in return for sparing his and his family's lives. 9.42

/ˈsɜːsɪ/ ***Circe*** (Sir′-see): Goddess and sorceress; daughter of Helios and Perse. When Odysseus lands on her island, Aeaea, she turns many of his men into swine, but Odysseus (with Hermes' help) resists her magic and convinces her to undo her spell. He and his men remain on her island for one year. 8.485

/krɪt/ ***Crete***: Island in the Aegean Sea south of the Peloponnese, ruled by Idomeneus. 3.210

/saɪˈkləʊpiːz/ ***Cyclopes*** (Seye-klo′-peez): One-eyed, man-eating giants. Their occupation of Hyperia forces the Phaeacians to relocate. The term in the singular (Cyclops) also refers to Polyphemus. 1.76

/ˈsaɪklɒps/ ***Cyclops*** (Seye′-klops): See Cyclopes.

/daˈneɪənz/ ***Danaans*** (Da-nay′-unz): One of three general names Homer uses when referring to Greeks. The other two are Achaeans and Argives. 1.371

/diːˈmiːtə/ ***Demeter*** (Dee-mee′-tur): Goddess of crops and the harvest. Daughter of Cronus and Rhea; mother of Persephone. 5.125

/dəʊˈdəʊnə/ ***Dodona*** (Doh-doh′-na): City in northwestern Greece; home to a famous oracle of Zeus. 14.356

/ˈdɔːrɪənz/ ***Dorians*** (Doh′-ri-unz): Greek-speaking inhabitants of Crete. 19.191

/juːˈmiːəs/ ***Eumaeus*** (Yoo-mee′-us): Odysseus' loyal swineherd who generously hosts Odysseus, disguised as a beggar upon his return to Ithaca. Eumaeus later assists Odysseus in the slaughter of the suitors. 14.63

/juːˈpeɪθiːz/ ***Eupeithes*** (Yoo-pay′-theez): Father of Antinous. He rallies the relatives of the slain suitors against Odysseus and is killed by Laertes. 1.404

/juːˈrɪbətiːz/ ***Eurybates*** (Yoo-ri′-ba-teez): Round-shouldered, swarthy, and curly haired herald whom Odysseus values for his quick mind. 19.269

/ˌjʊrɪˈkleɪə/ ***Eurycleia*** (Yoo-ri-klay′-a): Daughter of Ops; nurse to Odysseus and later to Telemachus. She recognizes Odysseus' scar on his thigh but at his request does not reveal his identity. 1.452

/juːˈrɪməkəs/ ***Eurymachus*** (Yoo-ri′-ma-kus): One of Penelope's suitors. 1.421

/juːˈrɪnəmiː/ ***Eurynome*** (Yoo-ri′-no-mee): Penelope's housekeeper. 17.538

/juːˈrɪnəməs/ ***Eurynomus*** (Yoo-ri′-no-mus): Son of Antiphus; suitor to Penelope. 2.21

/ˈheɪdiːz/ ***Hades*** (Hay′-deez): God of the Underworld. Son of Cronus and Rhea. His name probably means "Unseen One." Also refers to the dwelling place of the dead, named for its ruler. 3.450

/ˈhelən/ ***Helen*** (He′-len): Daughter of Leda and Zeus or Tyndareus; wife of Menelaus. She is the most beautiful woman in the world and is given to Paris by Aphrodite. Menelaus' efforts to regain Helen are the basis of the Trojan War. 4.15

GLOSSARY

Helios (Hee′-li-os): The Sun God. 8.294 /ˈhiːlɪɒs/

Hephaestus (He-feyes′-tus): God of fire and patron of metalworkers and crafts. Son of Zeus and Hera. He marries Aphrodite, who is not always faithful. He forges Achilles' armor. 4.652 /hɪˈfaɪstəs/

Hermes (Hur′-meez): Divine messenger of the gods and guide to mortal travelers. Son of Zeus and Maia. 1.43 /ˈhɜːmiːz/

Icarius (I-ka′-ri-us): Father of Penelope; brother of Menelaus. 1.347 /ɪˈkɛːrɪəs/

Ilion (Il′-i-on): Troy. 9.42 /ˈɪlɪən/

Ithaca (Ith′-a-ka): Rocky island home of Odysseus. 1.22 /ˈɪθəkə/

Laertes (Lay-er′-teez): Son of Arcesius; husband of Anticlcia and father of Odysseus and Ctimene. 1.204 /leɪˈɜːtiːz/

Laestrygonians (Leye-stri-goh′-ni-unz): Giant cannibals who eat part of Odysseus' crew and destroy all the ships but Odysseus'. 10.95 /ˌlɛɪstrɪˈgəʊnɪənz/

Medon (Mee′-don): Ithacan herald who remains faithful to his lord, Odysseus, and is spared when the suitors are killed. 4.722 /ˈmiːdən/

Melantho (Me-lan′-thoh): Daughter of Dolius; sister of Melanthius; handmaid of Penelope. She becomes the mistress of Eurymachus during Odysseus' absence and a deceitful antagonist. Telemachus hangs her for her betrayal. 18.350 /məˈlænθəʊ/

Menelaus (Me-ne-lay′-us): Son of Atreus and Aerope; brother of Agamemnon; ruler of Lacedaemon; husband of Helen. 1.303 /ˌmenɪˈleɪəs/

Mentes (Men′-teez): Taphian captain, son of Anchialus, in whose form Athena first appears to Telemachus. 1.112 /ˈmentiːz/

Mentor (Men′-tor): Close friend of Odysseus who is to look after the household during Odysseus' absence. Athena often appears in his form. 2.244 /ˈmentɔː/

Mycenae (Meye-see′-nee): Ancient city in Argos ruled by Agamemnon. 3.339 /maɪˈsiːniː/

/maɪˈsiːne/ ***Mycene*** (Meye-see′-neh): Legendary daughter of Inachus. The namesake of Mycenae. 2.131

/nɔːˈsɪkeɪə/ ***Nausicaa*** (Naw-si′-kay-a): Phaeacian princess; daughter of Alcinous and Arete. 6.17

/ˈnestɔː/ ***Nestor*** (Nes′-tor): Son of Neleus and Chloris; king of Pylos. He fights in the Trojan War, although already an old man, and is known for his valuable counsel. Father of Peisistratus, Thrasymedes, and Antilochus. 1.302

/ˈəʊʃn/ ***Ocean***: The river encircling the earth. Son of Uranus and Earth; husband of Tethys. 4.597

/əʊˈdɪsjuːs/ ***Odysseus*** (O-dis′-yoos): Son of Laertes and Anticlea; husband of Penelope; father of Telemachus. *Odysseus* may mean either "giver of woe" or "woeful one." 1.15

/əʊˈdʒɪdʒə/ ***Ogygia*** (Oh-gi′-ja): Mythical island where the nymph Calypso resides. 1.92

/əʊˈlɪmpəs/ ***Olympus*** (O-lim′-pus): Mount Olympus, the tallest mountain in Greece, believed to be the abode of the gods. 1.109

/ɒps/ ***Ops*** (Ops): Father of Eurycleia, nurse to Odysseus and Telemachus. 1.452

/ɒˈrestiːz/ ***Orestes*** (O-res′-teez): Son of Agamemnon and Clytemnestra. He avenges his father's murder by killing his mother and her lover, Aegisthus. 1.36

/oˈraɪən/ ***Orion*** (O-reye′-on): Mythical hunter famed for his size and handsome looks. The goddess Dawn falls in love with him and bears him away to her island, Ortygia. The other gods become envious of the love affair and urge Artemis to slay the hunter. 5.121

/ˈpælæs/ ***Pallas*** (Pal′-as): Epithet of the goddess Athena that may mean "maiden" or "weapon-brandishing." 1.134

/pænˈdaːrjuːs/ ***Pandareus*** (Pan-dar′-yoos): A king of Miletas in Crete; father of Aedon. He steals a golden dog from the temple of Zeus in Crete, and consequently both he and his wife are killed. 19.566

/pɪˈneləpiː/ ***Penelope*** (Pe-ne′-lo-pee): Daughter of Icarius and Periboea; wife of Odysseus; mother of Telemachus. 1.240

Phaeacia (Fee-ay′-sha): See Phaeacians. /fiːˈeɪʃə/

Phaeacians (Fee-ay′-shunz): The people who inhabit Phaeacia (sometimes called Scheria). As descendants of Poseidon they are loved by the gods and have remarkable seafaring abilities. According to legend, they have ships that move without the aid of rudder or sail. 5.37 /fiːˈeɪʃnz/

Phemius (Fee′-mi-us): Son of Terpius; a bard in Ithaca. Although he is forced to entertain the suitors, he remains faithful to the house of Laertes. Odysseus spares him because of his fidelity. 1.165 /fiːˈmɪəs/

Philoetius (Fi-lee′-tee-us): Cowherd who remains faithful to Odysseus. 20.197 /fɪˈliːtiːəs/

Phorcys (For′-kis): Sea-god; father of Thoösa; grandfather of Polyphemus. 1.78 /ˈfɔːkɪs/

Pleiades (Plee′-a-deez): A constellation of seven stars used by ancient seamen for nocturnal navigation. The Pleiades were originally the seven daughters of Atlas and Pleione. 5.272 /ˈpliːədiːz/

Polybus (Pol′-i-bus): Father of Eurymachus, 1.421; Theban man visited by Menelaus and Helen, 4.131; Phaeacian craftsman, 8.412; one of Penelope's suitors killed by Eumaeus. 22.259 /ˈpɒlɪbəs/

Polyphemus (Po-li-fee′-mus): One of the Cyclopes, son of Poseidon and Thoösa. This one-eyed giant consumes some of Odysseus' men after he traps them in his cave. To escape from the cave, Odysseus and his men drive a heated pole into Polyphemus' only eye. As punishment for his son's blinding, Poseidon torments Odysseus until he reaches Ithaca. 1.76 /ˌpɒlɪˈfiːməs/

Poseidon (Po-seye′-don): God of the sea. Son of Cronus and Rhea; brother of Zeus, Hades, and Hera; father of the Cyclops Polyphemus. 1.25 /pəˈsaɪdən/

Priam (Preye′-am): King of Troy; son of Laomedon and Strymo; husband of Hecuba; father of Hector and Paris. He is killed by Neoptolemus as Troy falls to the Greeks. 3.118 /ˈpraɪəm/

Pylos (Peye-los): City on the southwest coast of the Peloponnese ruled by Nestor. 1.100 /ˈpaɪlɒs/

/skeˈrɪə/ ***Scheria*** (Ske-ri'-a): The island inhabited by the Phaeacians. 6.8

/ˈsɪlə/ ***Scylla*** (Sil'-a): The cave-dwelling monster possessing female attributes from the waist up but six dog heads and a dozen canine feet from the waist down. *Scylla* is Greek for "she-pup." She inhabits the cliff across the strait from Charybdis. 12.88

/ˈsaɪərənz/ ***Sirens*** (Seye'-rens): Singing creatures with female heads and breasts, and large birdlike bodies. They lure sailors to their island with an irresistible song. 12.41

/ˈspɑːtə/ ***Sparta*** (Spar'-ta): City in the southwest Peleponnese that was ruled by Menelaus. 1.100

/stɪks/ ***Styx*** (Stix): One of the rivers that flows near Hades. When gods swear by this river their oaths are irretractable. 5.184

/ˈtæftənz/ ***Taphians*** (Ta'-fi-unz): The inhabitants of Taphos, a seafaring people ruled by Mentes. Taphos is a city on the west coast of Greece. 1.112

/tɪˈleməkəs/ ***Telemachus*** (Te-lem'-a-kus): Son of Odysseus and Penelope. His name means "battle from afar." 1.121

/ˈθiːmɪs/ ***Themis*** (The'-mis): Titan goddess of law and order. Daughter of Uranus and Gaia. 2.73

/ðɒˈəʊsə/ ***Thoösa*** (Tho-oh'-sa): A nymph; mother of Polyphemus by Poseidon. 1.77

/θrɪˈneɪʃə/ ***Thrinacia*** (Thri-nay'-sha): Island where Helios' cattle pastured. 11.105

/taɪˈrɪsiːæs/ ***Tiresias*** (Teye-ree'-si-as): The blind seer from Thebes whose shade counsels Odysseus in the Underworld. 10.514

/tɪˈθəʊnəs/ ***Tithonus*** (Ti-thoh'-nus): Son of Laomedon and husband of Dawn. 5.2

/ˈtrəʊdʒənz/ ***Trojans*** (Troh'-junz): The inhabitants of Troy. 3.94

/trɔɪ/ ***Troy*** (Troy): City in northwestern Asia Minor; ruled by Priam; conquered by the Greeks in the Trojan War. Site at which the *Iliad* takes place. 1.3

Zeus (Zyoos): The supreme god of Olympus, known as the father of gods and men. Son of Cronus and Rhea; husband and brother of Hera; father of Athena, Aphrodite, Ares, Apollo, Artemis, Hephaestus, and others. 1.33 /zjuːs/

Love and the Search for Beauty and Goodness—the Symposium

Reading the Platonic dialogues we gain a general impression of how Socrates (469–399 BCE) did philosophy. He was interested in moral issues and philosophized neither by giving lectures nor by writing treatises, but by talking with other people. Socrates examined the views of his interlocutors by means of questions and answers to look into the logical coherence of the proposed views. A defining feature of this examination is that at every step Socrates tried to base the investigation on a point agreed by both discussing parties. Since *dialogue* is the way by which Socrates practiced philosophy, his method is known as *dialectic*.

The themes of *Symposium* are love and the search for beauty and goodness, all of which are central to Plato's philosophy as well as to our lives. In the dialogue we gain a grasp of Socrates' method of questioning and a valuable insight into Plato's theory of Ideas. The whole dialogue is written in a mostly non-technical language with dramatic scenes and witty exchanges of words, and not the least the speech of Alcibiades provides us with a vivid and compelling image of Socrates.

The dialogue is placed in 416 BCE when Agathon's tragedy won the prize at a drama festival. The topic of the drinking party is Eros (the god of love). There are six speakers, each giving a eulogy of the god of love. Each of them tries to surpass the previous one by adding new perspectives in his speech. The drinking party opens with the praises of pederasty (love of boys) by Phaedrus and Pausanias, which are followed by Eryximachus' identification of Eros as a universal force and Aristophanes' characterization of the god as man's natural urge for wholeness. Then it is Agathon's turn to give an impressive speech extolling Eros to the skies. The contest culminates in Socrates' recalling the teachings of Diotima, the priestess of Mantinea who revealed the real nature of Eros. Eros embodies man's search for beauty and goodness, which is illustrated in the "ladder of love." The ascent begins with the attraction to individual physical beauty, but ends in the attainment of eternal beauty itself, which is the ultimate object of the search for beauty and

the origin of all beautiful things in this world. The ladder is an ascent from the ever-changing world of phenomena to the ever-lasting world of Ideas. Only in this latter realm can we find the foundation of our moral behaviour and the knowledge of moral matters.

The party ends with the burst-in of Alcibiades, a young general and vehement lover of Socrates. For Alcibiades, Socrates is an eccentric lover. In his drunken praise of Socrates, Alcibiades gives us a portrait of Socrates' unique abilities, extraordinary personality and passion for philosophy. We may ask ourselves how this can be related to the image of philosopher—literally "lover of wisdom"—which Diotima presents to us in her speech.

In the dialogue we are told that love is not confined to physical beauty, but plays an essential role in the pursuit of moral beauty and goodness. The *Symposium* invites us to reflect on our own idea of love; it also spurs us to contemplate Socrates' attitude towards philosophy: it is not just about abstract ideas and rational arguments, but the key to a good and happy life.

The following translation of the *Symposium* is by Tom Griffith from *Plato: Symposium and the Death of Socrates*. It is chosen for its use of the modern colloquium and for the ease with which it captures the humour and spontaneity of the lively exchanges among the characters.

The pagination given in the margins is that of the Stephanus edition of Plato's complete works in 1578, e.g. 172b means column b on page 172 in this edition.

Ho Wai-ming

Symposium

by Plato

THE SPEAKERS IN THE DIALOGUE

AGATHON	a writer of tragedies	/ˈægəθɒn/
SOCRATES	a truth-loving eccentric	/ˈsɒkrətiːz/
PHAEDRUS	an idealist	/ˈfiːdrəz/
PAUSANIAS	a realist — Agathon's lover	/pɔːˈseɪnɪəz/
ARISTOPHANES	a writer of comedies	/ˌærɪˈstɒfənɪːz/
ERYXIMACHUS	a doctor	/ˌerɪˈsɪmɑːkəz/
ALCIBIADES	a politician and playboy	/ˌælsɪˈbaɪədiːz/

From Plato, *Symposium and The Death of Socrates*, translated by Tom Griffith. Published by Wordsworth Editions Ltd 1997.
© Tom Griffith 1997. Reprinted by permission of Tom Griffith and Wordsworth Editions Limited. All rights reserved.

PROLOGUE — APOLLODORUS AND A FRIEND

172 APOLLODORUS You couldn't have asked anyone better. I live in Phalerum, and the day before yesterday I was going up to town when a man I know caught sight of me disappearing in the distance. He gave me a shout, calling me (a little facetiously) "You there! Citizen of Phalerum! Hey, Apollodorus! Wait a moment."

So I stopped and waited.

"Apollodorus," he said, "I've been looking for you for ages. I wanted to ask you about the time when Agathon and Socrates and Alcibiades and the others all
b met for dinner. I want to know what was said about love. I was told about it by a man who had talked to Phoenix, son of Philippus; he said you knew about it as well. He wasn't much help—couldn't remember anything very definite. Can you give me your version? After all, who better than you to talk about Socrates' conversations? For instance, were you at the dinner-party yourself, or not?"

"You must have been given a pretty garbled account, if you think the party
c you're asking about took place recently enough for me to have been at it."

"Oh! I thought you were."

"Really, Glaucon, how could I have been? It's ages since Agathon last lived in Athens, and less than three years since I became friends with Socrates, and got into the habit of keeping up with what he says and does every day. Before that my
173 life was just a random whirl of activity. I thought I was extremely busy, but in fact I was the most pathetic creature imaginable, just as you are now, doing anything to avoid philosophical thought."

"Very funny. When *did* the party happen, then?"

"It was when we were still children, when Agathon won the prize with his first tragedy, the day after he and the members of the chorus made the usual winners' thanksgivings."

"Oh, I see. It *was* a long time ago, then. Who told you about it? Was it Socrates himself?"

b "God, no. I got it from the man who told Phoenix, a man called Aristodemus, from Cydathenaeum. Small man, never wears shoes. He'd been at the party; in fact, I think he must have been one of Socrates' keenest admirers in those days. But I've also asked Socrates about some of the things he told me, and his version agreed with Aristodemus'."

"You must tell me all about it, and walking into town is an ideal opportunity. You can talk, and I will listen."

So we discussed the party as we went along, and that's why, as I said c originally, I'm a good person to ask about it. And if I've got to tell it to you as well, I'd better get on with it. In any case, I get tremendous pleasure out of talking about philosophy myself, or listening to other people talk about it, quite apart from thinking it's good for me. Other conversation, especially your kind, about money or business, bores me stiff. You're my friends, but I feel sorry for you, because you think you're getting somewhere, when you're not. You in turn probably think me d misguided, and you may well be right. However, I don't *think* you are misguided; I know for certain you are.

FRIEND Still the old Apollodorus we know and love. Never a good word for yourself or anyone else. As far as I can see, you regard absolutely everyone, starting with yourself, as a lost cause—except for Socrates, that is. I don't know where you picked up the nickname "softy"; it certainly doesn't fit your conversation—always full of fury against yourself, and everyone else apart from Socrates.

APOLLODORUS And if that's my opinion of myself and the rest of you, then c obviously I'm crazy, or mistaken, I suppose.

FRIEND Let's not argue about that now, Apollodorus, just do as I ask, and tell me what was said at Agathon's party.

APOLLODORUS The conversation went something like this . . . or better, let me 174 try to tell it to you right from the beginning, as Aristodemus told it to me.

ARISTODEMUS' ACCOUNT

I met Socrates, all washed and brushed, and wearing shoes (a thing he hardly ever did). I asked him where he was going looking so elegant.

"I'm going to dinner with Agathon. I avoided the first celebration last night; I couldn't face the crowd. But I said I'd come this evening. I'm looking elegant,
b because Agathon always looks elegant. What about you? How do you feel about coming to dinner uninvited?"

"I'll do anything you tell me."

"Come on then. Let's ignore the proverb, 'good men come uninvited to lesser men's feasts', or rather let's change it, to 'good men come uninvited to Agathon's feast'. After all, Homer does worse than ignore it; he completely contradicts it. His Agamemnon is an outstanding warrior, while his Menelaus is a man of straw. But
c when Agamemnon is sacrificing and feasting Homer lets Menelaus come to the feast without an invitation, though that's a case of a lesser man coming to dinner with a better."

"I'm afraid, in my case, that Homer is likely to be nearer the mark than you, Socrates. It'll be a question of a nonentity coming to dinner uninvited with a wise man. You'd better decide what you'll say if you do take me. I'm not coming
d uninvited—only as your guest."

"Two heads are better than one. We'll think of something to say. Come on."

So off we went. But Socrates, absorbed in his own thoughts, got left behind on the way. I was going to wait for him, but he told me to go on ahead. So I turned
e up at Agathon's house by myself, and found the door open. In fact, it was slightly embarrassing, because one of the house-slaves met me, and took me straight in, where I found the others had just sat down to dinner. Agathon saw me come in, and at once said, "Aristodemus, you're just in time to have dinner with us. I hope that's what you've come for. If not, it'll have to wait for another time. I tried to get hold of you yesterday, to ask you, but couldn't find you. How come you haven't brought Socrates with you?"

I turned round and looked behind me, and couldn't see Socrates anywhere. So I explained that I had come with Socrates. In fact, but for his invitation, I wouldn't have come at all.

"I'm glad you did. But where is he?"

175 "He was right behind me just now. I've no more idea than you where he could have got to."

Agathon turned to a slave. "Could you go and look for Socrates, please, and ask him in? Aristodemus, why don't you sit over there by Eryximachus?"

While one slave was giving me a wash, so I could sit down to dinner, another slave came in: "That Socrates you asked me to look for has gone wandering up to the front door of the wrong house. He's just standing there. I asked him to come in but he won't."

"How odd. Still, don't give up. Keep on asking him."

But I said, "No, leave him alone. He's always doing this. It doesn't matter b
where he is. He just wanders off and stands there. I don't think he'll be long. Don't badger him; just leave him."

"Well, if you say so, I suppose we'd better." He turned to the slaves. "The rest of us will eat now. Serve the meal just as you like. No one's going to tell you how to do it, any more than I ever tell you. Imagine we're all your guests, and try to give e
us a meal we'll enjoy."

So we started having dinner, though still no sign of Socrates. Agathon kept wanting to send people to look for him, but I wouldn't let him. When he did turn up, he hadn't been long by his standards, but even so we were about halfway through dinner. Agathon, who'd sat down last, at a table on his own, said "Come and sit next to me, Socrates. Then perhaps I shall absorb whatever it was you were thinking d
about outside. You must have found the answer, or you wouldn't have come in to join us."

Socrates sat down. "Wouldn't it be marvellous, Agathon," he said, "if ideas were the kind of things which could be imparted simply by contact, and those of us who had few could absorb them from those who had a lot in the same sort of way that liquid can flow from a full container to an empty one if you put a piece of string between them? If that's the nature of ideas, then I think I'm lucky to be sitting next to you, and getting a nice, substantial transfusion. My ideas aren't much e
use. They have an ambiguous, dreamlike quality, whereas yours are brilliant, and with so much scope for further improvement. You're only young, and yet they were particularly brilliant the day before yesterday, as more than thirty thousand Greeks can testify."

"Don't be sarcastic, Socrates. And let's settle this question of ideas a bit later. We'll give Dionysus the casting vote, but you'd better have dinner first."

So Socrates sat down and ate, with the others. We poured offerings, sang 176
hymns, and did all the usual things. Then our thoughts turned to drinking, and Pausanias made a suggestion. "Well, gentlemen, how can we make things as painless

for ourselves as possible? I must admit to feeling rather frail after yesterday evening. I need a breather, and I expect most of you do, too. After all, you were there as well.
b So, how can we make our drinking as painless as possible?"

ARISTOPHANES I couldn't agree more, Pausanias. Whatever else we do, we don't want to let ourselves in for another evening's hard drinking. I'm one of those who sank without trace last night.

ERYXIMACHUS I'm glad you both feel like that. But we ought also to consider how strong Agathon is feeling.

AGATHON Not at all strong.

c ERYXIMACHUS It would certainly be a stroke of luck for people like Aristodemus and Phaedrus and me, if you hard drinkers are prepared to take an evening off. We're not in your league. I'm not worried about Socrates—he's equally happy either way, so he won't mind what we do. But as far as I can see, no one here is all that keen on drinking a lot, so perhaps I can tell you the truth about getting drunk without causing too much offence. My experience as a doctor leaves me in no doubt
d that getting drunk is bad for you. I'm not keen on drinking to excess myself, and I wouldn't advise anyone else to, especially anyone who still had a hangover from yesterday.

PHAEDRUS Well, I generally follow your advice, especially on medical matters. So will the others, if they have any sense.

e So we all agreed just to drink what we felt like, rather than treating it as an opportunity to get drunk.

ERYXIMACHUS Good, that's settled then. We'll all drink as much as we feel like, and there's no compulsion on anyone. And since we've got that sorted out, I've another suggestion to make. I don't think we need this flute girl who's just started playing. She can play to herself, or to the women upstairs, if she feels like it, but for this evening I suggest *we* stick to conversation. And I've an idea what we might talk about, if you want to hear it.

Everyone said they did want to hear it, and urged him to make his suggestion. 177

ERYXIMACHUS Well, it arises out of Euripides' *Melanippe*. And it isn't really my idea. It's Phaedrus'. He gets quite worked up about it. "Don't you think it's odd, Eryximachus," he says, "that most of the other gods have had hymns and songs of praise written to them by the poets, but never a word in praise of Eros, the oldest b and greatest god? And it's not for want of good poets, either. Or think of the great teachers—they've recorded the exploits of Heracles and other heroes, in prose. Prodicus, for example, does that sort of thing beautifully. Now maybe that's not very surprising, but I came across a book the other day, by a well-known writer, with an extraordinary eulogy in it on the value of salt. You can find any number of things singled out for praise in this way. What is surprising is that there should be c so much enthusiasm for that kind of thing, and yet no one, up to the present day, has ever found himself able to praise Eros as he deserves. He is a remarkable god, but he has been totally neglected."

I agree with Phaedrus. I'd like to do him a favour and make my contribution. What's more, the present gathering seems an ideal opportunity to praise the god. So, if you agree, we can quite happily spend our time in talk. I propose that each d of us in turn, going round anticlockwise, should make a speech, the best he can, in praise of Eros. Phaedrus can start, since he is in the position of honour, and since the whole thing was his idea.

SOCRATES I don't think anyone will vote against you, Eryximachus. I'm certainly not going to refuse, since love is the only thing I ever claim to know anything about. Agathon and Pausanias won't mind—still less Aristophanes, since his only e interests in life are Dionysus and Aphrodite. In fact I can't see anyone here who *will* object. It's a little unfair on those of us sitting here in the last positions. Still, if you first speakers speak well enough, we shan't have to worry. Good luck, Phaedrus. You go first, and make your speech in praise of Eros.

They all agreed with Socrates, and told Phaedrus to start. Aristodemus couldn't 178 remember the exact details of everybody's speech, nor in turn can I remember precisely what he said. But I can give you the gist of those speeches and speakers which were most worth remembering.

Phaedrus, as I said, began—something like this.

PHAEDRUS

Eros is a great god, a marvel to men and gods alike. This is true in many ways, and it is especially true of his birth. He is entitled to our respect, as the oldest of the gods—
b as I can prove. Eros has no parents, either in reality or in works of prose and poetry. Take Hesiod, for example. All he says is that in the beginning there was Chaos. ". . . and then came the full-breasted Earth, the eternal and immovable foundation of everything, and Eros." Acusilaus agrees with Hesiod, that after Chaos there were just these two, Earth and Eros. And then there's Parmenides' theory about his birth, that "Eros was created first of the Gods." So there is widespread agreement that Eros
c is of great antiquity. And being very old he also brings us very great benefits. I can see nothing better in life for a young boy, as soon as he is old enough, than finding a good lover, nor for a lover than finding a boyfriend. Love, more than anything (more than family, or position, or wealth), implants in men the thing which must
d be their guide if they are to live a good life. And what is that? It is a horror of what is degrading, and a passionate desire for what is good. These qualities are essential if a state or an individual is to accomplish anything great or good. Imagine a man in love being found out doing something humiliating, or letting someone else do something degrading to him, because he was too cowardly to stop it. It would embarrass him more to be found out by the boy he loved than by his father or his friends, or anyone. And you can see just the same thing happening with the boy.
e He is more worried about being caught behaving badly by his admirers than by anyone else. So if there were some way of arranging that a state, or an army, could be made up entirely of pairs of lovers, it is impossible to imagine a finer population.
179 They would avoid all dishonour, and compete with one another for glory: in battle, this kind of army, though small, fighting side by side could conquer virtually the whole world. After all, a lover would sooner be seen by anyone deserting his post or throwing away his weapons, rather than by his boyfriend. He would normally choose to die many times over instead. And as for abandoning the boy, or not trying to save him if he is in danger—no one is such a coward as not to be inspired with
b courage by Eros, making him the equal of the naturally brave man. Homer says, and rightly, that god breathes fire into some of his heroes. And it is just this quality, whose origin is to be found within himself, that Eros imparts to lovers.

What is more, lovers are the only people prepared to die for others. Not just men, either; women also sometimes. A good example is Alcestis, the daughter of Pelias. She alone was willing to die for her husband. He had a father and mother c
but she so far surpassed them in devotion, because of her passion for him, that she showed them to be strangers to their son, relations in name only. In so doing she was thought, by men and gods alike, to have performed a deed of supreme excellence. Indeed the gods were so pleased with her action that they brought her soul back from the underworld—a privilege they granted to only a fortunate handful of the many people who have done good deeds. That shows how highly d
even the gods value loyalty and courage in love. Orpheus, the son of Oeagrus, on the other hand, was sent away from the underworld empty-handed; he was shown a mere phantom of the woman he came to find, and not given the woman herself. Of course Orpheus was a musician, and the gods thought he was a bit of a coward, lacking the courage to die for his love, as Alcestis did, but trying to find a way of getting into the underworld alive. They punished him further for that, giving him death at the hands of women.

In contrast, the man whom the gods honoured above all was Achilles, the son e
of Thetis. They sent him to the Islands of the Blessed. His mother had warned him that if he killed Hector he would himself be killed, but if he didn't, he would return home and live to a ripe old age. Nevertheless out of loyalty to his lover Patroclus he 180
chose without hesitation to die—not to save him, but to avenge him; for Patroclus had already been killed. The gods were full of admiration, and gave him the highest possible honour, because he valued his lover so highly.

Incidentally, Aeschylus' view, that it was Achilles who was in love with Patroclus, is nonsense. Quite apart from the fact that he was more beautiful than Patroclus (and than all the other Greek heroes, come to that) and had not yet grown a beard, he was also, according to Homer, much younger. And he must have been younger, because it is an undoubted fact that the gods, though they always value courage which comes from love, are most impressed and pleased, and grant the b
greatest rewards, when the younger man is loyal to his lover, than when the lover is loyal to him. That's because the lover is a more divine creature than the younger man, since he is divinely inspired. And that's why they honoured Achilles more than Alcestis, and sent him to the Islands of the Blessed.

There you are then. I claim that Eros is the oldest of the gods, the most

deserving of our respect, and the most useful, for those men, past and present, who want to attain excellence and happiness.

c That was the gist of Phaedrus' speech. After him, several other people spoke, but Aristodemus couldn't really remember what they said. So he left them out and recounted Pausanias' speech.

PAUSANIAS

Phaedrus, I don't think we've been very accurate in defining our subject for discussion. We've simply said that we must make a speech in praise of Eros. That would be fine, if there were just one Eros. In fact, however, there isn't. And since
d there isn't, we would do better to define first which Eros we are to praise. I am going to try to put things straight—first defining which Eros we are supposed to be praising, and then trying to praise the god as he deserves.

We are all well aware, I take it, that without Eros there is no Aphrodite. If there were only one Aphrodite, there would be one Eros. However, since there are in fact two Aphrodites, it follows that Eros likewise must be two. There's no doubt about there being two Aphrodites; the older has no mother, and is the daughter of Heaven. We call her Heavenly Aphrodite. The younger is the daughter of Zeus and
e Dione, and we call her Common Aphrodite. It follows that the Eros who assists this Aphrodite should also, properly speaking, be called Common Eros, and the other Heavenly Eros. We certainly ought to praise all the gods, but we should also attempt to define what is the proper province of each.

It is in general true of any activity that, simply in itself, it is neither good nor
181 bad. Take what we're doing now, for example—that is to say drinking, or singing, or talking. None of these is good or bad in itself, but each becomes so, depending on the way it is done. Well and rightly done, it is good; wrongly done, it is bad. And it's just the same with loving, and Eros. It's not all good, and doesn't all deserve praise. The Eros we should praise is the one which encourages people to love in the right way.

The Eros associated with Common Aphrodite is, in all senses of the word,
b common, and quite haphazard in his operation. This is the love of the man in the

street. For a start, he is as likely to fall in love with women as with boys. Secondly, he falls in love with their bodies rather than their minds. Thirdly, he picks the most unintelligent people he can find, since all he's interested in is the sexual act. He doesn't care whether it's done in the right way or not. That is why the effect of this Eros is haphazard—sometimes good, sometimes the reverse. This love derives its existence from the much younger Aphrodite, the one composed equally of the c female and male elements.

The other Eros springs from Heavenly Aphrodite, and in the first place is composed solely of the male element, with none of the female (so it is the love of boys we are talking about), and in the second place is older, and hence free from lust. In consequence, those inspired by this love turn to the male, attracted by what is naturally stronger and of superior intelligence. And even among those who love d boys you can tell the ones whose love is purely heavenly. They only fall in love with boys old enough to think for themselves—in other words, with boys who are nearly grown up.

Those who start a love affair with boys of that age are prepared, I think, to be friends, and live together, for life. The others are deceivers, who take advantage of youthful folly, and then quite cheerfully abandon their victims in search of others. There ought really to be a law against loving young boys, to stop so much energy e being expended on an uncertain end. After all, no one knows how good or bad, in mind and body, young boys will eventually turn out. Good men voluntarily observe this rule, but the common lovers I am talking about should be compelled to do the same, just as we stop them, so far as we can, falling in love with free women. They 182 are actually the people who have brought the thing into disrepute, with the result that some people even go so far as to say that it is wrong to satisfy your lover. It is the common lover they have in mind when they say this, regarding his demands as premature and unfair to the boy. Surely nothing done with restraint and decency could reasonably incur criticism.

What is more, while sexual conventions in other states are clear-cut and easy to understand, here and in Sparta, by contrast, they are complex. In Elis, for b example, or Boeotia, and places where they are not sophisticated in their use of language, it is laid down, quite straightforwardly, that it is right to satisfy your lover. No one, old or young, would say it was wrong, and the reason, I take it, is that they don't want to have all the trouble of trying to persuade them verbally,

when they're such poor speakers. On the other hand, in Ionia and many other places under Persian rule, it is regarded as wrong. That is because the Persians' system of
c government (dictatorships) makes them distrust it, just as they distrust philosophy and communal exercise. It doesn't suit the rulers that their subjects should think noble thoughts, nor that they should form the strong friendships or attachments which these activities and in particular love tend to produce. Dictators here in Athens learnt the same lesson, by experience. The relationship between Harmodius and his lover, Aristogeiton, was strong enough to put an end to the dictators' rule.

d In short, the convention that satisfying your lover is wrong is a result of the moral weakness of those who observe the convention—the rulers' desire for power, and their subjects' cowardice. The belief that it is always right can be attributed to mental laziness. Our customs are much better but, as I said, not easy to understand. Think about it—let's take the lover first. Open love is regarded better than secret love, and so is love of the noblest and best people, even if they are not the best-looking. In fact, there is remarkable encouragement of the lover from all sides. He is not regarded as doing anything wrong; it is a good thing if he gets what he wants,
e and a shame if he doesn't. And when it comes to trying to get what he wants, we give the lover permission to do the most extraordinary things, and be applauded for them—things which, if he did them with any other aim or intention, would cover
183 him in reproach. Think of the way lovers behave towards the boys they love—think of the begging and entreating involved in their demands, the oaths they swear, the nights they spend sleeping outside the boys' front doors, the slavery they are prepared to endure (which no slave would put up with). If they behaved like this for money, or position, or influence of any kind, they would be told to stop by friends
b and enemies alike. Their enemies would call their behaviour dependent and servile, while their friends would censure them sharply, and even be embarrassed for them. And yet a lover can do all these things, and be approved of. Custom attaches no blame to his actions, since he is reckoned to be acting in a wholly honourable way. The strangest thing of all is that, in most people's opinion, the lover has a unique dispensation from the gods to swear an oath and then break it. Lovers' vows, apparently, are not binding.

c So far, then, gods and men alike give all kinds of licence to the lover, and an observer of Athenian life might conclude that it was an excellent thing, in this city, both to be a lover and to be friendly to lovers. But when we come to the boy, the

position is quite different. Fathers give their sons escorts, when men fall in love with them, and don't allow them to talk to their lovers—and those are the escort's instructions as well. The boy's peers and friends jeer at him if they see anything of the kind going on, and when their elders see them jeering, they don't stop them, or tell them off, as they should if the jeers were unjustified. Looking at this side of d
things, you would come to the opposite conclusion—that this kind of thing is here regarded as highly reprehensible.

The true position, I think, is this. Going back to my original statement, there isn't one single form of love. So love is neither right nor wrong in itself. Done rightly, it is right; done wrongly, it is wrong. It is wrong if you satisfy the wrong person, for the wrong reasons, and right if you satisfy the right person, for the right reasons. The wrong person is the common lover I was talking about—the one who loves the body rather than the mind. His love is not lasting, since *what* e
he loves is not lasting either. As soon as the youthful bloom of the body (which is what he loves) starts to fade, he "spreads his wings and is off", as they say, making a mockery of all his speeches and promises. On the other hand, the man who loves a boy for his good character will stick to him for life, since he has attached himself to what is lasting.

Our customs are intended to test these lovers well and truly, and get the boys 184
to satisfy the good ones, and avoid the bad. That's why we encourage lovers to chase after boys, but tell the boys not to be caught. In this way we set up a trial and a test, to see which category the lover comes in, and which category the boy he loves comes in. This explains a number of things—for instance, why it's thought wrong for a boy to let himself be caught too quickly. It is felt that some time should elapse, since time is a good test of most things. Also why it is wrong to be caught by means of money or political influence—whether it's a case of the boy being threatened, and yielding rather than holding out, or a case of being offered b
some financial or political inducement, and not turning it down. No affair of this kind is likely to be stable or secure, quite apart from the fact that it is no basis for true friendship.

There is just one way our customs leave it open for a boy to satisfy his lover, and not be blamed for it. It is permissible, as I have said, for a lover to enter upon any kind of voluntary slavery he may choose, and be the slave of the boy he loves. This c
is not regarded as self-seeking, or in any way demeaning. Similarly there is one other

kind of voluntary slavery which is not regarded as demeaning. This is the slavery of the boy, in his desire for improvement. It can happen that a boy chooses to serve a man, because he thinks that by association with him he will improve in wisdom in some way, or in some other form of goodness. This kind of voluntary slavery, like the other, is widely held among us not to be wrong, and not to be self-seeking.

d So it can only be regarded as right for a boy to satisfy his lover if both these conditions are satisfied—both the lover's behaviour, and the boy's desire for wisdom and goodness. Then the lover and the boy have the same aim, and each has the approval of convention—the lover because he is justified in performing any service he chooses for a boy who satisfies him, the boy because he is justified in submitting, in any way he will, to the man who can make him wise and good. So if c the lover has something to offer in the way of sound judgment and moral goodness, and if the boy is eager to accept this contribution to his education and growing wisdom, then, and only then, this favourable combination makes it right for a boy to satisfy his lover. In no other situation is it right.

Nor, in this situation, is there any disgrace in making a mistake, whereas in all 185 other situations it is equally a disgrace to be mistaken or not. For example, suppose a boy satisfies his lover for money, taking him to be rich. If he gets it wrong, and doesn't get any money, because the lover turns out to be poor, it is still regarded as immoral, because the boy who does this seems to be revealing his true character, and declaring that he would do anything for anyone in return for money. And that is not a good way to behave. Equally, a boy may satisfy a man because he thinks he is a good man, and that he himself will become better through his friendship. b If he gets it wrong, and his lover turns out to be a bad man, of little moral worth, still there is something creditable about his mistake. He too seems to have revealed his true character—namely, that he is eager to do anything for anyone in return for goodness and self-improvement. And this is the finest of all qualities.

So it is absolutely correct for boys to satisfy their lovers, if it is done in pursuit of goodness. This is the love which comes from the heavenly goddess; it is itself heavenly, and of great value to state and individual alike, since it compels c both lover and boy to devote a lot of attention to their own moral improvement. All other sorts of love derive from the other goddess, the common one.

Well, Phaedrus, that's the best I can offer, without preparation, on the subject of Eros.

Pausanias paused (sorry about the pun—sophistic influence). After that it was Aristophanes' turn to speak. But he had just got hiccups. I don't know if it was from eating too much, or for some other reason; anyway he was unable to make his speech. All he could say, since Eryximachus, the doctor, happened to be sitting d just below him, was this: "Eryximachus, you're just the man. Either get rid of my hiccups, or speak instead of me until they stop."

"I'll do both. I'll take your turn to speak, and when you get rid of your hiccups, you can take mine. While I'm speaking, try holding your breath for a long time, to see if they stop. Failing that, gargle with some water. And if they are very severe, tickle your nose and make yourself sneeze. Do that once or twice, and they'll stop, e however severe."

"Will you please speak first, then?" said Aristophanes. "And I'll do as you suggest."

ERYXIMACHUS

Pausanias made an impressive start to his speech, but I do not think he brought it to a very satisfactory conclusion. So I think it is important that I should try to complete 186 his account. His analysis of the twofold nature of Eros seems to me to be a valuable distinction. But I cannot accept his implication that Eros is found only in human hearts, and is aroused only by human beauty. I am a doctor by profession, and it has been my observation, I would say, throughout my professional career, that Eros is aroused by many other things as well, and that he is found also in nature—in the physical life of all animals, in plants that grow in the ground, and in virtually all living organisms. My conclusion is that he is great and awe-inspiring, this god, and b that his influence is unbounded, both in the human realm and in the divine.

I will begin by talking about my medical experience, to show my respect for my profession. The nature of the human body shows this twofold Eros, since it is generally agreed that health and sickness in the body are separate and unalike, and that unlike is attracted to unlike, and desires it. So there is one force of attraction for the healthy, and another for the sick. Pausanias was talking just now about it being right to satisfy men, if they are good men, but wrong if all they are interested in is physical pleasure. It is just the same with the body. It is right to satisfy the good c

and healthy elements in the body, and one should do so. We call this "medicine". Conversely it is wrong to satisfy the bad, unhealthy elements, and anyone who is going to be a skilled doctor should deny these elements.

Medical knowledge is thus essentially knowledge of physical impulses or
d desires for ingestion or evacuation. In this, the man who can distinguish healthy desires from unhealthy is the best doctor. Moreover he needs the ability to change people's desires, so that they lose one and gain another. There are people who lack desires which they should have. If the doctor can produce these desires, and remove the existing ones, then he is a good doctor. He must, in fact, be able to reconcile and harmonise the most disparate elements in the body. By "the most disparate" I mean
e those most opposed to one another—cold and hot, bitter and sweet, dry and wet, and so forth. It was by knowing how to produce mutual desire and harmony among these that our forerunner Asclepius, as the poets say (and I believe) established this art of ours.

187 Medicine, then, as I say, is completely governed by this god. Likewise physical training, and farming. Music too is no exception, as must be clear to anyone who gives the matter a moment's thought. Perhaps that is what Heraclitus means, though he does not actually express it very clearly, when he says that "the One" is "in conflict and harmony with itself", "like the stringing of a bow or lyre". Clearly there is a contradiction in saying that a harmony is in conflict, or is composed of conflicting elements. Perhaps what he meant was that, starting from initially
b discordant high and low notes, the harmony is only created when these are brought into agreement by the skill of the musician. Clearly there could be no harmony between high and low, if they were still in conflict. For harmony is a consonance, and consonance is a kind of agreement. Thus it is impossible that there should be a harmony of conflicting elements, in which those elements still conflict, nor can one harmonise what is different, and incapable of agreement. Or take rhythm as another example; it arises out of the conflict of quick and slow, but only when they cease
c to conflict. Here it is the art of music which imposes harmony on all the elements, by producing mutual attraction and agreement between them, whereas in the body it is the art of medicine. So music, again, is knowledge of Eros applied to harmony and rhythm.

In the actual formation of harmony and rhythm it is a simple matter to detect the hand of Eros, which at this stage is not the twofold Eros. It is altogether more

complicated when we come to apply rhythm and harmony to human activity, either to the making of music, which we call composing, or to the correct use of melody d
and tempo in what we call education. This really does demand a high degree of skill. And the same argument again holds good, that one should satisfy the most well-ordered people, in the interests of those as yet less well-ordered; one should pay due regard to their desires, which are in fact the good, heavenly Eros, companion of the heavenly muse, Ourania. Common Eros, by contrast, goes with the common muse, Polymnia. The greatest caution is called for in its employment, if one is to e
gain enjoyment from it without encouraging pure self-indulgence. Similarly, in my profession, there is a great art in the correct treatment of people's desire for rich food, so that they can enjoy it without ill effects.

Thus in music and medicine, and in all other spheres of activity, human and divine, we must keep a careful eye, so far as is practicable, on both forms of Eros. 188
For both are present. The seasons of the year likewise fully illustrate their joint operation. When all the things I was talking about just now (such as hot and cold, wet and dry) hit upon the right Eros in their relation to one another, and consequently form the right sort of mixture and harmony, then they bring what is seasonable and healthy, to men and to the rest of the world of animals and plants; and all is as it should be. But when the other Eros, in violence and excess, takes over in the natural seasons of the year, it does all sorts of damage, and upsets the natural order. When that happens the result, generally, is plague and a variety of diseases—for animals b
and plants alike. Frost, hail and mildew are the result of this kind of competition and disorder involving Eros. Knowledge of Eros in connection with the movements of the stars and the seasons of the year is called astronomy.

Then again, all sacrifices, and everything which comes under the direction of the prophetic arts (that is to say, the whole relationship of gods and men to one c
another) have as their sole concern the observance and correct treatment of Eros. If, in their behaviour towards their parents, the living and the dead, or the gods, people stop satisfying the good, well-ordered Eros, if they stop honouring him and consulting him in every enterprise, and start to follow the other Eros, then the result is all kinds of wickedness. So the prophetic arts have to keep an eye on, and treat, the two forms of Eros. Their knowledge of Eros in human affairs, the Eros who is d
conducive to piety and correct observance, makes them the architects of friendship between gods and men.

So great and widespread—in fact, universal—is the power possessed, in general by all Eros, but in particular by the Eros which, in the moral sphere, acts with good sense and justice both among us and among the gods. And not only does it possess absolute power; it also brings us complete happiness, enabling us to be companions and friends both of each other and of our superiors, the gods.

c Well, I too may have left a lot out in my praise of Eros, but I have not done so deliberately. And if I have left anything out, it is up to you, Aristophanes, to fill the gap. Or if you intend to praise the god in some other way, go ahead and do that, now that you have got rid of your hiccups.

189 ARISTOPHANES Yes, they've stopped, but not without resort to the sneezing treatment. I wondered if it was the "well-ordered" part of my body which demanded all the noise and tickling involved in sneezing. Certainly the hiccups stopped the moment I tried sneezing.

ERYXIMACHUS Careful, my dear friend. You haven't started yet, and already b you're playing the fool. You'll force me to act as censor for your speech, if you start fooling around as soon as you get a chance to speak in peace.

ARISTOPHANES (laughing) Fair enough, Eryximachus. Regard my remarks so far as unsaid. But don't be too censorious. I'm worried enough already about what I'm going to say—not that it may arouse laughter (after all, there would be some point in that, and it would be appropriate to my profession), but that it may be laughed out of court.

ERYXIMACHUS Aristophanes, you're trying to eat your cake and have it. Come c on, concentrate. You'll have to justify what you say, but perhaps, if I see fit, I will acquit you.

ARISTOPHANES

Well, Eryximachus, I do intend to make a rather different kind of speech from the kind you and Pausanias made. It's my opinion that mankind is quite unaware of the

power of Eros. If they were aware of it, they would build vast temples and altars to him, and make great offerings to him. As it is, though it is of crucial importance that this observance should be paid to him, none of these things is done.

Of all the gods, Eros is the most friendly towards men. He is our helper, and cures those evils whose cure brings the greatest happiness to the human race. I'll d try to explain his power to you, and then you can go off and spread the word to others.

First of all you need to know about human nature and what has happened to it. Our original nature was not as it is now, but quite different. For one thing there were three sexes, rather than the two (male and female) we have now. The third sex was e a combination of these two. Its name has survived, though the phenomenon itself has disappeared. This single combination, comprising both male and female, was, in form and name alike, hermaphrodite. Now it survives only as a term of abuse.

Secondly, each human being formed a complete whole, spherical, with back and ribs forming a circle. They had four hands, four legs, and two faces, identical in every way, on a circular neck. They had a single head for the two faces, which 190 looked in opposite directions; four ears, two sets of genitals, and everything else as you'd expect from the description so far. They walked upright, as we do, in whichever direction they wanted. And when they started to run fast, they were just like people doing cartwheels. They stuck their legs straight out all round, and went bowling along, supported on their eight limbs, and rolling along at high speed.

The reason for having three sexes, and of this kind, was this: the male was originally the offspring of the sun, the female of the earth, and the one which was b half-and-half was the offspring of the moon, because the moon likewise is half-sun and half-earth. They were circular, both in themselves and in their motion, because of their similarity to their parents. They were remarkable for their strength and vigour, and their ambition led them to make an assault upon the gods. The story which Homer tells of the giants, Ephialtes and Otus, is told of them—that they tried c to make a way up to heaven, to attack the gods. Zeus and the other gods wondered what to do about them, and couldn't decide. They couldn't kill them, as they had the giants—striking them with thunderbolts and doing away with the whole race—because the worship and sacrifices they received from men would have been done away with as well. On the other hand, they couldn't go on allowing them to behave so outrageously.

In the end Zeus, after long and painful thought, came up with a suggestion. "I think I have an idea. Men could go on existing, but behave less disgracefully, d if we made them weaker. I'm going to cut each of them in two. This will have two advantages: it will make them weaker, and also more useful to us, because of the increase in their numbers. They will walk upright, on two legs. And if it's clear they still can't behave, and they refuse to lead a quiet life, I'll cut them in half again and they can go hopping along on one leg."

e That was his plan. So he started cutting them in two, like someone slicing vegetables for pickling, or slicing eggs with a wire. And each time he chopped one up, he told Apollo to turn the face and the half-neck round towards the cut side (so that the man could see where he'd been split, and be better behaved in future), and then to heal the rest of the wound. So Apollo twisted the faces round and gathered up the skin all round to what is now called the stomach, like a purse with strings. 191 He made a single outlet, and tied it all up securely in the middle of the stomach; this we now call the navel. He smoothed out most of the wrinkles, and formed the chest, using a tool such as cobblers use for smoothing out wrinkles in a hide stretched over a last. He left a few wrinkles, however, those around the stomach itself and the navel, as a reminder of what happened in those far-off days.

When man's natural form was split in two, each half went round looking for its other half. They put their arms round one another, and embraced each other, in b their desire to grow together again. They started dying of hunger, and also from lethargy, because they refused to do anything separately. And whenever one half died, and the other was left, the survivor began to look for another, and twined itself about it, either encountering half of a complete woman (i.e. what we now call a woman) or half a complete man. In this way they kept on dying.

Zeus felt sorry for them, and thought of a second plan. He moved their genitals to the front—up till then they had had them on the outside, and had reproduced, c not by copulation, but by discharge on to the ground, like grasshoppers. So, as I say, he moved their genitals to the front, and made them use them for reproduction by insemination, the male in the female. The idea was that if, in embracing, a man chanced upon a woman, they could produce children, and the race would increase. If man chanced upon man, they could get full satisfaction from one another's company, then separate, get on with their work, and resume the business of life.

That is why we have this innate love of one another. It brings us back to our d original state, trying to reunite us and restore us to our true human form. Each of us is a mere fragment of a man (like half a tally-stick); we've been split in two, like filleted plaice. We're all looking for our "other half". Men who are a fragment of the common sex (the one called hermaphrodite), are womanisers, and most adulterers are to be found in this category. Similarly, women of this type are nymphomaniacs e and adulteresses. On the other hand, women who are part of an original woman pay very little attention to men. Their interest is in women; lesbians are found in this class. And those who are part of a male pursue what is male. As boys, because they are slices of the male, they are fond of men, and enjoy going to bed with men and embracing them. These are the best of the boys and young men, since they are by 192 nature the most manly. Some people call them immoral—quite wrongly. It is not immorality, but boldness, courage and manliness, since they take pleasure in what is like themselves. This is proved by the fact that, when they grow up and take part in public life, it's only this kind who prove themselves men. When they come to manhood, they are lovers of boys, and don't naturally show any interest in marriage or producing children; they have to be forced into it by convention. They're quite b happy to live with one another, and not get married.

People like this are clearly inclined to have boyfriends or (as boys) inclined to have lovers, because they always welcome what is akin. When a lover of boys (or any sort of lover) meets the real thing (i.e. his other half), he is completely overwhelmed by friendship and affection and desire, more or less refusing to be c separated for any time at all. These are the people who spend their whole lives together, and yet they cannot find words for what they want from one another. No one imagines that it's simply sexual intercourse, or that sex is the reason why one gets such enormous pleasure out of the other's company. No, it's obvious that the soul of each has some other desire, which it cannot express. It can only give hints d and clues to its wishes.

Imagine that Hephaestus came and stood over them, with his smith's tools, as they lay in bed together. Suppose he asked them, "What is it you want from one another, mortals?" If they couldn't tell him, he might ask again, "Do you want to be together as much as possible, and not be separated, day or night? If that's what you want, I'm quite prepared to weld you together, and make you grow into one. You

e can be united, the two of you, and live your whole life together, as one. Even down in Hades, when you die, you can be a single dead person, rather than two. Decide whether that's what you want, and whether that would satisfy you." We can be sure that no one would refuse this offer. Quite clearly, it would be just what they wanted. They'd simply think they'd been offered exactly what they'd always been after, in sexual intercourse, trying to melt into their lovers, and so be united.

So that's the explanation; it's because our original nature was as I have
193 described, and because we were once complete. And the name of this desire and pursuit of completeness is Eros, or love. Formerly, as I say, we were undivided, but now we've been split up by god for our misdeeds—like the Arcadians by the Spartans. And the danger is that, if we don't treat the gods with respect, we may be divided again, and go round looking like figures in a bas-relief, sliced in half down the line of our noses. We'd be like torn-off counterfoils. That's why we should all encourage the utmost piety towards the gods. We're trying to avoid this fate, and
b achieve the other. So we take Eros as our guide and leader. Let no one oppose this aim—and incurring divine displeasure *is* opposing this aim—since if we are friends with god, and make our peace with him, we shall find and meet the boys who are part of ourselves, which few people these days succeed in doing.

I hope Eryximachus won't misunderstand me, and make fun of my speech, and say it's about Pausanias and Agathon. Perhaps they do come in this class, and
c are both males by nature. All I'm saying is that in general (and this applies to men and women) this is where happiness for the human race lies—in the successful pursuit of love, in finding the love who is part of our original self, and in returning to our former state. This is the ideal, but in an imperfect world we must settle for the nearest to this we can get, and this is finding a boyfriend who is mentally congenial. And if we want to praise the god who brings this about, then we should
d praise Eros, who in this predicament is our great benefactor, attracting us to what is part of ourselves, and gives us great hope for the future that he will reward respect for the gods by returning us to our original condition, healing us, and making us blessed and perfectly happy.

There you are then, Eryximachus. There is my speech about Eros. A bit different from yours, I'm afraid. So please, again, don't laugh at it, and let's hear
e what all the others have to say—or rather, both the others, since only Agathon and Socrates are left.

ERYXIMACHUS All right, I won't laugh. In any case, I thought it was a most enjoyable speech. In fact, if I did not know Socrates and Agathon to be experts on love, I would be very worried that they might have nothing to say, so abundant and varied have been the speeches so far. But knowing them as I do, I have no such anxiety.

SOCRATES It's fine for you, Eryximachus. You've already made an excellent 194
speech. If you were in my shoes—or rather, perhaps, the shoes I will be in when Agathon has made a good speech as well—then you might well be alarmed, and be in precisely the state that I am in now.

AGATHON Ah! Trying a little black magic, are you, Socrates? Are you hoping it'll make me nervous if I think the audience is expecting a great speech from me?

SOCRATES Agathon, I've seen your nerve and courage in going up on the platform b
with the actors, to present your plays, before the eyes of that vast audience. You were quite unperturbed by that, so it'd be pretty stupid of me to imagine that you'd be nervous in front of the few people here.

AGATHON I may be stage-struck, Socrates, but I'm still aware that, to anyone with any sense, a small critical audience is far more daunting than a large uncritical one.

SOCRATES It would be quite wrong for me, of all people, to suggest that you are c
lacking in taste or judgement. I'm well aware that in all your contacts with those you consider discriminating, you value their opinion more highly than that of the public. But don't put us in that category—after all, we were there, we were part of "the public". Anyway, let's pursue this: if you came across truly discriminating people (not us), you would perhaps be daunted by them, if you thought you were producing something second-rate. Is that right?

AGATHON It is.

SOCRATES Whereas offering the public something second-rate would not worry you, would it?

d PHAEDRUS Agathon, if you answer Socrates, he won't give a thought to the rest of us, so long as he has someone to talk to, particularly someone good-looking. For myself, I love hearing Socrates talk, but it's my job to supervise the progress of the speeches in praise of Eros, and get a speech out of each of you. When you've both paid your tribute to the god, then the two of you can get on with your discussion.

e AGATHON Quite right, Phaedrus. There's no reason why I shouldn't make my speech. I shall have plenty of other opportunities to talk to Socrates.

AGATHON

I want first to talk about *how* I should talk, and then talk. All the speakers so far have given me the impression that they were not so much praising the god as congratulating mankind on the good things the god provides. No one has told us
195 what the giver of these benefits is really like, in himself. And yet, in any speech of praise on any subject, the only correct procedure is to work systematically through the subject under discussion, saying what its nature is, and what benefits it gives. That is how we too should by rights be praising Eros, describing first his nature, then his gifts.

I claim, then, that though all the gods are blessed, Eros, if I may say this without offending the other gods, is the most blessed, since he is the most beautiful
b and the best. The most beautiful? Well, for a start, Phaedrus, he is the youngest of the gods. He proves this himself by running away at top speed from old age. Yet old age is swift enough, and swifter than most of us would like. It is Eros' nature to hate old age, and steer well clear of it. He lives and exists always with the young. "Birds of a feather", and all that. So, though there was much in Phaedrus' speech with which I agreed, I didn't agree with his claim that Eros was older than Cronus or Iapetus. I would say he's the youngest of the gods—eternally young, in fact. The
c earliest troubles among the gods, which Hesiod and Parmenides write about, were, if those writers are correct, the work of Necessity, not of Eros. If Eros had been there, there would have been none of this cutting, or tying, each other up, or any of the other acts of violence. There would have been friendship and peace, as there has been since Eros became king of the gods.

So, he is young. And not only young, but delicate. You need a poet like Homer to show how delicate. Homer describes Ate as a god and as delicate (or at any d
rate, with delicate feet): 'delicate are her feet; she walks not upon the ground, but goes upon the heads of men.' Presumably he's giving an example here to show how delicate—she goes not on what is hard, but on what is soft. We too can use a similar argument to show how delicate Eros is. He does not walk upon the ground, e
nor yet on men's heads (which aren't that soft anyway); he lives and moves among the softest of all things, making his home in the hearts and minds of gods and men. And not in all hearts equally. He avoids any hard hearts he comes across, and settles among the tender-hearted. He must therefore be extremely delicate, since he only ever touches (either with his feet or in any other way) the softest of the soft.

Very young, then, and very delicate. Another thing about him is that he's very 196
supple. He can't be rigid and unyielding, because he wouldn't be able to insinuate himself anywhere he likes, entering and leaving men's hearts undetected. Eros' outstanding beauty is universally agreed, and this again suggests that he is well-proportioned and supple. Ugliness and Eros are ever at odds with one another. Finally, the beauty of his skin is attested by his love of flowers. He will not settle in a man's body, or heart, or anywhere else, if it is past the first flower and bloom of b
youth. But he does settle down, and remain, in any flowery and fragrant place.

So much for the god's beauty, though I've left out more than I've said. Now I must say something about his goodness. The main thing about Eros is that no one, god or man, wrongs him or is wronged by him. Nothing is done to him, when it is done, by force. Force cannot touch Eros. When he acts, he acts without force, since c
everyone serves Eros quite willingly, and it's agreed by "our masters, the laws" that where there is mutual consent and agreement, there is justice. Moreover, he is a paragon of virtue as well as justice. After all, virtue is agreed to be control of pleasures and desires, and no pleasure is stronger than love. But if they are weaker than love, then he has control over them, and if he has control over pleasures and desires, he must be highly virtuous.

And what about courage? "Ares himself cannot hold his ground" against Eros. d
Ares does not take Eros prisoner; it is Eros—the love of Aphrodite, so the story goes—who takes Ares prisoner, and the captor is stronger than the captive. He who overcomes the bravest is himself the bravest of all.

So much for the god's justice, virtue and courage. Now for his wisdom. I must

try as hard as I can not to leave anything out, and so I too, in my turn, will start with a tribute to my own profession, following Eryximachus' example. Eros is an
e accomplished poet, so accomplished that he can turn others into poets. Everyone turns to poetry, "however philistine he may have been before", when moved by Eros. We should take this as an indication that, in general, Eros is master of all forms of literary or artistic creation. After all, no one can impart, or teach, a skill which he does not himself possess or know. And who will deny that the creation of
197 all living things is the work of Eros' wisdom, which makes all living things come into being and grow?

It's the same with any skilled activity. It is common knowledge that those who have this god for their teacher win fame and reputation; those he passes by remain in obscurity. For example, Apollo's discoveries (archery, medicine and prophecy)
b were all guided by desire and love, so he too can be called a disciple of Eros. Likewise with the Muses and the arts, Hephaestus and metalworking, Athene and weaving, and Zeus and "the governance of gods and men". And if we ask why the quarrels of the gods were settled as soon as Eros appeared, without doubt the reason was love of beauty (there being no love of ugliness). In earlier times, as I said originally, there were many violent quarrels among the gods—or so we are told—because they were in the grip of Necessity. But since Eros' birth, all manner of good has resulted, for gods and men, from the love of beauty.

c Such, Phaedrus, is my view of Eros. He stands out as beautiful and excellent in himself; and secondly, he is the origin of similar qualities in others. I am tempted to speak in verse, and say he brings

> Sweet peace to men, and calm o'er all the deep,
> Rest to the winds, to those who sorrow, sleep.

d He gives us the feeling, not of longing, but of belonging, since he is the moving spirit behind all those occasions when we meet and gather together. Festivals, dances, sacrifices—in these he is the moving spirit. Implanter of gentleness, supplanter of fierceness; generous with his kindness, ungenerous with unkindness; gracious, gentle; an example to the wise, a delight to the gods; craved by those without him, saved by those who have him; of luxury, delicacy, elegance, charm, yearning and desire he is the father; heedful of the good, heedless of the bad; in hardship and
e in fear, in need and in argument, he is the best possible helmsman, comrade, ally,

and saviour; the glory of gods and men; the best and finest guide, whom every man should follow, singing glorious praises to him, and sharing in the song which he sings to enchant the minds of gods and men.

That is my speech, Phaedrus, in part fun, in part (as far as I could make it) fairly serious. Let it be an offering to the god.

When Agathon finished speaking, we all burst into applause. We thought the young 198
man had done full justice both to himself and to the god.

SOCRATES (to Eryximachus) Well, son of Acumenus, do you still think my earlier fear unfounded? Wasn't I right when I predicted Agathon would make a brilliant speech, and there would be nothing left for me to say?

ERYXIMACHUS Your prediction was half-true. Agathon did make a good speech. But I don't think you will find nothing to say.

SOCRATES My dear fellow, what is there left for me or anyone else to say, after b
such a fine and varied speech? Maybe it wasn't all equally brilliant, but that bit at the end was enough to silence anyone with the beauty of its language and phraseology. When I realised I wasn't going to be able to make anything like such a good speech, I nearly ran away and disappeared, in embarrassment, only there was nowhere e
to go. The speech reminded me of Gorgias, and put me in exactly the position described by Homer. I was afraid, at the end of his speech there, that Agathon was going to brandish the head of Gorgias, the great speaker, at my speech, turning me to stone and silencing me. I realised then how fatuous it was to have agreed to take my turn with you in praising Eros, and to have claimed to be an expert on love. It d
turns out now that I know nothing at all about making speeches of praise. I was naive enough to suppose that one should speak the truth about whatever it was that was being praised, and that from this raw material one should select the most telling points, and arrange them as pleasingly as possible. I was pretty confident I would make a good speech, because I thought I knew about speeches of praise. However, it now seems that praising things well isn't like that; it seems to be a question of hyperbole and rhetoric, regardless of truth or falsehood. And if it's false, that's e
immaterial. So our original agreement, as it now seems, was that each of us should pretend to praise Eros, rather than really praise him.

That, I imagine, is why you credit Eros with all the good points you have dug out in his favour. You say his nature is this, and the blessings he produces are these; your object is to make him appear as noble and fine as possible (in the eyes
199 of the ignorant, presumably, since those who know about Eros clearly aren't going to believe you). Certainly your praise of him looks very fine and impressive, but I didn't realise this was what was called for; if I had known I wouldn't have agreed to take my turn in praising him. "My tongue promised, not my heart." Anyway, it can't be helped, but I don't propose to go on praising him like that—I wouldn't know how to. What I am prepared to do, if you like, is tell the truth, in my own way,
b and not in competition with your speeches. I don't want to make a complete fool of myself. What do you think, Phaedrus? Do you want a speech of that sort? Do you want to hear the truth told about Eros? And may I use whatever language and forms of speech come naturally?

Phaedrus and the others told him to make his speech, in what ever way he thought best.

SOCRATES One other point before I start, Phaedrus. Will you let me ask Agathon a few brief questions? I'd like to get his agreement before I begin.

c PHAEDRUS Yes, I'll let you. Ask away.

So Socrates began his speech, something like this.

SOCRATES

Well, my dear Agathon, I liked the beginning of your speech. You said the first thing to do was to reveal the nature of Eros; after that his achievements. I think that was an excellent starting point. And since you've explained everything else about the nature of Eros so impressively and so well, can you tell me one more thing?
d Is Eros' nature such that he is love produced by something, or by nothing? I don't mean, is he the son of a father or a mother—it would be an absurd question, to ask whether Eros is son of a father or mother. But suppose I asked you, about this

thing "father", whether a father is father of something or not? If you wanted to give an accurate answer, you would say, presumably, that a father is father of a son or a daughter, wouldn't you?

AGATHON Yes, I would.

SOCRATES And the same with a mother?

AGATHON Yes, the same.

SOCRATES Let's take a few more questions, so you can be quite clear what e
I mean. Suppose I ask, "What about a brother, simply as a brother? Is he someone's brother, or not?"

AGATHON Yes, he is.

SOCRATES His brother's or sister's, I take it?

AGATHON Yes.

SOCRATES Try, then, to answer my question about Eros. Is Eros love of nothing, or of something?

AGATHON Of something, certainly.

SOCRATES Good. Hold on to that answer. Keep it in mind, and make a mental 200
note what it is that Eros is love of. But first tell me this, this thing which Eros is love of, does he desire it, or not?

AGATHON Certainly.

SOCRATES And does he possess that which he desires and loves, or not?

AGATHON Probably not.

SOCRATES I'm not interested in probability, but in certainty. Consider this proposition: anything which desires something desires what it does not have, and it
b only desires when it is lacking something. This proposition, Agathon, seems to me to be absolutely certain. How does it strike you?

AGATHON Yes, it seems certain to me too.

SOCRATES Quite right. So would a big man want to be big, or a strong man want to be strong?

AGATHON No, that's impossible, given what we have agreed so far.

SOCRATES Because if he possesses these qualities, he cannot also lack them.

AGATHON True.

SOCRATES So if a strong man wanted to be strong, or a fast runner to be fast, or a healthy man to be healthy—but perhaps I'd better explain what I'm on
c about. I'm a bit worried that you may think that people like this, people having these qualities, can also want the qualities which they possess. So I'm trying to remove this misapprehension. If you think about it, Agathon, people cannot avoid possession of whichever of these qualities they do possess, whether they like it or not. So obviously there's no point in desiring to do so. When anyone says, "I'm in good health, and I also desire to be in good health", or "I am rich and also desire to be rich", i.e. "I desire those things which I already have", then we should answer him: "What you want is to go on possessing, in the future, the
d wealth, health, or strength you possess now, since you have them now, like it or not. So when you say you desire what you've already got, are you sure you don't just mean you want to continue to possess in the future what you possess now?" Would he deny this?

AGATHON No, he would agree.

SOCRATES But isn't this a question of desiring what he doesn't already have in his possession—i.e. the desire that what he does have should be safely and permanently available to him in the future?

AGATHON Yes, it is. e

SOCRATES So in this, or any other, situation, the man who desires something desires what is not available to him, and what he doesn't already have in his possession. And what he neither has nor himself is—that which he lacks—this is what he wants and desires.

AGATHON Absolutely.

SOCRATES Right then, let's agree on the argument so far. Eros has an existence of his own; he is in the first place love of something, and secondly, he is love of that which he is without.

AGATHON Yes. 201

SOCRATES Keeping that in mind, just recall what you said were the objects of Eros, in your speech. I'll remind you, if you like. I think what you said amounted to this: trouble among the gods was ended by their love of beauty, since there could be no love of what is ugly. Isn't that roughly what you said?

AGATHON Yes, it is.

SOCRATES And a very reasonable statement too, my friend. And this being so, Eros must have an existence as love of beauty, and not love of ugliness, mustn't he?

AGATHON Yes.

SOCRATES But wasn't it agreed that he loves what he lacks, and does not b possess?

AGATHON Yes, it was.

SOCRATES So Eros lacks, and does not possess, beauty.

AGATHON That is the inevitable conclusion.

SOCRATES Well then, do you describe as beautiful that which lacks beauty and has never acquired beauty?

AGATHON No.

SOCRATES If that is so, do you still maintain that Eros is beautiful?

AGATHON I rather suspect, Socrates, that I didn't know what I was talking about.

c SOCRATES It sounded marvellous, for all that, Agathon. Just one other small point. Would you agree that what is good is also beautiful?

AGATHON Yes, I would.

SOCRATES So if Eros lacks beauty, and if what is good is beautiful, then Eros would lack what is good also.

AGATHON I can't argue with you, Socrates. Let's take it that it is as you say.

SOCRATES What you mean, Agathon, my very good friend, is that you can't argue with the truth. Any fool can argue with Socrates. Anyway, I'll let you off for
d now, because I want to pass on to you the account of Eros which I once heard given by a woman called Diotima, from Mantinea. She was an expert on this subject, as on many others. In the days before the plague she came to the help of the Athenians in their sacrifices, and managed to gain them a ten-years' reprieve from the disease. She also taught me about love.

I'll start from the position on which Agathon and I reached agreement, and I'll give her account, as best I can, in my own words. So first I must explain, as you rightly
e laid down, Agathon, what Eros is and what he is like; then I must describe what he does. I think it'll be easiest for me to explain things as she explained them when she was questioning me, since I gave her pretty much the same answers Agathon has just been giving me. I said Eros was a great god, and a lover of beauty. Diotima proved to me, using the same argument by which I have just proved it to Agathon, that, according to my own argument, Eros was neither beautiful nor good.

"What do you mean, Diotima," I said, "Is Eros then ugly or bad?"

"Careful what you say. Do you think what is not beautiful must necessarily be ugly?"

"Obviously." 202

"And that what is not wise is ignorant? Don't you realise there is an intermediate state, between wisdom and ignorance?"

"And what is that?"

"Think of someone who has a correct opinion, but can give no rational explanation of it. You wouldn't call this knowledge (how can something irrational be knowledge?), yet it isn't ignorance either, since an opinion which accords with reality cannot be ignorance. So correct opinion is the kind of thing we are looking for, between understanding and ignorance."

"That's true."

"So don't insist that what is not beautiful must necessarily be ugly, nor that b what is not good must be bad. The same thing is equally true of Eros; just because, as you yourself admit, he is not good or beautiful, you need not regard him as ugly and bad, but as something between these extremes."

"Yet he is universally agreed to be a great god."

"By those who don't know what they are talking about, do you mean? Or those who do?"

"I mean by absolutely everyone."

Diotima laughed. "How can Eros be agreed to be a great god by people who c don't even admit that he's a god at all?"

"What people?"

"Well, you, for one. And me, for another."

"What do you mean?"

"Quite simple. The gods are all happy and beautiful, aren't they? You wouldn't go so far as to claim that any of the gods is not happy and beautiful?"

"Good Lord, no."

"And you agree that 'happy' means 'possessing what is good and beautiful'?"

"Certainly."

"But you have already admitted that Eros lacks what is good and beautiful, d and that he desires them because he lacks them."

"Yes, I have."

"How can he be a god, then, if he is without beauty and goodness?"

"He can't, apparently."

"You see, even you don't regard Eros as a god."

"What can Eros be, then? A mortal?"

"Far from it."

"What, then?"

"As in the other examples, something between a mortal and an immortal."

"And what is that, Diotima?"

c "A great spirit, Socrates. Spirits are midway between what is divine and what is human."

"What power does such a spirit possess?"

"He acts as an interpreter and means of communication between gods and men. He takes requests and offerings to the gods, and brings back instructions and benefits in return. Occupying this middle position he plays a vital role in holding the world together. He is the medium of all prophecy and religion, whether it concerns sacrifice, forms of worship, incantations, or any kind of divination
203 or sorcery. There is no direct contact between god and man. All association and communication between them, waking or sleeping, takes place through Eros. This kind of knowledge is knowledge of the spirit; any other knowledge (occupational or artistic, for example) is purely utilitarian. Such spirits are many and varied, and Eros is one of them."

"Who are his parents?"

b "That is not quite so simple, but I'll tell you, all the same. When Aphrodite was born, the gods held a banquet, at which one of the guests was Resource, the son of Ingenuity. When they finished eating, Poverty came begging, as you would expect (there being plenty of food), and hung around the doorway. Resource was drunk (on nectar, since wine hadn't been invented), so he went into Zeus' garden, and was overcome by sleep. Poverty, seeing here the solution to her own lack of resources, decided to have a child by him. So she lay with him, and conceived
c Eros. That's why Eros is a follower and servant of Aphrodite, because he was conceived at her birthday party—and also because he is naturally attracted to what is beautiful, and Aphrodite is beautiful.

So Eros' attributes are what you would expect of a child of Resource and Poverty. For a start, he's always poor, and so far from being soft and beautiful (which

is most people's view of him), he is hard, unkempt, barefoot, homeless. He sleeps on d
the ground, without a bed, lying in doorways or in the open street. He has his mother's nature, and need is his constant companion. On the other hand, from his father he has inherited an eye for beauty and the good. He is brave, enterprising and determined—a marvellous huntsman, always intriguing. He is intellectual, resourceful, a lover of wisdom his whole life through, a subtle magician, sorcerer and thinker.

His nature is neither that of an immortal nor that of a mortal. In one and the c
same day he can be alive and flourishing (when things go well), then at death's door, later still reviving as his father's character asserts itself again. But his resources are always running out, so that Eros is never either totally destitute or affluent. Similarly he is midway between wisdom and folly, as I will show you. None of the gods searches for wisdom, or tries to become wise—they are wise already. Nor does 204
anyone else wise search for wisdom. On the other hand, the foolish do not search for wisdom or try to become wise either, since folly is precisely the failing which consists in not being fine and good, or intelligent—and yet being quite satisfied with the way one is. You cannot desire what you do not realise you lack."

"Who then are the lovers of wisdom, Diotima, if they are neither the wise nor the foolish?"

"That should by now be obvious, even to a child. They must be the intermediate b
class, among them Eros. We would classify wisdom as very beautiful, and Eros is love of what is beautiful, so it necessarily follows that Eros is a lover of wisdom (lovers of wisdom being the intermediate class between the wise and the foolish). The reason for this, too, is to be found in his parentage. His father is wise and resourceful, while his mother is foolish and resourceless.

"Such is the nature of this spirit, Socrates. Your views on Eros revealed a quite common mistake. You thought (or so I infer from your comments) that Eros was c
what was loved, rather than the lover. That is why you thought Eros was beautiful. After all, what we love really *is* beautiful and delicate, perfect and delightful, whereas the lover has the quite different character I have outlined."

"Fair enough, my foreign friend, I think you're right. But if that's what Eros is like, what use is he to men?"

"That's the next point I want to explain to you, Socrates. I've told you what d
Eros is like, and what his parentage is; he is also love of what is beautiful, as you say. Now let's imagine someone asking us, 'Why is Eros love of the beautiful,

Socrates and Diotima?' Let me put it more clearly: what is it that the lover of beauty desires?"

"To possess it."

"That prompts the further question, what good does it do someone to possess beauty?"

"I don't quite know how to give a quick answer to that question."

e "Well, try a different question, about goodness rather than beauty: Socrates, what does the lover of goodness want?"

"To possess it."

"What good will it do him to possess it?"

"That's easier. It will make him happy."

205 "Yes, because those who are happy are happy because they possess what is good. The enquiry seems to have reached a conclusion, and there is no need to ask the further question, 'If someone wants to be happy, why does he want to be happy?' "

"True."

"Do you think this wish and this desire are common to all mankind, and that everyone wants always to possess what is good? Or what do you think?"

"I think it is common to all men."

"In that case, Socrates, why do we not describe all men as lovers, if everyone b always loves the same thing? Why do we describe some people as lovers, but not others?"

"I don't know. I agree with you, it is surprising."

"Not really. We abstract a part of love, and call it by the name of the whole—love—and then for the other parts we use different names."

"What names? Give me an example."

"What about this? Take a concept like creation, or composition. Composition means putting things together, and covers a wide range of activities. Any activity c which brings anything at all into existence is an example of creation. Hence the exercise of any skill is composition, and those who practise it are composers."

"True."

"All the same, they aren't all called composers. They all have different names, and it's only one subdivision of the whole class (that which deals with music and rhythm) which is called by the general name. Only this kind of creation is called composing, and its practitioners composers."

"True."

"Well, it's the same with love. In general, for anyone, any desire for goodness d and happiness is love—and it is a powerful and unpredictable force. But there are various ways of pursuing this desire—through money-making, through physical fitness, through philosophy—which do not entitle their devotees to call themselves lovers, or describe their activity as loving. Those who pursue one particular mode of loving, and make that their concern, have taken over the name of the whole (love, loving and lovers)."

"You may well be right."

"There is a theory that lovers are people in search of their other half. But e according to my theory, love is not love of a half, nor of a whole, unless it is good. After all, men are prepared to have their own feet and hands cut off, if they think there's something wrong with them. They're not particularly attached to what is their own, except in so far as they regard the good as their own property, and evil 206 as alien to them. And that's because the good is the only object of human love, as I think you will agree."

"Yes, I certainly do agree."

"Can we say, then, quite simply, that men love the good?"

"Yes."

"And presumably we should add that they want to possess the good?"

"Yes, we should."

"And not merely to possess it, but to possess it for ever."

"That also."

"In short, then, love is the desire for permanent possession of the good."

"Precisely."

"If this is always the object of our desire, what is the particular manner of b pursuit, and the particular sphere of activity, in which enthusiasm and effort qualify for the title 'love'? What is this activity? Do you know?"

"No, I don't. That's why I find your knowledge so impressive. In fact, I've kept coming to see you, because I want an answer to just that question."

"Very well, I'll tell you. The activity we're talking about is the use of what is beautiful for the purpose of reproduction, whether physical or mental."

"I'm no good at riddles. I don't understand what you mean."

c "I'll try to make myself clearer. Reproduction, Socrates, both physical and mental, is a universal human activity. At a certain age our nature desires to give birth. To do so, it cannot employ an ugly medium, but insists on what is beautiful. Sexual intercourse between man and woman is this reproduction. So there is the divine element, this germ of immortality, in mortal creatures—i.e. conception and begetting. These cannot take place in an uncongenial medium, and ugliness is
d uncongenial to everything divine, while beauty is congenial. Therefore procreation has Beauty as its midwife and its destiny, which is why the urge to reproduce becomes gentle and happy when it comes near beauty: then conception and begetting become possible. By contrast, when it comes near ugliness it becomes sullen and offended, it contracts, withdraws, and shrinks away and does not beget. It stifles the reproductive urge, and is frustrated. So in anyone who is keen (one might almost say bursting) to reproduce, beauty arouses violent emotion, because
e beauty can release its possessor from the agony of reproduction. Your opinion, Socrates, that love is desire for beauty, is mistaken."

"What is the correct view, then?"

"It is the desire to use beauty to beget and bear offspring."

"Perhaps."

"Certainly! And why to beget? Because begetting is, by human standards,
207 something eternal and undying. So if we were right in describing love as the desire always to possess the good, then the inevitable conclusion is that we desire immortality as well as goodness. On this argument, love must be desire for immortality as much as for beauty."

Those were her teachings, when she talked to me about love. And one day she asked me, "What do you think is the reason for this love and this desire? You know how strangely animals behave when they want to mate. Animals and birds, they're just the same. Their health suffers, and they get all worked up, first over
b sexual intercourse, and then over raising the young. For these ends they will fight, to the death, against far stronger opponents. They will go to any lengths, even starve themselves, to bring up their offspring. We can easily imagine human beings behaving like this from rational motives, but what can be the cause of such altruistic behaviour in animals? Do you know?"

c "No, I don't."

"Do you think you can become an expert on love without knowing?"

"Look, Diotima, I know I have a lot to learn. I've just admitted that. That's why I've come to you. So please tell me the cause of these phenomena, and anything else I should know about love."

"Well, if you believe that the natural object of love is what we have often agreed it to be, then the answer is not surprising, since the same reasoning still holds good. What is mortal tries, to the best of its ability, to be everlasting and immortal. d
It does this in the only way it can, by always leaving a successor to replace what decays. Think of what we call the life-span and identity of an individual creature. For example, a man is said to be the same individual from childhood until old age. The cells in his body are always changing, yet he is still called the same person, despite being perpetually reconstituted as parts of him decay—hair, flesh, bones, blood, his whole body, in fact. And not just his body, either. Precisely the same c
happens with mental attributes. Habits, dispositions, beliefs, opinions, desires, pleasures, pains and fears are all varying all the time for everyone. Some disappear, 208
others take their place. And when we come to knowledge, the situation is even odder. It is not just a question of one piece of knowledge disappearing and being replaced by another, so that we are never the same people, as far as knowledge goes: the same thing happens with each individual piece of knowledge. What we call studying presupposes that knowledge is transient. Forgetting is loss of knowledge, and studying preserves knowledge by creating memory afresh in us, to replace what is lost. Hence we have the illusion of continuing knowledge.

"All continuous mortal existence is of this kind. It is not the case that creatures remain always, in every detail, precisely the same—only the divine does that. It is rather that what is lost, and what decays, always leaves behind a fresh copy of itself. b
This, Socrates, is the mechanism by which mortal creatures can taste immortality—both physical immortality, and other sorts. (For immortals, of course, it's different.) So it's not surprising that everything naturally values its own offspring. They all feel this concern, and this love, because of their desire for immortality."

I found these ideas totally novel, and I said, "Well, Diotima, that's a very clever explanation. Is it really all true?" And she, in her best lecturer's manner, c
replied, "There can be no question of it. Take another human characteristic, ambition. It seems absurdly irrational until you remember my explanation. Think of the extraordinary behaviour of those who, prompted by Eros, are eager to become famous, and 'amass undying fame for the whole of time to come.' For this they will

expose themselves to danger even more than they will for their children. They will
d spend money, endure any hardship, even die for it. Think of Alcestis' willingness to die for Admetus, or Achilles' determination to follow Patroclus in death, or your Athenian king Codrus and his readiness to give up his life for his children's right to rule. Would they have done these things if they hadn't thought they were leaving behind them an undying memory which we still possess—of their courage? Of course not. The desire for undying nobility, and the good reputation which goes
e with it, is a universal human motive. The nobler people are, the more strongly they feel it. They desire immortality.

"Those whose creative urge is physical tend to turn to women, and pursue Eros by this route. The production of children gains them, as they imagine, immortality
209 and a name and happiness for themselves, for all time. In others the impulse is mental or spiritual—people who are creative mentally, much more than physically. They produce what you would expect the mind to conceive and produce. And what is that? Thought, and all other human excellence. All poets are creators of this kind, and so are those artists who are generally regarded as inventive. However, under the general heading 'thought', by far the finest and most important item is the art of political and domestic economy, what we call good judgement, and justice.

"Someone who, right from his youth, is mentally creative in these areas, when
b he is ready, and the time comes, feels a strong urge to give birth, or beget. So he goes around, like everyone else, searching, as I see it, for a medium of beauty in which he can create. He will never create in an ugly medium. So in his desire to create he is attracted to what is physically beautiful rather than ugly. But if he comes across a beautiful, noble, well-formed mind, then he finds the combination particularly attractive. He'll drop everything and embark on long conversations about goodness, with such a companion, trying to teach him about the nature and
c behaviour of the good man. Now that he's made contact with someone beautiful, and made friends with him, he can produce and bring to birth what he long ago conceived. Present or absent, he keeps it in mind, and joins with his friends in bringing his conception to maturity. In consequence such people have a far stronger bond between them than there is between the parents of children; and they form much firmer friendships, because they are jointly responsible for finer, and more lasting, offspring.

d "We would all choose children of this kind for ourselves, rather than human

children. We look with envy at Homer and Hesiod, and the other great poets, and the marvellous progeny they left behind, which have brought them undying fame and memory: or, if you like, at children of the kind which Lycurgus left in Sparta, the salvation of Sparta and practically all Greece. In your city, Solon is highly thought of, as the father of your laws, as are many other men in other states, both Greek e
and foreign. They have published to the world a variety of noble achievements, and created goodness of every kind. There are shrines to such people in honour of their offspring, but none to the producers of ordinary children.

"You, too, Socrates, could probably be initiated this far into knowledge of Eros. But all this, rightly pursued, is a mere preliminary to the full rites, and final 210
revelation, which might well be beyond you. Still, I'll tell you about it, so that if I fail, it won't be for want of trying. Try to follow if you can.

"The true follower of this subject must begin, as a young man, with the pursuit of physical beauty. In the first place, if his mentor advises him properly, he should be attracted, physically, to one individual; at this stage his offspring are beautiful discussions and conversations. Next he should realise that the physical beauty of b
one body is akin to that of any other body, and that if he's going to pursue beauty of appearance, it's the height of folly not to regard the beauty which is in all bodies as one and the same. This insight will convert him into a lover of all physical beauty, and he will become less obsessive in his pursuit of his one former passion, as he realises its unimportance.

"The next stage is to put a higher value on mental than on physical beauty. The right qualities of mind, even in the absence of any great physical beauty, will be enough to awaken his love and affection. He will generate the kind of discussions c
which are improving to the young. The aim is that, as the next step, he should be compelled to contemplate the beauty of customs and institutions, to see that all beauty of this sort is related, and consequently to regard physical beauty as trivial.

"From human institutions his teacher should direct him to knowledge, so that he may, in turn, see the beauty of different types of knowledge. Whereas before, in servile and contemptible fashion, he was dominated by the individual case, loving d
the beauty of a boy, or a man, or a single human activity, now he directs his eyes to what is beautiful in general, as he turns to gaze upon the limitless ocean of beauty. Now he produces many fine and inspiring thoughts and arguments, as he gives his undivided attention to philosophy. Here he gains in strength and stature until his

attention is caught by that one special knowledge—the knowledge of a beauty
c which I will now try to describe to you. So pay the closest possible attention.

"When a man has reached this point in his education in love, studying the different types of beauty in correct order, he will come to the final end and goal of this education. Then suddenly he will see a beauty of a breathtaking nature,
211 Socrates, the beauty which is the justification of all his efforts so far. It is eternal, neither coming to be nor passing away, neither increasing nor decreasing. Moreover it is not beautiful in part, and ugly in part, nor is it beautiful at one time, and not at another; nor beautiful in some respects, but not in others; nor beautiful here and ugly there, as if beautiful in some people's eyes, but not in others. It will not appear to him as the beauty of a face, or hands, or anything physical—nor as an idea or branch of knowledge, nor as existing in any determinate place, such as a living creature, or the earth, or heaven, or anywhere like that. It exists for all time, by
b itself and with itself, unique. All other forms of beauty derive from it, but in such a way that their creation or destruction does not strengthen or weaken it, or affect it in any way at all. If a man progresses (as he will do, if he goes about his love affairs in the right way) from the lesser beauties, and begins to catch sight of this beauty, then he is within reach of the final revelation. Such is the experience of the man who approaches, or is guided towards, love in the right way, beginning with
c the particular examples of beauty, but always returning from them to the search for that one beauty. He uses them like a ladder, climbing from the love of one person to love of two; from two to love of all physical beauty; from physical beauty to beauty in human behaviour; thence to beauty in subjects of study; from them he arrives finally at that branch of knowledge which studies nothing but ultimate beauty. Then at last he understands what true beauty is.

d "That, if ever, is the moment, my dear Socrates, when a man's life is worth living, as he contemplates beauty itself. Once seen, it will not seem to you to be a good such as gold, or fashionable clothes, or the boys and young men who have such an effect on you now when you see them. You, and any number of people like you, when you see your boyfriends and spend all your time with them, are quite prepared (or would be, if it were possible) to go without food and drink, just looking at them and being with them. But suppose it were granted to someone to see
e beauty itself quite clearly, in its pure, undiluted form—not clogged up with human flesh and colouring, and a whole lot of other worthless and corruptible matter. No,

imagine he were able to see the divine beauty itself in its unique essence. Don't you think he would find it a wonderful way to live, looking at it, contemplating 212
it as it should be contemplated, and spending his time in its company? It cannot fail to strike you that only then will it be possible for him, seeing beauty as it should be seen, to produce, not likenesses of goodness (since it is no likeness he has before him), but the real thing (since he has the real thing before him); and that this producing, and caring for, real goodness earns him the friendship of the gods and makes him, if anyone, immortal."

There you are, then, Phaedrus and the rest of you. That's what Diotima said to b
me, and I, for one, find it convincing. And it's because I'm convinced that I now try to persuade other people as well that man, in his search for this goal, could hardly hope to find a better ally than Eros. That's why I say that everyone should honour Eros, and why I myself honour him, and make the pursuit of Eros my chief concern, and encourage others to do the same. Now, and for all time, I praise the power and vigour of Eros, to the limits of my ability.

That's my speech, Phaedrus. You can take it, if you like, as a formal eulogy of c
Eros. Or you can call it by any other name you please.

This speech was greeted with applause, and Aristophanes started saying something about Socrates' reference to his speech, when suddenly there was a tremendous sound of hammering at the front door—people going home from a party, by the sound of it. You could hear the voice of a flute-girl.

AGATHON (to his slaves) Could you see who that is? If it's one of my friends, ask him in. Otherwise, say we've stopped drinking and are just going to bed. d

Almost at once we heard Alcibiades' voice from the courtyard. He was very drunk, and shouting at the top of his voice, asking "where Agathon was", and demanding "to be taken to Agathon". So in he came, supported by the girl, and some of his followers. He stood there in the doorway, wearing a luxuriant garland of ivy and violets, with his head covered in ribbons. e

ALCIBIADES Greetings, gentlemen. Will you allow me to join your gathering completely drunk? Or shall we just crown Agathon (which is what we've come

for) and go away? I couldn't come yesterday, but now here I am, with ribbons in my hair, so that I can take a garland from my own head, and crown the man whom I hereby proclaim the cleverest and handsomest man in Athens. Are you going to laugh at me for being drunk? Well, you may laugh, but I'm sure I'm right, all the
213 same. Anyway, those are my terms. So tell me right away: should I come in? Will you drink with me, or not?

Then everyone started talking at once, telling him to come in and sit down. And Agathon called him over. So over he came, assisted by his companions. He was taking off his ribbons, getting ready to put the garland on Agathon, and with the
b ribbons in front of his eyes he didn't see Socrates. So he sat down next to Agathon, between him and Socrates, Socrates moving aside, when he saw him, to make room. As he sat down he greeted Agathon, and put the garland on his head.

AGATHON (to his slaves) Take Alcibiades' shoes off. He can make a third at this table.

ALCIBIADES Excellent, but who is the other person drinking at our table? (Turning and seeing Socrates, and leaping to his feet) My God, what's this? Socrates here? You've been lying in wait here for me, just as you used to do. You were always
c turning up unexpectedly, wherever I least expected you. What are you doing here this time? And come to that, how've you managed to get yourself a place next to the most attractive person in the room? You ought to be next to someone like Aristophanes; he sets out to make himself ridiculous, and succeeds. Shouldn't you be with him?

d SOCRATES I'm going to need your protection, Agathon. I've found the love of this man a bit of a nightmare. From the day I took a fancy to him, I haven't been allowed to look at, or talk to, anyone attractive at all. If I do he gets envious and jealous, and starts behaving outrageously. He insults me, and can barely keep his hands off me. So you make sure he doesn't do anything now. You reconcile us, or defend me if he resorts to violence. His insane sexuality scares me stiff.

ALCIBIADES There can be no reconciliation between you and me. However,
e I'll get my revenge another time. For the moment, give me some of those ribbons,

Agathon, so I can make a garland for this remarkable head of his as well. I don't want him complaining that I crowned you, and not him, though he is the international grandmaster of words—and not just the day before yesterday, like you, but all the time. (As he said this he took some of the ribbons, made a garland for Socrates, and sat down.) Well, gentlemen, you seem to me to be pretty sober. We can't have that. You'll have to drink. After all, that's what we agreed. So I'm going to choose a Master of Ceremonies, to see you all get enough to drink. I choose myself. Agathon, let them bring a large cup, if you've got one. No, wait! (Suddenly catching sight of an ice-bucket holding upwards of half a gallon.) No need for that. Boy, bring me that ice-bucket. (He filled it, and started off by draining it himself. Then he told the 214
slave to fill it up again for Socrates.) A useless ploy against Socrates, gentlemen. It doesn't matter how much you give him to drink, he'll drink it and be none the worse for wear. (So the slave filled the bucket for Socrates, who drank it.)

ERYXIMACHUS What's the plan, Alcibiades? Are we just going to sit here and drink as if we were dying of thirst? Aren't we going to talk, or sing, at all while b
we drink?

ALCIBIADES Ah, Eryximachus. Most excellent scion of a most excellent and sensible father. Good evening.

ERYXIMACHUS Good evening to you too. But what *do* you want us to do?

ALCIBIADES Whatever you recommend. We must do as you say. After all, "a doctor is worth a dozen ordinary men". So you tell us your prescription.

ERYXIMACHUS Very well, listen. We had decided, before you came, that going round anticlockwise, each of us in turn should make the best speech he could about c
Eros, in praise of him. We've all made our speeches. You've drunk but you haven't spoken. So it's only fair that you should speak now; after that you can give any instructions you like to Socrates, and he can do the same to the man on his right, and so on all the way round.

ALCIBIADES That's a good idea, Eryximachus. But it's grossly unfair to ask me, drunk, to compete with you sober. Also, my dear friend, I hope you didn't pay any

d attention to Socrates' remarks just now. Presumably you realise the situation is the exact opposite of what he said. He's the one who will resort to violence, if I praise anyone else, god or man, in his presence.

SOCRATES Can't you hold your tongue?

ALCIBIADES Don't worry, I wouldn't dream of praising anyone else if you're here.

ERYXIMACHUS Well, that'll do, if you like. Praise Socrates.

e ALCIBIADES Really? You think I should, Eryximachus? Shall I set about him, and get my own back on him, here in front of you all?

SOCRATES Hey! What are you up to? Are you trying to make a fool of me by praising me? Or what?

ALCIBIADES I'm going to tell the truth. Do you mind that?

SOCRATES Of course not. In fact, I'm all in favour of it.

ALCIBIADES I can't wait to start. And here's what you can do. If I say anything
215 that's not true, you can interrupt me, if you like, and tell me I'm wrong. I shan't get anything wrong on purpose, but don't be surprised if my recollection of things is a bit higgledy-piggledy. It's not easy, when you're as drunk as I am, to give a clear and orderly account of someone as strange as you.

ALCIBIADES

Gentlemen, I'm going to try and praise Socrates using similes. He may think I'm trying to make a fool of him, but the point of the simile is its accuracy, not its
b absurdity. I think he's very like one of those Silenus-figures sculptors have on their shelves. They're made with flutes or pipes. You can open them up, and when you

do you find little figures of the gods inside. I also think Socrates is like the satyr Marsyas. As far as your appearance goes, Socrates, even you can't claim these are poor comparisons; but I'll tell you how the likeness holds good in other ways: just listen. You're a troublemaker, aren't you? Don't deny it, I can bring witnesses. You may not play the pipes, like Marsyas, but what you do is much more amazing. He c
had only to open his mouth to delight men, but he needed a musical instrument to do it. The same goes for anyone nowadays who plays his music—I count what Olympus played as really Marsyas', since he learnt from him. His is the only music which carries people away, and reveals those who have a desire for the gods and their rites. Such is its divine power, and it makes no difference whether it's played by an expert, or by a mere flute-girl.

You have the same effect on people. The only difference is that you do it with words alone, without the aid of any instrument. We can all listen to anyone else d
talking, and it has virtually no effect on us, no matter what he's talking about, or how good a speaker he is. But when we listen to you, or to someone else using your arguments, even if he's a hopeless speaker, we're overwhelmed and carried away. This is true of men, women and children alike.

For my own part, gentlemen, I would like to tell you on my honour (only you would certainly think I was drunk) the effect what he says has had on me in e
the past—and still does have, to this day. When I hear him, it's like the worst kind of religious hysteria. My heart pounds, and I find myself in floods of tears, such is the effect of his words. And I can tell lots of other people feel the same. I used to listen to Pericles and other powerful speakers, and I thought they spoke well. But they never had the effect on me of turning all my beliefs upside down, with the disturbing realisation that my whole life is that of a slave. Whereas this Marsyas 216
here has often made me feel that, and decide that the kind of life I lead is just not worth living. You can't deny it, Socrates.

Even now I know in my heart of hearts that if I were to listen to him, I couldn't resist him. The same thing would happen again. He forces me to admit that with all my faults I do nothing to improve myself, but continue in public life just the same. b
So I tear myself away, as if stopping my ears against the Sirens; otherwise I would spend my whole life there sitting at his feet. He's the only man who can appeal to my better nature (not that most people would reckon I *had* a better nature), because I'm only too aware I have no answer to his arguments. I know I should do as he

tells me, but when I leave him I have no defence against my own ambition and desire for recognition. So I run for my life, and avoid him, and when I see him, c I'm embarrassed, when I remember conclusions we've reached in the past. I would often cheerfully have seen him dead, and yet I know that if that did happen, I should be even more upset. So I just can't cope with the man.

I'm by no means the only person to be affected like this by his satyr's music, but that isn't all I have to say about his similarity to those figures I likened him to, and about his remarkable powers. Believe me, none of you really knows the man. d So I'll enlighten you, now that I've begun.

Your view of Socrates is of someone who fancies attractive men, spends all his time with them, finds them irresistible—and you know how hopelessly ignorant and uncertain he is. And yet this pose is extremely Silenus-like. It's the outward mask he wears, like the carved Silenus. Open him up, and he's a model of restraint—you wouldn't believe it, my dear fellow-drinkers. Take my word for it, it makes no difference at all how attractive you are, he has an astonishing contempt for that kind e of thing. Similarly with riches, or any of the other so-called advantages we possess. He regards all possessions as worthless, and us humans as insignificant. No, I mean it—he treats his whole life in human society as a game or puzzle.

But when he's serious, when he opens up and you see the real Socrates—I don't know if any of you has ever seen the figure inside. I saw it once, and it struck me as utterly godlike and golden and beautiful and wonderful. In fact, I thought I must simply do anything he told me. And since I thought he was serious about 217 my good looks, I congratulated myself on a fantastic stroke of luck, which had given me the chance to satisfy Socrates, and be the recipient, in return, of all his knowledge. I had, I may say, an extremely high opinion of my own looks.

That was my plan, so I did what I had never done up to then—I sent away b my attendant, and took to seeing him on my own. You see, I'm going to tell you the whole truth, so listen carefully, and you tell them, Socrates, if I get anything wrong. Well, gentlemen, I started seeing him—just the two of us—and I thought he would start talking to me as lovers do to their boyfriends when they're alone together. I was very excited. But nothing like that happened at all. He spent the day talking to c me as usual, and then left. I invited him to the gymnasium with me, and exercised with him there, thinking I might make some progress that way. So he exercised and wrestled with me, often completely on our own, and (needless to say) it got

me nowhere at all. When that turned out to be no good, I thought I'd better make a pretty determined assault on the man, and not give up, now that I'd started. I wanted to find out what the trouble was. So I asked him to dinner, just like a lover with designs on his boyfriend.

He took some time to agree even to this, but finally I did get him to come. d The first time he came, he had dinner, and then got up to go. I lost my nerve, that time, and let him go. But I decided to try again. He came to dinner, and I kept him talking late into the night. When he tried to go home, I made him stay, saying it was too late to go. So he stayed the night on the couch next to mine. There was no one else sleeping in the room.

What I've told you so far I'd be quite happy to repeat to anyone. The next part e I'm only telling you because (a) I'm drunk—"in vino veritas", and all that—and (b) since I've started praising Socrates, it seems wrong to leave out an example of his superior behaviour. Besides, I'm like someone who's been bitten by an adder. They say that a man who's had this happen to him will only say what it was like to others who've been bitten; they're the only people who will understand, and make 218 allowances for, his willingness to say or do anything, such is the pain. Well, I've been bitten by something worse than an adder, and in the worst possible place. I've been stung, or bitten, in my heart or soul (whatever you care to call it) by a method of philosophical argument, whose bite, when it gets a grip on a young and intelligent mind, is sharper than any adder's. It makes one willing to say or do anything. I can see all these Phaedruses and Agathons, Eryximachuses, Pausaniases, b Aristodemuses and Aristophaneses here, not to mention Socrates himself and the rest of you. You've all had a taste of this wild passion for philosophy, so you'll understand me, and forgive what I did then, and what I'm telling you now. As for the servants, and anyone else who's easily shocked, or doesn't know what I'm talking about, they'll just have to put something over their ears.

There we were, then, gentlemen. The lamp had gone out, the slaves had gone to bed. I decided it was time to abandon subtlety, and say plainly what I was after. c So I nudged him. "Socrates, are you asleep?" "No." "Do you know what I've decided?" "What?" "I think you're the ideal person to be my lover, but you seem to be a bit shy about suggesting it. So I'll tell you how I feel about it. I think I'd be crazy not to satisfy you in this way, just as I'd do anything else for you if it was in my power—or in my friends' power. Nothing matters more to me than my own d

improvement, and I can't imagine a better helper than you. Anyone with any sense would think worse of me for not giving a man like you what he wants than most ignorant people would if I did give you what you want."

Socrates listened to this. Then, with characteristic irony, he replied. "My dear
e Alcibiades, you're certainly nobody's fool, if you're right in what you say about me, and I do have some power to improve you. It must be remarkable beauty you see in me, far superior to your own physical beauty. If that's the aim of your deal with me, to exchange beauty for beauty, then you're trying to get much the better of the bargain. You want to get real beauty in exchange for what is commonly mistaken for it, like Diomedes getting gold armour in return for his bronze. Better think
219 again, however. You might be wrong about me. Judgment begins when eyesight starts to fail, and you're still a long way from that."

I listened, then said: "Well, as far as I am concerned, that's how things stand.
b I've told you my real feelings. You must decide what you think best for yourself and for me." "That's good advice. We must think about it some time, and act as seems best to us, in this matter as in others."

After this exchange, thinking my direct assault had made some impact, I got up, before he could say anything more, wrapped my cloak around him (it was winter), and lay down with him under his rough cloak. I put my arms round him.
c I spent the whole night with him, remarkable, superhuman being that he is—still telling the truth, Socrates, you can't deny it—but he was more than equal to my advances. He rejected them, laughed at my good looks, and treated them with contempt; and I must admit that, as far as looks went, I thought I was quite something, members of the jury. (I call you that, since I'm accusing Socrates of contempt.) In short, I promise you faithfully, I fell asleep, and when I woke up in the morning I'd slept with Socrates all night, but absolutely nothing had happened.
d It was just like sleeping with one's father or elder brother.

Imagine how I felt after that. I was humiliated and yet full of admiration for Socrates' character—his restraint and strength of mind. I'd met a man whose equal, in intelligence and control, I didn't think I should ever meet again. I couldn't have
e a row with him; that would just lose me his friendship. Nor could I see any way of attracting him. I knew money would make as little impression on him as Trojan weapons on Ajax, and he'd already escaped my one sure means of ensnaring him. I didn't know what to do, and I went around infatuated with the man. No one's ever been so infatuated.

That was the background to our military service together in Potidaea, where we were messmates. In the first place there was his toughness—not only greater than mine, but greater than anyone else's. Sometimes we were cut off and had to go without food, as happens on campaign. No one could match him for endurance. 220
On the other hand, he was the one who really made the most of it when there was plenty. He wouldn't drink for choice, but if he had to, he drank us all under the table. Surprising as it may seem, no man has ever seen Socrates drunk. I've no doubt you'll see confirmation of that this evening. As for the weather (they have pretty savage winters up there), his indifference to it was always astonishing, but one occasion stands out in particular. There was an incredibly severe frost. No one b
went outside, or if they did, they went muffled up to the eyeballs, with their feet wrapped up in wool or sheepskin. In these conditions Socrates went out in the same cloak he always wore, and walked barefoot over the ice with less fuss than the rest of us who had our feet wrapped up. The men didn't like it at all; they thought he c
was getting at them.

So much for that. But there's another exploit of this"conquering hero" during that campaign, which I ought to tell you about. He was studying a problem one morning, and he stood there thinking about it, not making any progress, but not giving up either—just standing there, trying to find the answer. By midday people were beginning to take notice, and remark to one another in some surprise that Socrates had been standing there thinking since dawn. Finally, in the evening after supper, some of the Ionians brought out their mattresses (this was in summer), and slept in the open, keeping an eye on him to see if he'd stand there all night. And d
sure enough he did stand there, until dawn broke and the sun rose. Then he said a prayer to the sun and left.

Should I say something about his conduct in action? Yes, I think he's earned it. In the battle in which the generals gave me a decoration, my own life was saved e
by none other than Socrates. He refused to leave me when I was wounded, and saved both me and my weapons. So I recommended that the generals should give you the decoration. Isn't that true, Socrates? You can't object to that, or say I'm lying, can you? In fact the generals were inclined to favour me, because of my social position, and wanted to give it to me, but you were keener than they were that I should get it, rather than you.

And you should have seen him, gentlemen, on the retreat from Delium. I was with him, but I was on horseback, and he was on foot. He was retreating, 221

amid the general rout, with Laches. I came upon them, and when I saw them I told them not to panic, and said I'd stick by them. This time I got a better view of Socrates than I had at Potidaea, since I was on horseback, and less worried about b my own safety. For a start, he was much more composed than Laches. And then I thought your description of him, Aristophanes, was as accurate there as it is here in Athens, "marching along with his head in the air, staring at all around him", calmly contemplating friend and foe alike. It was perfectly clear, even from a distance, that any attempt to lay a finger on him would arouse vigorous resistance. So he and his c companion escaped unhurt. On the whole, in battle, you don't meddle with people like that. You go after the ones in headlong flight.

I could go on praising Socrates all night, and tell you some surprising things. Many of his qualities can be found in other people, and yet it's remarkable how unlike he is to anyone in the past or present. You can compare Brasidas, or someone d like that, with Achilles; Pericles with Nestor or Antenor (for example); and make other similar comparisons. But you could go a long way and not find a match, dead or living, for Socrates. So unusual are the man himself and his arguments. You have to go back to my original comparison of the man and his arguments, to Silenuses and satyrs. I didn't say this at the beginning, but his arguments, when you really look at them, are also just like Silenus-figures. If you decided to listen to one, it would c strike you at first as ludicrous. On the face of it, it's just a collection of irrelevant words and phrases; but those are just the outer skin of this trouble-making satyr. It's all donkeys and bronzesmiths, shoemakers and tanners. He always seems to be repeating himself, and people who haven't heard him before, and aren't too quick 222 on the uptake, laugh at what he says. But look beneath the surface, and get inside them, and you'll find two things. In the first place, they're the only arguments which really make any sense; on top of that they are supremely inspiring, because they contain countless models of excellence and pointers towards it. In fact, they deal with everything you should be concerned about, if you want to lead a good and noble life.

That's my speech, gentlemen, in praise of Socrates—though I've included b a bit of blame as well for his outrageous treatment of me. And I'm not the only sufferer. There's Charmides, the son of Glaucon, and Euthydemus, the son of Diocles, and lots of others. He seduces them, like a lover seducing his boyfriend,

and then it turns out he's not their lover at all; in fact, they're his lovers. So take my advice, Agathon, and don't be seduced. Learn from our experience, rather than at first hand, like Homer's "fool who learnt too late". Don't trust him an inch.

Alcibiades' candour aroused some amusement. He seemed to be still in love c with Socrates.

SOCRATES Not so drunk after all, Alcibiades; or you wouldn't have avoided, so elegantly and so deviously, revealing the real object of your speech, just slipping it in at the end, as if it were an afterthought. What you're really trying to do is turn Agathon and me against one another. You think that I should be your lover, and d no one else's; and that you, and no one else, should be Agathon's. Well, it hasn't worked. All that stuff about satyrs and Silenuses is quite transparent. You mustn't let him get away with it, my dear Agathon; you must make sure no one turns us against each other.

AGATHON You may be right, Socrates. His sitting between us, to keep us apart, bears that out. But it won't work. I'll come round and sit next to you. e

SOCRATES Good idea. Sit here, round this side.

ALCIBIADES Ye gods. What I have to put up with from the man. He has to keep scoring off me. Look, at least let Agathon sit in the middle.

SOCRATES Out of the question. You've just praised me, and now I must praise the person on my right. If Agathon sits next to you, he can't be expected to make *another* speech in praise of me. I'd better make one in praise of him instead. No, you'll have to admit defeat, my good friend, and put up with me praising the boy. 223 I look forward to it.

AGATHON What a bit of luck. I'm certainly not staying here, Alcibiades. I'd much rather move, and get myself praised by Socrates.

ALCIBIADES That's it, the same old story. Whenever Socrates is around, no one else can get near anyone good-looking. Like now, for example. Look how easily he finds plausible reasons why Agathon should sit next to him.

b Agathon got up to come and sit by Socrates. Suddenly a whole crowd of people on their way home from a party turned up at the door, and finding it open (someone was just leaving), they came straight in, and sat down to join us. Things became incredibly noisy and disorderly, and we couldn't avoid having far too much to drink. Eryximachus and Phaedrus and some others went home. I fell asleep, and slept for
c some time, the nights being long at that time of year. When I woke up it was almost light, and the cocks were crowing. I could see that everyone had gone home or to sleep, apart from Agathon, Aristophanes, and Socrates. They were still awake and drinking (passing a large bowl round anticlockwise). Socrates was holding the floor.
d I've forgotten most of what he was saying, since I missed the beginning of it, and was still half-asleep anyway. The gist of it was that he was forcing them to admit that the same man could be capable of writing comedy and tragedy, and hence that a successful tragedian must also be able to write comedy. As they were being driven to this conclusion, though not really following the argument, they dropped off. Aristophanes went to sleep first, and then, as it was getting light, Agathon. Socrates made them both comfortable, and got up to leave himself. I followed him, as usual. He went to the Lyceum, had a bath, spent the rest of the day as he normally would, and then, towards evening, went home to bed.

Friendship and Happiness —the Nicomachean Ethics

What makes a life worth living? How do I live my life well? Aristotle (384–322 BCE) offers a systematic inquiry into these questions in the *Nicomachean Ethics*. He proposes that all human actions seek some good. Among the many goods, the highest and the most complete one is *eudaimonia*, a Greek word that means doing well, living well, or flourishing. *Eudaimonia* is final, complete, and self-sufficient; that is, having attained it, we need to pursue no further. It is *eudaimonia* that makes a life worth living.

Eudaimonia is most widely translated into happiness in English. In modern usage, happiness suggests a momentary feeling of pleasure. *Eudaimonia* is different from this modern understanding of happiness in that it is defined not by our feelings at particular moments, but by our continuous pursuit that lasts a lifetime (1098a20). The Aristotelian idea of happiness can be summarized in this analogy from the *Nicomachean Ethics*, "One swallow does not make a summer; neither does one day." (1098a20)

To pursue happiness, we need to examine virtue (or excellence, Greek *aretē*). Aristotle's idea of virtue has a wider application than our modern understanding. For instance, plants' virtue is to grow well. Human beings are plantlike in that they, too, share the capacity to grow, but this capacity plays no part in determining whether a human being is living well or not. Human beings excel in a different way; we reason for ourselves what our goals would be in life, and pursue them spontaneously. This is precisely what distinguishes human beings as such. In the *Nicomachean Ethics*, Aristotle explains these ideas by the functional argument (1097b25–1098a20). Here, function (Greek *ergon*) means characteristic task and activity. Human beings' "proper function" (1098a) (or what is essential to them as human beings) is to perform activities guided by reason throughout their whole lifetime. The function of good human beings is to perform these activities well.

If virtue is examined in terms of an individual's life, is our pursuit of the good life an egoistic one? Aristotle proposes that what is good for one person may also benefit others. Since by nature, we are social (sometimes translated as political) beings, we need friends. When we live with fine friends who take fine actions, our virtues remain active and we receive "training in virtue" (1170a10). This explains the theme we ascribe to our selection, "Friendship and Happiness".

Reading Aristotle after Plato's dramatic dialogue, we leap into a stylistically different world. While Plato's *Symposium* is marked by its lively characterization and literary expression, Aristotle, in the *Nicomachean Ethics*, presents his ideas in prose, which typically takes us from some common beliefs or puzzling phenomena to a set of questions and their explication, and eventually resolving them. As you walk through Aristotle's path, feel for yourself its grain and texture, and decide for yourself if it is the good that you would seek.

The translation we use is by J.A.K. Thomson. It is chosen primarily because of its accessibility to modern readers.

Yeung Yang

from

Nicomachean Ethics

by Aristotle

I
THE OBJECT OF LIFE

i.

Every rational activity aims at some end or good.
One end (like one activity) may be
subordinate to another

1094a

Every art and every investigation, and similarly every action and pursuit, is considered to aim at some good. Hence the good has been rightly defined as "that at which all things aim". Clearly, however, there is some difference between the ends at which they aim: some are activities and others results distinct from the activities. Where there are ends distinct from the actions, the results are by nature superior to the activities. Since there are many actions, arts and sciences, it follows that their ends are many too—the end of medical science is health; of military science, victory; of economic science,[1] wealth. In the case of all skills of this kind that come under

[1] i.e. household or property management.

From *The Nicomachean Ethics*, translated by J. A. K. Thomson, revised with notes and appendices by Hugh Tredennick (Penguin Classics 1955, Revised edition 1976). Reproduced by permission of Penguin Books Ltd.

a single faculty—as a skill in making bridles or any other part of a horse's trappings comes under horsemanship, while this and every kind of military action comes under military science, so in the same way other skills are subordinate to yet others—in all these the ends of the directive arts are to be preferred in every case to those of the subordinate ones, because it is for the sake of the former that the latter are pursued also. It makes no difference whether the ends of the actions are the activities themselves or something apart from them, as in the case of the sciences we have mentioned.

If, then, our activities have some end which we want for its own sake, and for the sake of which we want all the other ends—if we do not choose everything for the sake of something else (for this will involve an infinite progression, so that our aim will be pointless and ineffectual)—it is clear that this must be the good, that is, the supreme good. Does it not follow, then, that a knowledge of the good is of great importance to us for the conduct of our lives? Are we not more likely to achieve our aim if we have a target? If this is so, we must try to describe at least in outline what the good really is, and by which of the sciences or faculties[2] it is studied.

[. . .]

v.

The three types of life. Neither pleasure nor public honour seems to be an adequate end; the contemplative life will be considered later

(1095b) But let us resume from the point at which we digressed. To judge by their lives, the masses and the most vulgar seem—not unreasonably—to believe that the good or happiness is pleasure. Accordingly they ask for nothing better than the life of enjoyment. (Broadly speaking, there are three main types of life: the one just mentioned, the political and, thirdly, the contemplative.[3]) The utter servility of the masses comes out in their preference for a bovine existence; still, their view

[2] Here "faculty" (*dunamis*) means "art" or "practical science".

[3] Cf. Plato, *Republic* 581C; the division is attributed to Pythagoras.

obtains consideration from the fact that many of those who are in positions of power share the tastes of Sardanapalus.[4] Cultured people, however, and men of affairs identify the good with honour, because this is (broadly speaking) the goal of political life. Yet it appears to be too superficial to be the required answer. Honour is felt to depend more on those who confer than on him who receives it; and we feel instinctively that the good is something proper to its possessor and not easily taken from him. Again, people seem to seek honour in order to convince themselves of their own goodness; at any rate it is by intelligent men, and in a community where they are known, and for their goodness, that they seek to be honoured; so evidently in their view goodness is superior to honour. One might even be inclined to suppose that goodness rather than honour is the end pursued in public life. But even this appears to be somewhat deficient as an end, because the possession of goodness is thought to be compatible even with being asleep, or with leading a life of inactivity, and also with incurring the most atrocious suffering and misfortune; and nobody would call such a life happy—unless he was defending a paradox.[5] So much for these views: they have been fully treated in current discussions.[6] The third type of life is the contemplative, and this we shall examine later.[7]

As for the life of the businessman, it does not give him much freedom of action. Besides, wealth is obviously not the good that we are seeking, because it serves only as a means; i.e. for getting something else. Hence the earlier suggestions might be supposed to be more likely ends, because they are appreciated on their own account; but evidently they too are inadequate, and many attacks on them have been published.[8] Let them therefore be dismissed.

[. . .]

[4] An Assyrian king of legendary sensuality.

[5] A *thesis*, i.e. a paradoxical generalization by a leading philosopher; cf. *Topics* 104b19–28, where examples are quoted.

[6] Apparently at a popular level.

[7] In Book X.

[8] Following the reading of the best Greek manuscripts.

vii.

What is the good for man? It must be the ultimate end or object of human life: something that is in itself completely satisfying. Happiness fits this description

(1097a) 15 Let us now turn back again to the good which is the object of our search, and ask what it can possibly be; because it appears to vary with the action or art. It is one thing in medicine and another in strategy, and similarly in all the other sciences. What, then, is the good of each particular one? Surely it is that for the sake of which everything else is done. In medicine this is health; in strategy, victory; 20 in architecture, a building—different things in different arts, but in every action and pursuit it is the *end*, since it is for the sake of this that everything else is done. Consequently if there is any one thing that is the end of all actions, this will be the practical good—or goods, if there are more than one. Thus while changing its ground the argument has reached the same conclusion as before.[9]

25 We must try, however, to make our meaning still clearer. Since there are evidently more ends than one, and of these we choose some (e.g. wealth or musical instruments or tools generally) as means to something else, it is clear that not all of them are final ends, whereas the supreme good is obviously something final. So if there is only one final end, this will be the good of which we are in search; 30 and if there are more than one, it will be the most final of these. Now we call an object pursued for its own sake more final than one pursued because of something else, and one which is never choosable because of another more final than those which are choosable because of it as well as for their own sakes; and that which is always choosable for its own sake and never because of something else we call final without any qualification.

Well, happiness more than anything else is thought to be just such an end, 1097b because we always choose it for itself, and never for any other reason. It is different with honour, pleasure, intelligence and good qualities[10] generally. We do choose them partly for themselves (because we should choose each one of them

[9] See 1094a18–22.
[10] Or "virtues".

irrespectively of any consequences); but we choose them also for the sake of our happiness, in the belief that they will be instrumental in promoting it. On the other 5 hand nobody chooses happiness for *their* sake, or in general for any other reason.

The same conclusion seems to follow from another consideration. It is a generally accepted view that the perfect good is self-sufficient. By self-sufficient we mean not what is sufficient for oneself alone living a solitary life,[11] but something that includes parents, wife and children, friends and fellow-citizens in 10 general; for man is by nature a social being. (We must set some limit to these, for if we extend the application to grandparents and grandchildren and friends of friends it will proceed to infinity; but we must consider this point later.[12]) A self-sufficient thing, then, we take to be one which by itself makes life desirable[13] and in no way 15 deficient; and we believe that happiness is such a thing. What is more, we regard it as the most desirable of all things, not reckoned as one item among many; if it were so reckoned, happiness would obviously be more desirable by the addition of even the least good, because the addition makes the sum of goods greater, and the greater of two goods is always more desirable. Happiness, then, is found to be something 20 perfect and self-sufficient, being the end to which our actions are directed.

But what is happiness? If we consider what the function of man is, we find that happiness is a virtuous activity of the soul

But presumably to say that happiness is the supreme good seems a platitude, and some more distinctive account of it is still required. This might perhaps be achieved by grasping what is the function of man. If we take a flautist[14] or a sculptor or any 25 artist—or in general any class of men who have a specific function or activity—his goodness and proficiency are considered to lie in the performance of that function; and the same will be true of man, assuming that man has a function. But is it likely

[11] The Greek word (*autarkēs*) normally carries the sense of independence.
[12] See 1100a10–1101a21.
[13] Here and in the following lines the meaning is really "choosable", *hairetos*.
[14] The Greek *aulos* was not a flute but a reed instrument.

that whereas joiners and shoemakers have certain functions or activities, man as such has none, but has been left by nature a functionless being? Just as we can see that eye and hand and foot and every one of our members have some function, should we not assume that in like manner a human being has a function over and above these particular functions? What, then, can this possibly be? Clearly life is a thing shared also by plants, and we are looking for man's *proper* function; so we must exclude from our definition the life that consists in nutrition and growth. Next in order would be a sort of sentient life; but this too we see is shared by horses and cattle and animals of all kinds. There remains, then, a practical life of the rational[15] part. (This has two aspects: one amenable to reason, the other possessing it and initiating thought.[16]) As this life also has two meanings, we must lay down that we intend here life determined by activity, because this is accepted as the stricter sense.[17] Now, if the function of man is an activity of the soul in accordance with, or implying, a rational principle; and if we hold that the function of an individual and of a good individual of the same kind—e.g. of a harpist and of a good harpist and so on generally—is generically the same, the latter's distinctive excellence being attached to the name of the function (because the function of the harpist is to play the harp, but that of the good harpist is to play it well); and if we assume that the function of man is a kind of life, namely, an activity or series of actions of the soul, implying a rational principle; and if the function of a good man is to perform these well and rightly; and if every function is performed well when performed in accordance with its proper excellence: if all this is so, the conclusion is that the good for man is an activity of the soul in accordance with virtue, or if there are more kinds of virtue than one, in accordance with the best and most perfect kind.

There is a further qualification: in a complete lifetime. One swallow does not make a summer; neither does one day. Similarly neither can one day, or a brief space of time, make a man blessed and happy.

[. . .]

[15] See 1102b32n.

[16] This comment is irrelevant here; it anticipates the discussion at 1102b25–33.

[17] The other being life as a *state*, implying no more than the possession of reason. [. . .]

VIII
THE KINDS OF FRIENDSHIP

i.
Friendship is a necessity

After this the next step will be to discuss friendship; for it is a kind of virtue, or implies virtue, and it is also most necessary for living. Nobody would choose to live without friends even if he had all the other good things. Indeed those who hold wealth and office and power are thought to stand in special need of friends; for what is the use of such prosperity to them if they are denied the opportunity for beneficence, which is most commonly and most commendably directed towards friends? Or how can their prosperity be guarded and preserved without friends? because the greater it is, the more precarious. In poverty too and all the other misfortunes of life people regard their friends as their only refuge. Friends are indeed a help both to the young, in keeping them from mistakes; and to the old, in caring for them and doing for them what through frailty they cannot do for themselves; and to those in the prime of life, by enabling them to carry out fine achievements: "When two together go"[18] they are better able both to see an opportunity and to take it. And the affection of parent for child and of child for parent seems to be a natural instinct not only in man but in birds and most animals; and similarly the mutual friendliness between members of the same species, especially of the human species; which is why we commend those who love their fellowmen. One can see also in one's travels how near and dear a thing every man is to every other. Friendship also seems to be the bond that holds communities together, and lawgivers seem to attach more importance to it than to justice; because concord seems to be something like friendship, and concord is their primary object—that and eliminating faction, which is enmity. Between friends there is no need for justice, but people who are just still need the quality of friendship; and indeed friendliness is considered to be justice in the fullest sense. It is not only a necessary thing but a splendid one. We praise

[18] Homer, *Iliad* x.224.

those who love their friends, and the possession of many friends is held to be one of the fine things of life. What is more, people think that good men and friends are the same.[19]

[. . .]

ii.
The objects and implications of affection

(1155b) Perhaps it will throw light on the subject if we get a clear conception of what an object of affection is. It is generally accepted that not everything is loved, but only what is lovable; and that this is either good, or pleasant or useful. But it may be thought that "useful" means nothing more than "productive of some good or pleasure"; so that the only objects of love that are *ends* would be the good and the pleasant. Is it, then, the good that people love, or only what is good *for them*? because sometimes these conflict; and similarly in the case of the pleasant. It seems that each individual loves what is good for himself; i.e. that while the good is absolutely lovable, it is the good of the individual that is lovable for the individual. But the individual loves not what *is* good for him but what *appears* to be such. However, this will not affect the argument: the lovable will be what appears to be lovable.

Let us assume, then, that there are three reasons for loving. We do not speak of friendship in the case of our affection for inanimate objects, because there is no return of affection, and no wish for the good of the object (for presumably it would be absurd for a person to wish for the good of his wine; if he has any wish it is that the wine may keep, so that he may have it himself). But in the case of a friend they say that one ought to wish him good for his own sake. Those who wish for the well-being of others in this way are called well disposed if the same feeling is not evoked from the other party, because goodwill, they say, is friendship only when it is reciprocated. Perhaps we should add "and recognized"; because people are often well disposed towards persons whom they have never seen, but believe to be

[19] Cf. Plato, *Lysis* 214C.

good or helpful, and one of the latter might feel the same towards the former: then clearly these people are well disposed towards each other, but how could we call them friends when their feelings for one another are not known? So friends must be well disposed towards each other, and recognized as wishing each other's good, for one of the three reasons stated above.[20] 1156a

iii.
Three kinds of friendship

These reasons differ in kind, and therefore the affections and friendships that they arouse also differ in kind. Consequently there are three kinds of friendship, equal in number to the qualities that arouse love. For there is in each case a kind of mutual affection, known to both parties; and those who love each other wish for each other's good in respect of the quality for which they love them. So those who love each other on the ground of utility do not love each other for their personal qualities, but only in so far as they derive some benefit from each other. Similarly with those who love one another on the ground of pleasure; because it is not for being of a certain character that witty people are liked, but because we find them pleasant. So when people love each other on the ground of utility their affection is motivated by their own good, and when they love on the ground of pleasure it is motivated by their own pleasure; that is, they love the other person not for what he is, but *qua* useful or pleasant. So these friendships are accidental,[21] because the person loved is not loved on the ground of his actual nature, but merely as providing some benefit or pleasure. Consequently such friendships are easily dissolved if the parties do not continue to show the same kind of qualities, because if they cease to be pleasant or useful the friendship comes to an end.

(1) Friendship based on utility

Utility is an impermanent thing: it changes according to circumstances. So with the disappearance of the ground for friendship, the friendship also breaks up, because

[20] 1155b19.

[21] i.e. based on a non-essential ground.

that was what kept it alive. Friendships of this kind seem to occur most frequently between the elderly (because at their age what they want is not pleasure but utility) and those in middle or early life who are pursuing their own advantage. Such persons do not spend much time together, because sometimes they do not even like one another, and therefore feel no need of such an association unless they are mutually useful. For they take pleasure in each other's company only in so far as they have hopes of advantage from it. Friendships with foreigners[22] are generally included in this class.

(2) Friendship based on pleasure

Friendship between the young is thought to be grounded on pleasure, because the lives of the young are regulated by their feelings, and their chief interest is in their own pleasure and the opportunity of the moment. With advancing years, however, their tastes change too, so that they are quick to make and to break friendships; because their affection changes just as the things that please them do, and this sort of pleasure changes rapidly. Also the young are apt to fall in love, for erotic friendship is for the most part swayed by the feelings and based on pleasure. That is why they fall in and out of friendship quickly, changing their attitude often within the same day. But the young do like to spend the day and live together, because that is how they realize the object of their friendship.

(3) Perfect friendship is based on goodness

Only the friendship of those who are good, and similar in their goodness, is perfect. For these people each alike wish good for the other *qua* good,[23] and they are good in themselves. And it is those who desire the good of their friends for the friends' sake that are most truly friends, because each loves the other for what he is, and not for any incidental quality. Accordingly the friendship of such men lasts so long as they remain good; and goodness is an enduring quality. Also each party is good both *absolutely* and *for his friend*, since the good are both good absolutely and useful

[22] Which would normally rest on a business relationship.
[23] Cf. 1156a9–10.

to each other. Similarly they please one another too; for the good are pleasing both absolutely and to each other; because everyone is pleased with his own conduct and conduct that resembles it, and the conduct of good men is the same or similar. Friendship of this kind is permanent, reasonably enough; because in it are united all the attributes that friends ought to possess. For all friendship has as its object something good or pleasant—either absolutely or relatively to the person who feels the affection—and is based on some similarity between the parties. But in this friendship all the qualities that we have mentioned belong to the friends themselves; because in it there is similarity, etc.;[24] and what is absolutely good is also absolutely pleasant; and these are the most lovable qualities. Therefore it is between good men that both love and friendship are chiefly found and in the highest form.

That such friendships are rare is natural, because men of this kind are few. And in addition they[25] need time and intimacy; for as the saying goes, you cannot get to know each other until you have eaten the proverbial[26] quantity of salt together. Nor can one man accept another, or the two become friends, until each has proved to the other that he is worthy of love and so has won his trust. Those who are quick to make friendly advances to each other have the desire to be friends, but they are not unless they are worthy of love and know it. The wish for friendship develops rapidly, but friendship does not.

This kind of friendship, then, is perfect both in point of duration and in all other respects; and in it each party receives from the other benefits that are in all respects the same or similar, as ought to be the case between friends.

iv.

The inferior kinds are less enduring, and are not confined to the good

Friendship for the sake of pleasure has a resemblance to perfect friendship, because good men give each other pleasure; and so does friendship for the sake of utility,

[24] They are alike, and both absolutely and relatively good and pleasant, in themselves and not incidentally.
[25] The friendships.
[26] Apparently a *medimnos* (1.5 bushels!); cf. *Eudemian Ethics* 1238a2. The sense clearly calls for a measure.

because good men are also useful to each other. In these associations too friendships last longest when each receives from the other the same benefit—e.g. pleasure—and not merely that, but from the same source, as in the case of two witty people, and not as in the relation of lover and beloved. For the latter do not take pleasure in the same things: the one finds it in looking at his beloved, and the other in the attentions of his lover. And as beauty wanes, sometimes the friendship wanes too, because the one loses pleasure in the sight, and the other no longer receives the attentions; yet on the other hand many do remain friends if through their intimacy they have come to appreciate each other's characters as being like their own. But when it is not pleasure but gain that lovers exchange in their affairs, their love is less real and less enduring. Those who are friends for the sake of utility part as soon as the advantage ceases, because they were attracted not by each other but by the prospect of gain.

Thus where the object is pleasure or utility friendship is possible between two bad men, or between one good and one bad man, or between one who is neither good nor bad and one who is of any character; but obviously only good men can be friends for their own sakes. For bad people take no pleasure in each other unless there is a chance of some benefit.

Also it is only the friendship of the good that is proof against slander; because it is not easy for a person to take anyone else's word against a friend whom he himself has proved over a long period of time. Between friends like these there are the feelings "I trust him"; "He would never do me wrong"; and all the other conditions that one expects to find in true friendship. But in the other kinds of friendship such things[27] may easily occur. However, since people describe as friends those who are attracted to one another only for reasons of utility, as states are (because it is considered to be for advantage that they form alliances); or of pleasure, as children do; presumably we too should call such people friends, but add that there is more than one kind of friendship, and that friendship in the primary and proper sense is between good men in virtue of their goodness, whereas the rest are friendships only by analogy. For they are friends in so far as they are attracted by a kind of goodness, and by something similar to themselves; because to lovers of pleasure pleasure too is a good. However, these friendships are not very apt to

[27] The slanders etc., mentioned in the context.

coincide; that is, the same people do not become friends for pleasure as well as for utility, because incidental qualities are not often found in pairs.

Now that we have divided friendship into these kinds we shall see that it is persons of low character that are friends on the ground of pleasure or utility, this being the similarity between them; while the good are friends for each other's sake, because their bond is goodness. These latter, then, are friends in the unqualified sense; the others are friends only incidentally and by analogy with them.

v.

Friendship as a state, as an activity and as a feeling

Just as in the case of the virtues some people are called good in respect of a state and others in respect of an activity, so too in the case of friendship. Those who spend their time together enjoy each other's company and confer mutual benefits, but those who are asleep or separated by distance, although they do not express their friendship in action, nevertheless retain the disposition to do so; because distance does not break off a friendship absolutely, but only in its active realization. However, if the absence lasts for a long time it does seem to cause forgetfulness even of the friendship. Hence the saying: "How oft hath silence cut the bond of friendship!" [28]

Neither old people nor sour-tempered ones seem to make friends easily. For there is not much pleasure to be found in them, and nobody can live day after day with someone who annoys him, or even with one who is not agreeable; because nature seems above all things to avoid what is painful and to aim at what is pleasant. Those who approve of each other but do not spend all their time together seem to be well disposed rather than friendly, because nothing is so characteristic of friends as spending time together. (Those who are in need are anxious for help, and even the supremely happy are eager for company, for they above all are least suited by a solitary existence.) But it is impossible for people to live together if they are not agreeable to each other and similar in their tastes, because this seems to be the essence of comradeship.

[28] The source is unknown.

Friendship in the truest sense, then, is friendship between good men, as we have said several times already.[29] For it is accepted that what is lovable and desirable is in general that which is absolutely good or pleasant, while for the individual it is that which is good or pleasant for the individual; and one good man is loved by another on both these grounds.

Affection[30] resembles a feeling, but friendship is a state. For affection can be felt equally well for inanimate objects, but mutual affection involves choice, and choice proceeds from a <moral> state. Also when people wish what is good for those whom they love, for their sake, it is not from a feeling but in accordance with a <moral> state. And in loving a friend they are loving their own good. For when a good man becomes a friend to another he becomes that other's good; so each loves his own good, and repays what he receives by wishing the good of the other and giving him pleasure. There is a saying "caring is sharing",[31] and these qualities belong especially to the friendship of good men.

vi.

Qualified and superficial friendships

Friendships are formed less readily in the case of sour and elderly persons, inasmuch as they are less good-tempered and sociable, and it is just these qualities that are felt to be most amiable and conducive to friendship. This is why the young make friends quickly but the old do not, because people do not make friends with those whose company they do not enjoy. Similarly neither do sour-tempered people. It is true that these types are well disposed to one another, because they wish each other well and meet each other's needs; but they are not really friends, because they do not spend all their time together or enjoy each other's company: things that are considered to be the best evidence of friendly feeling.

[29] 1156b7, 23, 33, 1157a30, b4.
[30] *philēsis*.
[31] Really "friendship is equality"; but this loses the jingling effect of the Greek *philotēs isotēs;* cf. 1168b8.

On the other hand to have many friends in the way of perfect friendship is no more possible than to be in love with many persons at the same time (for love is a kind of excess, and such a feeling is naturally directed towards one person). It is not easy for a large number of people to be attractive at the same time to the same person or (presumably) to be men of good character. Besides, one has to get to know a man thoroughly and become intimate with him, which is extremely difficult. If the basis is utility or pleasure, however, it is possible to be attractive to a number of people, because there are plenty of this type, and such services take little time.

Of these secondary forms of friendship the nearer to true friendship is that which has pleasure for its object, when both parties make the same contribution and enjoy each other's company or the same occupations. The friendships of the young are of this kind, because one finds in them a more generous spirit, whereas utilitarian friendship belongs to the commercially minded. The supremely happy, too, although not needing useful friends, do need agreeable ones; for they want companions of some kind, and although they can put up with unpleasantness for a short time, nobody could endure it continuously—not even the good itself, if he found it unpleasant. So they look for agreeable friends. However, these ought presumably to be good as well, and good *for them*, because then they will have all the qualities that are necessary for a friend. People in high positions, on the other hand, seem to have friends of different types: some are useful to them and others agreeable, but it seldom happens that the same people are both, because what their superiors are looking for is not people who are pleasant and also good, nor people who are useful for honourable ends, but witty talkers if they want to be amused, and otherwise agents who are clever at carrying out their instructions; and these qualities are rarely found in the same person. We have said[32] that the good man is also both useful and agreeable, but such a person does not become the *friend* of a superior in rank unless the latter is his superior in goodness too. Otherwise the inferior cannot make a proportionately equal return.[33] But such goodness is exceptional in the great.

[32] 1156b13–17.
[33] Cf. 1158b23–8, 1162a34–b4.

1158b The friendships of which we have been speaking are based on equality, since both parties receive the same benefits and wish each other the same good, or else exchange one thing for another, e.g. pleasure for help. (We have remarked[34] that these are secondary friendships and comparatively short-lived. Being both like and unlike the same thing, they seem to be friendships in one way but not in another. They appear to be friendships in virtue of their similarity to friendship based on goodness, because one involves pleasure and the other utility, and these are present also in that friendship; but since it is proof against slander and permanent, whereas they are quickly changeable and differ in many other ways, their dissimilarity makes them appear not to be friendship.)

[. . .]

viii.

In friendship loving is more important than being loved

(1159a) Most people seem to want to be loved rather than to love, the reason being their desire for honour.[35] This is why most people are fond of flattery, because a flatterer is a friend of inferior status, or professes to be such, and to love more than he is loved; and to be loved is felt to be the next thing to being honoured, which is the aim of most people. Yet they seem to choose honour not for its own sake, but indirectly. Most people enjoy being held in honour by those in authority because of their expectations; they think that they will get from them anything that they may want, so they enjoy their honour as a token of future favours. But those who are eager for honour from good men who know them have as their object the confirmation of their own opinion of themselves. Thus they enjoy the assurance that they are good men, relying on the judgement of those who tell them so. But people enjoy being loved for its own sake. Hence it may be supposed that being loved is better than being honoured, and that friendship is desirable for its own sake.

But friendship seems to consist more in giving than in receiving affection. An indication of this is the joy that mothers show in loving their children. Some

[34] 1156a16–22.

[35] In the sense of esteem, *timē*.

women give their children to other women to bring up, and although they love them, knowing who they are, do not seek to be loved in return, if it is impossible to have this too; they are content if they see their children getting on well, and they bestow their love upon the children even though the children, through ignorance, make no response such as is due to a mother. So if friendship consists more in loving than in being loved, and if people are commended for loving their friends, it seems that loving is the distinctive virtue of friends. Thus it is when love is given in accordance with merit that people remain friends and their friendship endures. 1159b

This condition offers the best prospect even for unequal parties to be friends, because their inequality can be compensated.[36] The basis of affection is equality[37] and similarity, especially similarity in goodness; because, being steadfast in themselves, they are steadfast also towards each other, and neither require nor render services of a low nature, but virtually preclude them; since it is characteristic of good men neither to go wrong themselves nor to allow their friends to do so. But people of bad character have no constancy, for they do not even remain self-consistent; but they do make temporary friendships, because they enjoy each other's wickedness. The friendships of those who are useful or agreeable are more durable, because they last so long as the friends afford each other pleasure or help. Friendship based on utility seems to occur chiefly between opposite types: e.g. that of a poor man for a rich one, or of an ignoramus for a scholar; because each, being eager to secure what he happens to lack himself, is prepared to give something else in return. One might introduce here the relation between lover and beloved, or between a handsome person and an ugly one. This is the reason why lovers sometimes make themselves look ridiculous by demanding to be loved as much as they love; if they were equally lovable, this would presumably be a reasonable demand, but when they have no such qualification it is ridiculous. The probability is, however, that one opposite is attracted by the other not essentially but incidentally, and the object of the impulse is the mean (because this is good): e.g. the impulse of the dry is not to become wet but to reach the intermediate state; and similarly with the hot and all the rest. But let us dismiss this topic, since in fact it is somewhat irrelevant.

[. . .]

[36] By the inferior's showing greater affection.

[37] Cf. 1157b36.

IX
THE GROUNDS OF FRIENDSHIP

i.
Difficulties caused by differences of motive in friendship

(1163b) In all dissimilar friendships it is, as we have said, a proportion[38] that secures equality
35 and preserves the friendship. E.g. in the relations between citizens: the shoemaker receives something of equal value in return for his shoes, and so does the weaver
1164a and all the rest. In these cases a common measure is already provided in the shape of money, and therefore everything is referred to this and is measured by it. But in emotional relations the lover sometimes complains that his devotion is unrequited
5 (it may be because he has no lovable quality); and often the beloved complains that the one who used to promise everything now fulfils none of his promises. Such situations arise when the one loves his beloved on the ground of pleasure and the other his lover on the ground of utility, and they no longer both possess these
10 attributes; because a friendship based on these motives breaks up as soon as the reasons for which the friends loved each other no longer present themselves. For it was not each other that they loved, but each other's attributes, which were not permanent. Hence friendships of this kind are not permanent either. But friendship based on character, being disinterested, is lasting, as we have said.[39]

Any breach of contract causes ill-feeling

15 Quarrels occur when the outcome of a friendship is different from what the parties desire, because failure to obtain what one wants is almost as bad as getting nothing at all. It is like the story of the man who promised a fee to the harpist, and the better he played, the higher the fee would be; but when next morning the harpist asked him for

[38] A friendship is dissimilar if the friends differ in quality and make different contributions, e.g. pleasure and profit. The means of equalizing these contributions is not simple proportion (which can only be employed where the contributions are the same in kind), but a sort of diagonal conjunction, as in rectificatory justice; see 1133a5–10.
[39] 1156b17.

what he had promised, he replied that he had already paid him pleasure for pleasure.[40] Now if pleasure had been what both wanted, this would have been satisfactory. But if one wants pleasure and the other gain, and one has his wish and the other does not, the result of the association cannot be fair; for it is what a man actually needs that he 20 is anxious to get, and it is only for its sake that he is prepared to give what he has.

[. . .]

iii.
Grounds for dissolving friendship

Another problem that arises is whether or not to break off friendship with those 1165b who do not remain the same as they were. Where the bond was one of utility or pleasure there is presumably nothing odd about breaking it when they no longer have these attributes; for it was these that underlay the friendship, and when they fail it is reasonable to feel no affection. But a person might complain if his friend, 5 who liked him only for the profit or pleasure that he got from him, pretended to like him for his character. For (as we said at the outset[41]) most quarrels between friends arise when the basis of their friendship is not what they suppose it to be. When a person is completely mistaken and has assumed that he is loved for his character although his friend has never done anything to suggest it, he has only himself to blame. But when he has been deceived by the other's pretensions he is justified in 10 protesting at the deception—even more than if it had been a case of uttering false coin, since the offence concerns something more valuable than money.

But if A has accepted B as a friend, in the belief that he is a good man, and he turns out or even appears to be a villain, ought A still to love him? Surely this is impossible, assuming that not everything is lovable but only what is good; and it 15 is not right, either, because one ought not to be a lover of what is bad, or to make oneself like a worthless person; and we have said[42] that "like is friend to like".

[40] The harpist had had the pleasure of anticipating a large fee, which was payment enough for the pleasure that he had given. The story was told of Dionysius I of Syracuse (Plutarch, *On the Fortune of Alexander* ii.1).
[41] 1162b23.
[42] 1155a32–6, 1156b19–21, 1159b2–3.

Ought the friendship, then, to be broken off at once? Perhaps not in every case, but only with those whose depravity is incurable. Those who are capable of recovery are entitled to our help for their characters even more than for their fortunes, inasmuch as the character is a higher thing and more closely bound up with friendship. At the same time one who broke off such a friendship would not be felt to be acting oddly, because the man that he made his friend was not like that; so now that he has changed, being unable to restore him to what he was, he gives him up.

But suppose that one friend remains the same, and the other improves and becomes far superior to him in virtue, should he still treat the former as a friend? Surely it is impossible. This appears most clearly in the case of a great disparity, such as occurs in boyhood friendships. Supposing that one person remains a child in intelligence and the other is a man of outstanding ability, how can they go on being friends when they have different interests and different likes and dislikes? They will not even have the same feelings about each other, and without this it is impossible (as we saw[43]) to be friends; because spending their lives together is out of the question. This has been discussed already.

Is one, then, to behave towards a former friend exactly as if he had never been a friend at all? Probably one ought to keep a memory of the former intimacy, and just as we feel bound to show more favour to friends than to strangers, so we should for old acquaintance's sake show some consideration for former friends—provided that the severance was not due to excessive wickedness on their part.

iv.

Our feelings towards our friends reflect our feelings towards ourselves

1166a The friendly feelings that we have towards our neighbours, and the characteristics by which the different kinds of friendship are distinguished, seem to be derived from our feelings towards ourselves. People define a friend as (1) one who wishes and effects the good, or apparent good, of another for the sake of that other; or (2) one who wishes for the existence and preservation of his friend for the friend's sake—the same attitude as mothers have towards their children, or as old friends

[43] 1157b17–24, 1158b33–6.

have towards those with whom they have fallen out. Others define him as (3) one who spends all his time with another, and (4) chooses the same things as he does, or as (5) one who shares his friend's joys and sorrows (this also is a very special trait of mothers). Friendship, too, is defined by one or another of these characteristics. But each one of them applies to the good man in relation to himself (and applies to others in so far as they suppose themselves to be good; in every case, as we have said,[44] the standard seems to be <moral> goodness or the good man). For he is completely integrated[45] and desires the same things with every part of his soul. Also he wishes and effects the things that are or seem to be good for him[46] (for it is the mark of a good man to direct his energies to what is good) and he does it for his own sake (for he does it on account of the intellectual part of him, which is held to be the self of the individual). Also he desires his own life and safety,[47] especially that of his rational part; because for the good man existence is good, and everyone wishes his own good—nobody would choose to have all the good things in the world at the price of becoming somebody else (for as it is the gods possess the good[48]), but only while remaining himself, whatever he is. And it would seem that the thinking part is, or most nearly is, the individual self. Such a person likes his own company,[49] because he enjoys being by himself, since he has entertaining memories of the past and good hopes for the future, and these afford him pleasure; also his mind is well furnished with subjects for contemplation. And he has the fullest consciousness of his joys and sorrows,[50] for it is always the same things that vex or please him, and not different things at different times; because he virtually never changes his mind.

Thus it is because the good man has these several feelings towards himself, and extends to his friend the same relation that he has towards himself (for a friend *is* another self), that friendship is regarded as one of the said feelings, and friends as those to whom these feelings apply. The question whether friendship towards

[44] Cf. 1113a22–33.
[45] He has no inner conflict; see (4) above.
[46] See (1) above.
[47] See (2) above.
[48] And *only* the gods possess the supreme good; so to wish for all good, with a change of personality, would mean wishing to be a god—which is no more sensible than wishing one's friend to be a god (1159a5–12).
[49] See (3) above.
[50] See (5) above.

oneself is possible or not may be dismissed for the present;[51] but it would seem from what we have said that it *is* possible in so far as the subject is regarded as two or more persons; there is also the fact that in its extreme form friendship approximates to self-love.

It seems, however, that the qualities that we have been describing belong also to the majority of people, bad as they are. Probably they share in them only in so far as they are self-satisfied and suppose themselves to be respectable; because nobody who is utterly bad and evil has them, or even the semblance of them. It is hardly too much to say that not even <moderately> bad people have them, because they are in conflict with themselves;[52] they desire one thing and will another, like the incontinent, who choose harmful pleasures instead of what they themselves believe to be good. There are others again who through cowardice and indolence shirk doing what they believe is in their own best interests. Others who have committed many fearful crimes and are hated for their villainy actually run away from life[53] and commit suicide. Also, bad people seek constant companionship and avoid their own society,[54] because when they are by themselves they recall many disagreeable experiences and expect to have more of the same kind, whereas when they are with others they can forget. Possessing no lovable quality, they feel no affection for themselves;[55] consequently such people have no sympathetic consciousness of their own joys and sorrows,[56] because their soul is in a state of conflict: one part of it through depravity feels pain in abstaining from certain things, and another feels pleasure; one pulls this way and the other that, as if they would tear it apart. If it is impossible to feel pleasure and pain at the same time, at any rate such a person is very soon sorry that he was glad, and wishes that he had never taken pleasure in such things; for bad men are full of regrets.

It seems, then, that a bad man is not even amicably disposed towards himself, because he has no lovable quality. So if this state is the height of misery, one ought to strain every nerve to avoid wickedness and try to be a man of good character;

[51] It is taken up explicitly at 1168a28–1169b2.
[52] See (4) above.
[53] See (2) above.
[54] See (3) above.
[55] See (1) above.
[56] See (5) above.

for in that way one can both be on good terms with oneself and become the friend of somebody else.

[. . .]

viii.
Is self-love justifiable?

Another problem is whether one ought to love oneself most or somebody else. (1168a)
People are critical of those whose chief concern is for themselves, and call them self-lovers derogatorily. Also a bad man is generally supposed to do everything from a selfish motive, and to be the more selfish the worse he is (e.g. he is accused of doing nothing unless he has to); whereas the good man acts from a fine motive (and the better the man the finer the motive), and for the sake of a friend, and neglects his own interest. But these theories are not borne out by the facts; nor 1168b is this surprising. For they say that a man should love his best friend most. But a man's best friend is the one who not only wishes him well but wishes it for his own sake (even though nobody will ever know it): and this condition is best fulfilled by his attitude towards himself—and similarly with all the other attributes that go to define a friend. For we have said before[57] that all friendly feelings for others are extensions of a man's feelings for himself. Besides, all the proverbial sayings agree on this point: "Two friends, one soul",[58] "Friends share everything", "Caring is sharing",[59] "The knee is nearer than the shin".[60] All these sayings can be applied most aptly to oneself, because a man is his own best friend. Therefore he ought to love himself best. Naturally it is hard to say which of these opinions we should follow, since both have some plausibility.

Presumably, then, we should take such divergent arguments separately and try to distinguish how far and in what way each of them is true. Perhaps the difficulty would be cleared up if we discussed what meaning each side attaches to the word

[57] 1166a1–6.
[58] Euripides, *Orestes* 1046.
[59] Cf. 1157b36.
[60] Cf. Theocritus xvi.18: it is an excuse for selfishness, like "charity begins at home".

self-love. Those who give it a pejorative twist describe as self-loving those who assign themselves the larger share of money, public honours and bodily pleasures, because most people have a craving for these, and set their hearts on them as the greatest goods, which also makes them objects of fierce competition. Well, those who try to get more than their share of these things gratify their desires and their feelings generally, and the irrational part of their soul; and such people are in the majority. Hence the word has become a term of reproach, from the fact that the self-love of most people is a bad thing. Therefore those who are self-lovers in this sense are rightly reproached. And there is no doubt that most people regularly describe as self-lovers those who secure such advantages for themselves. For if anyone made it his constant endeavour to set an example in performing just or temperate or any other kind of virtuous actions, and in general always claimed the prerogative of acting honourably, certainly nobody would reproach *him* with being a self-lover.

Yet such a person might be considered to have a better title to the name. At any rate he assigns to himself what is most honourable and most truly good; and he gratifies the most authoritative part of himself, and obeys it in all respects. And just as in the case of a state or any other composite body the most authoritative part is considered to be most truly the state or body, so too in the case of man.[61] Therefore one who loves this authoritative part and gratifies it is in the truest sense a self-lover. Also a person is called continent or incontinent according as his reason is or is not in control, which implies that this part *is* the individual. Also it is our reasoned acts that are held to be in the fullest sense voluntary and our own doing. Thus there is no doubt that this part is, or most nearly is, the individual man; and that a good man loves it more than anything else. It follows that he will be in the fullest sense a self-lover—but in a different fashion from the man who incurs reproach, and as far superior to him as life ruled by reason is to life ruled by feeling, and as desire for what is fine is to desire for an apparent advantage. Hence those who are exceptionally devoted to the performance of fine actions receive the approval and commendation of all. And if everyone were striving for what is fine, and trying his hardest to do the finest deeds, then both the public welfare would be truly served and each individual would enjoy the greatest of goods, since virtue is of this kind.

So it is right for the good man to be self-loving, because then he will both be

[61] The highest part of him, i.e. the rational part, *is* the man; cf. 1166a17, 22, 1178a2, 7.

benefited himself by performing fine actions and also help others. But it is not right for the bad man, because he will injure both himself and his neighbours by giving way to base feelings. So for the bad man what he ought to do clashes with what he does; but the good man does what he ought to do. For intelligence always chooses what is best for itself, and the good man obeys the guidance of intelligence.

But it is also true to say of the man of good character that he performs many actions for the sake of his friends and his country, and if necessary even dies for them. For he will sacrifice both money and honours and in general the goods that people struggle to obtain, in his pursuit of what is <morally> fine. For he would rather have intense pleasure for a short time than quiet pleasure for a long time; rather live finely for one year than indifferently for many; and rather do one great and glorious deed than many petty ones. This result is presumably achieved by those who give their lives for others; so their choice is a glorious prize. Also the good man is ready to lose money on condition that his friends shall get more; for the friend gets money, but he himself gains fineness <of character>, so he assigns himself the greater good. He behaves in the same way too with regard to political honours and positions; all these he will freely give up to his friend, because that is a fine and praiseworthy thing for him to do. So it is natural that he is regarded as a man of good character, since he chooses what is fine in preference to anything else. He may even give up to his friend opportunities for doing fine actions, and it may be a finer thing for him to become the cause of his friend's doing them than to have done them himself. Thus we see that in the whole field of praiseworthy conduct the good man assigns himself the larger share of what is fine. It is right, then (as we said before[62]), to be self-loving in this sense; but not in the sense in which most people are self-loving.

ix.

Are friends necessary for happiness?

There is a disputable point also with regard to the happy man: whether he will need friends or not. For it is maintained that the supremely happy, who are self-sufficient, have no need of friends, because they have their good things; therefore

[62] 1169a11–15.

being self-sufficient they need nothing further; but a friend, who is "another self", supplies what a man cannot provide by his own efforts. Hence the line "When Fortune smiles on us, what need of friends?"[63]

Yet it seems paradoxical that, while attributing all good things to the happy man, we should not assign him friends, who are considered to be the greatest of external goods. Besides, if it is more characteristic of a friend to confer than to receive a benefit, and doing good to others is characteristic of virtue and the good man, and it is better to do a kindness to a friend than to a stranger, the good man will need friends to receive his benefits. Hence arises a further question: Does one need friends more in prosperity or in adversity? because the unfortunate need people to be kind to them, and the fortunate need people to be kind to.

It is also surely paradoxical to represent the man of perfect happiness as a solitary; for nobody would choose to have all the good things in the world by himself, because man is a social creature[64] and naturally constituted to live in company. Therefore the happy man also has this quality, because he possesses everything that is naturally good; and it is clearly better to spend one's time in the company of friends and good men than in that of strangers and people of uncertain character. It follows, therefore, that the happy man needs friends.

What, then, is the meaning of those who uphold the first view,[65] and what truth is there in their arguments? Perhaps the answer is that in the popular view our friends are those who are useful to us; so the truly happy man will have no need of such people, since he already has the things that are good for him. Nor indeed will he require friends on the ground of pleasure, or only to a limited extent, because his life is pleasant and needs no imported pleasure; and since he does not need friends of these kinds he is thought to need none at all. But this is presumably not true. For it was stated at the outset[66] that happiness is a kind of activity; and an activity clearly is developed and is not a piece of property already in one's possession. Now if happiness consists in living and being active, and the activity of a good

[63] Euripides, *Orestes* 667.
[64] Cf. 1097b11.
[65] That the happy man needs no friends (1169b4–8).
[66] 1098a7, 16, b31–1099a7.

man is virtuous and pleasurable in itself (as we said at the outset[67]); and if we take pleasure in what is our own; and if we are better able to observe our neighbours than ourselves, and their actions than our own; and if the actions of high-minded[68] men who are our friends are pleasant to the good (because both attributes are naturally pleasant[69]): then it follows that the truly happy man will need friends of this sort, because he prefers to contemplate actions that are honourable and his own, and the actions of a good man who is his friend are of this nature. Besides, it is assumed that the happy man ought to enjoy living. Now a solitary man has a hard life, because it is not easy to keep up a continuous activity by oneself; but in company with others and in relation to others it is easier. Consequently the activity, which is pleasant in itself, will be more nearly continuous, as the truly happy man's ought to be (for the good man *qua* good enjoys actions that are in accordance with virtue, but is disgusted by those that proceed from wickedness, just as a musician likes beautiful music but is irritated by what is bad). Also a sort of training in virtue may result from associating with good people, as Theognis says.[70]

But if we look at the question more scientifically it appears that a good friend is by nature desirable for a good man. For (as we have said before)[71] what is by nature good is in itself good and pleasant to the good man. Now the life of animals is defined by the capacity for sensation, and that of man by the capacity for sensation or thinking. But this capacity is relative to its activity, and its realization depends upon the activity. Hence it appears that to live is primarily to perceive or to think. But to live is one of the things that are in themselves good and pleasant, for it is determinate,[72] and what is determinate is of the nature of the good.[73] Now what is good by nature is also good for the good man, and therefore appears pleasant in the eyes of all. We must not take the case of a vicious and corrupt life, or of one that is

[67] 1099a14, 21.
[68] *spoudaios.*
[69] As being both good and virtually one's own.
[70] Theognis 25; the words are quoted at 1172a13–14.
[71] 1099a7–11, 1113a25–31.
[72] i.e. something of which we have a clear conception and which is capable of full development or actualization.
[73] Cf.1106b30.

passed in suffering, because such a life is indeterminate, just as are the conditions that attach to it. (The question of pain will be made clearer in the sequel.[74]) But assume the following propositions;[75] (1) Life is in itself good and pleasant (as appears from the fact that it is sought after by all, especially by those who are virtuous and truly happy, because their life is in the highest degree desirable, and their existence the truest felicity). (2) A man who sees is aware that he is seeing, a man who hears that he is hearing and a man who walks that he is walking; and similarly in all our other activities there is something that is aware of them, so that if we perceive, we perceive that we are perceiving, and if we think, that we are thinking. (3) To be conscious that we are perceiving or thinking is to be conscious of our existence (for we saw[76] that existence is sensation or thought). (4) To be conscious that one is alive is something pleasant in itself (because life is by nature good, and to be conscious that one possesses a good thing is pleasant). (5) Life is a desirable thing, especially for the good, because for them existence is good and pleasant (since they feel pleasure in the consciousness of what is in itself good). (6) The good man feels towards his friend as he feels towards himself, because his friend is a second self to him. If all this is true, it follows that for a given person the existence of his friend is as desirable, or almost as desirable, as his own. But as we saw,[77] what makes existence desirable is the consciousness of one's own goodness, and such consciousness is pleasant in itself. So a person ought to be conscious[78] of his friend's existence, and this can be achieved by living together and conversing and exchanging ideas with him—for this would seem to be what living together means in the case of human beings; not being pastured like cattle in the same field.

If, then, to the truly happy man his own existence is desirable in itself, as being by nature good and pleasant, and if the existence of his friend is scarcely less so, then his friend must also be a thing desirable.[79] But what is desirable for him he must have, or else fall short of happiness in that respect. Therefore to be happy a man will need virtuous friends.

[74] But it is not.
[75] For clarity a long and involved Greek period has been broken up into separate sentences in the translation.
[76] 1170a16–17.
[77] 1170b4–5.
[78] By sympathetic insight, not outwardly through the senses.
[79] Strictly "choosable" *(hairetos)*, i.e. rightly desirable.

x.

How many friends should one have?

Should one, then, make as many friends as possible? Or, as the poet has said—aptly, it is thought—on the subject of hospitality, "Neither let many share thy board, nor none",[80] will it be the right thing in friendship too to be neither friendless nor, on the other hand, excessively supplied with friends? The principle quoted above would seem to be absolutely the right one in the case of utilitarian friends, for returning the services of a large number of people is a laborious task which life is too short to accomplish. So more friends than are enough to fulfil our own lives are superfluous and a hindrance to living in the right way: therefore there is no need for them. Also a few friends for amusement are quite enough, like a pinch of seasoning in food. But with regard to friends of good character: ought we to have as many as possible numerically, or is there a limit to the number of friends, as there is to the population of a city?[81] —for one cannot have a city with ten people and with 100,000 it would no longer be a city.[82] Presumably there is no one correct number, but anything between certain limits. So also there is a limit to the number of one's friends; and probably this would be the largest number with whom one can be on intimate terms—because this, as we saw,[83] is the chief factor in friendship—and it is not hard to see that one cannot be intimate, and share oneself, with a large number of people. Besides, they too must be friends with one another, if they are all to live as a group; and it is difficult to have this state of affairs when the numbers are large. It becomes difficult even to sympathize closely with the joys and sorrows of many, because one is likely to be faced with sharing the joy of one and the sorrow of another simultaneously. Probably, then, it is as well to aim at having not as many friends as possible, but only as many as are enough to form an intimate circle. Indeed it would seem to be impossible to be the devoted friend of many, for the same reason that one cannot be in love with more than one; because by love we mean an extreme affection, and this is felt towards *one* person; therefore strong friendship too is felt only towards a few. This seems to be the case in actual life.

[80] Hesiod, *Works and Days* 660.
[81] Cf. *Politics* 1326a35–b25.
[82] i.e. a properly integrated community.
[83] 1157b19.

We do not find that friendships amounting to comradeship are formed by many people: the celebrated cases are reported as occurring between two.[84] Those who have a great many friends and greet everybody familiarly are felt to be friends of nobody (except in the sense that fellow-citizens are friends): the sort of people that are called obsequious.[85] It is possible, indeed, to be friendly with many in the civic sense and not be obsequious—in fact to be a man of really admirable character; but it is not possible to have many friends whom we love for their own sake and for their goodness; we must be content to find even a few of this quality.

[. . .]

xii.

The value of friendly intercourse

(1171b) Are we to say, then, that just as lovers find the keenest satisfaction in seeing, and prefer this sense to all the others, because they feel that it is the source and stay of love, so to friends there is nothing more desirable than spending their lives together? For friendship is a kind of partnership, and a man stands in the same relation to his friend as to himself, and since the consciousness of his own existence is desirable, the consciousness of his friend's must be the same; and this consciousness becomes 1172a actualized in their life together, so that they naturally desire it. Also everyone wishes to share with his friends the occupation (whatever it is) that constitutes his existence, or makes life worth living. This is why some drink together, others dice together, others go in for athletics and hunting together or for philosophy, each type spending their time together in the pursuit that gives them most satisfaction in their lives; indeed in their desire to spend their lives with their friends they follow these pursuits and share in them as much as possible. Consequently the friendship of worthless people has a bad effect (because they take part, unstable as they are, in worthless pursuits, and actually become bad through each other's influence).

[84] e.g. Theseus and Pirithous, Achilles and Patroclus, Orestes and Pylades, etc. (Plutarch, *On Having Many Friends* 93E).

[85] Cf. 1126b11–14.

But the friendship of the good is good, and increases in goodness because of their association. They seem even to become better men by exercising their friendship and improving each other; for the traits that they admire in each other get transferred to themselves. Hence the saying "From good men goodness . . .".[86]

So much for our account of friendship. Our next subject for discussion will be pleasure.

[86] Theognis 35, alluded to at 1170a12.

仁與道德覺醒
——《論語》

孔子（公元前551年–479年），魯國（今山東省南部）曲阜人，生於春秋時代（公元前770年–476年）晚期。孔子目睹周室沒落和封建制崩潰，矢志恢復周朝禮法。廣義而言，周禮規範人如何在宗族、社會、政治範圍表現得恰如其分。廣義而言，周禮是宗族、社會和政治等不同層面裏的種種規範。孔子自稱「述而不作」，但他不止於恢復周的禮儀制度，而是以「仁」為禮之本，奠定禮法的道德基礎；同時更進一步把道德基礎建立在人的自覺之上。

孔子認為，人自始便紮根於不同之社群中，各社群皆有其行為規範和與之相應的情感。當中，「忠」、「恕」等情感應用範圍廣泛，有些則比較專門，如「孝」特指人與父母的關係，而「悌」則指手足之情。「仁」的根本意義是「愛人」，是一切行為規範的基礎。心中存「仁」，人便不會只受本能和一己欲望驅使，從而成就種種人際關係。

道德並非外加於人，也不為特定階層所專有；道德的基礎存於人的內心。孔子說：「仁遠乎哉？我欲仁，斯仁至矣。」（《述而》）仁並不遙遠，只在乎是否願意行仁。這種對於別人的存在和需要的自覺，在日常生活中每每出現。道德要有所提升，端賴我們擴充此內在之自覺，和反省、審視自身的行為。

孔子周遊列國宣揚他的見解，卻不為君主接納。他晚年返魯，致力於教學，可說是中國推廣普及教育的第一人。《論語》除了揭示孔子的道德和政治觀外，還展現其教與學的原則和方法。《論語》記錄了孔子言談，及他與學生的對話，相信是孔門弟子在戰國時期（公元前475年–221年）編集而成。清朝經學家崔述（1740年–1816年）認為，《論語》最後五篇從內容到風格皆有別於其他各篇，應編定於較後時期。[1]孔子死後數百年，其學說方對社會產生重大影響，但亦屢次被統治者扭曲濫用，以鞏固權力。

---

[1]見崔述《洙泗考信錄》卷四。崔述指出《論語》，首十五篇多以「子曰」引用孔子言談，最後五篇則有時使用「孔子曰」和「夫子曰」。另見Lau, D.C. *Confucius: The Analects* (Hong Kong: The Chinese University Press, 2010 [1979]), 265–270。

要重新認識孔子及其想法，我們可以撇開孔子「聖人」、「頑固保守」等既定形象，直接閱讀《論語》。以下節選的《論語》篇章，可與課程裏的其他經典對話。我們會發現，孔子和柏拉圖、亞里士多德一樣，都關心美好人生、理想友誼、實現潛能等課題；不過，與兩位希臘哲人相比，孔子看重道德潛能多於理性。透過閱讀《論語》，我們亦可了解孔子的為人處世、與弟子的關係、個人的長處和限制等。

選段和語譯摘自楊伯峻的《論語譯注》。

何偉明

《論語》

節錄

一、理想秩序

甲、禮之為禮

3.14 子曰：「周監於二代，郁郁乎文哉！吾從周。」

【譯文】孔子說：「周朝的禮儀制度是以夏商兩代爲根據，然後制定的，多麼豐富多彩呀！我主張周朝的。」

6.27 子曰：「君子博學於文，約之以禮，亦可以弗畔矣夫！」 畔：音「叛」

【譯文】孔子說：「君子廣泛地學習文獻，再用禮節來加以約束，也就可以不至於離經叛道了。」

3.4 林放問禮之本。子曰：「大哉問！禮，與其奢也，寧儉；喪，與其易也，寧戚。」

節錄自楊伯峻，《論語譯注》（2011），由中華書局（香港）有限公司授權翻印。

【譯文】林放問禮的本質。孔子說：「你的問題意義重大呀！就一般禮儀說，與其鋪張浪費，寧可撙節儉約；就喪禮說，與其儀文周到，寧可過度悲哀。」

與：參加
[粵]jyu⁶(預)
[普]yu³

3.12 祭如在，祭神如神在。子曰：「吾不與祭，如不祭。」

【譯文】孔子祭祀祖先的時候，便好像祖先真在那裏；祭神的時候，便好像神真在那裏。孔子又說：「我若是不能親自參加祭祀，是不請別人代理的。」

17.11 子曰：「禮云禮云，玉帛云乎哉？樂云樂云，鐘鼓云乎哉？」

【譯文】孔子說：「禮呀禮呀，僅是指玉帛等等禮物而說的嗎？樂呀樂呀，僅是指鐘鼓等等樂器而說的嗎？」

鄒
[粵]zau¹(周)
[普]zou¹

3.15 子入太廟，每事問。或曰：「孰謂鄹人之子知禮乎？入太廟，每事問。」子聞之，曰：「是禮也。」

【譯文】孔子到了周公廟，每件事情都發問。有人便說：「誰說叔梁紇的這個兒子懂得禮呢？他到了太廟，每件事都要向別人請教。」孔子聽到了這話，便道：「這正是禮呀。」

12.1 顏淵問仁。子曰：「克己復禮為仁。一日克己復禮，天下歸仁焉。為仁由己，而由人乎哉？」

顏淵曰：「請問其目。」子曰：「非禮勿視，非禮勿聽，非禮勿言，非禮勿動。」

顏淵曰：「回雖不敏，請事斯語矣。」

【譯文】顏淵問仁德。孔子道：「抑制自己，使言語行動都合於禮，就是仁。一旦這樣做到了，天下的人都會稱許你是仁人。實踐仁德，全憑自己，還憑別人嗎？」

顏淵道：「請問行動的綱領。」孔子道：「不合禮的事不看，不合禮的話不聽，不合禮的話不說，不合禮的事不做。」

顏淵道：「我雖然遲鈍，也要實行您這話。」

乙、仁為本：禮繫於情

3.3 子曰：「人而不仁，如禮何？人而不仁，如樂何？」

【譯文】孔子說：「做了人，却不仁，怎樣來對待禮儀制度呢？做了人，却不仁，怎樣來對待音樂呢？」

12.2 仲弓問仁。子曰：「出門如見大賓，使民如承大祭。己所不欲，勿施於人。在邦無怨，在家無怨。」

仲弓曰：「雍雖不敏，請事斯語矣。」

【譯文】仲弓問仁德。孔子道：「出門[工作]好像去接待貴賓，役使百姓好像去承當大祀典，[都得嚴肅認真，小心謹慎。]自己所不喜歡的事物，就不强加於別人。在工作崗位上不對工作有怨恨，就是不在工作崗位上也沒有怨恨。」

仲弓道：「我雖然遲鈍，也要實行您這話。」

12.22 樊遲問仁。子曰：「愛人。」[...]

【譯文】樊遲問仁。孔子道：「愛人。」[...]

6.30 子貢曰：「如有博施於民而能濟眾，何如？可謂仁乎？」子曰：「何事於仁！必也聖乎！堯舜其猶病諸！夫仁者，己欲立而立人，己欲達而達人。能近取譬，可謂仁之方也已。」

【譯文】子貢道：「假若有這麼一個人，廣泛地給人民以好處，又能幫助大家生活得很好，怎麼樣？可以說是仁道了嗎？」孔子道：「哪裏僅是仁道！那一定是聖德了！堯舜或者都難以做到哩！仁是甚麼呢？自己要站得住，同時也使別人站得住；自己要事事行得通，同時也使別人事事行得通。能够就眼下的事實選擇例子一步步去做，可以說是實踐仁道的方法了。」

15.24 子貢問曰：「有一言而可以終身行之者乎？」子曰：「其恕乎！己所不欲，勿施於人。」

【譯文】子貢問道：「有沒有一句可以終身奉行的話呢？」孔子道：「大概是『恕』罷！自己所不想要的任何事物，就不要加給別人。」

7.30 子曰：「仁遠乎哉？我欲仁，斯仁至矣。」
【譯文】孔子道：「仁德難道離我們很遠嗎？我要它，它就來了。」

惡：讀烏路切[粵]wu³ 或似讀音gu³（頗）[普]wu⁴

4.3 子曰：「唯仁者能好人，能惡人。」
【譯文】孔子說：「只有仁人才能够喜愛某人，厭惡某人。」

4.4 子曰：「苟志於仁矣，無惡也。」
【譯文】孔子說：「假如立定志向實行仁德，總沒有壞處。」

丙、義為本：撫禮歸義

適：規定、傾向[粵]dik¹(的)[普]di²

莫：通「漠」，冷淡

比[粵]bei²(遁)或bei³(庇)[普]bi⁴

4.10 子曰：「君子之於天下也，無適也，無莫也，義之與比。」
【譯文】孔子說：「君子對於天下的事情，沒規定要怎樣幹，也沒規定不要怎樣幹，只要怎樣幹合理恰當，便怎樣幹。」

5.16 子謂子產，「有君子之道四焉：其行己也恭，其事上也敬，其養民也惠，其使民也義。」
【譯文】孔子評論子產，說：「他有四種行爲合於君子之道：他自己的容顏態度莊嚴恭敬，他對待君上負責認真，他教養人民有恩惠，他役使人民合於道理。」

17.23 子路曰：「君子尚勇乎？」子曰：「君子義以為上，君子有勇而無義為亂，小人有勇而無義為盜。」
【譯文】子路問道：「君子尊貴勇敢不？」孔子道：「君子認爲義是最可尊貴的，君子只有勇，沒有義，就會搗亂造反；小人只有勇，沒有義，就會做土匪强盜。」

12.10 子張問崇德辨惑。子曰：「主忠信，徙義，崇德也。」[...]
【譯文】子張問如何去提高品德，辨別迷惑。孔子道：「以忠誠信實爲主，唯義是從，這就可以提高品德。」[...]

7.3 子曰：「德之不修，學之不講，聞義不能徙，不善不能改，是吾憂也。」
【譯文】孔子說：「品德不培養；學問不講習；聽到義在那裏，却不能親身赴之；有缺點不能改正，這些都是我的憂慮哩！」

15.18 子曰：「君子義以為質，禮以行之，孫以出之，信以成之。君子哉！」
【譯文】孔子說：「君子[對於事業]，以合宜爲原則，依禮節實行它，用謙遜的言語說出它，用誠實的態度完成它。真的是位君子呀！」

孫：即「遜」

丁、君臣之道

2.19 哀公問曰：「何為則民服？」孔子對曰：「舉直錯諸枉，則民服；舉枉錯諸直，則民不服。」
【譯文】魯哀公問道：「要做些甚麼事才能使百姓服從呢？」孔子答道：「把正直的人提拔出來，放在邪曲的人之上，百姓就服從了；若是把邪曲的人提拔出來，放在正直的人之上，百姓就會不服從。」

3.19 定公問：「君使臣，臣事君，如之何？」孔子對曰：「君使臣以禮，臣事君以忠。」
【譯文】魯定公問：「君主使用臣子，臣子服事君主，各應該怎麼樣？」孔子答道：「君主應該依禮來使用臣子，臣子應該忠心地服事君主。」

3.26 子曰：「居上不寬，為禮不敬，臨喪不哀，吾何以觀之哉？」

【譯文】孔子說：「居於統治地位不寬宏大量，行禮的時候不嚴肅認真，參加喪禮的時候不悲哀，這種樣子我怎麼看得下去呢？」

12.11 齊景公問政於孔子。孔子對曰：「君君，臣臣，父父，子子。」公曰：「善哉！信如君不君，臣不臣，父不父，子不子，雖有粟，吾得而食諸？」

【譯文】齊景公向孔子問政治。孔子答道：「君要像個君，臣要像個臣，父親要像父親，兒子要像兒子。」景公道：「對呀！若是君不像君，臣不像臣，父不像父，子不像子，即使糧食很多，我能吃得着嗎？」

12.19 季康子問政於孔子曰：「如殺無道，以就有道，何如？」孔子對曰：「子為政，焉用殺？子欲善而民善矣。君子之德風，小人之德草。草上之風，必偃。」

偃 [粵]jin²(淺) [普]yan³

【譯文】季康子向孔子請教政治，說道：「假若殺掉壞人來親近好人，怎麼樣？」孔子答道：「您治理政治，爲什麼要殺戮？您想把國家搞好，百姓就會好起來。領導人的作風好比風，老百姓的作風好比草。風向哪邊吹，草向哪邊倒。」

二、交友擇友

甲、對象、目的

1.8 子曰：「君子不重，則不威；學則不固。主忠信。無友不如己者。過，則勿憚改。」

【譯文】孔子說：「君子，如果不莊重，就沒有威嚴；即使讀書，所學的也不會鞏固。要以忠和信兩種道德爲主。不要跟不如自己的人交朋友。有了過錯，就不要怕改正。」

4.1 子曰：「里仁為美。擇不處仁，焉得知？」

【譯文】孔子說：「住的地方，要有仁德這才好。選擇住處，沒有仁德，怎麼能是聰明呢？」

4.25 子曰：「德不孤，必有鄰。」

【譯文】孔子說：「有道德的人不會孤單，一定會有[志同道合的人來和他做]夥伴。」

15.40 子曰：「道不同，不相為謀。」

【譯文】孔子說：「主張不同，不互相商議。」

4.17 子曰：「見賢思齊焉，見不賢而內自省也。」

【譯文】孔子說：「看見賢人，便應該想向他看齊；看見不賢的人，便應該自己反省，[有沒有同他類似的毛病。]」

7.22 子曰：「三人行，必有我師焉：擇其善者而從之，其不善者而改之。」

【譯文】孔子說：「幾個人一塊走路，其中便一定有可以爲我所取法的人：我選取那些優點而學習，看出那些缺點而改正。」

17.2 子曰：「性相近也，習相遠也。」

【譯文】孔子說：「人性情本相近，因為習染不同，便相距懸遠。」

乙、維繫友誼

12.24 曾子曰：「君子以文會友，以友輔仁。」

【譯文】曾子說：「君子用文章學問來聚會朋友，用朋友來幫助我培養仁德。」

13.23 子曰：「君子和而不同，小人同而不和。」
【譯文】孔子說：「君子用自己的正確意見來糾正別人的錯誤意見，使一切都做到恰到好處，却不肯盲從附和。小人只是盲從附和，却不肯表示自己的不同意見。」

偲
[粵]si¹(思)
[普]sī

13.28 子路問曰：「何如斯可謂之士矣？」子曰：「切切偲偲，怡怡如也，可謂士矣。朋友切切偲偲，兄弟怡怡。」
【譯文】子路問道：「怎麼樣才可以叫做『士』了呢？」孔子道：「互相批評，和睦共處，可以叫做『士』了。朋友之間，互相批評；兄弟之間，和睦共處。」

15.17 子曰：「羣居終日，言不及義，好行小慧，難矣哉！」
【譯文】孔子說：「同大家整天在一塊，不說一句有道理的話，只喜歡賣弄小聰明，這種人真難教導！」

樂
[粵]ngaau⁶
或依讀音haau⁶(校)
或lok⁹(落)
[普]yào或lè

16.5 孔子曰：「益者三樂，損者三樂。樂節禮樂，樂道人之善，樂多賢友，益矣。樂驕樂，樂佚遊，樂晏樂，損矣。」
【譯文】孔子說：「有益的快樂三種，有害的快樂三種。以得到禮樂的調節爲快樂，以宣揚別人的好處爲快樂，以交了不少有益的朋友爲快樂，便有益了。以驕傲爲快樂，以遊蕩忘返爲快樂，以飲食荒淫爲快樂，便有害了。」

便
[粵]pin⁴(騙)
[普]pián
辟：即「僻」

16.4 孔子曰：「益者三友，損者三友。友直，友諒，友多聞，益矣。友便辟，友善柔，友便佞，損矣。」
【譯文】孔子說：「有益的朋友三種，有害的朋友三種。同正直的人交友，同信實的人交友，同見聞廣博的人交友，便有益了。同諂媚奉承的人交友，同當面恭維背面毀謗的人交友，同誇誇其談的人交友，便有害了。」

12.23 子貢問友。子曰：「忠告而善道之，不可則止，毋自辱焉。」

【譯文】子貢問對待朋友的方法。孔子道：「忠心地勸告他，好好地引導他，他不聽從，也就罷了，不要自找侮辱。」

三、處世修身

甲、基本原則

1.16 子曰：「不患人之不己知，患不知人也。」
【譯文】孔子說：「別人不瞭解我，我不急；我急的是自己不瞭解別人。」

4.14 子曰：「不患無位，患所以立。不患莫己知，求為可知也。」
【譯文】孔子說：「不發愁沒有職位，只發愁沒有任職的本領；不怕沒有人知道自己，去追求足以使別人知道自己的本領好了。」

15.21 子曰：「君子求諸己，小人求諸人。」
【譯文】孔子說：「君子要求自己，小人要求別人。」

15.22 子曰：「君子矜而不爭，羣而不黨。」
【譯文】孔子說：「君子莊矜而不爭執，合羣而不關宗派。」

2.12 子曰：「君子不器。」
【譯文】孔子說：「君子不像器皿一般，[只有一定的用途。]」

乙、行先於言

2.13 子貢問君子。子曰：「先行其言而後從之。」
【譯文】子貢問怎樣才能做一個君子。孔子道：「對於你要說的話，先實行了，再說出來[這就够說是一個君子了]。」

4.22 子曰：「古者言之不出，恥躬之不逮也。」

【譯文】孔子說：「古時候言語不輕易出口，就是怕自己的行動趕不上。」

訥
[粵]neot⁶
近似讀音：leot⁶(律)
或naap⁶(納)

4.24 子曰：「君子欲訥於言而敏於行。」

【譯文】孔子說：「君子言語要謹慎遲鈍，工作要勤勞敏捷。」

鮮
[粵]sin²(洗)
[普]xian³

1.3 子曰：「巧言令色，鮮矣仁！」

【譯文】孔子說：「花言巧語，偽善的面貌，這種人，『仁德』是不會多的。」

1.4 曾子曰：「吾日三省吾身——為人謀而不忠乎？與朋友交而不信乎？傳不習乎？」

【譯文】曾子說：「我每天多次自己反省：替別人辦事是否盡心竭力了呢？同朋友往來是否誠實呢？老師傳授我的學業是否複習了呢？」

1.7 子夏曰：「賢賢易色；事父母，能竭其力；事君，能致其身；與朋友交，言而有信。雖曰未學，吾必謂之學矣。」

【譯文】子夏說：「對妻子，重品德，不重容貌；侍奉爹娘，能盡心竭力；服事君上，能豁出生命；同朋友交往，說話誠實守信。這種人，雖說沒學習過，我一定說他已經學習過了。」

1.14 子曰：「君子食無求飽，居無求安，敏於事而慎於言，就有道而正焉，可謂好學也已。」

【譯文】孔子說：「君子，吃食不要求飽足，居住不要求舒適，對工作勤勞敏捷，說話却謹慎，到有道的人那裏去匡正自己，這樣，可以說是好學了。」

揖
[粵]jap¹(泣)

3.7 子曰：「君子無所爭。必也射乎！揖讓而升，下而飲。其爭也君子。」

【譯文】孔子說：「君子沒有什麼可爭的事情。如果有所爭，一定是比箭吧！[但是當射箭的時候，]相互作揖然後登堂；[射箭完畢，]走下堂來，然後[作揖]喝酒。那一種競賽是很有禮貌的。」

15.41 子曰：「辭達而已矣。」

【譯文】孔子說：「言辭，足以達意便罷了。」

13.27 子曰：「剛、毅、木、訥近仁。」

【譯文】孔子說：「剛強、果決、樸質，而言語不輕易出口，有這四種品德的人近於仁德。」

丙、物質生活

簞
[粵]daan¹(丹)

食
[粵]zi⁶(自)
[普]si⁴

瓢
[粵]piu⁴(嫖)
[普]piao²

6.11 子曰：「賢哉，回也！一簞食，一瓢飲，在陋巷，人不堪其憂，回也不改其樂。賢哉，回也！」

【譯文】孔子說：「顏回多麼有修養呀！一竹籃飯，一瓜瓢水，住在小巷子裏，別人都受不了那窮苦的憂愁，顏回却不改變他自有的快樂。顏回多麼有修養呀！」

去：拋棄
[粵]heoi³(許)
[普]仍讀qu⁴

「人之惡也」之「惡」：動詞
[粵]wu³
[普]wu⁴

「惡乎」之「惡」：疑問詞
[粵]wu¹(污)
[普]wu¹

4.5 子曰：「富與貴，是人之所欲也；不以其道得之，不處也。貧與賤，是人之所惡也；不以其道得之，不去也。君子去仁，惡乎成名？君子無終食之間違仁，造次必於是，顛沛必於是。」

【譯文】孔子說：「發大財，做大官，這是人人所盼望的；不用正當的方法去得到它，君子不接受。窮困和下賤，這是人人所厭惡的；不用正當的方法去拋掉它，君子不擺脫。君子拋棄了仁德，怎樣去成就他的聲名呢？君子沒有吃完一餐飯的時間離開仁德，就是在倉卒匆忙的時候一定和仁德同在，就是在顛沛流離的時候一定和仁德同在。」

惡：形容詞
[粵]ok³
[普]e⁴

4.9 子曰：「士志於道，而恥惡衣惡食者，未足與議也。」
【譯文】孔子說：「讀書人有志於真理，但又以自己吃粗糧穿破衣爲恥辱，這種人，不值得同他商議了。」

4.11 子曰：「君子懷德，小人懷土；君子懷刑，小人懷惠。」
【譯文】孔子說：「君子懷念道德，小人懷念鄉土；君子關心法度，小人關心恩惠。」

4.16 子曰：「君子喻於義，小人喻於利。」
【譯文】孔子說：「君子懂得的是義，小人懂得的是利。」

15.32 子曰：「君子謀道不謀食。耕也，餒在其中矣；學也，祿在其中矣。君子憂道不憂貧。」
【譯文】孔子說：「君子用心力於學術，不用心力於衣食。耕田，也常常餓着肚皮；學習，常常得到俸祿。君子只着急得不到道，不着急得不到財。」

14.1 憲問恥。子曰：「邦有道，穀；邦無道，穀，恥也。」[...]
【譯文】原憲問如何叫恥辱。孔子道：「國家政治清明，做官領薪俸；國家政治黑暗，做官領薪俸，這就是恥辱。」[...]

15.13 子曰：「已矣乎！吾未見好德如好色者也。」
【譯文】孔子說：「完了吧！我從沒見過像喜歡美貌一般地喜歡美德的人哩。」

丁、求學求知

說：即「悅」

1.1 子曰：「學而時習之，不亦說乎？有朋自遠方來，不亦樂乎？人不知而不慍，不亦君子乎？」

慍
[粵]wan³
近似讀音：fan³(訓)
[普]yun⁴

【譯文】孔子說：「學了，然後按一定的時間去實習它，不也高興嗎？有志同道合的人從遠處來，不也快樂嗎？人家不了解我，我却不怨恨，不也是君子嗎？」

2.11 子曰：「温故而知新，可以為師矣。」
【譯文】孔子說：「在温習舊知識時，能有新體會、新發現，就可以做老師了。」

2.15 子曰：「學而不思則罔，思而不學則殆。」
【譯文】孔子說：「只是讀書，却不思考，就會受騙；只是空想，却不讀書，就會缺乏信心。」

2.17 子曰：「由！誨女知之乎！知之為知之，不知為不知，是知也。」
【譯文】孔子說：「由！教給你對待知或不知的正確態度吧！知道就是知道，不知道就是不知道，這就是聰明智慧。」

女：即「汝」

6.20 子曰：「知之者不如好之者，好之者不如樂之者。」
【譯文】孔子說：「[對於任何學問和事業，]懂得它的人不如喜愛它的人；喜愛它的人又不如以它爲樂的人。」

5.15 子貢問曰：「孔文子何以謂之『文』也？」子曰：「敏而好學，不恥下問，是以謂之『文』也。」
【譯文】子貢問道：「孔文子憑什麼諡他爲『文』？」孔子道：「他聰敏靈活，愛好學問，又謙虛下問，不以爲恥，所以用『文』字做他的諡號。」

15.29 子曰：「人能弘道，非道弘人。」
【譯文】孔子說：「人能够把道廓大，不是用道來廓大人。」

8.12 子曰：「三年學，不至於穀，不易得也。」
【譯文】孔子說：「讀書三年並不存做官的念頭，這是難得的。」

8.17 子曰：「學如不及，猶恐失之。」
【譯文】孔子說：「做學問好像[追逐什麼似的，]生怕趕不上；[趕上了，]還生怕丟掉了。」

17.3 子曰：「唯上知與下愚不移。」
【譯文】孔子說：「只有上等的智者和下等的愚人是改變不了的。」

20.3 孔子曰：「不知命，無以為君子也；不知禮，無以立也；不知言，無以知人也。」
【譯文】孔子說：「不懂得命運，沒有可能作爲君子；不懂得禮，沒有可能立足於社會；不懂得分辨人家的言語，沒有可能認識人。」

四、孝之本懷

甲、真義

2.7 子游問孝。子曰：「今之孝者，是謂能養。至於犬馬，皆能有養；不敬，何以別乎？」
【譯文】子游問孝道。孔子說：「現在的所謂孝，就是說能够養活爹娘便行了。對於狗馬都能够得到飼養；若不存心嚴肅地孝順父母，那養活爹娘和飼養狗馬怎樣去分別呢？」

2.8 子夏問孝。子曰：「色難。有事，弟子服其勞；有酒食，先生饌，曾是以為孝乎？」

饌 [粵]zaan⁶(賤) [普]zhuàn

曾：怎，豈 [粵]zang¹(增) [普]zēng

【譯文】子夏問孝道。孔子道：「兒子在父母前經常有愉悅的容色，是件難事。有事情，年輕人效勞；有酒有肴，年長的人吃喝，難道這竟可認爲是孝麼？」

2.6 孟武伯問孝。子曰：「父母唯其疾之憂。」
【譯文】孟武伯向孔子請教孝道。孔子道：「做爹娘的只是爲孝子的疾病發愁。」

4.19 子曰：「父母在，不遠遊，遊必有方。」
【譯文】孔子說：「父母在世，不出遠門，如果要出遠門，必須有一定的去處。」

4.18 子曰：「事父母幾諫，見志不從，又敬不違，勞而不怨。」
【譯文】孔子說：「侍奉父母，[如果他們有不對的地方，]得輕微婉轉地勸止，看到自己的意沒有被聽從，仍然恭敬地不觸犯他們，雖然憂愁，但不怨恨。」

幾 [粵]gei¹(機) [普]jī

乙、爭議

13.18 葉公語孔子曰：「吾黨有直躬者，其父攘羊，而子證之。」孔子曰：「吾黨之直者異於是：父為子隱，子為父隱。——直在其中矣。」
【譯文】葉公告訴孔子道：「我那裏有個坦白直率的人，他父親偷了羊，他便告發。」孔子道：「我們那裏坦白直率的人和你們的不同：父親替兒子隱瞞，兒子替父親隱瞞——直率就在這裏面。」

語：告訴 [粵]jyu⁶(預) [普]yù

攘 [粵]joeng⁵(仰) [普]rǎng

17.21 宰我問：「三年之喪，期已久矣。君子三年不為禮，禮必壞；三年不為樂，樂必崩。舊穀既沒，新穀既升，鑽燧改火，期可已矣。」
子曰：「食夫稻，衣夫錦，於女安乎？」
曰：「安。」

期：一年 [粵]gei¹(基) [普]jī

衣：動詞 [粵]ji¹(意) [普]yì

「女安，則為之！夫君子之居喪，食旨不甘，聞樂不樂，居處不安，故不為也。今女安，則為之！」

宰我出。子曰：「予之不仁也！子生三年，然後免於父母之懷。夫三年之喪，天下之通喪也，予也有三年之愛於其父母乎！」

【譯文】宰我問道：「父母死了，守孝三年，爲期也太久了。君子有三年不去習禮儀，禮儀一定會廢棄掉；三年不去奏音樂，音樂一定會失傳。陳穀既已吃完了，新穀又已登場；打火用的燧木又經過了一個輪迴，一年也就可以了。」

孔子道：「[父母死了，不到三年，]你便吃那個白米飯，穿那個花緞衣，你心裏安不安呢？」

宰我道：「安。」

孔子便搶着道：「你安，你就去幹吧！君子的守孝，吃美味不曉得甜，聽音樂不覺得快樂，住在家裏不以爲舒適，才不這樣幹。如今你既然覺得心安，便去幹好了。」

宰我退了出來。孔子道：「宰予真不仁呀！兒女生下地來，三年以後才能完全脫離父母的懷抱。普父母守孝三年，天下都是如此的。宰予難道就沒有從他父母那裏得着三年懷抱的愛護嗎？」

丙、孝弟與社會

1.6 子曰：「弟子，入則孝，出則悌，謹而信，汎愛眾，而親仁。行有餘力，則以學文。」

【譯文】孔子說：「後生小子，在父母跟前，就孝順父母；離開自己房子，便敬愛兄長；寡言少語，說則誠實可信，博愛大衆，親近有仁德的人。這樣躬行實踐之後，有剩餘力量，就再去學習文獻。」

弟：即「悌」
鮮
[粵]sin²(洗)
[普]xian³

1.2 有子曰：「其為人也孝弟，而好犯上者，鮮矣；不好犯上，而好作亂者，未之有也。君子務本，本立而道生。孝弟也者，其為仁之本與！」

與：戰國前，即「歟」
[粵]jyu⁴(余)
[普]yu²

【譯文】有子說：「他的爲人，孝順爹娘，敬愛兄長，却喜歡觸犯上級，這種人是很少的；不喜歡觸犯上級，却喜歡造反，這種人從來沒有過。君子專心致力於基礎工作，基礎樹立了，『道』就會產生。孝順爹娘，敬愛兄長，這就是『仁』的基礎吧！」

2.21 或謂孔子曰：「子奚不為政？」子曰：「書云：『孝乎惟孝，友于兄弟，施於有政。』是亦為政，奚其為為政？」

【譯文】有人對孔子道：「你爲什麼不參與政治？」孔子道：「尚書上說，『孝呀，只有孝順父母，友愛兄弟，把這種風氣影響到政治上去。』這也就是參與政治了呀，爲什麼定要做官才算參與政治呢？」

五、孔子其人

甲、為學之道

5.28 子曰：「十室之邑，必有忠信如丘者焉，不如丘之好學也。」

【譯文】孔子說：「就是十户人家的地方，一定有像我這樣又忠心又信實的人，祇是趕不上我的喜歡學問罷了。」

7.20 子曰：「我非生而知之者，好古，敏以求之者也。」

【譯文】孔子說：「我不是生來就有知識的人，而是愛好古代文化，勤奮敏捷去求得來的人。」

7.1 子曰：「述而不作，信而好古，竊比於我老彭。」

【譯文】孔子說：「闡述而不創作，以相信的態度喜愛古代文化，我私自和我那老彭相比。」

7.2 子曰：「默而識之，學而不厭，誨人不倦，何有於我哉？」

識：記下
[粵]zi³(志)
[普]zhi⁴

【譯文】孔子說：「[把所見所聞的]默默地記在心裏，努力學習而不厭棄，教導別人而不疲倦，這些事情我做到了哪些呢？」

15.31 子曰：「吾嘗終日不食，終夜不寢，以思，無益，不如學也。」

【譯文】孔子說：「我曾經整天不吃，整晚不睡，去想，沒有益處，不如去學習。」

7.17 子曰：「加我數年，五十以學易，可以無大過矣。」

【譯文】孔子說：「讓我多活幾年，到五十歲時候去學習易經，便可以沒有大過錯了。」

4.8 子曰：「朝聞道，夕死可矣。」

【譯文】孔子說：「早晨得知真理，要我當晚死去，都可以。」

乙、品性喜好

7.21 子不語怪，力，亂，神。

【譯文】孔子不談怪異、勇力、叛亂和鬼神。

7.14 子在齊聞韶，三月不知肉味，曰：「不圖為樂之至於斯也。」

韶
[粵]siu⁴
近似讀音：tiu⁴(條)
[普]shao²

【譯文】孔子在齊國聽到韶的樂章，很長時間嘗不出肉味，於是道：「想不到欣賞音樂竟到了這種境界。」

7.32 子與人歌而善，必使反之，而後和之。

【譯文】孔子同別人一道唱歌，如果唱得好，一定請他再唱一遍，然後自己又和他。

9.8 子曰：「吾有知乎哉？無知也。有鄙夫問於我，空空如也。我叩其兩端而竭焉。」

【譯文】孔子說：「我有知識嗎？沒有哩。有一個莊稼漢問我，我本是一點也不知道的。我從他那個問題的首尾兩頭去盤問，[才得到很多意思，]然後儘量地告訴他。」

10.8 食不厭精，膾不厭細。

食饐而餲，魚餒而肉敗，不食。色惡，不食。臭惡，不食。失飪，不食。不時，不食。割不正，不食。不得其醬，不食。

餲
[粵]ji³(意)
[普]yi⁴

肉雖多，不使勝食氣。

餲
[粵]ngat⁶(壓)
[普]ai⁴

唯酒無量，不及亂。

沽酒市脯不食。

不撤薑食，不多食。

【譯文】糧食不嫌舂得精，魚和肉不嫌切得細。

糧食霉爛發臭，魚和肉腐爛，都不吃。食物顏色難看，不吃。氣味難聞，不吃。烹調不當，不吃。不到該當吃食時候，不吃。不是按一定方法砍割的肉，不吃。沒有一定調味的醬醋，不吃。

席上肉雖然多，吃它不超過主食。

只有酒不限量，却不至醉。

買來的酒和肉乾不吃。

吃完了，薑不撤除，但吃得不多。

10.10 食不語，寢不言。

【譯文】吃飯的時候不交談，睡覺的時候不說話。

10.11 雖疏食菜羹，瓜祭，必齊如也。

楊伯峻從魯本《論語》讀「瓜」為「必」。

齊：即「齋」

【譯文】雖然是糙米飯小菜湯，也一定得先祭一祭，而且祭的時候還一定恭恭敬敬，好像齋戒了的一樣。

10.12 席不正，不坐。
【譯文】坐席擺的方向不合禮制，不坐。

丙、待人接物

7.38 子溫而厲，威而不猛，恭而安。
【譯文】孔子溫和而嚴厲，有威儀而不兇猛，莊嚴而安詳。

與：疑問詞，通「歟」[粵]jyu⁴(余)[普]yu²

1.10 子禽問於子貢曰：「夫子至於是邦也，必聞其政，求之與？抑與之與？」子貢曰：「夫子溫、良、恭、儉、讓以得之。夫子之求之也，其諸異乎人之求之與？」
【譯文】子禽向子貢問道：「他老人家一到哪個國家，必然聽得到那個國家的政事，求來的呢？還是別人自動告訴他的呢？」子貢道：「他老人家是靠溫和、善良、嚴肅、節儉、謙遜來取得的。他老人家獲得的方法，和別人獲得的方法，不相同吧？」

10.13 鄉人飲酒，杖者出，斯出矣。
【譯文】行鄉飲酒禮後，要等老年人都出去了，自己這纔出去。

恂[粵]seon¹(詢)[普]xun²

10.1 孔子於鄉黨，恂恂如也，似不能言者。
其在宗廟朝廷，便便言，唯謹爾。
【譯文】孔子在本鄉的地方上非常恭順，好像不能說話的樣子。
他在宗廟裏、朝廷上，有話便明白而流暢地說出，只是說得很少。

詐：即「餧」[粵]gwai⁶(怪)

18.4 齊人歸女樂，季桓子受之，三日不朝，孔子行。

【譯文】齊國送了許多歌姬舞女給魯國，季桓子接受了，三天不問政事，孔子就離職走了。

丁、師生關係

15.39 子曰：「有教無類。」
【譯文】孔子說：「人人我都教育，沒有[貧富、地域等等]區別。」

7.7 子曰：「自行束脩以上，吾未嘗無誨焉。」
【譯文】孔子說：「只要是主動地給我一點見面薄禮，我從沒有不教誨的。」

9.23 子曰：「後生可畏，焉知來者之不如今也？四十、五十而無聞焉，斯亦不足畏也已。」
【譯文】孔子說：「年少的人是可怕的，怎能斷定他的將來趕不上現在的人呢？一個人到了四、五十歲還沒有什麼名望，也就值不得懼怕了。」

9.21 子謂顏淵，曰：「惜乎！吾見其進也，未見其止也。」
【譯文】孔子談到顏淵，說道：「可惜呀[他死了]！我只看見他不斷地進步，從沒看見他停留。」

11.23 子畏於匡，顏淵後。子曰：「吾以女為死矣。」曰：「子在，回何敢死？」
【譯文】孔子在匡被囚禁了之後，顏淵最後才來。孔子道：「我以爲你是死了。」顏淵道：「您還活着，我怎麼敢死呢？」

7.24 子曰：「二三子以我為隱乎？吾無隱乎爾。吾無行而不與二三子者，是丘也。」
【譯文】孔子說：「你們這些學生以爲我有所隱瞞嗎？我對你們是沒有隱瞞的。我沒有一點不向你們公開，這就是我孔丘的爲人。」

戊、天命生死

11.12 季路問事鬼神。子曰：「未能事人，焉能事鬼？」

曰：「敢問死。」曰：「未知生，焉知死？」

【譯文】子路問服事鬼神的方法。孔子道：「活人還不能服事，怎麼能去服事死人？」

子路又道：「我大膽地請問死是怎麼回事。」孔子道：「生的道理還沒有弄明白，怎麼能够懂得死？」

14.35 子曰：「莫我知也夫！」子貢曰：「何為其莫知子也？」子曰：「不怨天，不尤人，下學而上達。知我者其天乎！」

【譯文】孔子歎道：「沒有人知道我呀！」子貢道：「爲什麼沒有人知道您呢？」孔子道：「不怨恨天，不責備人，學習一些平常的知識，却透澈了解很高的道理。知道我的，只是天罷！」

魅 [粵]tceoi¹(祝) [普]tui²

7.23 子曰：「天生德於予，桓魋其如予何？」

【譯文】孔子說：「天在我身上生了這樣的品德，那桓魋將把我怎樣？」

與 [粵]jyu⁶(祝) [普]yu⁴

9.5 子畏於匡，曰：「文王既沒，文不在茲乎？天之將喪斯文也，後死者不得與於斯文也；天之未喪斯文也，匡人其如予何？」

【譯文】孔子被匡地的羣衆所拘禁，便道：「周文王死了以後，一切文化遺產不都在我這裏嗎？天若是要消滅這種文化，那我也不會掌握這些文化了；天若是不要消滅這種文化，那匡人將把我怎麼樣呢？」

舍：即「捨」

9.17 子在川上，曰：「逝者如斯夫！不舍晝夜。」

【譯文】孔子在河邊，歎道：「消逝的時光像河水一樣呀！日夜不停地流去。」

7.9 子食於有喪者之側，未嘗飽也。

【譯文】孔子在死了親屬的人旁邊吃飯，不曾吃飽過。

7.10 子於是日哭，則不歌。

【譯文】孔子在這一天哭泣過，就不再唱歌。

11.10 顏淵死，子哭之慟。從者曰：「子慟矣！」曰：「有慟乎？非夫人之為慟而誰為？」

【譯文】顏淵死了，孔子哭得很傷心。跟着孔子的人道：「您太傷心了！」孔子道：「真的太傷心了嗎？我不爲這樣的人傷心，還爲什麼人傷心呢！」

己、夫子境界

9.4 子絕四——毋意，毋必，毋固，毋我。

【譯文】孔子一點也沒有四種毛病——不懸空揣測，不絕對肯定，不拘泥固執，不唯我獨是。

14.28 子曰：「君子道者三，我無能焉：仁者不憂，知者不惑，勇者不懼。」子貢曰：「夫子自道也。」

【譯文】孔子說：「君子所行的三件事，我一件也沒能做到：仁德的人不憂慮，智慧的人不迷惑，勇敢的人不懼怕。」子貢道：「這正是他老人家對自己的敘述哩。」

樂 [粵]ngaau⁶ [普]yao⁴

6.23 子曰：「知者樂水，仁者樂山。知者動，仁者靜。知者樂，仁者壽。」

【譯文】孔子說：「聰明人樂於水，仁人樂於山。聰明人活動，仁人沉靜。聰明人快樂，仁人長壽。」

9.14 子欲居九夷。或曰：「陋，如之何？」子曰：「君子居之，何陋之有？」

【譯文】孔子想搬到九夷去住。有人說：「那地方非常簡陋，怎麼好住？」孔子道：「有君子去住，就不簡陋了。」

肱
[粵]gwang¹(㙒)
[普]gong¹

枕：動詞
[粵]zam²(浸)

7.16 子曰：「飯疏食飲水，曲肱而枕之，樂亦在其中矣。不義而富且貴，於我如浮雲。」

【譯文】孔子說：「吃粗糧，喝冷水，彎着胳膊做枕頭，也有着樂趣。幹不正當的事而得來的富貴，我看來好像浮雲。」

7.19 葉公問孔子於子路，子路不對。子曰：「女奚不曰，其為人也，發憤忘食，樂以忘憂，不知老之將至云爾。」

【譯文】葉公向子路問孔子爲人怎麼樣，子路不回答。孔子對子路道：「你爲什麼不這樣說：他的爲人，用功便忘記吃飯，快樂便忘記憂愁，不曉得衰老會要到來，如此罷了。」

6.17 子曰：「誰能出不由戶？何莫由斯道也？」

【譯文】孔子說：「誰能够走出屋外不從房門經過？爲什麼沒有人從我這條路行走呢？」

有：即「又」

踰
[粵]jyu⁴(余)
或jyu⁶(預)
[普]yu²

2.4 子曰：「吾十有五而志于學，三十而立，四十而不惑，五十而知天命，六十而耳順，七十而從心所欲，不踰矩。」

【譯文】孔子說：「我十五歲，有志於學問；三十歲，[懂禮儀，]說話做事都有把握；四十歲，[掌握了各種知識，]不致迷惑；五十歲，得知天命；六十歲，一聽別人言語，便可以分別真假，判明是非；到了七十歲，便隨心所欲，任何念頭不越出規矩。」

超脫的自由
——《莊子》

莊子（約公元前369年–286年），宋國蒙人，生於孔子歿後一百多年之戰國時代，那是兵禍連年、民生困苦之亂世，卻也是百家爭鳴、思潮學說湧現的年代。同時代之孟子（約公元前372年–289年）循孔子之道，欲以仁義救世，周遊列國，卻不為所用。莊子則拒絕楚威王之邀請，不願出仕為相；反繼承老子思想，提出一套存真保生的處世哲學。

《莊子》一書共分內、外和雜篇三類。內篇七篇，一般相信出自莊子手筆，本課程所選的篇章，絕大部分出自內篇。外、雜兩篇共二十六篇，出自莊子後學，內容與莊子學說同異互見。雜篇末《天下》篇評論當時各學派思想，是研究先秦思想史的重要文獻。

莊子認為渾然一體的「道」是宇宙之本源，從「道」這本源觀之，萬物等同，這就是他的「齊物」思想。世間萬物，包括個人形體生命，皆從道衍生而出，莊子後學申明此說，更謂氣聚則形體生命形成，氣散則形體生命壞滅（《至樂》）。再者，從本源來看，一切價值如壽夭、貧富、美醜等，均屬相對。若能洞悉「萬物齊一」的道理，明白自身形體不外是萬物之一，與真我無關，真我便能擺脫對個體之執着，得以「逍遙」。所謂「逍遙」，並非指個人精神能脫離肉體獨立存在；而是指人生在世，一己之形軀際遇會帶來形役痛苦，但個人精神卻有擺脫此形役痛苦之自由，莊子身處不可測而無可奈之亂世，所追求的正是這種精神人格之獨立。莊子對逍遙境界種種詭奇炫麗的描述，其旨正在呈現此超越現實世界的自由。

對莊子而言，世俗之典章制度皆背離大道本源；儒者倡導之仁義道德，莊子視為桎梏人性，妨礙逍遙。莊子懷才，但不為世用，他提出之「無用之用」，就是不追求世俗成就，在世而不入世，以求存真保生的處世態度。我們生活的時代與莊子相去甚遠，他的處世之道，到今天是否還有啟發作用？柏拉圖、亞里士多德、孔子皆主張自我完善，莊子卻似反其道而行，是否「消極」？還是自有其「積極」一面？現今人多看重進步，於不同領域不斷追尋建樹，然而莊子卻質疑一切發展皆破壞人與自然之道的和諧關係，這對我們思考文化與科技發展，人與社會以至自然環境之關係有沒有啟示？到底

莊子學說已經過時，還是歷久常新、獨具發人深省之魅力，則待大家讀後各自判斷。

何偉明

《莊子》

節錄

逍遙遊

一

北冥有魚，其名為鯤。鯤之大，不知其幾千里也。化而為鳥，其名為鵬。鵬之背，不知其幾千里也；怒而飛，其翼若垂天之雲。是鳥也，海運則將徙於南冥。南冥者，天池也。

【今譯】北海有一條魚，它的名字叫做鯤。鯤的巨大，不知道有幾千里。化成為鳥，它的名字叫做鵬。鵬的背，不知道有幾千里；奮起而飛，它的翅膀就像天邊的雲。這隻鳥，海動風起時就遷往南海。那南海，就是天然大池。

齊諧者，志怪者也。諧之言曰：「鵬之徙於南冥也，水擊三千里，摶扶搖而上者九萬里。去以六月息者也。」野馬也，塵埃也，生物之以息相吹也。天之蒼蒼，其正色邪？其遠而無所至極邪？其視下也，亦若是則已矣。

摶
[粵]bok³(博)
[普]bo²

【今譯】齊諧這本書，是記載怪異之事的。諧書上說：「當鵬遷往南海的時

節錄自陳鼓應，《莊子今註今譯》（1999），由臺灣商務印書館授權翻印。

候，水花激起達三千里，翼拍旋風而直上九萬里高空。它是乘著六月大風而飛去的。」野馬般的遊氣，飛揚的遊塵，以及活動的生物被風相吹而飄動。天色蒼蒼茫茫，那是它的本色嗎？它的高遠是沒有窮極的嗎？大鵬往下看，也就是這樣的光景。

坳 [粵]aau¹(拗) [普]ao'

且夫水之積也不厚，則其負大舟也無力。覆杯水於坳堂之上，則芥為之舟；置杯焉則膠，水淺而舟大也。風之積也不厚，則其負大翼也無力。故九萬里，則風斯在下矣，而後乃今培風；背負青天而莫之夭閼者，而後乃今將圖南。

夭 [粵]jiu¹(沃) 或jiu'(腰) [普]yao'

閼 [粵]aat³(聚) [普]e'

【今譯】水的聚積不深厚，那麼就沒有足夠的力量負載大船。倒一杯水在堂前窪地，那麼放一根小草可當作船；放上一個杯子就膠著住了，這是水淺而船大的緣故。風的強度如果不大，那麼就沒有力量承負巨大的翅膀。所以鵬飛九萬里，那厚積的風就在它的下面，然後才乘著風力，背負青天而沒有阻礙，然後準備飛往南海。

蜩 [粵]tiu⁴(條) [普]tiao'

斥鴳 [粵]fong³(方) [普]fang'

斥：同「蒼」

蜩與學鳩笑之曰：「我決起而飛，槍榆枋，時則不至而控於地而已矣，奚以之九萬里而南為？」適莽蒼者，三飡而反，腹猶果然；適百里者，宿舂糧；適千里者，三月聚糧。之二蟲又何知！

舂 [粵]zung¹(中) [普]chong'

【今譯】蟬和小鳩譏笑大鵬說：「我盡全力而飛，碰到榆樹和檀樹就停下來，有時飛不上去而投落地面就是了，何必要飛九萬里而往南海去呢？」到郊野去的，只帶三餐糧食而當天回來，肚子還飽飽的；到百里路遠地方去的，要準備一宿的糧食；到千里路遠地方去的，就要預備三個月的糧食。這兩隻蟲鳥又那裡知道呢？

蟪 [粵]wai⁶(惠) [普]wei'

蛄 [粵]gu¹(姑) [普]gu'

小知不及大知，小年不及大年。奚以知其然也？朝菌不知晦朔，蟪蛄不知春秋，此小年也。楚之南有冥靈者，以五百歲為春，五百歲為秋；上古有

大椿者，以八千歲為春，八千歲為秋，此大年也。而彭祖乃今以久特聞，眾人匹之，不亦悲乎！

椿 [粵]ceon¹(春) [普]chun'

【今譯】小智不能比匹大智，壽命短的不能比匹壽命長的。怎麼知道是這樣呢？朝生暮死的蟲子不知道一個月的時光，春生夏死、夏生秋死的寒蟬，不知道一年的時光，這就是「小年」。楚國南邊有一隻靈龜，以五百年為一個春季，五百年為一個秋季；上古時代有一棵大椿樹，更以八千年為一個春季，八千年為一個秋季，這就是「大年」。彭祖到現在還以長壽而傳聞於世，眾人都想比附他，豈不是可悲歎嗎？

湯之問棘也是已：

湯問棘曰：「上下四方有極乎？」

棘曰：「無極之外，復無極也。窮髮之北有冥海者，天池也。有魚焉，其廣數千里，未有知其修者，其名為鯤。有鳥焉，其名為鵬，背若太山，翼若垂天之雲，摶扶搖羊角而上者九萬里，絕雲氣，負青天，然後圖南。斥鴳笑之曰：『彼且奚適也？我騰躍而上，不過數仞而下，翱翔蓬蒿之間，此亦飛之至也。而彼且奚適也？』」此小大之辯也。

鴳 [粵]aan³(晏) [普]yan'

蓬 [粵]hou' (但似讀音：高gou') [普]hao'

【今譯】湯問棘也有這樣的話：

湯問棘說：「上下四方有極限嗎？」

棘說：「無極之外，又是無極！不毛之地的北方，有一個廣漠無涯的大海，就是天然的大池。那裡有一條魚，它的寬度有幾千里，沒有人知道它有多長，它的名字叫做鯤。有隻鳥，它的名字叫做鵬，鵬的背像泰山，翅膀像天邊的雲，乘著旋風而直上九萬里的高空，超絕雲氣，背負青天，然後向南飛翔。小澤裡的麻雀譏笑它說：『它要到那裡去呢？我騰躍而上，不過幾丈就落下來，在蓬蒿幾中飛來飛去，這也是盡了飛躍的能事。而它究竟要飛到那裡去呢？』」這就是小和大的分別。

故夫知效一官，行比一鄉，德合一君而徵一國者，其自視也亦若此矣。而宋榮子猶然笑之。且舉世而譽之而不加勸，舉世而非之而不加沮，定乎內外之分，辯乎榮辱之境，斯已矣。彼其於世未數數然也。雖然，猶有未樹也。夫列子御風而行，泠然善也，旬有五日而後反。彼於致福者，未數數然也。此雖免乎行，猶有所待者也。

若夫乘天地之正，而御六氣之辯，以遊無窮者，彼且惡乎待哉！

故曰，至人無己，神人無功，聖人無名。

【今譯】有些人才智可以擔任一官的職守，行為可以順著一鄉的俗情，德性可以投合一君的心意而取得一國的信任，他們自鳴得意也就好像小麻雀一樣。而宋榮子不禁嗤笑他們。宋榮子能夠做到整個世界都誇讚他卻不感到奮勉，整個世界都非議他卻不感到沮喪。他能認定內我和外物的分際，辨別光榮和恥辱的界限。就這樣罷了！他對於世俗的聲譽並沒有汲汲去追求。雖然這樣，但他還有未曾樹立的。

列子乘風遊行，輕巧極了，過了十五天而後回來。他對於求完善的事，並沒有汲汲去追求。這樣雖然可免於步行，但畢竟有所依待。

若能順著自然的規律，而把握六氣的變化，以遊於無窮的境域，他還有什麼依待的呢！

所以說：「至人無己」，「神人無功」，「聖人無名」。

二

堯讓天下於許由，曰：「日月出矣，而爝火不息，其於光也，不亦難乎！時雨降矣，而猶浸灌，其於澤也，不亦勞乎！夫子立，而天下治，而我猶尸之，吾自視缺然。請致天下。」

許由曰：「子治天下，天下既已治也。而我猶代子，吾將為名乎？名者實之賓也。吾將為賓乎？鷦鷯巢於深林，不過一枝；偃鼠飲河，不過滿腹。歸休乎君，予無所用天下為！庖人雖不治庖，尸祝不越樽俎而代之矣。」

比：「庇護」或「等同」
[粵]bei²(庇)
[普]bi⁴

數
[粵]sok³(索)
[普]shuo⁴

泠
[粵]ling⁴(零)
[普]ling²

惡：疑問詞
[粵]wu¹(烏)
[普]wu¹

【今譯】堯把天下讓給許由，說：「日月都出來了，而燭火還不熄滅，要和日月比光，不是很難嗎！及時雨都降落了，而還在挑水灌溉，對於潤澤禾苗，豈不是徒勞嗎！先生一在位，天下便可安定，而我還占著這個位子，自己覺得很慚愧，請容我把天下讓給你。」

許由說：「你治理天下，天下已經安定了。而我還來代替你，我難道為著名嗎？名是實的賓位，我難道為著求賓位嗎？小鳥在深林裡築巢，所需不過一枝；偃鼠到河裡飲水，所需不過滿腹。你請回吧！我要天下做什麼呢？廚子雖不下廚，主祭的人也不越位去代他來烹調。」

肩吾問於連叔曰：「吾聞言於接輿，大而無當，往而不返。吾驚怖其言，猶河漢而無極也；大有逕庭，不近人情焉。」

連叔曰：「其言謂何哉？」

「曰：『藐姑射之山，有神人居焉，肌膚若冰雪，綽約若處子；不食五穀，吸風飲露；乘雲氣，御飛龍，而遊乎四海之外。其神凝，使物不疵癘而年穀熟。』吾以是狂而不信也。」

連叔曰：「然！瞽者無以與乎文章之觀，聾者無以與乎鐘鼓之聲。豈唯形骸有聾盲哉？夫知亦有之。是其言也，猶時女也。之人也，之德也，將旁礴萬物以為一，世蕲乎亂，孰弊弊焉以天下為事！之人也，物莫之傷，大浸稽天而不溺，大旱金石流、土山焦而不熱。是其塵垢粃糠，將猶陶鑄堯舜者也，孰肯分分然以物為事。」

【今譯】肩吾問連叔說：「我聽接輿談話，言語誇大不著邊際，一發議論便不可收拾。我驚駭他的言論，好像銀河一般漫無邊際；和常理差別太大，不合世情。」

連叔說：「他說的是什麼呢？」

[肩吾說：]「他說：『在遙遠的姑射山上，住了一個神人，肌膚有若冰雪一般潔白，容態有如處女一般柔美；不吃五穀，吸清風飲露水；乘著雲

藐：即「渺」
[粵]miu⁵

射
[粵]je⁶(夜)
[普]ye⁴

疵
[粵]ci¹(雌)
[普]ci¹

癘
[粵]lai⁶(例)
[普]li⁴

與：參加，參與
[粵]jyu⁴(預)
[普]yu²

女：即「汝」

蘄
[粵]kei⁴(其)
[普]qi²

粃
[粵]bei²(比)
[普]bi³

糠
[粵]hong¹(康)
[普]kang¹

分分：即「紛紛」

漠
[粵]zoek³(雀)
[普]jue²

鷦
[粵]ziu¹(招)
[普]jiao¹

鷯
[粵]liu⁴(聊)
[普]liao²

偃
[粵]jin²(演)
[普]yan³

俎
[粵]zo²(左)
[普]zu³

氣，駕御飛龍，而遨遊於四海之外。他的精神凝聚，使物不受災害，穀物豐熟。』我認為是發誑言，所以不以為信。」

連叔說：「當然啦！『瞎子無法和他共賞文彩的美觀；聾子無法和他共賞鐘鼓的樂聲。豈只是形骸有聾有瞎嗎？心智也有的啊！』——這個話，就是指你而言的呀！那個神人，他的德量，廣被萬物合為一體，人世喜紛擾，他怎肯勞形傷神去管世間的俗事呢！這種人，外物傷害不了他，洪水滔天而不會被溺斃，大旱使金石熔化、土山枯焦而他不會感到熱。他的塵垢粃糠，也可以造成堯舜，他怎肯紛紛擾擾以俗物為務呢！」

宋人資章甫而適諸越，越人斷髮文身，無所用之。堯治天下之民，平海內之政，往見四子藐姑射之山，汾水之陽，窅然喪其天下焉。

【今譯】宋國人到越國販賣帽子，越人剪光頭髮，身刺花紋，用不著它。

堯治理天下的人民，安定海內的政事，往遙遠的姑射山上，汾水的北面，拜見四位得道之士，不禁茫然忘其身居天下之位。

三

惠子謂莊子曰：「魏王貽我大瓠之種，我樹之成而實五石，以盛水漿，其堅不能自舉也；剖之以為瓢，則瓠落無所容。非不呺然大也，吾為其無用而掊之。」

莊子曰：「夫子固拙於用大矣。宋人有善為不龜手之藥者，世世以洴澼絖為事。客聞之，請買其方以百金。聚族而謀曰：『我世世為洴澼絖，不過數金；今一朝而鬻技百金，請與之。』客得之，以說吳王。越有難，吳王使之將，冬與越人水戰，大敗越人，裂地而封之。能不龜手，一也；或以封，或不免於洴澼絖，則所用之異也。今子有五石之瓠，何不慮以為大樽而浮乎江湖，而憂其瓠落無所容？則夫子猶有蓬之心也夫！」

【今譯】惠子對莊子說：「魏王送我一棵大葫蘆的種子，我種植成長而結出果實有五石之大；用來盛水，它的堅固程度卻經不起自身所盛水的壓力；把它剖開來做瓢，則瓢大無處可容。不是不大，我認為它沒有用處，就把它打碎了。」

莊子說：「你真是不善於使用大的東西啊！有個宋國人善於製造不龜裂手的藥物，他家世世代代都以漂洗絲絮為業。有一個客人聽說這種藥品，願意出百金收買他的藥方。於是聚合全家來商量說：『我家世世代代漂洗絲絮，只得到很少的錢，現在一旦賣出這個藥方就可獲得百金，就賣了罷！』這個客人得到藥方，便去遊說吳王。這時越國犯難，吳王就派他將兵，冬天和越人水戰，大敗越人，於是劃地封賞他。同樣一個不龜裂手的藥方，有人因此得到封賞，有人卻只是用來漂洗絲絮，這就是使用方法的不同。現在你有五石容量的葫蘆，為什麼不繫著當作腰舟而浮遊於江湖之上，反而愁它太大無處可容呢？可見你的心還是茅塞不通啊！」

惠子謂莊子曰：「吾有大樹，人謂之樗。其大本擁腫而不中繩墨，其小枝卷曲而不中規矩，立之塗，匠者不顧。今子之言，大而無用，眾所同去也。」

莊子曰：「子獨不見狸狌乎？卑身而伏，以候敖者；東西跳梁，不辟高下；中於機辟，死於罔罟。今夫斄牛，其大若垂天之雲。此能為大矣，而不能執鼠。今子有大樹，患其無用，何不樹之於無何有之鄉，廣莫之野，彷徨乎無為其側，逍遙乎寢臥其下。不夭斤斧，物無害者，無所可用，安所困苦哉！」

【今譯】惠子對莊子說：「我有一棵大樹，人家都叫它做『樗』。它的樹幹木瘤盤結而不合繩墨，它的小枝彎彎曲曲而不合規矩，生長在路上，匠人都不看它。現在你的言論，大而無用，大家都拋棄。」

莊子說：「你沒有看見貓和黃鼠狼嗎？卑伏著身子，等待出遊的小動物；東西跳躍掠奪，不避高低；往往踏中機關，死於網羅之中。再看那犛牛，龐大的身子好像天邊的雲，雖然不能捉老鼠，但它的功能可大了。現在你有這麼一棵大樹，還愁它無用，為什麼不把它種在虛寂的鄉土，廣漠的曠野，任意地徘徊在樹旁，自在地躺在樹下。不遭受斧頭砍伐，沒有東西來侵害它。無所可用，又會有什麼禍害呢？」

甫：「章甫」亦作「章父」
[粵]fu²(虎)
[普]fu³

旨
[粵]jiu²(沃)
[普]yao³

「大瓠」之「瓠」
[粵]wu⁴(胡)
[普]hu⁴

瓢
[粵]piu⁴(漂)
[普]piao²

「瓠落」之「瓠」
[粵]wok⁶(鑊)
[普]huo⁴

呺
[粵]hiu¹(囂)
[普]xiao¹

掊
[粵]pau²(剖)
[普]pou³

龜：裂
[粵]gwan¹(軍)
[普]jun¹

洴
[粵]ping⁴(平)
[普]ping²

澼
[粵]pik¹(閉)
[普]pi⁴

絖
[粵]kwong³(鑛)
[普]kuang⁴

鬻
[粵]juk⁶(肉)
[普]yu⁴

樗
[粵]syu¹(書)
[普]chu¹

中
[粵]zung³(縱)
[普]zhong⁴

狸
[粵]lei⁴(離)
[普]li²

狌
[粵]sang¹(生)
[普]xing¹

敖：即「遨」

辟：即「避」

「機辟」之「辟」
[粵]pik¹(閉)
[普]pi⁴

斄
[粵]lei⁴(離)
[普]li²

齊物論

一

南郭子綦隱机而坐，仰天而噓，荅焉似喪其耦。顏成子游立侍乎前，曰：「何居乎？形固可使如槁木，而心固可使如死灰乎？今之隱机者，非昔之隱机者也。」

子綦曰：「偃，不亦善乎，而問之也！今者吾喪我，汝知之乎？汝聞人籟而未聞地籟；汝聞地籟而未聞天籟夫！」

子游曰：「敢問其方。」

子綦曰：「夫大塊噫氣，其名為風。是唯無作，作則萬竅怒呺。而獨不聞之翏翏乎？山陵之畏佳，大木百圍之竅穴，似鼻，似口，似耳，似枅，似圈，似臼，似洼者，似污者；激者，謞者，叱者，吸者，叫者，謼者，宎者，咬者。前者唱于而隨者唱喁。泠風則小和，飄風則大和，厲風濟則眾竅為虛。而獨不見之調調之刁刁乎？」

子游曰：「地籟則眾竅是已，人籟則比竹是已。敢問天籟。」

子綦曰：「夫天籟者，吹萬不同，而使其自己也，咸其自取，怒者其誰邪！」

【今譯】南郭子綦憑著几案而坐，仰頭向天而緩緩地呼吸，進入了超越對待關係的忘我境界。顏成子游侍立在跟前，問說：「怎麼一回事呀？形體安定固然可以使它像乾枯的枝木，心靈寂靜固然可以使它像熄滅的灰燼嗎？你今天憑案而坐的神情和從前憑案而坐的神情不一樣。」

子綦回答說：「偃，你問得正好！今天我摒棄了偏執的我，你知道嗎？你聽說過『人籟』，而沒有聽說『地籟』；你聽說過『地籟』，而沒有聽說過『天籟』吧！」

子游說：「請問三籟的究竟？」

子綦說：「大地發出來的氣，叫做風。這風不發作則已，一發作則萬種不同的竅孔都怒號起來。你沒有聽過長風呼嘯的聲音嗎？山陵中高下盤迴的地

荅 [粵]kei⁴(其) [普]qí
荅 [粵]taap³(塔) [普]tà
噫 [粵]ji¹(衣) [普]yī
呺：即「號」 [粵]hou⁴(毫) [普]háo
翏 [粵]liu⁴(僇) (或luk⁶(六)) [普]lù
畏佳：即「崔嵬」 [粵]ceoi¹(催) ngai⁴(危) [普]cuī wēi
枅 [粵]gai¹(雞) [普]jī
謞 [粵]haau¹(哮) [普]xiāo
讂 [粵]hou¹(虎) [普]hāo
于 [粵]jyu¹(於) [普]yū
嘐 [粵]jyu⁴(如) [普]yú

方，百圍大樹上的竅穴，有的像鼻子，有的像嘴巴，有的像耳朵，有的像榱上的方孔，有的像杯圈，有的像舂臼，有的像深池，有的像淺窪；[這些竅穴中發出的聲音]有的像湍水沖激的聲音，有的像羽箭發射的聲音，有的像叱咄的聲音，有的像呼吸的聲音，有的像叫喊的聲音，有的像號哭的聲音，有些像深谷發出的聲音，有些像哀切感嘆的聲音。前面的風聲鳴鳴地唱著，後面的竅孔呼呼地和著。小風則相和的聲音小，大風則相和的聲音大。大風吹過去了，則所有的竅孔都空寂無聲。你不見草木還在搖搖曳曳的擺動嗎！」

子游說：「『地籟』是眾竅孔發出的風聲，『人籟』則是竹簫所吹出的樂聲。請問『天籟』是什麼？」

子綦說：「所謂天籟，乃是風吹萬種竅孔發出了各種不同的聲音，使這些聲音之所以千差萬別，乃是由於各個竅孔的自然狀態所致，鼓動它們發聲的還有誰呢？」

二

[. . .]

非彼無我，非我無所取。是亦近矣，而不知其所為使。若有真宰，而特不得其朕；可行已信；而不見其形。有情而無形。

百骸、九竅、六藏，賅而存焉，吾誰與為親？汝皆說之乎？其有私焉？如是皆有為臣妾乎？其臣妾不足以相治乎？其遞相為君臣乎？其有真君存焉？如求得其情與不得，無益損乎其真。

一受其成形，不亡以待盡。與物相刃相靡，其行進如馳，而莫之能止，不亦悲乎！終身役役而不見其成功，苶然疲役而不知其所歸，可不哀邪！人謂之不死，奚益！其形化，其心與之然，可不謂大哀乎？人之生也，固若是芒乎？其我獨芒，而人亦有不芒者乎？

【今譯】沒有它(種種情態)就沒有我，沒有我那它就無從呈現。我和它是近似的，但不知道是由什麼東西指使的。彷彿有『真宰』，然而又尋不著它的端倪；可通過實踐來驗證；雖然不見它的形體，它本是真實存在而不具形象的。

朕 [粵]zan⁶(陣) [普]zhèn
說：同「悅」
苶 [粵]nip⁶(孽) [普]niè

百骸、九竅、六臟，都很完備地存在我的身上，我和那一個部分最親近呢?你都一樣的喜歡它們嗎？還是有所偏愛呢？如果同等看待那麼都把它們當成臣妾嗎？難道僕從就誰也不能支配誰嗎？難道它們是輪流做主僕嗎？或者有『真君』存在其間呢？無論求得真君的真實情況與否，對它本身的真實存在都不會有什麼影響。

人一旦稟受成形體，便要不失其真性以盡天年，和外物接觸便互相摩擦，馳騁追逐於其中，而不能止步，這不是很可悲的嗎！終生勞勞碌碌而不見得有什麼成就，疲憊困苦不知道究竟為的是什麼，這不是很可哀的嗎！這樣的人生雖然不死，但又有什麼意思呢！人的形體逐漸枯竭衰老，人的精神又困縛於其中隨之消毀，這可不是莫大的悲哀嗎？人生在世，本來是這樣的昏昧嗎？難道只有我一個人這樣的昏昧，而別人也有不昏昧的呢？

三

夫隨其成心而師之，誰獨且無師乎？奚必知代而心自取者有之？愚者與有焉。未成乎心而有是非，是今日適越而昔至也。是以無有為有。無有為有，雖有神禹，且不能知，吾獨且奈何哉！

夫言非吹也，言者有言，其所言者特未定也。果有言邪？其未嘗有言邪？其以為異於鷇音，亦有辯乎，其無辯乎？

道惡乎隱而有真偽？言惡乎隱而有是非？道惡乎往而不存？言惡乎存而不可？道隱於小成，言隱於榮華。故有儒墨之是非，以是其所非而非其所是。欲是其所非而非其所是，則莫若以明。

與 [粵]jyu5(預) [普]yu4

鷇 [粵]kau4(扣) [普]kou4

惡 [粵]wu1(污) [普]wu1

【今譯】如果依據自己的成見作為判斷的標準，那麼誰沒有一個標準呢？何必一定要了解自然變化之理而心有見地的人？就是愚人也是同樣有的。如果說還沒有成見就已經存有是非，那就好比「今天到越國去而昨天就已經到了」。這種說法是把沒有看成有。如果要把沒有看成有，就是神明的大禹，尚且無法理解，我又有什麼辦法呢！

言論並不像風的吹動，發言的人議論紛紛，只不過他們所說的卻得不到個定準。這果真算是發了言呢？還是不曾發言呢？他們都自以為自己的發言不同於小鳥的叫聲，到底有分別呢？還是沒有分別呢？

『道』是怎樣被隱蔽而有真偽的分別？言論是怎樣被隱蔽而有是非的爭辯？道如何出現而又不復存在呢？言論如何展現過而又不被承認呢?道是被小的成就隱蔽了，言論是被浮華之詞隱蔽了。所以才有儒家墨家的是非爭辯，他們各自肯定對方所非的而非議對方所肯定的，如要肯定對方所非的而非議對方所肯定的，則不如以空明的心境去觀照事物本然的情形。

物無非彼，物無非是。自彼則不見，自是則知之。故曰彼出於是，是亦因彼。彼是方生之說也，雖然，方生方死，方死方生；方可方不可，方不可方可。因是因非，因非因是。是以聖人不由，而照之於天，亦因是也。

是亦彼也，彼亦是也。彼亦一是非，此亦一是非。果且有彼是乎哉？果且無彼是乎哉？彼是莫得其偶，謂之道樞。樞始得其環中，以應無窮。是亦一無窮，非亦一無窮也。故曰莫若以明。

【今譯】世界上的事物沒有不是「彼」的，也沒有不是「此」的。從他物那方面就看不見這方面，從自己這方面來了解就知道了。所以說彼方是出於此方對待而來的，此方也因著彼方對待而成的。彼和此是相對而生的，雖然這樣，但是任何事物隨起就隨滅，隨滅就隨起；剛說可就轉向不可，剛說不可就轉向可了。有因而認為是的就有因而認為非的，有因而認為非的就有因而認為是的。所以聖人不走這條路子，而觀照於事物的本然，這也是因任自然的道理。

「此」也就是「彼」，「彼」也就是「此」。彼有它的是非，此也有它的是非。果真有彼此的分別嗎？果真沒有彼此的分別嗎？彼此不相對待，就是道的樞紐。合於道樞才像得入環的中心，以順應無窮的流變。「是」的變化是沒有窮盡的，「非」的變化也是沒有窮盡的。所以說不如用明靜的心境去觀照事物的實況。

四

[. . .]

道行之而成，物謂之而然。有自也而可，有自也而不可。有自也而然，有自也而不然。惡乎然？然於然。惡乎不然？不然於不然。惡乎可？可於可。惡乎不可？不可於不可。物固有所然，物固有所可。無物不然，無物不可。故為是舉莛與楹，厲與西施，恢恑憰怪，道通為一。其分也，成也；其成也，毀也。凡物無成與毀，復通為一。

莛
[粵] ting⁴(廷)
[普] ting²

厲：用作「癘」

恢：即「詭」

唯達者知通為一，為是不用而寓諸庸；因是已。已而不知其然，謂之道。

勞神明為一，而不知其同也，謂之朝三。何謂朝三？狙公賦芧曰：「朝三而暮四。」眾狙皆怒。曰：「然則朝四而暮三。」眾狙皆悅。名實未虧而喜怒為用，亦因是也。是以聖人和之以是非而休乎天鈞，是之謂兩行。

狙
[粵] zoei¹(追)
[普] ju¹

芧
[粵] zoei⁶(聚)
[普] xu⁴

和
[粵] wo⁶(禍)
[普] he⁴

【今譯】道路是人走出來的，事物的名稱是人叫出來的。可有它可的原因，不可有它不可的原因；是有它是的原因，不是有它不是的原因；為什麼是？自有它是的道理。為什麼不是？自有它不是的道理。為什麼可？自有它可的道理。為什麼不可？自有它不可的道理。一切事物本來都有它是的地方，一切事物本來都有它可的地方。沒有什麼東西不是，沒有什麼東西不可。所以舉凡小草和大木，醜癩的女人和美貌的西施，以及一切稀奇古怪的事物，從道的角度來看都可通而為一。萬事有所分，必有所成；有所成必有所毀。所以一切事物從通體來看就沒有完成和毀壞，都是復歸於一個整體。

只有通達之士才能了解這個通而為一的道理，因此他不用固執自己的成見而寄寓在各物的功分上：這就是因任自然的道理。順著自然的路徑行走而不知道它的所以然，這就叫做「道」。

[辯者們]竭盡心智去求「一致」，而不知道它本來就是相同的，這就是所謂「朝三」。什麼叫做「朝三」？有一個養猴的人，餵猴子吃栗子，對

這群猴子說：「早上給你們三升而晚上給你們四升。」這些猴子聽了都很生氣。養猴的人又說：「那麼早上給你們四升而晚上給你們三升。」這些猴子聽了都高興起來。名和實都沒有改變而猴子的喜怒卻因而不同，這也是順著猴子主觀的心理作用罷了！所以聖人不執著於是非的爭論而依順自然均衡之理，這就叫做「兩行」。

[. . .]

五

[. . .]

天下莫大於秋毫之末，而大山為小；莫壽於殤子，而彭祖為夭。天地與我並生，而萬物與我為一。既已為一矣，且得有言乎？既已謂之一矣，且得無言乎？一與言為二，二與一為三。自此以往，巧曆不能得，而況其凡乎！故自無適有以至於三，而況自有適有乎！無適焉，因是已。

大：即「太」

殤
[粵] soeng¹(商)
[普] shang¹

【今譯】天下沒有比秋毫的末端更大的東西，而泰山卻是小的；沒有比夭折的嬰兒更長壽的，而彭祖卻是短命的。天地與我並存，而萬物和我合為一體。既然合為一體，還需要言論嗎？既然已經說了「合為一體」，還能說沒有言論嗎？萬物一體加上我所說的就成了「二」，「二」再加上「一」就成了「三」，這樣繼續往下算，就是最巧善的計算家也不能得出最後的數目，何況普通人呢？從無到有已經生出三個名稱了，何況從有到有呢！不必再往前計算了，因任自然就是了。

夫道未始有封，言未始有常，為是而有畛也，請言其畛：有左，有右，有倫，有義，有分，有辯，有競，有爭，此之謂八德。六合之外，聖人存而不論；六合之內，聖人論而不議。春秋經世先王之志，聖人議而不辯。故分也者，有不分也；辯也者，有不辯也。曰：何也？聖人懷之，眾人辯之以相示也。故曰辯也者，有不見也。

畛
[粵] can²(診)
[普] zhen³

嗛：即「慊」

忮 [粵]gei6(技) [普]zhì

幾：庶幾 [粵]gei2 [普]jī

夫大道不稱，大辯不言，大仁不仁，大廉不嗛，大勇不忮。道昭而不道，言辯而不及，仁常而不周，廉清而不信，勇忮而不成。五者無棄而幾向方矣。

故知止其所不知，至矣。孰知不言之辯，不道之道？若有能知，此之謂天府。注焉而不滿，酌焉而不竭，而不知其所由來，此之謂葆光。

【今譯】道原本是沒有分界的，語言原本是沒有定說的，為了爭一個『是』字而劃出許多的界線，如有左，有右，有倫序，有等差，有分別，有辯論，有競言，有爭持，這是界線的八種表現。天地以外的事，聖人是存而不論的；天地以內的事，聖人只論說而不議評。春秋史實乃是先王治世的記載，聖人只議評而不爭辯。天下事理有分別，就有不分別；有辯論，就有不辯論。這是怎麼講呢？聖人默默懷認一切事理，眾人則喋喋爭辯而競相誇示。所以說：凡是爭辯，就有見不到的地方。

大道是不可名稱的，大辯是不可言說的，大仁是無所偏愛的，大廉是不遜讓的，大勇是不傷害的。「道」講出來就不是真道，言語爭辯就有所不及，仁常守滯一處就不能周遍，廉潔過分就不真實，勇懷害意則不能成為勇。這五者不要疏忽，那就差不多近於道了。

一個人能止於所不知的境域，就是極點了。誰能知道不用語言的辯論，不用稱說的大道呢？若有能知道，就夠得上稱為天然的府庫，這裡無論注入多少都不會滿溢，無論傾出多少也不會枯竭，不知道源流來自何處，這就叫做潛藏的光明。

六

[...]

「既使我與若辯矣，若勝我，我不若勝，若果是也，我果非也邪？我勝若，若不吾勝，我果是也，而果非也邪？其或是也，其或非也邪？其

俱是也，其俱非也邪？我與若不能相知也，則人固受黮闇，吾誰使正之？使同乎若者正之？既與若同矣，惡能正之！使同乎我者正之？既同乎我矣，惡能正之！使異乎我與若者正之？既異乎我與若矣，惡能正之！使同乎我與若者正之？既同乎我與若矣，惡能正之！然則我與若與人俱不能相知也，而待彼也邪？

黮 [粵]taam5(探) 或taan2(坦) [普]tǎn

闇 [粵]am3(暗) [普]àn

「化聲之相待，若其不相待，和之以天倪，因之以曼衍，所以窮年也。何謂和之以天倪？曰：是不是，然不然。是若果是也，則是之異乎不是也，亦無辯；然若果然也，則然之異乎不然也亦無辯。忘年忘義，振於無竟，故寓諸無竟。」

和 [粵]wo6(禍) [普]hè

竟：即「境」

【今譯】「假使我和你辯論，你勝了我，我沒有勝你，你果然對嗎？我果然錯嗎？我勝了你，你沒有勝我，我果然對嗎？你果然錯嗎？是我們兩人有一人對，有一人錯呢？還是我們兩人都對，或者都錯呢？我和你都不知道，凡人都有偏見，我們請誰來評判是非？假使請意見和你相同的人來評判，他已經和你相同了，怎麼評判呢？假使請意見和我相同的人來評判，他已經和我相同了，怎麼能夠評判呢？假使請意見和你我都不同的人來評判，他已經跟你和我相異了，怎麼能評判呢?假使請意見和你我都相同的人評判，他已經跟你我相同了，怎麼能評判呢？那麼，我和你及其他的人都不能評定誰是誰非了，還等待誰呢？

「變化的聲音是相待而成的，如果要使它們不相對待，就要用自然的分際來調和它，我的言論散漫流行（不拘常規），隨物因變而悠遊一生。什麼叫做用『自然的分際』來調和一切是非？任何東西有『是』便有『不是』，有『然』便有『不然』。『是』果真是『是』，就和『不是』有區別，這樣就不須辯論；『然』果真是『然』，就和『不然』有區別，這樣也不須辯論。安適於生死年歲，安適於是非仁義，遨遊於無窮的境域，這樣也就能寄寓於無窮的境域。」

七

周㠯問景曰：「曩子行，今子止；曩子坐，今子起；何其無特操與？」

景曰：「吾有待而然者邪？吾所待又有待而然者邪？吾待蛇蚹蜩翼邪？惡識所以然！惡識所以不然！」

【今譯】影外微陰問影子說：「剛才你移動，現在你又停止下來；剛才你坐著，現在你又站起來；你怎麼這樣沒有獨特的意志呢？」

影子回答說：「我因為有待才會這樣子嗎？我所待的東西又有所待才會這個樣子嗎？我所待的就像蛇有待於腹下鱗皮、蟬有待於翅膀嗎？我怎能知道為什麼會這樣！怎能知道為什麼不會這樣呢！」

昔者莊周夢為胡蝶，栩栩然胡蝶也，自喻適志與！不知周也。俄然覺，則蘧蘧然周也。不知周之夢為胡蝶與，胡蝶之夢為周與？周與胡蝶，則必有分矣。此之謂「物化」。

【今譯】從前莊周夢見自己變成蝴蝶，翩翩飛舞的一隻蝴蝶，遨遊各處悠遊自在，根本不知道自己原來是莊周。忽然醒過來，自己分明是莊周。不知道是莊周作夢化為蝴蝶呢！還是蝴蝶作夢化為莊周呢？莊周和蝴蝶必定是有所分別的。這種轉變就叫做「物化」。

人間世

七

孔子適楚，楚狂接輿遊其門曰：

「鳳兮鳳兮，何如德之衰也！

來世不可待，往世不可追也。

天下有道，聖人成焉；

天下無道，聖人生焉。

周㠯：即「周魋」

曩
[粵] nong^{2}
以諧音：朗 (long^{5})
[普] nang^{3}

蚹
[粵] fu^{6} (付)
[普] fu^{4}

蜩
[粵] tiu^{4} (條)
[普] tiao^{2}

焉：疑問詞，即「哪」
[粵] jyu^{4} (余)
[普] yu^{2}

蘧
[粵] keoi^{4} (渠)
[普] qu^{2}

方今之時，僅免刑焉。

福輕乎羽，莫之知載；禍重乎地，莫之知避。

已乎已乎，臨人以德！

殆乎殆乎，畫地而趍！

迷陽迷陽，無傷吾行！郤曲郤曲，無傷吾足！」

[...]

【今譯】孔子到楚國，楚國狂人接輿走過孔子門前唱著：

「鳳啊！鳳啊！你的德行為什麼衰敗！

來世是不可期待的，往世是不可追回的。

天下有道，聖人可以成就事業；

天下無道，聖人只能保全生命。

今天這個時代，只求避免遭受刑害。

幸福比羽毛還要輕，卻不知道摘取，

災禍比大地還要重，卻不知道迴避。

罷了！罷了！在人的面前用德來炫耀自己，

危險啊！危險啊！擇地而蹈。

荊棘啊！荊棘啊！不要刺傷了自己的行徑，

轉個彎兒走，轉個彎兒走，不要刺傷了自己的腳啊！」

德充符

二

申徒嘉，兀者也，而與鄭子產同師於伯昏無人。子產謂申徒嘉曰：「我先出則子止，子先出則我止。」其明日，又與合堂同席而坐。子產謂申徒嘉曰：「我先出則子止，子先出則我止。今我將出，子可以止乎，其未邪？且子見執政而不違，子齊執政乎？」

申徒嘉曰：「先生之門，固有執政焉如此哉？子而悅子之執政而後人

兀
[粵] ngat^{6} (兀)
[普] wu^{4}

者也？聞之曰：『鑑明則塵垢不止，止則不明也。久與賢人處則無過。』今子之所取大者，先生也，而猶出言若是，不亦過乎！」

子產曰：「子既若是矣，猶與堯爭善，計子之德，不足以自反邪？」

申徒嘉曰：「自狀其過，以不當亡者眾，不狀其過，以不當存者寡，知不可奈何，而安之若命，唯有德者能之。遊於羿之彀中。中央者，中地也；然而不中者，命也。人以其全足笑吾不全足者多矣，我怫然而怒；而適先生之所，則廢然而反。不知先生之洗我以善邪？吾與夫子遊十九年矣，而未嘗知吾兀者也。今子與我遊於形骸之內，而子索我於形骸之外，不亦過乎！」

子產蹴然改容更貌曰：「子無乃稱！」

【今譯】申徒嘉是一個斷了腳的人，和鄭子產同做伯昏無人的弟子。子產對申徒嘉說：「我先出去，你就停下，你先出去，我就停下。」到了第二天，他們又合堂同席坐在一起。子產對申徒嘉說：「我先出去，你就停下，你先出去，我就停下。現在我要出去，你可以稍停一下嗎？還是不能呢？你見我這執政大臣還不迴避，你把自己看成和我一樣的執政大臣嗎？」

申徒嘉說：「先生的門下，有這樣的執政嗎？你炫耀你的執政而瞧不起人嗎？聽說：『鏡子明亮就不落灰塵，落上灰塵就不明亮。常和賢人在一起就沒有過失。』你今天來先生這裡求學修德，還說出這種話來，不是太過分嗎！」

子產說：「你已經是這樣了，還要和堯爭善，你計量一下自己的德行，還不夠你自我反省嗎？」

申徒嘉說：「一個人自己辯說自己的過錯，認為不應當殘形的人很多，既殘形後，不辯說自己的過錯，以為自己不當全形的人很少。知道事情的無可奈何而能安下心來視如自然的命運，這只有有德的人才能做得到。走進羿的射程之中，正是當中的地方，進入了必中的境地；然而有時不被射中，那是命。別人因為兩腳完全而笑我殘廢的很多，我聽了非常生氣；等到來了

報 [粵] gau³(搞) [普] gou⁴

「中地」和「不中者」之「中」 [粵] zung³(眾) [普] zhong⁴

怫 [粵] fat⁶(佛) [普] fèi⁴

蹴 [粵] cuk¹(速)

先生這裡，我的怒氣全消，回復了常態。你還不明白這是先生用善來教化我嗎？我在先生門下已經十九年了，可是他從來沒有感覺到我是斷了腳的人。現在你和我遊於『形骸之內』以德相交，但你卻在『形骸之外』用外貌來衡量我，不是很錯誤的嗎？」

子產覺得很慚愧，立刻改變面容說：「請你不要再說了。」

三

魯有兀者叔山無趾，踵見仲尼，仲尼曰：「子不謹，前既犯患若是矣。雖今來，何及矣！」

無趾曰：「吾唯不知務而輕用吾身，吾是以亡足。今吾來也，猶有尊足者存焉，吾是以務全之也。夫天無不覆，地無不載，吾以夫子為天地，安知夫子之猶若是也！」

孔子曰：「丘則陋矣。夫子胡不入乎，請講以所聞！」

無趾出。孔子曰：「弟子勉之！夫無趾，兀者也，猶務學以復補前行之惡，而況全德之人乎！」

無趾語老聃曰：「孔丘之於至人，其未邪？彼何賓賓以學子為？彼且蘄以諔詭幻怪之名聞，不知至人之以是為己桎梏邪？」

老聃曰：「胡不直使彼以死生為一條，以可不可為一貫者，解其桎梏，其可乎？」

無趾曰：「天刑之，安可解！」

【今譯】魯國有一個斷了腳趾的人名叫叔山無趾，用腳後跟走路去見孔子。孔子說：「你不謹慎，早先已犯了這樣的過錯。現在雖然來請教，怎麼來得及呢！」

無趾說：「我只因不知時務而輕用我的身子，所以才斷了腳。現在我來這裡，還有比腳更尊貴的東西存在，我想要保全它。天是無所不覆的，地是無所不載的，我把先生當作天地，那裡知道先生是這樣的啊！」

踵 [粵] zung²(總) [普] zhong³

語：告訴 [粵] jyu⁵(預) [普] yù

諔 [粵] daam¹(擔) [普] dān

蹴 [粵] cuk¹(速) [普] chù

桎 [粵] zat⁶(姪) [普] zhì

梏 [粵] guk¹(谷) [普] gù

孔子說：「我實在淺陋。你為什麼不進來呢！請說說你的看法！」

無趾走了。孔子說：「弟子們勉勵啊！無趾是一個斷了腳趾的人，還努力求學以補過前非，何況沒有犯過的全德之人呢！」

無趾對老聃說：「孔子還沒有到達『至人』的境地吧！他為什麼總是把自己當成個學者呢？而他還要企求以奇異的名聲傳聞天下，他不知道至人把名聲當作是一種枷鎖呢！」

老聃說：「你為什麼不使他了解死生為一致，可和不可為平齊的道理，解除他的束縛，這樣可以嗎？」

無趾說：「這是天然加給他的刑罰，怎麼可以解除呢？」

[...]

大宗師

一

知：即「智」

知天之所為，知人之所為者，至矣。知天之所為者，天而生也；知人之所為者，以其知之所知，以養其知之所不知，終其天年而不中道夭者，是知之盛也。

雖然，有患。夫知有所待而後當，其所待者特未定也。庸詎知吾所謂天之非人乎？所謂人之非天乎？

謼士：用作「謀事」

且有真人而後有真知。何謂真人？古之真人，不逆寡，不雄成，不謼士。若然者，過而弗悔，當而不自得也；若然者，登高不慄，入水不濡，入火不熱。是知之能登假於道者也若此。

嗑 [粵]jik¹(益) [普]yi⁴

古之真人，其寢不夢，其覺無憂，其食不甘，其息深深。真人之息以踵，眾人之息以喉。屈服者，其嗑言若哇。其耆欲深者，其天機淺。

耆：用作「嗜」

古之真人，不知說生，不知惡死；其出不訢，其入不距；脩然而往，脩然而來而已矣。不忘其所始，不求其所終；受而喜之，忘而復之，是之

訢：即「欣」

距：即「拒」

脩 [粵]siu¹(消) [普]xiao¹

謂不以心損道，不以人助天。是之謂真人。

顙 [粵]song⁴(爽) [普]sang⁴

若然者，其心忘，其容寂，其顙頯；凄然似秋，煖然似春，喜怒通四時，與物有宜而莫知其極。

顙 [粵]kwai¹(揆) [普]qiu²

古之真人，其狀義而不朋，若不足而不承；與乎其觚而不堅也，張乎其虛而不華也；邴乎其似喜也！崔乎其不得已也！滀乎進我色也，與乎止我德也；厲乎其似世也！警乎其未可制也；連乎其似好閉也，悗乎其忘言也。故其好之也一，其弗好之也一。其一也一，其不一也一。其一與天為徒，其不一與人為徒。天與人不相勝也，是之謂真人。

媛：同「暖」

觚：即「孤」

邴 [粵]bing²(丙) [普]bing³

滀 [粵]cuk¹(束) [普]chu¹

與：通作「豫」 [粵]jyu⁶ [普]yu⁴

厲：或為「廣」

警 [粵]ngou⁶(傲) [普]ao⁴

悗 [粵]mun⁴(滿) [普]men²

【今譯】知道那些是屬於天然的，那些是屬於人為的，這就是洞察事理的極境了。知道天的所為，是出於自然的；知道人的作為，是用自己的智力所知的，去保養自己智力所不能知的，使自己享盡天然的年壽而不至於中途夭亡，這是知識的能事了。

雖然這樣，但是還有問題。知識必定要有所待的對象而後才能判斷它是否正確，然而所待的對象卻是變化無定的。怎麼知道我所謂屬於天然的不也是屬於人為的？所謂屬於人為的不也是屬於天然的呢？

有真人才能有真知。什麼叫做真人？古時候的真人，不拒絕微少，不自恃成功，不謀慮事情；若是這樣，過了時機而不失悔，順利得當而不自得。像這樣子，登高不發抖，下水不覺濕，入火不覺熱。只有知識能到達與道相合的境界才能這樣。

古時候的真人，睡覺時不作夢，醒來時不憂愁，飲食不求精美，呼吸來得深沈。真人的呼吸是從腳跟運氣，普通人的呼吸用咽喉吐納。議論被人屈服時，言語吞吐喉頭好像受到阻礙一般。凡是嗜欲深的人，他的天然的根器就淺了。

古時候的真人，不知道悅生，不知道惡死；出生不欣喜，入死不拒絕，無拘無束的去，無拘無束的來而已。不忘記他自己的來源，也不追求他自己的歸宿；事情來了欣然接受，忘掉死生任其復返自然，這就是不用心智去損害道，不用人的作為去輔助天然。這就是真人了。

這樣子，他心裡忘懷了一切，他的容貌靜寂安閒，他的額頭寬大恢宏；冷肅得像秋天一樣，溫暖得像春天一樣，一喜一怒如四時運行一樣的自然，對於任何事物都適宜而無法測知他的底蘊。

古時候的真人，其行狀隨物所宜而不偏倚，好像不足卻無所承受；介然不群並非堅執，心志開闊而不浮華；舒暢自適好像很歡喜，一舉一動好像不得已；內心充實而面色可親，德行寬厚而令人歸依；精神遼闊猶如世界的廣大；高遠超邁而不拘禮法；沈默不語好像封閉了感覺，不用心機好像忘了要說的話。

[天和人是合一的，]不管人喜好或不喜好，都是合一的。不管人認為合一或不合一，它們也都是合一的。認為天和人是合一的就和自然同類，認為天和人是不合一的就和人同類。把天和人看作不是互相對立，這就叫做真人。

二

與 [粵]jyu⁵(預) [普]yu⁴

死生，命也，其有夜旦之常，天也。人之有所不得與，皆物之情也。彼特以天為父，而身猶愛之，而況其卓乎！人特以有君為愈乎己，而身猶死之，而況其真乎！

呴 [粵]heoi²(虛) [普]xu³

泉涸，魚相與處於陸，相呴以濕，相濡以沫，不如相忘於江湖，與其譽堯而非桀也，不如兩忘而化其道。

遁：即「遁」

夫藏舟於壑，藏山於澤，謂之固矣。然而夜半有力者負之而走，昧者不知也。藏小大有宜，猶有所遯。若夫藏天下於天下而不得所遯，是恆物之大情也。故聖人將遊於物之所不得遯而皆存。善天善老，善始善終，人猶效之，又況萬物之所係，而一化之所待乎！

【今譯】人的死生是必然而不可免的，就像永遠有黑夜和白天一般，是自然的規律。許多事情是人力所不能干預的，這都是物理的實情。人們認為天是生命之父，而終身敬愛它，何況那獨立超絕的道呢？人們認為君主的勢位超過自己，而捨身效忠，何況那獨立超絕的道呢？

泉水乾了，魚就一同困在陸地上，用濕氣互相噓吸，用口沫互相濕潤，倒不如在江湖裡彼此相忘。與其讚美堯而非議桀，不如忘卻兩者的是是非非而融化於大道。

把船藏在山谷裡面，把山藏在深澤之中，可以說是很牢固了，但是夜深人靜時造化的大力士還是把它背走了，沈睡的人還絲毫不覺察，把小的東西藏在大的地方是適宜的，但是仍不免於亡失。如果把天下付託給天下，就不會亡失了，這乃是萬物的真實情形。所以聖人要遊於不得亡失的境地而和大道共存。對於老少生死都善於安順的人，大家尚且效法他，又何況那決定著萬物的生成轉化的道呢？

三

夫道，有情有信，無為無形；可傳而不可受，可得而不可見；自本自根，未有天地，自古以固存；神鬼神帝，生天生地；在太極之上而不為高，在六極之下而不為深，先天地生而不為久，長於上古而不為老。

【今譯】道是真實有信驗的，沒有作為也沒有形跡的；可以心傳而不可以口授，可以心得而不可以目見；它自為本自為根，沒有天地以前，從古以來就已存在；它產生了鬼神和上帝，產生了天和地；它在太極之上卻不算高，在六合之下卻不算深，先天地存在卻不算久，長於上古卻不算老。

四

南伯子葵問乎女偊曰：「子之年長矣，而色若孺子，何也？」

偊 [粵]jyu²(雨) [普]yu³

曰：「吾聞道矣。」

南伯子葵曰：「道可得學邪？」

惡：感歎，疑問詞 [粵]wu¹(烏) [普]wu¹

曰：「惡！惡可！子非其人也。夫卜梁倚有聖人之才而無聖人之道，我有聖人之道而無聖人之才，吾欲以教之，庶幾其果為聖人乎！不然，以聖人之道告聖人之才，亦易矣。吾猶告而守之，三日而後能外天下；已

外天下矣，吾又守之，七日而後能外物；已外物矣，吾又守之，九日而後能外生；已外生矣，而後能朝徹；朝徹，而後能見獨；見獨，而後能無古今；無古今，而後能入於不死不生。殺生者不死，生生者不生。其為物，無不將也，無不迎也；無不毀也，無不成也。其名為攖寧。攖寧也者，攖而後成者也。」

南伯子葵曰：「子獨惡乎聞之？」

曰：「聞諸副墨之子，副墨之子聞諸洛誦之孫，洛誦之孫聞之瞻明，瞻明聞之聶許，聶許聞之需役，需役聞之於謳，於謳聞之玄冥，玄冥聞之參寥，參寥聞之疑始。」

於 [粵] wu¹ (烏) [普] wū

【今譯】南伯子葵問女偶說：「你的年齡很大了，而面色如孩童，為什麼呢？」

女偶說：「我聞道了。」

南伯子葵說：「道可以學得到嗎？」

女偶說：「不！不可以！你不是學道的人。卜梁倚有聖人的才質而沒有聖人的根器，我有聖人的根器而沒有聖人的才質，我想教他，或許他可以成為聖人了吧！不是這樣的，以聖人之道告訴具有聖人才質的人，也容易領悟的。我告訴他而持守著，持守三天而後能遺忘世故；已經遺忘世故了，我再持守，七天以後就能不被物役；心靈已經不被物役了，我又持守著，九天以後就能無慮於生死；已經把生死置之度外，心境就能清明洞徹；心境清明洞徹，而後能體悟絕對的道；體悟絕對的道，而後能不受時間的限制；不受時間的限制，而後才能沒有死生的觀念。大道流行能使萬物生息死滅，而它自身是不死不生的。道之為物，無不一面有所送，無不一面有所迎；無不一面有所毀，無不一面有所成，這就叫做『攖寧』。『攖寧』的意思，就是在萬物生死成毀的紛紜煩亂中保持寧靜的心境。」

南伯子葵說：「你從那裡聽得道呢？」

大宗師

女偶說：「我從副墨（文字）的兒子那裡得來的，副墨的兒子從洛誦（誦讀）的孫子那裡得來的，洛誦的孫子從瞻明（見解明徹）那裡得來的，瞻明從聶許（心得）那裡得來的，聶許從需役（實行）那裡得來的，需役從於謳（詠歌歌吟）那裡得來的，於謳從玄冥（靜默）那裡得來的，玄冥從參寥（高邈寥曠）那裡得來的，參寥從疑始（迷茫之始）那裡得來的。」

五

子祀、子輿、子犁、子來四人相與語曰：「孰能以無為首，以生為脊，以死為尻，孰知死生存亡之一體者，吾與之友矣。」四人相視而笑，莫逆於心，遂相與為友。

俄而子輿有病，子祀往問之。曰：「偉哉夫造物者，將以予為此拘拘也！曲僂發背，上有五管，頤隱於齊，肩高於頂，句贅指天。」陰陽之氣有沴，其心閒而無事，跰躚而鑑於井，曰：「嗟乎！夫造物者又將以予為此拘拘也！」

子祀曰：「女惡之乎？」

曰：「亡，予何惡！浸假而化予之左臂以為雞，予因以求時夜；浸假而化予之右臂以為彈，予因以求鴞炙；浸假而化予之尻以為輪，以神為馬，予因以乘之，豈更駕哉！且夫得者，時也，失者，順也；安時而處順，哀樂不能入也。此古之所謂縣解也。而不能自解者，物有結之。且夫物不勝天久矣，吾又何惡焉！」

俄而子來有病，喘喘然將死，其妻子環而泣之。子犁往問之，曰：「叱！避！無怛化！」倚其戶與之語曰：「偉哉造化！又將奚以汝為，將奚以汝適？以汝為鼠肝乎？以汝為蟲臂乎？」

子來曰：「父母於子，東西南北，唯命之從。陰陽於人，不翅於父母；彼近吾死而我不聽，我則悍矣，彼何罪焉！夫大塊載我以形，勞我以生，佚我以老，息我以死。故善吾生者，乃所以善吾死也。今之大冶鑄

尻 [粵] haau¹ (敲) [普] kāo

僂 [粵] lau⁵ (簍) [普] lǚ

脊：即「脥」

句：「勾」古字 [粵] ngau¹ [普] gōu

贅 [粵] zeni⁶ (序) [普] zhuì

沴 [粵] leoi⁶ (類) [普] lì

跰 [粵] pin⁴ (騈) [普] pián

躚 [粵] sin¹ (仙) [普] xiān

更 [粵] gang¹ (庚) [普] gēng

怛 [粵] daat⁹ (捏) [普] dá

翅：用作「啻」

鏌鋣：即「莫邪」，古寶劍名

金，金踊躍曰『我且必為鏌鋣』，大冶必以為不祥之金。今一犯人之形，而曰『人耳人耳』，夫造化者必以為不祥之人。特犯人之形而猶喜之。若人之形者，萬化而未始有極也，其為樂可勝計邪？今一以天地為大鑪，以造化為大冶，惡乎往而不可哉！」成然寐，蘧然覺。

【今譯】子祀、子輿、子犁、子來四個人互相談說：「誰能把『無』當作頭顱，把『生』當作脊梁，把『死』當作尻骨，誰能知道生死存亡是一體的，我們就和他做朋友。」四個人相視而笑，內心相契，就一同做了朋友。

一會兒子輿生病了，子祀去看他。子輿說：「偉大啊！造物者，把我變成這樣一個拘攣的人啊！」子輿腰彎背駝，五臟血管向上，面頰隱在肚臍下，肩膀高過頭頂，頸後髮髻朝天。陰陽二氣錯亂不和，可是他心中閒適而若無其事，他蹣跚地走到井邊照見自己的影子，說：「哎呀！造物者又把我變成這樣一個拘攣的人啊！」

子祀說：「你嫌惡嗎？」

子輿說：「不，我為什麼嫌惡！假使把我的左臂變做雞，我就用它來報曉；假使把我的右臂變做彈弓，我就用它去打斑鳩烤了吃；假使把我的尻骨變做車輪，把我的精神化為馬，我就乘著牠走，那裡還要另外的車馬呢！再說人的得生，乃是適時；死去，乃是順應。能夠安心適時而順應變化的人，哀樂的情緒就不會侵入到心中，這就是古來所說的解除束縛。那些不能自求解脫的人，是被外物束縛住的。人力不能勝天然由來已久，我又有什麼嫌惡的呢？」

一會兒子來生病了，喘氣急促快要死了，他的妻子兒女圍著啼哭。子犁去探望他，對子來的家屬說：「去，走開！不要驚動將變化的人！」他靠著門向子來說：「偉大啊！造化者，又要把你變成什麼東西，要把你送到那裡？要把你變成老鼠的肝嗎？要把你變成小蟲的膀子嗎？」

子來說：「兒子對於父母，無論要到東西南北，都是聽從吩咐。自然對於人，無異於父母；它要我死，而我不聽從，我就悍逆不順，它有什麼罪過呢？大自然給我形體，用生使我勤勞，用老使我清閒，用死使我安息。因而以生為安善的，也應該以死為安善了！譬如現在有一個鐵匠正在鑄造金屬器物，那金屬忽然從鑪裡跳起來說：『一定要把我造成鏌鋣寶劍』，鐵匠必定會認為這是不祥的金屬。現在造化者開始範鑄人的形體，那模型就喊著：『變成人罷，變成人罷』，造化者必定會認為這是不祥的人。人們只獲得形體就欣然自喜。如果知道人的形體，千變萬化而未曾有窮盡，那麼這種歡樂豈可計算得清的嗎！如果現在就開始把天地當作大熔爐，把造化看作大鐵匠，那麼到那裡而不可呢！」子來說完話，酣然睡去，又自在地醒來。

六

子桑戶、孟子反、子琴張三人相與語曰：「孰能相與於無相與，相為於無相為？孰能登天遊霧，撓挑無極；相忘以生，無所終窮？」

三人相視而笑，莫逆於心，遂相與為友。

莫然有閒而子桑戶死，未葬。孔子聞之，使子貢往侍事焉。或編曲，或鼓琴，相和而歌曰：「嗟來桑戶乎！嗟來桑戶乎！而已反其真，而我猶為人猗！」子貢趨而進曰：「敢問臨尸而歌，禮乎？」

猗 [粵]ji¹(衣) [普]yī

二人相視而笑曰：「是惡知禮意！」

子貢反，以告孔子，曰：「彼何人者邪？修行無有，而外其形骸，臨尸而歌，顏色不變，無以命之，彼何人者邪？」

疣 [粵]jau⁴(由) [普]yóu

疣 [粵]wun⁴(桓) [普]huán

癰 [粵]jung¹(翁) [普]yōng

孔子曰：「彼，遊方之外者也；而丘，遊方之內者也。外內不相及，而丘使女往弔之，丘則陋矣。彼方且與造物者為人，而遊乎天地之一氣。彼以生為附贅縣疣，以死為決疣潰癰，夫若然者，又惡知死生先後之所在！假於異物，托於同體；忘其肝膽，遺其耳目；反覆終始，不知端倪；芒然彷徨乎塵垢之外，逍遙乎無為之業。彼又惡能憒憒然為世俗之禮，以觀眾人之耳目哉！」

芒：即「茫」

憒 [粵]kui⁶(匱) [普]kuì

子貢曰：「然則夫子何方之依？」

孔子曰：「丘，天之戮民也。雖然，吾與汝共之。」

子貢曰：「敢問其方。」

孔子曰：「魚相造乎水，人相造乎道。相造乎水者，穿池而養給；相造乎道者，無事而生定。故曰，魚相忘乎江湖，人相忘乎道術。」

造 [粵]cou⁶(藏) [普]zao⁶或cao⁶

子貢曰：「敢問畸人。」

曰：「畸人者，畸於人而侔於天。故曰，天之小人，人之君子；天之君子，人之小人也。」

侔 [粵]mau⁴(謀) [普]mou²

【今譯】子桑戶、孟子反、子琴張三人互相談說：「誰能夠相交而出於無心，相助而不著形跡？誰能超然於物外，跳躍於無極之中；忘了生死，而沒有窮極？」三個人相視而笑，內心相契，就一同做了朋友。

這樣不久子桑戶死了，還沒有下葬。孔子聽到了，就叫子貢去助理喪事。子貢看到一個在編歌曲，一個在彈琴，二人合唱著：「哎呀桑戶啊！哎呀桑戶啊！你已經還歸本真了，而我們還在做凡人的事啊！」

子貢趕上去問說：「請問對著屍體歌唱，合禮嗎？」

二人望望笑著說：「他那裡懂得禮的真意！」

子貢回去以後，把所見的告訴孔子，問說：「他們是什麼人啊，不用禮儀來修飾德行，而把形骸置於度外，對著屍體歌唱，無悲哀之色，簡直無法形容，他們究竟是什麼人啊！」

孔子說：「他們是遊於方域之外的人，而我是遊於方域之內的人。方域之外和方域之內彼此不相干，而我竟然叫你去弔唁，這是我的固陋啊！他們正和造物者為友伴，而遨遊於天地之間。他們把生命看作是氣的凝結，像身上的贅瘤一般，把死亡看作[是氣的消散]像膿瘡潰決破了一樣，像這樣子，又那裡知道死生先後的分別呢！藉著不同的原質，聚合而成一個形體；還忘內面的肝膽，遺忘外面的耳目；讓生命隨著自然而循環變化，不究詰它們的分際；安閑無係地神遊於塵世之外，逍遙自在於自然的境地。他們又怎能不厭

煩地拘守世俗的禮節，表演給眾人觀看呢！」

子貢說：「那麼您是依從那一方呢？」

孔子說：「從自然的道理看來我就像受著刑戮的人。雖然這樣，我們應該共同追求方外之道。」

子貢說：「請問有什麼方法。」

孔子說：「魚相適於水，人相適於道。相適於水的，挖個池子來供養；相適於道的，泰然無事而性分自足。所以說，魚游於江湖之中就忘記一切而悠悠哉哉，人游於大道之中就忘了一切而逍遙自適。」

子貢說：「請問那些不合於俗的異人是什麼人。」

孔子說：「異人是異於世俗人而應合於自然。所以說，從自然的觀點看來是小人的，卻成為人間的君子；從自然的觀點看來是君子的，卻成為人間的小人。」

[. . .]

八

意而子見許由。許由曰：「堯何以資汝？」

意而子曰：「堯謂我：『汝必躬服仁義而明言是非。』」

許由曰：「而奚來為軹？夫堯既已黥汝以仁義，而劓汝以是非矣，汝將何以遊夫遙蕩恣睢轉徙之塗乎？」

意而子曰：「雖然，吾願遊於其藩。」

許由曰：「不然。夫替者無以與乎眉目顏色之好，盲者無以與乎青黃黼黻之觀。」

意而子曰：「夫無莊之失其美，據梁之失其力，黃帝之亡其知，皆在鑪捶之間耳。庸詎知夫造物者之不息我黥而補我劓，使我乘成以隨先生邪？」

軹：即「只」，助詞

黥 [粵]king⁴(鯨) [普]qing²

劓 [粵]ji⁶(二) [普]yi⁴

恣 [粵]zi³(之) [普]zi⁴

睢 [粵]seoi¹(須) [普]sui¹

與 [粵]jyu⁵(預) [普]yu²

黼 [粵]fu²(苦) [普]fu³

黻 [粵]fat¹(忽) [普]fu²

黥 [粵]zai1(擠) [普]ji1

許由曰：「噫！未可知也。我為汝言其大略。吾師乎！吾師乎！蘏萬物而不為義，澤及萬世而不為仁，長於上古而不為老，覆載天地刻雕眾形而不為巧。此所遊已。」

【今譯】意而子去見許由。許由說：「堯教你什麼？」

意而子說：「堯對我說：『你一定要實行仁義而明辨是非。』」

許由說：「你還來這裡做什麼？堯既然用仁義給你行墨刑，用是非給你行劓刑，你怎麼能夠逍遙放蕩，無拘無束地遊於變化的境界呢？」

意而子說：「雖然這樣，我還是希望遊於這個境地的邊緣。」

許由說：「不行。瞎子無從欣賞眉目顏色的美好，盲人無從欣賞彩色錦繡的華麗。」

意而子說：「無莊忘記自己的美麗，據梁忘記自己的力氣，黃帝忘記自己的聰明，都是在大道的陶冶鍛鍊中而成的。怎麼知道造物者不會護養我受了黥刑的傷痕，修補我受了劓刑的殘缺，使我形體復恢完整，隨從先生呢？」

許由說：「唉！這是不可知的啊！不過我說個大略給你聽聽：我的大宗師啊！我的大宗師啊！調和萬物卻不以為義，澤及萬世卻不以為仁，長於上古卻不算老，覆天載地、雕刻各種物體的形象卻不以為靈巧，這是遊心的境地啊！」

九

顏回曰：「回益矣。」

仲尼曰：「何謂也？」

曰：「回忘禮樂矣。」

曰：「可矣，猶未也。」

他日，復見，曰：「回益矣。」

曰：「何謂也？」

曰：「回忘仁義矣。」

曰：「可矣，猶未也。」

他日，復見，曰：「回益矣。」

曰：「何謂也？」

曰：「回坐忘矣。」

仲尼蹴然曰：「何謂坐忘？」

顏回曰：「墮肢體，黜聰明，離形去知，同於大通，此謂坐忘。」

仲尼曰：「同則無好也，化則無常也。而果其賢乎！丘也請從而後也。」

黜 [粵]ceot1(出) 或zyut6(啜) [普]chu4

【今譯】顏回說：「我進步了。」

孔子說：「怎樣進步呢？」

顏回說：「我安然相忘於禮樂了。」

孔子說：「很好，但是還不夠。」

過了幾天，顏回又見孔子說：「我進步了。」

孔子說：「怎樣進步呢？」

顏回說：「我安然相忘於仁義了。」

孔子說：「很好，但是還不夠。」

過了幾天，顏回又見孔子說：「我進步了。」

孔子說：「怎樣進步呢？」

顏回說：「我坐忘了。」

孔子驚奇地說：「什麼叫坐忘？」

顏回說：「不著意自己的肢體，不擺弄自己的聰明，超脫形體的拘執、免於智巧的束縛，和大道融通為一，這就是坐忘。」

孔子說：「和萬物同一體就沒有偏私了，參與萬物的變化不偏執滯常理。你果真是賢人啊！我願意追隨在你的後邊。」

[...]

應帝王

六

[. . .]

儵 [粵]suk⁷(叔) [普]shu¹

南海之帝為儵，北海之帝為忽，中央之帝為渾沌。儵與忽時相與遇於渾沌之地，渾沌待之甚善。儵與忽謀報渾沌之德，曰：「人皆有七竅以視聽食息，此獨無有，嘗試鑿之。」日鑿一竅，七日而渾沌死。

【今譯】南海的帝王名叫儵，北海的帝王名叫忽，中央的帝王名叫渾沌。儵和忽常常到渾沌的境地裡相會，渾沌待他們很好。儵和忽商量報答渾沌的美意，說：「人都有七竅，用來看、聽、飲食、呼吸，唯獨他沒有，我們試著替他鑿開。」一天鑿一竅，到了第七天渾沌就死了。

秋水

五

濮 [粵]buk⁶(伏) [普]pu²

累：委託 [粵]leoi⁶(類) [普]lei⁴

笥 [粵]zi⁶(自) [普]si⁴

莊子釣於濮水，楚王使大夫二人往先焉，曰：「願以境內累矣！」

莊子持竿不顧，曰：「吾聞楚有神龜，死已三千歲矣，王以巾笥而藏之廟堂之上。此龜者，寧其死為留骨而貴乎？寧其生而曳尾於塗中乎？」

二大夫曰：「寧生而曳尾塗中。」

莊子曰：「往矣！吾將曳尾於塗中。」

【今譯】莊子在濮水釣魚，楚威王派了二個大夫先去表達他的心意說：「我希望將國內的政事委託先生！」

莊子持著魚竿頭也不回，遂說：「我聽說楚國有隻神龜，已經死了三千年了，國王把它盛在竹盒裡用布巾包著，藏在廟堂之上。請問這隻龜，寧可死了留下一把骨頭讓人尊貴呢？還是願意活著拖著尾巴在泥巴裡爬？」

兩個大夫說：「寧願活著拖著尾巴在泥巴裡爬。」

莊子說：「那麼請便吧！我還是希望拖著尾巴在泥巴裡爬。」

天下

六

芴 [粵]fat¹(忽) [普]hu¹

芒：「芒乎…忽乎…」即「恍乎…惚乎…」 [粵]fong¹ [普]huang¹

恣 [粵]zi³(志) [普]zi⁴

觭：通「奇」

瓌 [粵]zi¹(支) [普]zhi¹

瑰：同「傀」，「瑰瑋」可寫作「傀瑋」

環 [粵]gwai⁴(圭) [普]gui²

弁 [粵]faan⁶(番) [普]fan⁴

椒 [粵]cuk¹(促) [普]chu¹

睥：同「睨」

閎 [粵]wang⁴(宏) [普]hong²

調適：即「調適」

應：順應

芴漠無形，變化無常，死與生與，天地並與，神明往與！芒乎何之，忽乎何適，萬物畢羅，莫足以歸，古之道術有在於是者，莊周聞其風而悅之。以謬悠之說，荒唐之言，無端崖之辭，時恣縱而不儻，不以觭見之也。以天下為沈濁，不可與莊語，以卮言為曼衍，以重言為真，以寓言為廣。獨與天地精神往來而不敖倪於萬物，不譴是非，以與世俗處。其書雖瑰瑋而連狘無傷也。其辭雖參差而諔詭可觀。彼其充實不可以已，上與造物者遊，而下與外死生無終始者為友。其於本也，弘大而辟，深閎而肆；其於宗也，可謂稠適而上遂矣。雖然，其應於化而解於物也，其理不竭，其來不蛻，芒乎昧乎，未之盡者。

【今譯】恍惚芒昧而沒有形跡，變化而沒有常規，死呀生呀，與天地並存，與造化同往！芒芒昧昧到那裡去，飄飄忽忽往那裡走，包羅萬物，不知歸宿，古來道術有屬於這方面的，莊周聽到這種風尚就喜好它。以悠遠的論說，廣大的言論，沒有限制的言辭，常放任而不拘執，不持一端之見。認為天下沈濁，不能講嚴正的話，用無心之言來推衍，引用重言使人覺得真實，運用寓言來推廣道理。獨自和天地精神往來而不傲視萬物，不拘泥是非，和世俗相處。他的書雖然奇特卻宛轉敘說無傷道理。他的言辭雖然變化多端卻特異可觀。他內心之情飽滿而不止境地流露，上與造物者同遊，下與忘生死無終始分別的人做朋友。他以德為本，其精神領域弘大而開曠，深遠而廣闊；他以天為宗，其精神境界可謂和諧切適而上達於最高點。雖然這樣，他之順應變化而解脫於物的束縛，他的道理是不窮盡的，來處連綿不斷，芒味深遠，沒有窮盡。

Part II

Faith and Human Limitation

信仰與人的限制

無我、空、互即互入
——《心經》與《般若之心》

《心經》是漢傳佛教廣為人知的經典，原以梵文寫成，自二世紀至今已有十八個不同的中譯本。《心經》的篇幅甚短，全文不足一頁，卻蘊含600卷《大般若經》的精華。佛教徒唸誦或以書法抄寫《心經》，認為當中有奇妙的力量，這個傳統可遠溯至唐初。唐太宗貞觀三年（公元629年），玄奘法師為求親睹佛典原文，往天竺求法，十七年後得佛經657部帶返長安。西行之路有種種厄難，據說玄奘屢遇邪魔、土匪、風沙，皆因持誦《心經》而化險為夷。玄奘西行之前，這部梵文的佛經已有兩個中譯本，但玄奘將之重新翻譯，命名為《心經》，成為至今流傳最廣的漢譯本。

《心經》的作者已經無從稽考，但執筆者顯然掌握大乘般若學（Prajna）的核心。大乘佛教興起於公元前一世紀至公元一世紀之間，其後傳入中國、韓國、日本，在三地皆有悠長的歷史。大乘教派自稱大乘，稱早期佛教部派為小乘，以突顯彼此差異。大乘佛教強調自覺覺他、利樂眾生，信徒發願成為「菩薩」（即「覺者」之意），幫助有情眾生超脫痛苦。根據《大般若經》的思想，要離苦得樂，須覺照萬「法」（dharmas）皆「空」（sunyata）：一切現象與眾生皆是無常而相互依存，沒有一樣事物擁恆久不變的自性，或者脫離其他事物而獨立存在。

「空」的思想源於佛陀釋迦牟尼（約公元前五世紀生）。佛陀本名悉達多・喬達摩，是印度淨飯國王子。悉達多目睹生、老、病、死種種苦況，決定放棄宮廷生活，苦修求道。終於，他在菩提樹下靜坐七天而悟道成佛，證得解除痛苦的智慧；「佛」，就是「大澈大悟」之意。眾生受苦，不單因為無法逃避衰老、疾病、死亡。人生許多痛苦或不如意，皆源於對「自我」的錯誤理解，及由此而生、以自我為中心的種種執著。要去除煩惱，便要打破錯解與無知，修持智慧，對自身和事物如實觀之。所謂「自我」或「我」，無非就是生理現象（「色」，肉身之意）和心理現象（「受」、「想」、「行」、「識」）的總和。「我」的生理和心理現象時刻隨着複雜的因、緣轉變而變化，不為個人意願支配，亦無恆常的自性可執；眾生以為「色」、「受」、「想」、「行」、「識」背後有一個實在恆有的「我」，但這個「我」也是一種

「假稱」。所謂「我」的青春、美貌、財富、名譽、權力甚至知識，都是無常的心理、生理作用所生的現象，執取任何一樣皆不明智。

《心經》的全名是《般若波羅蜜多心經》，意思是它蘊含般若智慧（prajna-paramita）的精要、核心（hrdaya），教人如何從（痛苦的）此岸通往（解脫的）彼岸。「經」是智慧言說的結集，佛典以「經」命名者，多是一字一句的記錄佛陀口授的教誨。《心經》與佛陀無直接聯繫，卻記述了觀自在菩薩的說話，確切扼要地道出佛陀的根本教義。

由於《心經》的內容高度精練，要讀懂《心經》是個很大的挑戰。以下選篇除了玄奘法師翻譯的《心經》，還加入一行禪師解讀《心經》的作品《般若之心》。一行生於1926年，是旅居法國的越南僧人，他運用淺白的文字，使古老的經文變得可解，讓佛理與現代生活緊扣。一行以「互即互入」一詞解「空」，強調眾生相互依存的關係。

趙萊莉

〈般若之心〉

一行禪師 著

《般若波羅蜜多心經》

觀自在菩薩，行深般若波羅蜜多時，照見五蘊皆空，度一切苦厄。舍利子，色不異空，空不異色；色即是空，空即是色。受想行識，亦復如是。舍利子，是諸法空相，不生不滅，不垢不淨，不增不減。是故空中無色，無受想行識，無眼耳鼻舌身意，無色聲香味觸法，無眼界，乃至無意識界，無無明，亦無無明盡，乃至無老死，亦無老死盡。無苦集滅道，無智亦無得。以無所得故，菩提薩埵。依般若波羅蜜多故，心無罣礙。無罣礙故，無有恐怖，遠離顛倒夢想，究竟涅槃。三世諸佛，依般若波羅蜜多故，得阿耨多羅三藐三菩提。故知般若波羅蜜多，是大神咒，是大明咒，是無上咒，是無等等咒，能除一切苦，真實不虛。故說般若波羅蜜多咒，即說咒曰：揭諦揭諦，波羅揭諦，波羅僧揭諦，菩提薩婆訶。

互即互入

如果你是一位詩人，你將會清楚地看到，這張紙裡有一朵雲在飄飛。沒有雲就沒有雨；沒有雨，樹木就不能生長；而沒有樹木，我們就不能夠

節錄自一行禪師，《與生命相約》，明潔、明堯譯（2002），橡樹林文化出版，由一行禪師及橡樹林文化授權翻印。

造紙。雲對紙的存在來說是必要的。如果沒有雲，也就不可能有這張紙了。所以我們可以說，雲和紙是互即互入的。Interbeing（互即互入）這個詞，字典裡找不到，但是，如果我們把inter這個字首與to be這個動詞連接起來，我們就可以得到一個新的動詞inter-be。沒有雲，我們就不可能有紙，所以我們可以說，雲和紙是互即互入的。

2 如果我們再深入地觀察這張紙，我們還可以從中看到陽光。如果沒有陽光，森林就不可能生長，事實上，沒有任何東西能夠生長。沒有陽光，就連我們自己也不能生存。這樣，我們就知道，這張紙裡也有陽光。紙和陽光是互即互入的。如果我們再繼續觀察，我們還會看到伐木工人，是他們把樹砍倒，並送到造紙廠去，使它變成紙的。我們還可以看到小麥。我們知道，如果每天沒有麵包吃，伐木工人就沒辦法活下去，因此製成麵包的小麥，也存在於這張紙中。同樣地，伐木工人的父母也在這裡。當我們用這種方式去觀察的時候，我們看到，沒有所有這些事物，這張紙就不可能存在。

3 再深入地觀察，我們可以看到我們也在這張紙中。這是不難明白的，因為當我們看一張紙的時候，這張紙就成為我們的想（perception）的一部分。你的心在這張紙中，我的心也在其中。所以我們可以說，一切事物都在這張紙中。你無法指出一樣東西不在這張紙中——時間、空間、泥土、雨水、土壤中的礦物質、陽光、雲彩、河流、熱量。每一件事物都與這張紙共存在。這就是為什麼我認為字典裡應該有inter-be這個詞的原因。存在（to be）是互即互入的存在（inter-be）。你不可能獨自存在，你不得不與其他每一件事物互即互入地存在。這張紙之所以存在，是因為其他每一件事物存在。

4 假設我們試著把每一個因素還原到它的本源。假設我們把陽光還給太陽，你認為這張紙還有可能存在嗎？不，沒有陽光，任何事物都不能夠存在。如果我們再把伐木工人還給他的母親，那麼我們也同樣不可能有這張紙。事實是，這張紙完全是由非紙的因素構成的。如果我們把這些非紙的因素還原到它們的本源，那麼紙就根本不可能存在了。沒有非紙的因素，如心、伐木工人、陽光等等，就沒有紙。不管這張紙有多麼薄，它的裡面卻包含了宇宙中的每一件事物。

但是《心經》講的卻似乎與此相反。觀世音菩薩告訴我們，諸法皆空。 5
讓我們再進一步來考察一下。

空掉了什麼？

「觀自在菩薩，行深般若波羅蜜多時，照見五蘊皆空」

菩提（bodhi）的意思是覺悟，薩埵（sattva）的意思是眾生，所以菩 6
提薩埵（bodhisattva）的意思就是覺悟的眾生。我們大家有時候是菩提薩埵（覺悟的眾生），有時候不是。觀音是這部經中菩薩的名字。觀音是觀世音的簡稱。《般若波羅密多心經》是觀世音菩薩送給我們的一份殊勝的禮物。在中文、越南文、朝鮮文和日文中，我們分別把他的名字翻譯成觀音、Quan Am或者Kannon，它的意思是尋聲救苦。在東方，有很多佛教徒向他祈禱，或者稱念他的聖號。觀世音菩薩之所以能夠送給我們無畏的禮物，因為他自己已經超越了恐懼。（有時候觀音現男子身，有時候現女人身。）

完美的智慧（即徹悟，Perfect Understanding）就是般若波羅蜜多（pra- 7
jnaparamita）。人們通常用wisdom（智慧）這個詞來翻譯prajna（般若），但是我認為，wisdom在某種程度上不能夠完全傳達出prajna這個詞的含義。般若像流水，而智慧和知識則是固態的，它們會阻塞我們的般若。在佛教中，知識被認為是般若的障礙。如果我們認為某件事物是真理，我們就會死死地執著於它，以致於當真理親自來敲我們的門時，我們也不會願意讓它進來。我們必須超越以往的知見，就像爬梯子一樣。如果我們在第五個階梯上，便認為自己已經很高了，那麼我們就沒有希望爬到第六階。我們必須學會超越自己的知見。般若像流水，可以流動，能夠滲透。知見甚至智慧都是固態的，它們會擋住般若的道路。

根據觀世音菩薩所說，這張紙是空的；但是根據我們的分析，它充滿了 8
一切事物。看起來在我們的觀察與他的觀察之間有一個矛盾。觀世音菩薩發

現五蘊皆空，但是空掉了什麼呢？關鍵字是「空」。「空」意味著空掉了某種東西。

9 假設我正拿著一杯水，我問你：「這個杯子是空的嗎？」你會說：「不，裡面有水。」但是如果我把水倒掉，再問你，你或許會說：「是的，是空的。」但是，空掉了什麼？空意味著空掉了某種東西。杯子不能空掉沒有的事物，除非你知道什麼空了，否則空毫無意義。我的杯子裡的水空了，但是空氣卻沒有空。空意味著空掉某種東西——這真是一個發現。當觀音菩薩說五蘊皆空的時候，為了幫助他表達得更準確，我們必須問：「觀世音先生，空掉了什麼？」

空掉了孤立的自我

10 五蘊是構成人的五種因素，譯成英文是five heaps或five aggregates。這五種因素在我們每個人的身心內部就像河一樣在流動。事實上，它們真的是五條河流，一起在我們的身心內部流動：色之河（意指我們的身體）、受之河、想之河、行之河，以及識之河，它們一直在我們的身心內部流動著。所以根據觀世音菩薩所說，當他深入地觀照這五條河流的本質的時候，他突然發現，它們都是空的。如果我們問：「空掉了什麼？」他將會這樣回答：「它們空掉了一個孤立的自我。」這句話的意思是，這五條河流中沒有一條能夠獨自存在，它們中的每一條河流都是由其他四條所造成的。它們必須共同存在；它們必須與所有其他河流互即互入。

11 我們的體內有肺、心、腎、胃和血液。這當中沒有一樣東西能夠孤立存在，它們只能與其他的臟器相互共存。你的肺和血液是兩種事物，但是這兩者都不能孤立存在。肺吸進空氣，供給血液，反過來，血液為肺輸送營養。沒有血液，肺就不能存活，沒有肺，血液就無法得到淨化。肺和血液是互即互入的，同樣地，腎和血液之間、腎和胃之間、肺和心之間、血液和心臟之間等等，也都是如此。

12 當觀音菩薩說我們的這張紙是空的時候，他的意思是，它空掉一個孤立的存在。它不可能獨自存在。它必須與陽光、雲彩、森林、伐木工人、心和每一件其他的事物互即互入。但是，空掉了一個孤立的自我同時意味著它的裡面充滿著一切。這樣看起來，我們的觀察與觀音菩薩的觀察根本就不矛盾了。

13 觀音菩薩深入地觀察色、受、想、行、識這五蘊，他發現，五蘊當中沒有一個能夠獨自存在。每一蘊都只能與其他四蘊互即互入。所以他告訴我們，色是空的。色空掉了一個孤立的自我，但是它的裡面卻充滿了宇宙中的一切事物。受、想、行、識也是如此。

般若之道

「度一切苦厄」

14 滲透意味著進入某件事物，而不僅僅是站在它的外面，當我們想理解一件事物的時候，我們不能只是站在它的外面來觀察它。為了真正理解它，我們必須深入到它的內部，與它成為一體。如果我們想理解一個人，我們必須去體驗他的感受，他的痛苦和快樂。滲透是一個極好的詞。Comprehend（了解、領會）這個詞是由拉丁詞根com和prehendere構成的。Com的意思是「在心中合在一起」，prehendere的意思是「抓住、拾起來」，所以理解某件事物（to comprehend something）就是意味著把它拿起來，並與它成為一體。除此之外再也沒有其他的方法了。

15 如果我們只是站在外面作為一個觀察者來看這張紙，我們就不能夠完全理解它。我們必須滲透到它的裡面去。我們必須是雲，是陽光，是伐木工人。如果我們能夠進入到它的裡面，並且成為它裡面的每一件事物，我們對這張紙的理解就會很圓滿。

16 有一個印度故事，講的是一粒鹽想知道大海有多鹹，所以它就跳進海裡去，與海水融為了一體。用這種方法，這粒鹽獲得了圓滿的理解。

17 我們很關心和平，我們想理解蘇聯，所以我們不能只是站在外面觀察。為了真正理解一個蘇聯公民的受、想、行，我們必須與他（她）成為一體。這就是佛教的禪修——為了真正地理解，去滲透、去與被理解的事物成為一體。任何有意義的和平工作都必須遵從不二的原則，滲透的原則。

18 在《四念處經》（Sutra of the Four Foundations of Mindfulness）中，佛陀建議我們以滲透的方式來觀察事物。他說，我們應該觀身如身，觀受如受，觀行如行。他為什麼使用了這種重複的表達方式呢？因為，你必須進入到你想觀察和理解的事物中去，以便與它融為一體。核子科學家們也開始這樣認為，當你進入到基本粒子的世界中時，你必須成為一個參與者，以便理解事物。你不再只是作為一個觀察者站在外面。今天很多科學家更願意使用參與者（participant）這個詞，而不願意使用觀察者（observer）。

19 在我們努力互相理解的過程中，我們也應該這樣做。一對夫妻如果想互相理解的話，必須對他們伴侶的感覺感同身受，否則他們不可能真正理解對方。根據佛教禪觀，沒有理解的愛是不可能的。如果你不理解某人，你就不可能愛他（她）。如果你不理解卻愛上了一個人，那它就不是愛，而是別的東西。

20 觀音菩薩的禪觀就是對五蘊進行深入地契悟。通過深入地觀照色、受、想、行、識的河流，他發現了它們空的本性，突然間，他超越了所有的痛苦。我們所有想要達到此種解脫的人，也必須深入地觀察，以便契入事物空的本性。

無常萬歲

「舍利子，色不異空，空不異色，色即是空，空即是色，受、想、行、識，亦復如是。」

色是波浪而空是水，你可以通過這個比喻來理解這句經文。印度人說話 21
的時候，使用一種使人害怕的語言，但是我們必須理解他們的表達方式，以便真正地理解他們。在西方，當我們畫一個圈的時候，我們認為它是零，空無一物。但是在印度，一個圈卻意味著全體、整體。意思剛好是相反的。所以，「色即是空，空即是色，」就像波浪是水、水是波浪一樣。色不異空，空不異色，受、想、行、識亦復如是，因為五蘊互相含攝。因為一存在，所以一切存在。

在越南文學中，十二世紀李朝有一位禪師，寫過兩句詩： 22

此有微塵有；
此無宇宙無。

他的意思是，有和無的概念都是我們的心創造出來的。他還曾說：「一 23
芥端藏宇宙，一芥子現日月。」這些比喻對我們表明：一包含一切，一切即是一。你知道，現代科學已經發現了這個真理，即：不僅物質和能量是一，而且物質和空間也是一。不僅物質和空間是一，而且物質、空間和心靈也是一，因為心就在它們當中。

因為色即是空，故色的存在便成為可能。從色中我們可以看到受、想、 24
行、識等所有其他的東西。空意味著空掉孤立的自我。但是，同時這件事物又充滿著一切，充滿著生命。空這個詞應該不會嚇著我們吧。它是一個很妙的詞。空並不意味著不存在。如果這張紙不空，陽光、伐木工人和森林又怎麼能夠進入到它的裡面呢？它又怎麼能夠成為一張紙呢？為了空，杯子必須存在。為了空掉一個孤立的自我，色、受、想、行、識必須存在。

空是一切事物的基礎。因為空，一切事物的存在才成為可能。這是西元二 25
世紀佛教哲學家龍樹菩薩的宣言。空是一個相當樂觀的概念。如果我不空，我就不可能存在；如果你不空，你就不可能存在。因為你存在，我才可能存在，這是空的真正含義。色並沒有一個獨立的實體，觀音菩薩想讓我們明白這一點。

沒有無常怎麼能長大？

26 如果我們不空，我們就會成為一塊物質。我們就不能呼吸，就不能思惟。空意味著活著，吸進來，呼出去。如果我們不空，我們就不可能活著。空是無常，是變化。我們不應該抱怨無常，因為沒有無常，一切事物都將不可能存在。一位佛教徒從英國來看望我，他曾抱怨生命是空和無常的（他成為佛教徒已經有五年了，已經對空和無常作了大量的思考）。他告訴我，一天，他十四歲的女兒對他說：「爸爸，請不要抱怨無常，沒有無常我怎麼能長大？」當然她是對的。

27 當你有一粒穀子的時候，你把它託付給土壤，你希望它能長成一株高高的稻子。如果沒有無常，這粒穀子將永遠是一粒穀子，而你也將永遠吃不到一個稻穗。無常對一切事物的生命來說都是嚴酷的。我們不必抱怨無常，相反我們可以說，「無常萬歲！」因為無常，一切事物的存在才成為可能。這是一個非常樂觀的解釋。空也同樣如此。空是很重要的，因為沒有空，一切事物都不可能存在。所以我們也應該說，「空萬歲！」。空是一切事物的基礎，因為空，生命成為可能。所有這五蘊都遵從著同樣的規律。

延續愉快

「舍利子，是諸法空相，不生不滅」

28 諸法，這裡的意思是事物。人是法，樹是法，雲是法，陽光是法。我們能夠想像得到的一切事物都是法。所以當我們說「是諸法空相」的時候，我們的意思是，一切事物都是以空作為它的自性。這就是為什麼一切事物能夠存在的原因。這個講法很有意思，它意味著無生無死，這是觀音菩薩曾經說過的極其重要的話。

29 在我們生活中的每一天，我們都會看到生生死死。一個人出生時，有一

份出生證明。當他死後，為了安葬他，又有一份死亡證明。這些證明書進一步證實了生死的存在。但是觀音菩薩卻說「無生無死」。為了看看他的說法是不是正確的，我們必須更深入地觀察。

你出生的日子是什麼？在你出生以前你已經存在了嗎？讓我來幫助你， 30
出生意味著從無到有。我的問題是，你出生以前就已經存在了嗎？

假設一隻母雞要下蛋。在它下蛋以前，你認為那只蛋已經存在了嗎？是 31
的，當然啦，它在裡面。在你出娘胎之前，你也在裡面。這意味著在你出生以前，你已經存在了——在你母親的體內。事實是，如果一樣東西已經存在了，它就不必再出生了。出生意味著從無到有。如果你已經是某個東西，那麼出生又有什麼用呢？

所以，你所謂的生日實際上是你的延續日，下一次你向別人祝賀時， 32
你可以說「延續日快樂」。我認為關於我們究竟是什麼時候出生的，我們可以有一個更好的概念。如果我們倒退九個月，退回到母親懷孕期間，我們就有一個更好的日子，可以填到我們的出生證明上去。在中國，當你出生的時候，人們認為你已經一歲了，在越南也是這樣。所以我們說，我們這一期生命是在母親的子宮裡、從母親懷孕的時候開始的，因此我們可以把這個日期寫到出生證明上。

但是這個問題仍然存在：在你母親懷孕以前你是存在還是不存在？如果 33
你說：「存在」，我認為你是正確的。在你母親懷孕以前，你已經存在了，也許一半在你父親體內，一半在你母親體內。因為我們永遠也不可能從空無而變成某種東西。你能指出一樣東西曾經是空無嗎？你認為一朵雲能從空無中產生嗎？在成為雲之前，它是水，也許是一條流動的河。它不是空無。你同意嗎？

誕生是一種延續

我們不能想像事物的誕生。它僅僅是一種延續。請再回溯得更遠一些， 34

你將會看到，你不僅存在於你父母的體內，而且也存在於你的祖父母以及你的曾祖父母的體內。當我更深入地觀察的時候，我可以看到，在某個過去世，我是一朵雲。這不是詩，這是科學。我為什麼說在某個過去世我是一朵雲呢？因為我現在是一朵雲，沒有雲我就不可能存在。我就是此刻的雲、河流和空氣，所以我知道，過去我曾是雲、河流和空氣。我是岩石，我是水中的礦物質。這不是一個相信輪迴的問題，這是地球上生命的歷史。我們曾經是青草、陽光、流水、真菌和植物。我們曾經是單細胞的生命。佛陀曾說過，在他的某個過去生裡，他曾經是樹，是魚，是鹿。這些不是迷信。我們每一個人都曾經是雲、鹿、鳥、魚，而且我們將繼續成為這些東西，而不僅僅是在過去世。

35 不僅僅生是這種情況。沒有任何事物能夠誕生，也沒有任何事物能夠死亡。這是觀音菩薩說的話。你認為一朵雲會死嗎？死意味著從有到無。你認為我們能把某件東西變成空無所有嗎？讓我們再回到這張紙上。我們也許妄想把它毀掉，我們所要做的全部事情就是點燃一根火柴，把它燒掉。但是如果我們點燃一張紙，它的一部分將化為煙，而煙將上升並且繼續存在。由這張紙燃燒所產生的熱量，將進入到宇宙中，並滲透到其他的事物裡，因為熱量是紙的下一生。餘燼將成為土壤的一部分，所以在這張紙的下一生中，它可能同時是一朵雲和一株玫瑰。為了認識到這張紙永遠無生無滅，我們必須非常仔細、留心。它可能以另外的形式存在。但是，我們不可能把一張紙變成空無一物。

36 每件事物都是如此，甚至你和我。我們不受生死的支配。一位禪師或許會給學生這樣一個話頭去參：「如何是父母未生前本來面目？」這是一個邀請，邀請我們去開始一個認識自我的旅程。如果你做得好，你將能看到你的前生和你的來生。請記住我們不是在談論哲學，我們是在談論真實。看看你的手，問問你自己：「我的手從什麼時候開始存在的？」如果我們深入地觀察自己的手，我就可以看到它已經存在了很長時間，有三十多萬年了。我看到我的很多世祖先，不僅僅是在過去、而且是在現在，仍然活著，我僅僅是一個延續。我從來不曾死過。如果我曾經哪怕死過一次，我的手怎麼會還在呢？

能量轉化

法國科學家盧瓦希爾[1]（Lavoisier）說過，「沒有事物被創造，也沒有事 37
物被毀滅。」這與《心經》所說恰好是一樣的。即使是最好的當代科學家也不能把哪怕是小如一粒塵埃或一顆電子的東西減少至空無所有。一種能量形式只能轉化為另外一種能量形式。有永遠不能變成無，哪怕是一粒塵埃。

通常我們說，人來自於塵埃，又回歸於塵埃。這聽起來不怎麼令人高 38
興。我們不想回歸塵埃。這兒有一個分別，就是：人是很有用的，可是塵埃根本沒有什麼用。但是科學家們甚至不知道一粒塵埃是什麼！它仍然是一個祕密。想像一下，一粒塵埃，它的電子以每秒鐘十八萬英里的速度圍繞著原子核高速旋轉。這是非常令人興奮的。回歸一粒塵埃將會是一樁多麼令人激動的奇遇啊。

有時候我們有這種感覺，即我們知道一粒塵埃是什麼。我們甚至自稱 39
我們了解人——我們說人將會回歸塵土。因為我們與一個人共同生活二、三十年了，我們就會有這種印象，即我們了解他（她）的一切。所以，當我們開車時，那個人緊挨著我們坐著，可是我們卻在想著其他的事情。我們對他不再感興趣了。多麼驕傲啊！坐在我們旁邊的人是一個真正的祕密！我們只是有這個印象，我們了解他，但是實際上我們不了解任何東西。如果我們用觀音菩薩的眼睛來觀察，我們將會看到，即使那個人的一根頭髮，都是整個宇宙。他的一根頭髮可以成為通向終極真實之門。一粒塵埃可以是天國、淨土。當你明白你自己、一粒塵埃和所有事物是互即互入的時候，你將會領悟到事實確實如此。我們必須謙恭。有一句中國諺語講：「知己無知，乃知之始。」

---

1 盧瓦希爾（Antoine-Laurent Lavoisier，1743–1794）於一七七二年指出硫、磷燃燒後重量增加，是因為吸收了空氣中的一種元素，他將之命名為氧，並以此為基礎，列出三十三種化學元素，編出元素表，打破前人認為物質由水、火、土和空氣組成之說。

緊密的聯繫

40 秋季的一天，我在一個公園裡，被一枚非常小但是很美麗的心形樹葉吸引住了，我注視著它，它的顏色幾乎是紅色的，勉強掛在樹枝上，幾乎快掉下來了。我跟它在一起呆了很長時間，問了它很多問題。我發現，這片樹葉曾是這棵樹的母親。通常我們認為樹是母親，而樹葉只是孩子，可是當我觀察這片樹葉的時候，我看出來，這片樹葉也是這棵樹的母親。樹根所吸取的只是水和礦物質，還不足以為樹提供營養，所以樹就把這種原始樹液傳送到樹葉那兒去，然後借助光合作用，樹葉負責把這種原始樹液轉化成加工過的樹液，並把它傳送回去，滋養這棵樹。因此樹葉也是樹的母親。因為樹葉是通過樹莖與樹連接在一起的，它們之間的交流是顯而且見的。

41 我們不再有一根莖把我們與母親聯繫在一起，但是當我們處在她子宮裡的時候，我們有一根非常長的莖（一條臍帶），我們所需要的氧氣和營養物質就是通過這條莖傳送給我們的。不幸的是，在我們稱之為生日的那一天，它被剪掉了，而我們得到一個錯覺，即我們是獨立的。這是一個錯誤。我們繼續依賴母親有很長一段時間，我們還有其他幾位母親。大地是我們的母親，我們有很多莖把我們和我們的母親大地聯繫在一起。有一根莖把我們與雲聯繫在一起。如果沒有雲，我們就沒有水喝。在我們的身體構成中，至少有百分之七十的水，因而連接雲和我們之間的莖就真的存在了。我們與河流、森林、伐木工人以及農民之間的情形都是如此。成百上千的莖把我們和宇宙間的每件事物都聯繫在一起，因此，我們才存在。你看到了你和我之間的聯繫了嗎？如果你不存在，我也就不存在了，這是肯定的。如果你還沒有看到它，那麼你就再深入地觀察一下，我相信你會看到的。正如我所說過的，這不是哲學。你必須真的自己去看。

42 我問這片樹葉，它是否感到害怕，因為秋天了，其他的樹葉都落了。它告訴我：「不，整個春夏期間我都充滿了生機。我努力地工作著，幫助著滋養這棵樹，我的很大一部分已經溶入到這棵樹中。請不要說我只是樹葉這個形象，因為樹葉這個形象只是我的極小一部分。我是整棵樹。我知道我已經

在這棵樹裡，而且在我回歸土壤的時候，我將繼續滋養這棵樹。這就是為什麼我不焦慮的原因。當我脫離樹枝飄向地面時，我會向樹揮手，告訴她：『我們很快就會再見面的。』」

突然，我看見了一種智慧，非常像《心經》中所包含的那種智慧。你 43
必須去體察生命。你不應該說「樹葉的生命」，你只能這樣說「樹葉裡的生命」和「樹裡的生命」。我的生命只是生命，你可以在我這裡也可以在樹那裡看到它。那天有一陣風吹過，一會兒之後，我看見那片樹葉脫離了樹枝，飄落到地上。它快樂地飄舞著，因為當它飄落的時候，它看到了它已經在樹裡面了。它很幸福。我垂下了頭，我知道我們可以從這片葉子身上學到很多東西，因為它不害怕——它知道，一切事物都無生無死。

天空中的雲也不會害怕。時間到了，雲就會變成雨。變成雨，落下來， 44
喧嘩著，成為密西西比河、亞馬遜河或湄公河的一部分，或者落在蔬菜上，後來成為人的一部分，這些都是很有樂趣的。這是一次令人非常興奮的奇遇。雲知道，如果它落到地面上，它可能會成為海洋的一部分。所以雲不害怕。只有人才感到害怕。

海洋中的波浪有始有終，有生有滅，但是觀音菩薩告訴我們波浪是空 45
的。波浪全體是水，但是波浪空掉了一個孤立的自我。因為風和水的存在，波浪這種色才成為可能。如果波浪只看到它現有的有始有終的形色，它就會害怕生死。但是如果波浪看到它同時是水，並把自己同水統一起來，那麼它就可以從生死中解脫出來。每一個波浪產生了，然後又消失了，但是水卻擺脫了生滅。

宇宙觀

當我還是孩子的時候，我經常玩一個萬花筒。我拿一根管筒和幾片毛玻 46
璃，一點一點地轉動，就可以看到很多奇妙的景象。每一次我用手指輕輕地撥動一下，一個景象就會消失，而另一個景象就會出現。當第一個景象消失的時候，我根本不會哭，因為我知道沒有任何東西受到損失，另一個美麗的

景象總是隨之而來。如果你是波浪，你與水成為了一體，用水的眼睛來看世界，那麼你就不會害怕起起伏伏了。但是請不要滿足於推理，或者把我的話當成事物本身。你必須進入其中，體會它，並與它融為一體。你可以通過禪觀來達到這一點，你不值值要在禪堂裡修禪觀，還要把它貫徹到你的日常生活當中去。在你做飯、打掃房間、走路的過程中，你可以觀察事物並努力從空觀的角度來看透它們的本質。空是一個樂觀的字眼，它一點也不悲觀。當觀音菩薩行深般若波羅蜜多的時候，他能看到事物的空性，突然間，他超越了所有的恐懼和痛苦。我曾經看到過有人面帶微笑，安詳地離開人世，因為他們明白生與死值值是大海上面的波浪，就像萬花筒中的一個景象。

47 於是你就會明白，我們可以從雲、水、波浪、樹葉和萬花筒中學到很多東西。從宇宙中所有其他事物那裡，也是如此。如果你仔細地觀察事物，足夠地深入，你就會發現互即互入的秘密。一旦你看到了它，你將不再會屈從於恐懼——對生的恐懼或對死的恐懼。生死只是我們心中的妄念，並且這些妄念與現實不相符。這就像上和下的概念一樣，當我們舉起手來的時候，我們很肯定這是上，當我們垂下手的時候，說這是下。天堂是上，地獄是下。但是坐在地球另一面的人們肯定不會同意的，因為上下的觀念不適用於整個宇宙，就像生死的觀念一樣。

48 那麼請繼續往回看，你將會看到你一直就存在著。讓我們一起來看，並融入樹葉的生命當中去，這樣我們就可以與樹葉成為一體了。讓我們融入進去，與雲或者與波浪成為一體。認識到我們作為水的本質，這樣我們就可以擺脫恐懼。如果我們非常深入地觀察的話，我們將會超越生死。

49 明天我將繼續存在，但是你要非常留心才能看到我。我將會是一朵花，或者是一片樹葉。我將存在於這些形色中，並向你打招呼。如果你足夠留心，你將會辨認出我並問候我，我將會非常高興。

玫瑰和垃圾

「不垢不淨」

垢或淨，骯髒或純淨，這些是我們心中所形成的概念。一枝我們剛剪下 50
來的玫瑰，我們把它插到花瓶裡，它是乾淨的。它聞起來是那麼香，那麼純潔，那麼清新。它使人想起純潔這個概念。而與之相反的是垃圾箱，它發出難聞的氣味，裡面裝滿了腐爛的東西。

當你只看到表面時，情況是這樣的。如果你深入地觀察，你將會看到， 51
只需五、六天以後，玫瑰就會成為垃圾的一部分。你不需要等五天就可以看到這一點。如果你專注地看著這朵玫瑰，深入地觀察，你當下就可以看到這一點。如果你再觀察垃圾箱，你就會發現，幾個月以後，它裡面的東西可能已經轉化為可愛的蔬菜，乃至變成一株玫瑰。如果你是一個好園丁，有一雙菩薩的眼睛，那麼當你觀察玫瑰的時候，你將能看到垃圾，而當你觀察垃圾的時候，你將能看到玫瑰。玫瑰和垃圾是互即互入的。沒有玫瑰，我們就沒有垃圾；沒有垃圾，我們就沒有玫瑰。它們彼此之間非常需要對方。玫瑰和垃圾是平等的。垃圾確實與玫瑰是一樣寶貴。如果我們深入地觀察「垢」和「淨」這對概念，我們就會返回到互即互入的觀念上來。

在《中部》[2]（Majjhima Nikaya，相當於漢文《中阿含》）中，有很短的 52
一小段講了世界的起源。這段話很簡單，很容易理解，也很深刻：「此有故彼有，此無故彼無，彼是故此是（This is, because that is. This is not, because that is not. This is like this, because that is like that.）。」這是佛教關於緣起的教義。

富裕與貧困

在馬尼拉這個城市，有很多年輕的妓女，她們中的一些人只有十四、五 53
歲。她們是很不快樂的年輕女性。她們並不想成為妓女。她們的家庭很窮，

2 《中部》為南傳經典，分為十五品一五二經，其中有九十八經完全與北傳一致。以巴利文（Pali）記載的南傳經典，分為五部，就是《相應部》（Samyutta-nikaya）含二二九八經，內分偈、因緣、蘊、處、大五品、《中部》（Majjhima-nikaya）含一五二經、《長部》（Digha-nikaya）含三十四經、《增支部》（Anguttara-nikaya）含二二九一經和《小部》（Khuddaka-nikaya）等「巴利五部」，其前四部與北傳的「四部阿含」相當。

因此這些年輕姑娘想到城市找份工作，比如大街上的小商販之類的，好掙點錢寄回家裡去。當然，這不僅在馬尼拉是這樣，在越南的胡志明市，在紐約，在巴黎、都是如此。事實也確實是這樣，在城市比在農村容易賺到錢。

54 所以我們可以想像，為了幫助家庭，一個年輕姑娘是怎樣被誘惑到城裡去的。可是僅僅幾個星期以後，她就被一個聰明的人說服了，去為他工作，這樣她也能賺到百倍於現在的錢。因為她還太年輕，還不怎麼懂得生活，所以她就接受了，結果淪落成為妓女。從那時起，她就背上了骯髒不淨的感覺，而這種感覺給她帶來了巨大的痛苦。當她看到其他年輕姑娘穿戴得很漂亮、出身於富裕的家庭的時候，一種不幸的感覺就會湧上心頭，於是這種自認為骯髒的感覺就成為了她的地獄。

55 但是如果她有機會與觀音菩薩見面，觀音菩薩就會告訴她，深入地觀察自己和整個社會情形，她就會明白，她之所以如此，是因為別人如彼。此是故彼是。所以，一個出身於富裕家庭的所謂的好女孩，又有什麼可驕傲的呢？因為她們這樣的生活方式，才有別的女孩子不得不那樣地生活。我們當中沒有一個人的手是乾淨的，沒有一個人可以宣稱這不是我們的責任。馬尼拉的女孩子之所以過著那樣的生活，是因為我們過著這樣的生活。觀察那些妓女的生活，我們看到了那些不是妓女的人們。觀察那些不是妓女的人們以及我們的生活方式，我們看到了妓女。此助彼生，彼助此生。

56 讓我們來看看富裕和貧困。一個富裕的社會階層和一個被剝奪了一切的社會階層是互即互入的。一個社會階層的富裕是由另一個社會階層的貧困構成的。彼是故此是。財富是由非財富的因素構成的，貧困是由非貧困的因素構成的。這就像那張紙一樣。所以我們必須小心。我們不應該使自己拘泥於概念上。事實是，每件事物都是其他一切事物。我們只能互即互入地存在，我們不可能獨自存在。我們對我們周圍所發生的一切事情都負有責任。觀世音菩薩會告訴那些年輕的妓女們：「孩子們，觀照一下你自己，你將會看到一切。因為別人是那樣生活的，所以你是這樣生活的。你不是唯一責任人，所以請不要再痛苦了。」僅僅通過用互即互入的眼睛來看問題，那些年輕的

姑娘們就可以從她們的痛苦中解脫出來。你還能提供別的什麼東西以幫助她們獲得心靈的解脫呢？

善惡之縛

我們被我們關於善與惡的概念束縛住了。我們只想成為善的，而想擺 57
脫惡的。但是，這是因為我們忘記了善是由非善的因素構成的。假設我正拿著一根可愛的樹枝，當我們以無分別心來看它的時候，我們會看到這是一根很好的樹枝。但是一旦我們分別一端是左而一端是右的時候，我們就陷入麻煩了。我們或許說，我們只想要左，而不想要右（就像你經常聽到的那樣），麻煩馬上就來了。如果沒有右傾分子，你怎麼能成為一個左傾分子呢？假設我們說我不想要這根枝條的右端，我只想要左端，於是我就把真實的一半掰下來扔掉了。可是一旦我把不想要的那一半扔掉了，剩下來的那一端又變成了右（新的右）。因為只要有左，就必然有右。我或許感到失望，再掰一次。我把我所剩的樹枝又掰掉了一半，可是仍然又有新的右端產生了。

善和惡也是如此。你不可能只是善的。你不可能把惡的都消除掉，因為 58
有惡，善才存在，反之亦然。當你扮演一出英雄劇的時候，你必須設置一個對手，這樣英雄才能成為英雄。所以佛需要魔來扮演惡的角色，這樣佛才能成其為佛。佛與這張紙一樣是空的；佛是由非佛的因素構成的。如果沒有我們這些非佛的產生，又怎麼能有佛呢？如果沒有右傾分子，我們又怎麼能叫某人左傾分子呢？

按照我的習慣，每次我合掌向佛陀深深地鞠躬時，我都要誦這首短偈子： 59

皈命頂禮者，
接受頂禮者，
二者俱是空，
是故今回滿。

60 這樣說並不是驕傲。如果我不空，我怎麼能向佛頂禮呢？如果佛不空，他怎麼能接受我的頂禮呢？佛和我是互即互入的。佛是由非佛的因素構成的，比如我。我是由非我的因素構成的，比如佛。所以禮敬的主體和客體都是空的。沒有客體，怎麼會有主體呢？

二元世界

61 在西方，你們為善惡的問題已經爭論很多年了。為什麼要有惡存在呢？對西方人來說，要理解這一點似乎是很困難的。但是借助不二之覺照，這個問題就不成其為問題了：只要有善的概念，就會有惡的概念。為了展示自己，佛需要魔，反過來也是這樣。當你用這種方式觀察現實的時候，你就不會因為玫瑰的緣故而歧視垃圾了。你會同時珍視這兩者。為了擁有一根樹枝，你既需要右端，也需要左端，不要只取一邊。如果你只取一邊，你就是在試圖消滅另一半的真實，而這是不可能的。很多年來，美國一直試圖把蘇聯說成是惡的一方。有些美國人甚至有這種錯覺，即沒有另一半，他們也能獨自存在。但是這就如同相信右邊沒有左邊也可以存在一樣。

62 在蘇聯那邊，情形也是這樣。人們認為，美帝國主義是惡的一方，為了全世界的幸福，我們必須把它消滅掉。但是這是二元看待事物的方法。如果我們深入地觀察美國的話，我們會看到蘇聯。反過來如果我們深入地觀察蘇聯的話，我們也會看到美國。如果我們深入地觀察玫瑰，我們將會看到垃圾；如果我們深入地觀察垃圾，我們將會看到玫瑰。在當今的國際形勢下，每一方都宣稱自己是玫瑰，而把另一方叫做垃圾。

63 這樣一講，「此有故彼有」的觀念就很消楚了。如果你自己想生存，你就必須為對方的生存而工作。這是非常簡單的道理。生存意味著全體人類的生存，而不僅僅是人類的一部分。現在我們知道，不僅僅在美國和蘇聯之間需要把這個觀念變成現實，在南北之間也應如此。如果南方生存不下去了，那麼北方也就崩潰了。如果第三世界的國家還不起債，你在北方這兒也要受苦了。如果你不關心第三世界，你的富裕狀況就無法持續下去，因而你也就無法再維持以你長時間以來所維持的生活方式。問題已經擺到我們面前來了。

所以不要指望你能消滅惡的一方。認為我們是善的而對方是惡的， 64
是很容易的。可是富裕是由貧困構成的，而貧困是由富裕構成的。這是對現實的一個非常清晰的透視。為了明白我們必須做什麼，並不需要我們看得多麼遠。蘇聯公民和美國公民都只是人而已。我們不能只通過統計資料來研究和了解一個人。你不能把工作都扔給政府或政治家，你必須自己來幹。如果你能理解蘇聯公民的恐懼和希望，那麼你就能理解你自己的恐懼和希望。只有看透事物的實相才能拯救我們，恐懼不能拯救我們。

我們不是孤立的，我們不可避免地相互聯繫著，玫瑰就是垃圾，不是 65
妓女的人就是妓女。富人就是窮人，佛教徒就是非佛教徒。非佛教徒不可避免地是佛教徒，因為我們是互即互入的。當年輕的妓女們看到事物互即互入的本性時，她們的解脫就到來了。她們將會明白，她們正在承擔著整個世界的苦果。如果我們觀察自己，並了解了她們，我們就會分擔她們的痛苦以及整個世界的痛苦。

月亮總是月亮

「不增不減」

我們焦慮是因為我們以為自己死後不再是人了，我們會重新成為一粒塵 66
埃。換句話來說，我們「滅」了。

但是這不是真的。一粒塵埃包含著整個宇宙。如果我們像太陽一般 67
大，我們就可以往下看到地球，看到它是多麼地渺小。同樣地，作為人，我們也是這樣看待塵埃的。但是大和小的觀念只不過是我們心中的概念而已。每件事物都包含著其他一切事物；這是互即互入（interpenetration）的原則。這張紙包含著陽光、伐木工人、森林、所有一切，所以一張紙是小

的、微不足道的想法只不過是一個觀念而已。我們甚至無法毀滅一張紙。我們沒有能力毀掉任何東西。當甘地和馬丁・路德・金被暗殺的時候，暗殺者想把他們減少到一無所有。但是他們卻繼續與我們在一起，甚至比以前更親密了，因為他們繼續以別的形式存在著。我們本身就在延續著他們的生命。所以我們不要害怕「滅」。這就像月亮，我們看到它增了、減了，可是它卻永遠是月亮。

佛由非佛因素構成

「是故空中無色，無受、想、行、識；無眼、耳、鼻、舌、身、意；無色、聲、香、味、觸、法；無眼界，乃至無意識界；無無明，亦無無明盡；乃至無老死，亦無老死盡；無苦集滅道，無智亦無得。」

68 這句話是從確認五蘊皆空開始的。五蘊不能獨自存在，每一蘊都必須與其他四蘊互即互入地存在。

69 這個句子的下半部分是列舉十八界（dhatus）。首先是六根（六個感官）：眼、耳、鼻、舌、身、意。接下來是六塵（感覺的六個物件）：色、聲、香、味、觸、法。色是眼塵，聲是耳塵，如此等等。最後，這六根、六塵互相接觸又產生了「六識」：眼識，耳識，乃至最後一識是意識。所以，這部經文講，從第一界「眼」開始到第十八界「意識」，這十八界當中沒有一界能夠獨自存在，因為每一界只能與其他各界互即互入地存在。

十二因緣

70 接下來談到十二因緣（pratitya samutpada）。十二因緣是從無明開始，以老死結束。這部經裡的意思是講，十二因緣中沒有一個因緣能獨自存在，每一個因緣的存在只能依賴於其他因緣的存在。因此，十二因緣都是空的，而且正因為它們是空的，它們才真正地存在著。同樣的規律也適用於

四聖諦：無苦、無集、無滅、無道。經文中列舉的最後一項是：無智亦無得。般若智慧（prajna）是佛的精髓。「無智」的意思是，般若智慧沒有孤立的實體。般若智慧是由非般若智慧的因素構成的，就像佛是由非佛的因素構成的一樣。

我想給你們講一個佛和魔的故事。有一天，佛在他的岩洞裡，佛的侍者 71
阿難站在門外邊。突然，阿難看見魔來了。他很驚訝，很不高興，希望魔走開。但是魔卻徑直向他走來，並請他向佛通報一下他的來訪。

阿難說：「你為什麼到這兒來了？你不記得你過去在菩提樹下被佛陀打 72
敗了嗎？你來這兒不覺得害臊嗎？走開！佛陀不會見你的。你太壞了。你是他的敵人。」魔聽了這些話，哈哈大笑起來：「你是說你的老師告訴過你他有敵人嗎？」這一問使阿難很尷尬。他知道他的老師從沒有說過他有敵人。所以阿難被打敗了，不得不進去通報魔的來訪。他希望佛陀會說：「去告訴他我不在這兒，告訴他我在開會。」

可是當佛陀聽說魔這樣一個老朋友來拜訪他時，他很興奮。「真的嗎？ 73
他真的來了嗎？」佛陀一邊說，一邊親自出去迎接魔。阿難非常難過。佛陀徑直向魔走去，鞠了個躬，用最親切的方式握著他的手。佛陀說：「嗨！你好嗎？一向可好？事情順利嗎？」

魔沒有吭聲。於是佛陀把他帶到岩洞裡，給他準備了個座位，讓他坐 74
下來，並吩咐阿難去為他們倆準備香茶。「為我的師父我可以一天泡一百次茶，可是給魔泡茶可不是一件令人高興的事，」阿難想道。可是既然這是他師父的命令，他又怎麼能拒絕呢？於是阿難去為佛陀和所謂的客人準備香茶，一邊準備，他一邊卻努力地傾聽他們的談話。

佛陀很親切地又問到：「你一向可好嗎？事情順利嗎？」魔說：「一點 75
也不順利。我當魔當煩了，我想當別的。」

阿難感到很害怕。魔說：「你知道，做魔不是一件容易的事情，如果你 76
說話，必須打悶葫蘆。不管你做任何事情，你都必須很狡猾，看起來很壞。我煩透了這一切。可是令我更不能忍受的是我的弟子們。他們現在老是談論

社會正義呀、和平呀、平等呀、解脫呀、不二呀、非暴力呀，所有這些名詞。我真受夠了！我覺得我把他們都轉交給你比較好。我想當別的。」

77 阿難開始發抖了，因為他害怕他的師父會決定扮演別的角色，那樣，魔就成了佛，佛就成了魔。這使他很傷心。

78 佛陀專心地傾聽著，充滿了慈悲。最後，他用一種平靜的聲音說：「你以為當佛就很快樂嗎？你不知道我的弟子們都做了些什麼！他們把我從來沒有說過的話塞進我嘴裡。他們修建起花花綠綠的寺廟，把我的塑像放在佛龕上，好去為他們吸引香蕉、橘子和甜果。他們把我包裝起來，把我的教義變成了一項交易專案。魔，如果你知道當佛真正是怎麼一回事，我敢肯定你不想當佛了。」隨後，佛陀誦了一首長偈，總結了前面的談話。

解脫

「以無所得故，菩提薩埵，依般若波羅蜜多故，心無罣礙，無罣礙故，無有恐怖，遠離顛倒夢想，究竟涅槃。三世諸佛，依般若波羅蜜多故，得阿耨多羅三藐三菩提。」

79 這些障礙就是我們關於生死、垢淨、增減、上下、內外、佛魔等等的觀念。一旦我們用互即互入的眼睛來看問題，它們就會被從我們的心中清除掉。我們就能超越恐懼，把自己從虛妄中永遠地解放出來，從而實現究竟涅槃。一旦波浪認識到它們僅僅是水，除了水再沒有別的，它就會意識到，生死對它無法造成任何傷害。它已經超越了各種各樣的恐懼，而究竟涅槃就是這種無畏的狀態。你解脫了，你不再屈從於生死、垢淨。你擺脫了這一切。

薩婆訶

「故知般若波羅蜜多，是大神咒，是大明咒，是無上咒，是無等等咒，能除一切苦，真實不虛。故說般若波羅蜜多咒，即說咒曰：揭諦揭諦，波羅揭諦，波羅僧揭諦，菩提薩婆訶。」

咒語是當你的身心和呼吸在甚深禪定中合而為一的時候所說的話。當你 80
處於那種甚深禪定中時，你能夠看透事物，看它們就好比看掌上的一隻橘子一樣清楚。通過深入地觀照五蘊，觀世音菩薩看到了事物互即互入的本性，超越了一切痛苦。他完全地解脫了。就是在這種甚深禪定、這種喜悅和解脫的狀態中，他說了一些重要的話。這就是為什麼他所說的話是咒語的原因。

改變世界的話

兩個年輕人相愛的時候，女孩可能一直在等待著三個非常重要的字，可 81
是男孩還沒有說出來。如果男孩是個非常負責任的人，他也許是想要確證一下自己的感情，因而在說那三個字以前他可能要等好長時間。然後有一天，他們一起坐在公園裡，旁邊沒有別的人，周圍靜靜的，兩個人沉默了很長一段時間後，他終於說出了那三個字。當女孩子聽到這句話的時候，她有點發抖，因為這是一句多麼重要的宣言。當你這樣用你的整個生命來說話的時候，而不僅僅是用你的嘴或你的頭腦，這樣說出來的話就可以改變世界。凡是具有這樣的改變力量的話就被稱作咒語。

觀世音菩薩的咒語是：「揭諦揭諦，波羅揭諦，波羅僧揭諦，菩提 82
薩婆訶」。「揭諦」的意思是「去」。從痛苦中走向解脫，從無明中走向覺照，從二走向不二。「揭諦揭諦」的意思是「去呀，去呀」。「波羅揭諦」的意思是「走過所有的道路到彼岸去啊」。所以這個咒語的語氣是很強的。去呀，去呀，走過所有的道路去彼岸啊。在「波羅僧揭諦」中，「僧」的意思是每一個人，僧伽，眾生的全體。每個人都到彼岸去。「菩提」是內在的光明，是覺悟，或者覺醒。你觀照著，這種實相觀使你獲得了解脫。「薩婆訶」是一種喜悅或興奮的呼喊，就像「歡迎！」或「哈利路亞（Hallelujah）！」。「去呀，去呀，走過所有的道路，大家都到彼岸去啊，覺悟了，薩婆訶！」。

這就是觀音菩薩所說的話。當我們聽這個咒語的時候，我們應該 83

讓自己沈浸到一種全神貫注的狀態中去，這樣我們才能接收到觀世音菩薩所散發出來的力量。我們背《心經》不像唱一首歌兒，或者僅僅是用智力。如果你修習空觀，如果你把你的身心都契入到了事物互即互入的本性中去，你將會達到一種甚深禪定的狀態。那時候，如果你用你全部的生命來念這個咒語，它就會產生力量，因而你也就能夠與觀世音菩薩進行真正的溝通和交流，而你也將能夠朝著覺悟的方向來完善自己。這篇經文不僅僅是用來唱誦的，或者是被放到佛龕上受人敬仰的。它被當作一個工具提供給我們，以便我們為自己的解脫和所有眾生的解脫好好地工作。它就像一個農具一樣，被提供給我們，以便我們好好地耕田。這是觀音菩薩的禮物。

三種禮物

84 世界上有三種禮物（即三種布施）。第一種是物質資源方面的禮物（財施）。第二種是知道如何行動的禮物，即法的禮物（法施）。第三種也是最高級的禮物，就是無畏的禮物（無畏施）。觀世音菩薩能夠幫助我們從恐懼中解脫出來。這是般若波羅蜜多之心。

85 般若波羅蜜多為我們與自己和平相處、超越對生死的恐懼和彼此的二元對立提供了堅實的基礎。在空性的光照中，每件事物同時都是其他一切事物，我們互即互入地存在著，每個人都對生活中所發生的每一件事情負有責任。當你在自己的心中創造出和平和幸福的時候，你就是在開始為整個世界實現和平。借助於你內心的微笑，借助於你體內養成的正念呼吸，你就是在開始為世界的和平而工作。你微笑，不僅僅是為了你自己；世界會因為你的微笑而發生變化。當你練習坐禪的時候，就算你只享受坐禪的一剎那，如果你在內心裡建立起了寧靜和幸福，你就是在幫世界提供和平的堅實基礎。如果你不能給自己帶來和平，你又怎麼能夠與別人分享和平呢？如果你不從自身的和平工作開始做起，你又從哪兒開始呢？坐禪，微笑，觀察事物並真正地了解它們，這些都是和平工作的基礎。

昨天，在我們的靜修活動中，我們舉行了一個橘子會。每個人發了一 86
個橘子。我們把它放在手掌上，注視著它，正念呼吸，橘子就會慢慢地變得真切起來。大多數時候我們吃橘子，我們並沒有觀察它。我們在想著很多其他的事情。觀察一隻橘子意味著觀看花會是怎樣變成果實的，意味著觀察陽光和雨水。我們掌上的橘子是生命的一種精彩展示。我們能夠真正看到這只橘子，聞到它的花香和溫暖潮濕的泥土味兒。當這只橘子變得真切起來的時候，我們也變得真切起來。生命在那一刻也變得真切起來。

我們開始專心地剝橘子，聞它的清香。我們小心地取下每一瓣橘子，把 87
它放在舌頭上，我們能夠感覺到這是一只真正的橘子。我們在完全的覺照狀態下吃每一瓣橘子，直到吃完一整只。這樣吃橘子是很重要的，因為橘子和吃橘子的人都變得真切起來了。這也是和平的基礎工作。

在佛教禪修中，我們並不是在為五年或十年以後才會發生的開悟而奮 88
鬥。我們修行是為了使我們生命中的每一刻都成為真正的生活。因此，當我們坐禪的時候，我們是為坐而坐；我們不是為其他東西而坐。如果我們坐二十分鐘，那麼這二十分鐘應該給我們帶來快樂和生機。如果我們練習行禪，我們只是為行而行，不是為了到達某個目的地。我們必須隨每一個步履而生機律動，如果我們這樣做到了，那麼每一個步履都將會為我們帶回真正的生命。同樣地，當我們吃早餐的時候，或者當我們抱孩子的時候，我們都可以這樣練習覺照。擁抱是一種西方習俗，我們東方人願意把練習有覺照地呼吸加入到其中去。當你懷抱孩子的時候，或者擁抱你的母親、丈夫、朋友的時候，專注地呼吸三次，這樣你的快樂將至少增加十倍。當你看某個人的時候，你要真正地專心地看著他，並練習有覺照地呼吸。

對和平的貢獻

在每頓飯的開始，我建議你看著盤子並默默念誦：「我的盤子現在是 89
空的，但是我知道一會兒它將裝滿美味的食物。」在你等待服務的過程中，或者自己動手之前，我建議你呼吸三次，並更深入地觀察它：「就在此刻，

世界上有很多很多的人也拿著盤子，但是他們的盤子會很長時間是空著的。」因為缺少食物，每天有四萬兒童死於饑餓。這僅僅兒童，並不包括成年人。能吃上這麼精美的飯菜我們可能會很高興，但是由於我們能夠這樣觀照，我們也會很痛苦。可是當我們這樣觀照的時候，我們會變得頭腦清醒，因為我們眼前的路變得清清白白了：我們應當按照這種方式去生活，以便使自己既能與自己、也能與世界和平相處。當我們既看到了善、又看到了惡，既看到了奇蹟、又看到了深重的災難的時候，我們就必須以這種方式去生活，以便我們能夠在自己和世界之間創造出和平來。般若智慧是禪觀的結果。般若智慧是一切事物的基礎。

90 我們所做的每一次呼吸，我們所邁出的每一個步履，我們所綻開的每一個微笑，都是對和平的一個積極貢獻，都是朝向世界和平邁出的不可缺少的一步。在互即互入的光照中，你日常生活中的和平和幸福同時也就意味著世界的和平和幸福。

91 感謝你們這樣專心地聽講。感謝你們聆聽觀世音菩薩的話。因為有你們，《心經》就變得很容易接受了。

創世、割裂、苦難
——《聖經》

《聖經》是基督教的聖典，由《舊約》及《新約》兩部分組成。《舊約》收錄的內容與猶太教的聖典《塔納赫》（Tanakh，又稱為《希伯來聖經》）幾近相同，亦反映了猶太教、基督教、伊斯蘭教的共同傳承。以下我們會讀到《舊約》的〈創世記〉（節選）和《新約》的〈馬可福音〉。

〈創世記〉敘述世界的開端、人類和以色列民族的起源，也說明人神分離、人與人關係割裂的因由。以下選篇包括亞當與夏娃、該隱和亞伯、巴別塔與亡三個故事，當中可見人分享神的某些特質，又渴望超越既定限制。正是這種渴望帶來人的「墮落」：亞當和夏娃背叛上帝的意旨，失去原有恩典，後來基督神學將之詮釋為人類「原罪」之始；從另一觀點看，「背叛」也可理解為自由意志的體現，從中可見人類渴求自身獨立和分辨善惡的能力。

《舊約》共有三十九卷[1]，某些章節在公元前1100年便出現，也有些晚至公元前150年才成篇，但大部分內容都在公元六世紀編撰而成。這個時期，猶大王國被巴比倫攻陷，大批猶太人淪為俘虜，漂流異國。史家認為，猶太人編修聖經，是有感於國家淪亡，矢志為民族留下歷史和宗教的記錄。

本書收錄的〈創世記〉選自馮象譯註的《摩西五經》（2006）。馮象並非基督徒，翻譯《摩西五經》的一個願望，是要重現希伯來原文的文學特質。他使用插註，提供文字校勘、修辭釋義等資料，並加入個人對經文的解讀。

〈馬可福音〉是《新約聖經》四福音之一，記敘耶穌的教導和傳道工作。據考究，〈馬可福音〉是四福音中成書最早的一部。〈馬可福音〉開篇，耶穌已長大成人，馬不停蹄地在巴勒斯坦北部治病及教化群眾（1:1–10:52）。福音書後半部節奏變慢，展現耶穌在世最後一周，光榮進入耶路撒冷，然後受審被釘的苦難歷程（11:1–16:20）。

〈馬可福音〉的作者是約翰馬可，曾追隨彼得（耶穌十二門徒之一）傳道。〈馬可福音〉約於公元70年在羅馬寫成，距離耶穌被釘十字架已有四十年

[1] 新教（Protestantism）的《舊約》共三十九卷，公教（即天主教，Roman Catholicism）傳統則多了七卷「次經」，共有四十六卷。

之久[2]。論者認為，馬可急於用文字傳揚「神的兒子耶穌基督的福音」（1:1），與猶太人在公元70年所受之重創有關。當時，猶太人起來反抗羅馬統治，結果被血腥鎮壓，耶路撒冷聖殿完全焚毀。在巴勒斯坦地區之外，猶太人過着流放的生活，益感要建立一個以「新約」為基礎的宗教，其宣教對象不再限於「上帝的選民」，而是包羅非猶太裔的其他民族。

按史家記載，耶穌是真實的歷史人物，生於公元前6至4年，卒於公元30年左右。基督徒相信，耶穌是「神的兒子」，是救世主，他被釘十架後死而復活，為世人解除亞當、夏娃所帶來的「原罪」。耶穌的犧牲使人得以進入「神的國度」，重獲失去的樂園和永生。〈馬可福音〉開宗明義說：「神的兒子耶穌基督的福音是這樣開始的」（1:1）。隨着故事開展，耶穌也是一位「人子」，與社會不同階層的人交往，有着凡人的感思和情緒。耶穌經歷苦難和凌辱，在不同的場景與兩個猶太群體發生衝突。他們分別是控制耶路撒冷、掌管聖殿的撒都該人和詮釋猶太經典、嚴守律法的法利賽人。耶穌對猶太律法和經卷有自己的理解，與大祭司和律法教師的想法大相逕庭；他宣揚「愛鄰如己」（12:31），較諸柏拉圖「愛的階梯」、亞里士多德的「完美友愛」，又別樹一幟。

以下的〈馬可福音〉中譯本，選自《聖經．新約全書．新漢語譯本（註釋版）》。這是2011年出版的新譯本，內含詳細的學術註釋，說明經文的歷史背景，以及個別詞句在原文的意涵。

趙萊莉

[2] 有關〈馬可福音〉的作者、寫作年份、寫作地點，學者提出過幾種不同的觀點，此處取晚近較流行的一種看法。

《聖經》

節錄

創世記

太初

一章

太初，上帝創造天地。[2]大地無形，一片混沌，黑暗籠罩深淵。上帝的靈，ruah，本義風、氣。在大水之上盤旋。

[3]上帝說：光！就有了光。[4]上帝看那光好，便把它與黑暗分開。[5]稱光為「晝」，稱黑暗為「夜」。夜去晨來，是第一日。古人以黃昏('ereb)為一日之始。

[6]上帝說：大水中間要有蒼穹，把水分開！水果然一分為二。[7]於是上帝造了蒼穹，讓大水上下漫流。古代閃族人以為穹隆(raqia')之上有天河。穹隆「開開」，天河傾瀉，造成淹沒世界的洪水(7:11)。[8]上帝稱蒼穹為「天」。夜去晨來，是第二日。

[9]上帝說：天底下的水要滙集一處，露出乾地！乾地果然升出水面。[10]上帝稱乾地為「陸」，稱滙集一處的水為「海」。上帝看了，覺得很好。[11]又說：陸地要生長草木，有產五穀的也有帶果子的，各結各的籽實！果然，[12]地上就長出草木，有禾苗也有果樹，各結各的籽實。上帝看了，覺得很好。[13]夜去晨來，是第三日。

〈創世記〉節錄自馮象（譯注），《摩西五經》，牛津大學出版社，2006，由牛津大學出版社授權翻印。

[14]上帝說：天穹上要有光體劃分晝夜，標記時令節期，[15]發光照耀大地！果然，就有了天燈：[16]上帝先造兩盞最亮的，一大一小，大的管白晝，小的管黑夜，再造星星。[17]將它們一一安上天穹，讓它們照耀大地，[18]統轄晝夜，劃分黑暗光明。上帝看了，覺得很好。[19]夜去晨來，是第四日。

[20]上帝說：水裏要游動無數魚鱉，nephesh hayyah，直譯：生靈。空中要鳥雀展翅飛翔！果然，[21]就有了巨鯨、tanninim，或作海怪。各種各樣的水族和飛禽，都是上帝所造。上帝看了，覺得很好，[22]為它們賜福道：生吧，長吧，讓魚兒充盈大海，讓鳥兒遍地孵育！[23]夜去晨來，是第五日。

[24]上帝說：陸地上也要繁衍動物，各種各樣的牲畜、爬蟲和野獸！果然，[25]就有了野獸、牲畜和爬蟲，每一種都是上帝所造。上帝看了，覺得很好。

[26]於是上帝說：我要造人了，我：原文複數，「上帝」(elohim)為複數名詞。解作我們，指上帝與天庭神子，亦通。照我自己的形象，如同我的模樣！我要人做海裏的魚、空中的鳥以及一切牲畜野獸爬蟲的主宰！

[27]所以上帝造人，
取的是他自己的形象；
男人女人，都依照
他的模樣。

[28]上帝為人賜福，道：生兒育女吧，讓子子孫孫遍佈四方，征服大地！我要你們統治水裏的魚、空中的鳥、所有地上行走的動物。[29]還說：看哪，我把大地出產的五穀和樹上結的果實都賜予你們，做你們的食糧；[30]而飛禽走獸和爬蟲，我給它們吃青草嫩葉。果然，[31]一切都按上帝的意願實現。上帝看了，覺得非常之好。夜去晨來，是第六日。

二章

就這樣，天地萬物全數造就。[2]第七日，創世結束，上帝歇工。[3]他為第七日賜福，定為聖日，即安息日(shabbath)，後來上帝通過摩西在西奈山向以色列人宣佈，作為與子民立約的標記，《出埃及記》31:12。因為在這一天上帝完成了創世，休息了。

[4]這，就是天地的開端，世界的來歷。

伊甸園

上帝耶和華造天地之初，聖名在經文中第一次出現：YHWH，讀作yahweh。通說此名源於古希伯來語詞根hwh，本義在、是、生。見《出埃及記》3:14注。[5]大地茫茫，草木全無，因為耶和華還未曾降雨，也沒有人開荒耕耘。[6]滋潤那大荒的，惟有地下湧出的清泉。[7]耶和華便取地上的塵土造人，朝他鼻孔裏吹進生命之氣，亞當就有了靈魂，活了。塵土(adamah)造人(adam)，故名亞當(adam)。

[8]接着，上帝耶和華在東方的伊甸開闢一座園子，gan，七十士本作paradeisos，即後世所謂天堂樂園；伊甸('eden)，本義豐美。給新造的人居住。[9]又讓土裏長出各種好看的樹，掛滿可口的果子；園子中央，卻長一棵生命之樹，並一棵善惡智慧之樹。

[10]自伊甸發源一條河，灌溉那座園子；出園子，分為四支：[11]一支叫皮遜河，流經沙國全境；hawilah，指阿拉伯。[12]那地方的黃金最純，還產盛樹膠、瑪瑙。[13]一支叫基雄河，gihon，與聖城耶路撒冷的水源同名，後者是所羅門王受膏舉位處，《列王記上》1:38。流經古實全境。kush，埃及以南，今蘇丹、埃塞俄比亞、也門一帶。[14]一支叫底格里斯河，流經亞述東部。亞述(ashshur)，用河流城古國，今伊拉克北部。一支叫幼發拉底河。插入此段，形容伊甸園之神聖，非準確的地理描寫。

[15]上帝耶和華將亞當帶到伊甸園裏安置了，命他修整照看園子。[16]並下達戒諭：這園子樹上的果子，你可隨意摘吃。[17]只有那善惡智慧之樹的果子，你不要去吃它；吃了，你當天必死！

[18]上帝耶和華還說：亞當一個人孤零零的不好，我要給他造個般配的幫手。般配(kenegdo)，非主僕關係，如後來上帝所詛咒的(3:16)。[19]便取塵土造了飛禽

走獸，帶到亞當面前，讓他命名；每一種動物都要由他口中得一個名字。[20]可是亞當給飛禽走獸取完了名字，也沒見着一個般配的幫手。[21]於是耶和華使亞當沉沉地睡去。乘他酣眠之際，抽下他一根肋骨，再把肉重新合上。肉(basar)，即下文24節夫婦結合之「體」，與賦予其生命的「氣」相對，代表人性脆弱易朽的一面(6:3)。[22]就用這根從他身上取下的肋骨，耶和華造了一個女人，領到他的面前。[23]亞當說：

終於找到啦，我的
骨中骨，肉中肉！
她該叫作「女人」，
因為她出自男人！雙關：原文「女人」('ishshah)與「男人」('ish)同源。

[24]這就是為什麼男人要離開自己父母去依戀妻子，與她結為一體。

禁果

[25]亞當與妻子雖然光着身子，'arummim，與下一句蛇的「狡猾」('arum)諧音，和下文3:7偷人食禁果知羞恥呼應。卻並無羞恥的感覺。

三章

上帝耶和華所造的野獸當中，蛇最為狡猾。蛇問女人：上帝真的說過，這園子樹上結的果子，你們一概吃不得嗎？

[2]女人回答：這園子裏隨便什麼果子我們都可以吃。[3]只有園子中央那棵樹結的果子，上帝說了：你們不要去吃，也不許碰，否則你們一定死掉！

[4]蛇道：不會吧，你們怎麼會死！[5]當然上帝不會不知，那果子一旦被你們吃了，你們就開了眼，就會像神明一樣，懂得辨善惡了。

[6]女人望着那棵樹上的果子，那麼鮮美悅目，還能賜人智慧！就忍不住摘下一個，吃了，又給身旁的丈夫一個。[7]倆人一吃，眼就開了，發現自己光着身子。趕緊用無花果樹葉編了塊腰布遮羞。

[8]傍晚，涼風中傳來上帝耶和華走進園子的腳步聲，他們忙往樹叢裏躲。[9]耶和華喚道：亞當何在？

[10]亞當回答：聽見你走進園子，我光着身子害怕，就躲起來了。

[11]耶和華問：光着身子，誰告訴你的？莫非你吃了我不許你吃的果子？

[12]亞當道：是你賜給我做伴的女人，她給我果子吃，我就吃了。

[13]耶和華便問女人：為什麼？

女人回答：是蛇誘騙了我，我才吃的。

[14]於是上帝耶和華對蛇說：因為你幹下這樁壞事——

一切家畜野獸，
惟有你受此詛咒：
從此用肚皮爬行，蛇本來有足。
終生以塵土為食。
[15]女人與你，永世為敵，
子子孫孫，互相仇恨；
人打扁你的頭，
你咬傷他腳跟。人：原文「它」，七十士本「他」；均指女人後代，最終的勝利者。

[16]接着，對女人說：

我要倍增你懷孕的苦，
分娩時越發痛不可忍！

然而你卻要依戀丈夫，
要丈夫做你的主人。

17最後，對亞當說：因為你聽從妻子的言語，偷吃我明令禁食的果子——

因為你，這土地要受我詛咒！
從此你一輩子辛勞
才能勉強果腹。
18遍野荊棘雜草，
是你謀食的去處。
19汗流滿面，才吃得上一口，
直到你復歸大地；
因為你本是塵土所造，塵土
終是你的歸宿。

20亞當給妻子取名夏娃，hawwah，解作活、生(hayah)；諧音亞蘭語hewya'(蛇)。取名是行主人或家長之權。因為她是一切生民的母親。

21上帝耶和華為亞當夫婦縫了兩件皮衣，叫他們穿了。22然後宣諭：看哪，人已經變得和我們相差無幾，懂得辨善惡了。要是讓他再伸出手去摘生命之樹的果子吃，他就永遠不死了！23於是，耶和華將人逐出了伊甸園，令他耕耘土地，去造他的泥塵裏謀生。24之後，又在伊甸園東面派下昂首展翼的神獸和旋轉飛舞的火劍，神獸(kerubim)，源出巴比倫神話，舊譯基路伯天使，見《出埃及記》的25:18。把通向生命之樹的路封了。

該隱

四章

亞當與妻子夏娃相認，yada'，姬官同房。夏娃懷孕，生下該隱，說：耶和

華佑助，我得了一個男人！得了(qanithi)，諧音該隱(qayin)。猶兒子為男人('ish)，則顛倒了女人出自男人的說法(2:23)。2後來又誕一子，即該隱的弟弟亞伯。亞伯放羊，做了牧人；該隱耕地，成為農夫。

3一天，該隱拿了些田裏的出產，作祭品供奉耶和華。4亞伯也從羊群裏挑了頭胎生的羔子，揀最肥嫩的獻上。耶和華惠顧了亞伯和他的羊羔，5卻不接納該隱和他的土產。拒絕土產，或與祭祀土地有關：種植比畜牧更依賴土地，神即不保證年年豐收，好似挑剔農夫的祭品或詛咒了土地(3:17)。該隱大怒，一臉陰沉。6耶和華問該隱：你為什麼沉下臉生氣？7你要是做對了，我自然會接納；se'eth，本義抬(頭/臉)，轉喻認可、恭順。做得不對，罪就蟠伏在你的門口，垂涎窺伺：罪(hatta'th)，經文中第一次出現，比作猛食的野獸。就看你能不能將它制服！此節原文有訛，譯法歧出，無定解。

8該隱對弟弟亞伯說：咱們去田裏走走！原文脫此句，據七十士本補。來到田間，該隱突然撲向弟弟，把他殺了。

9耶和華問該隱：你弟弟亞伯呢？

該隱回答：我怎麼曉得，我又不是他的看護！

10耶和華說：你幹了什麼呀？聽哪，你弟弟的血，在地下向我哭訴！11大咒臨頭了，你！你手上滴下弟弟的血，淌進了大地張開的口中；12大地就再不會為你出產，隨你怎樣耕種。你就到處流浪去吧！

13該隱向耶和華哀求：這樣重罰，我實在受不了。14今天，你把我從這塊土地上攆走，將來我就得躲着你了。可憐我一個無家可歸的流浪漢，誰遇上了，都可以打死我呀！因為殺流浪演無族人報仇，不必害怕債命。

15耶和華道：不，殺該隱的，要賠上七條性命。說着，便在該隱的額上作了記號，使碰見他的人不敢殺他。記號，當是該隱的部落圖騰，警告血親復仇。16於是，該隱拜別耶和華，往伊甸東邊一個叫「流蕩」的地方去了。

[...]

巴別塔

十一章

起初，天下只有一門語言，人類全說同樣的話。[2]後來，他們遷徙到了東方，miqqedem，解作從東方，假設人類發源於大河以東，亦通。在示拿地方發現一片平原，即幼發拉底河沖積平原上的巴比倫(希伯來語譯若巴別)，見10:10注。便住下了。[3]彼此商議道：怎麼樣，我們造磚塊吧，放火裏烤得硬硬的！於是動起手來，磚塊當石頭壘，柏油作灰泥砌。[4]又說：來呀，一塊兒蓋座帶高塔的城，讓塔尖直通天庭！巴比倫的七階廟塔(ziggurat)，高者可達90米，供祭司「登天」參拜神明。但此處通天塔是人類傲慢與城市文明墮落的象徵。就此替我們自己揚名，免得拆散了流落四方。

[5]耶和華走下天庭，見人們忙著建城造塔。[6]說：原來他們抱團成了一個民族，說的是同樣的語言！才起頭，就造這個，將來只怕沒有他們做不成的事了。[7]快，讓我們下去攪亂他們的語言，叫他們一個聽不懂一個！

[8]說罷，耶和華將造城的人拆散了分遣各地；城，也就停建了。[9]它因此得了「巴別」的名，babel，諧音攪亂(balal)。但此名實際來自巴比倫(亞甲)語，意為神之門(bab-ilu)。因為在那裏耶和華攪亂了人類的語言，令他們散開去了世界各地。

[. . .]

馬可福音

1 福音先鋒施洗的約翰

(太3:1–12；路3:1–9、15–17；約1:19–28)

[1]神的兒子耶穌基督的福音是這樣開始的：

[2]正如先知以賽亞書上所記著：

「看啊，我差遣我的使者
　在你前頭，
　預備你的路；
[3]在荒野裏，有呼喊的聲音：
『為主開路，修直他的道！』」

[4]這樣，施洗的約翰就來到荒野，宣講悔改的洗禮，使罪得赦。[5]整個猶太地區和耶路撒冷所有的居民都出來，到他那裏，承認他們的罪，在約旦河裏受他的洗。

[6]約翰身穿駱駝毛做的衣服，腰束皮帶，吃蝗蟲*和野蜜。[7]他宣告說：「在我以後，有一位比我更有能力的要來，我彎腰替他解鞋帶*也不配。[8]我是用水給你們施洗，他卻要用聖靈給你們施洗。」

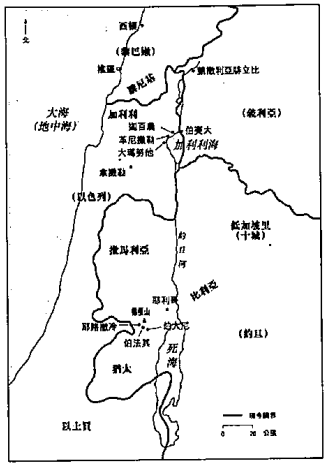
耶穌受洗 (太3:13–17；路3:21–22)

[9]在那些日子裏，耶穌從加利利的拿撒勒來，在約旦河裏受約翰的洗。[10]耶穌剛從水裏出來，就看見天裂開了，聖靈好像鴿子一樣降在他身上。[11]天上傳來聲音說：「你是我的愛子，我喜愛你。」

1:6 「蝗蟲」在舊約中是准許食用的爬蟲之一(利11:22)。約翰所吃的是在野地可以找到的食物。

1:7 「解鞋帶」：解鞋帶後，把鞋子拿走。這是當時奴隸的工作。

《馬可福音》《聖經・新約全書・新漢語譯本(註釋版)》，漢語聖經協會允准使用文字及地圖。



馬可福音中的主要地方

耶穌受撒但試探（太4:1-11；路4:1-13）

12聖靈立刻驅使耶穌到荒野裏去。13他在荒野四十天，受撒但*試探，與野獸共處，有天使服侍他。

得人的漁夫（太4:12-22；路4:14-15，5:1-11）

14約翰被捕以後，耶穌來到加利利，宣講　神的福音。15他說：「時候滿了，　神的國近了。你們要悔改，相信福音！」

16耶穌沿着加利利海邊走，看見西門和他的兄弟安得烈正把網撒進海裏去。他們都是漁夫。

1:13　「撒但」為亞蘭文或希伯來文「敵人」、「敵對者」的音譯，常用作「魔鬼」的名稱，強調魔鬼與　神及　神的子民為敵。

17耶穌對他們說：「來跟從我！我要使你們成為得人的漁夫。」18他們立刻丟下網，跟從了耶穌。

19耶穌往前走了不遠，看見西庇太的兒子雅各和雅各的兄弟約翰在船上補網。20耶穌立刻呼召他們，他們就把父親西庇太和雇工留在船上，跟隨耶穌去了。

在迦百農傳道（路4:31-37）

21他們來到迦百農。一到安息日，耶穌就進會堂教導人。22眾人對他的教導感到驚訝，因為他教導他們的時候，好像是帶有權柄的，跟律法教師*不一樣。23就在那時候，會堂裏有一個被污靈附身的人喊叫，24說：「拿撒勒人耶穌，我們跟你有甚麼關係？你來消滅我們嗎？我知道你是誰，你是　神的聖者。」

25耶穌責備他說：「住口！從他身上出來！」26污靈使那人抽了一陣風，大聲喊叫，就從他身上出來了。

27大家都感到驚奇，以至議論紛紛說：「這是怎麼一回事？是帶有權柄的新道理啊！他命令污靈，污靈竟聽從了他。」28耶穌的傳開立刻傳遍了加利利一帶各個地區。

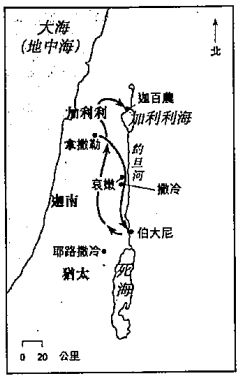
醫治疾病（太8:14-17；路4:38-41）

29他們一出會堂，就和雅各、約翰一起到西門和安得烈的家裏去。30西門的岳母正在發燒躺着，他們立刻把她的情況告訴耶穌。31耶穌上前來，拉着她的手，扶她起來，燒就退了，於是她服侍他們。

32傍晚，日落時分，*眾人把所有患病的和被鬼附身的人都帶到耶穌那裏；33全城的人都聚集在門前。34耶穌治好了許多患有各種疾病的人，又趕走了很多鬼，並且不許那些鬼說話，因為他們知道他是誰。

1:22　「律法教師」：有譯本譯作「文士」。這些人的專長在於研讀和教導聖經，而以色列人的法律以聖經為基礎，所以譯作「律法教師」，更為適合。

1:32　「日落時分」：要等太陽下山，安息日過去（因為按猶太人計算，一天是指由黃昏至翌日黃昏），他們才可以帶病人去見耶穌。



耶穌到約旦河受洗，在荒野受試探之後，回加利利開始傳道。

在加利利傳道（路4:42–44）

35大清早，天還沒亮，*耶穌起來，走了出去，來到荒野之地，在那裏禱告。36西門和同伴尋找他，37找到了，就對他說：「大家都在找你呢。」

38耶穌對他們說：「我們往別處，到附近的鄉鎮去吧，我也好在那裏傳道，因為我是為這目的而來。」39於是耶穌到加利利各處，在當地各會堂裏傳道，並且趕鬼。

治好痲瘋病人（太8:2–4；路5:12–16）

40有一個痲瘋病人*來到耶穌跟前，跪下來，懇求他說：「如果你願意，一定能夠使我潔淨。」

1:35 「大清早，天還沒亮」：原文是指離天亮還有一段長時間。
1:40 「痲瘋病人」：「痲瘋」一詞所指的不一定是今日的痲瘋病，也可能是指一些較嚴重的皮膚病。

41耶穌動了憐憫的心，就伸手摸他，說：「我願意，你潔淨了吧！」42那人的痲瘋立刻消失，他就潔淨了。

43耶穌立刻打發他走，嚴厲地吩咐他，44說：「你要小心，不可把這事告訴任何人，只要到祭司那裏讓他檢查，並為你得到潔淨的事，獻上摩西所規定的祭物，好給大家一個證明。」

45可是，那人出去，就開始隨意宣揚，把這件事傳開了；結果，耶穌不能再公開地進城，只好留在城外的荒野。眾人從四方八面到他那裏來。

2 赦罪的權柄

（太9:1–8；路5:17–26）

1過了些日子，耶穌又來到迦百農。眾人聽說他在屋子裏，2就有許多人來聚集，甚至連門前都容納不下了。於是，耶穌向他們講道。

3有些人帶了一個癱子來到耶穌那裏，那癱子由四個人抬着。4由於人多，他們無法帶他到耶穌那裏，於是把耶穌頭上那處的房頂*拆掉。既拆通了，他們就把癱子連同褥子一起縋下去。5耶穌看見他們的信心，就對癱子說：「孩子，你的罪赦免了。」

6有幾個律法教師坐在那裏，心裏想：7「這個人為甚麼說這樣的話呢？他說褻瀆的話了。除了　神自己以外，誰能赦罪呢？」

8耶穌心裏立刻知道他們在想甚麼，就對他們說：「對於這些事，你們心裏為甚麼這樣想呢？9對癱子說『你的罪赦免了』容易，還是說『起來，拿起你的褥子行走吧』容易呢？10但要讓你們知道人子在地上有赦罪的權柄——」耶穌就對癱子說：11「我對你說：起來，拿起你的褥子，回家去吧！」12那人就起來，立刻拿起褥子，當着大家的面走出去了。大家都很詫異，頌讚　神，說：「這樣的事，我們從來沒見過啊！」

2:4 「耶穌頭上那處的房頂」：原文τὴν στέγην ὅπου ἦν是指耶穌頭上那處的房頂，並不是他所在的整座房子。換言之，那四個朋友並沒有把整個房頂都拆了開來，只是撥開耶穌頭上那處的房頂。

呼召利未（太9:9-13；路5:27-32）

13耶穌又出去，到了海邊。羣眾全都來到他那裏，他就教導他們。14耶穌往前走的時候，看見亞勒腓的兒子利未坐在稅關裏，就對他說：「跟從我吧！」他就起來跟從了耶穌。

15耶穌在利未家裏坐席，有很多稅吏和罪人*與耶穌和他的門徒一同坐席，因為跟從他的人很多。16法利賽人*中的律法教師看見耶穌跟罪人和稅吏一同吃飯，就對他的門徒說：「他跟稅吏和罪人一起吃飯*嗎？」

17耶穌聽見了，就對他們說：「健康的人不需要醫生，有病的人才需要。我來，不是要呼召義人*，而是要呼召罪人。」

禁食的問題（太9:14-17；路5:33-39）

18約翰的門徒和法利賽人正在禁食。有人來問耶穌：「為甚麼約翰的門徒和法利賽人的門徒都禁食，你的門徒卻不禁食呢？」

19耶穌對他們說：「新郎與賓客在一起的時候，賓客怎能禁食呢？只要新郎還跟他們在一起，他們就不能禁食。20但日子將到，人把新郎從他們中間帶走，那時他們就要在那日子禁食了。」

21「沒有人用未縮過水的布來縫補舊衣服；要是這樣，補上的新布會把舊衣服扯破，破口就更大了。22也沒有人把新釀的酒裝在舊皮囊裏；要是這樣，酒會脹破舊皮囊，酒和皮囊都損壞了。相反，人把新酒裝在新皮囊裏。」

2:15 「稅吏和罪人」：人不遵守法利賽人所訂立的潔淨規條或奉獻規則，法利賽人均稱他們為罪人。稅吏因職業需要，時常接觸外族人，加上為羅馬政府或其授權人工作，所以被猶太人視為叛徒。而且，人要付錢才能得到這職位，所以往往有濫收稅款的情況。凡此種種原因，使稅吏成為不受歡迎的人物。

2:16 「法利賽人」：是猶太教裏的一個教派，這一派人接受聖經和傳統的權威，嚴格遵守猶太人的律法規條。

2:16 「一起吃飯」在東方文化中代表交往和接納。

2:17 「義人」：耶穌並不是說世人包括兩種人——「義人」和「罪人」。這裏的「義人」應該含有諷刺意味，是指「自以為義」的人。

安息日的爭論（太12:1-8；路6:1-5）

23有一個安息日，耶穌走過麥田，他的門徒在路上摘麥穗。24法利賽人對耶穌說：「看啊，他們為甚麼在安息日做不合宜的事？」

25耶穌對他們說：「大衛和跟隨他的人飢餓需要食物時，他所做的事，你們沒有唸過嗎？26在亞比亞他當大祭司的時候，他走進　神的殿*，吃了陳設餅。這餅除了祭司以外，誰吃都是不合宜的。大衛又把餅給跟隨他的人。」27耶穌又對他們說：「安息日是為人而設立的，人不是為安息日而受造的。28這樣，人子更是安息日的主。」

3 在安息日治病

（太12:9-14；路6:6-11）

1耶穌又走進會堂。那裏有一個人，他的一隻手萎縮了。2有些人一直監視着耶穌，看他會不會在安息日治好那人，為要找把柄控告他。

3耶穌對那手萎縮了的人說：「起來，站在中間！」4然後對他們說：「在安息日做哪一樣才是合宜的：做好事，還是做壞事呢？救命，還是滅命呢？」他們卻默不做聲。

5耶穌憤怒地環視他們，因他們的心剛硬，就很難過，對那人說：「伸出手來！」他把手一伸，手就復原了。

6法利賽人出去，立刻和希律黨人*商議怎樣對付耶穌，好除掉他。

羣眾從各地來跟隨耶穌

7耶穌和門徒退到海邊去。有一大羣從加利利來的人跟着他；8還有許

2:26 「神的殿」：直譯作「　神的家」或「　神的屋」。這裏不是指後期的「聖殿」，而是指會幕或當時的中央祭壇——未有聖殿之前代表　神同在的地方（參出23:19；士18:31；撒上1:7、24等）。

3:6 「希律黨人」：是猶太人中少數公開支持希律家族統治的人，他們間接也支持羅馬的統治。

多人聽了耶穌所做的事，從猶太、耶路撒冷、以土買、約旦河東岸*，以及推羅、西頓一帶來到他那裏。[9]由於人多，耶穌吩咐門徒為他預備一條小船，免得眾人簇擁着他。[10]由於他治好了很多人，所以凡患病*的人都擁向他，要摸他。[11]污靈每次見到他，都俯伏在他跟前，喊叫說：「你是　神的兒子！」[12]耶穌卻嚴厲地囑咐他們，不要把他宣揚出去。

耶穌立十二使徒（太10:1-4；路6:12-16）

[13]耶穌上了山，把自己所要的人召來，他們就來到他那裏。[14]耶穌立了十二個人，稱他們為使徒，好讓他們在自己身邊，也好讓他可以差遣他們去傳道，[15]並賜給他們權柄趕鬼。

[16]於是，耶穌立了十二個人，有西門（耶穌給他起名叫彼得），[17]又有西庇太的兒子雅各和雅各的兄弟約翰（耶穌給他們起名叫半尼其，就是「雷霆之子」），[18]還有安得烈、腓力、巴多羅買、馬太、多馬、亞勒腓的兒子雅各、達太、激進分子*西門，[19]以及出賣耶穌的加略人猶大。

不得赦免的罪（太12:22-32；路11:14-23，12:10）

[20]耶穌進了屋子，羣眾又來聚集，以致他和門徒連飯都不能吃。[21]耶穌的家人聽見了，就出來要拉住他，因為他們說他瘋了。

[22]從耶路撒冷下來的律法教師說：「他被別西卜*附身。」又說：「他是靠鬼王趕鬼。」

[23]耶穌叫他們來，用比喻對他們說：「撒但怎能把撒但趕出去呢？[24]一個國家內部分裂，那國家必站立不住；[25]要是一個家庭內部分裂，那個家庭也必站立不住。[26]撒但要是跟自己作對而分裂，他就必站立不住，還要滅亡。[27]況且，誰都不能進壯漢的家，搶劫他的財物；一定要先把那個壯漢綁起來，才能搶劫他的家。

[28]「我實在告訴你們，世人*一切的罪和任何褻瀆的話，都可以得到赦免；[29]但人若褻瀆聖靈，卻永遠也得不到赦免，要擔當永遠的罪。」[30]這是因為他們說，他被污靈附身。

誰是耶穌的親人（太12:46-50；路8:19-21）

[31]那時，耶穌的母親和兄弟來了，站在外面，差遣人到耶穌那裏去叫他。[32]羣眾正圍着耶穌坐着，他們對他說：「看啊，你的母親、兄弟和姊妹在外面，要找你呢。」

[33]耶穌回答說：「誰是我的母親、我的兄弟？」[34]他環視那些圍圍團住他坐着的人，說：「看啊，我的母親、我的兄弟！[35]誰遵行　神的旨意，誰就是我的兄弟、姊妹和母親了。」

4 撒種的比喻

（太13:1-9；路8:4-8）

[1]又有一次，耶穌在海邊開始教導人，有一大羣人眾集在他周圍，他只好上了一條船坐下；船在海裏，羣眾全都在岸上，面對着海*。[2]耶穌用比喻教導他們很多道理，在教導中他說：[3]「請聽：看啊，有個撒種的人出去撒種。[4]他撒的時候，有的落在路旁，飛鳥來把它吃掉了。[5]有的落在泥土不多的石地上，因為土淺，很快就破土而出；[6]當太陽出來，幼苗就被曬乾，又因為沒有根，就枯萎了。[7]還有的落在荊棘裏，荊棘長起來，把它擠住了，就

3:8 「約旦河東岸」直譯作「約旦河那邊」。相對於猶太而言，這裏應指約旦河東岸。
3:10 「患病」或譯作「身罹頑疾」。
3:18 「激進分子」：原文為亞蘭文「狂熱」一詞的音譯，指當時猶太教中的狂熱分子。他們主張絕對效忠律法，反對希律家族和羅馬政權的統治。在公元66至70年間反抗羅馬的革命中，這些人佔有重要地位，正式形成一個黨派。
3:22 「別西卜」是邪靈頭子的名字。

3:28 「世人」直譯作「人類之子」或「人的子孫」。
4:1 「面對着海」：原文為πρὸς τὴν θάλασσαν，也可譯作「靠海」或「沿海」，但作者顯然要把耶穌和人羣所在的位置作對比：一在海中，一在岸上；一朝岸而坐，一望海而立，兩者遙遙相對，顯出耶穌作為教導者的地位。

結不出果實來。[8]又有的落在沃土裏，幼苗不斷長高長大，結出果實，長出來的，有三十倍，有六十倍，有一百倍的。」[9]耶穌又說：「有耳朵可聽的，就好好聽吧！」

使用比喻的目的（太13:10–17；路8:9–10）

[10]耶穌獨自一人的時候，在他身邊的人和十二使徒問他這些比喻的意思。[11]耶穌對他們說：「 神國的奧秘賜了給你們，但對那些外人，凡事我都用比喻，[12]好讓

『他們看是看見，卻不領悟；
聽是聽見，卻不明白，
免得他們回轉過來，得到赦免。』」

解釋撒種的比喻（太13:18–23；路8:11–15）

[13]耶穌又對他們說：「你們不明白這個比喻嗎？那麼你們怎能明白所有的比喻呢？[14]撒種的人所撒的，就是道。[15]那些撒在路旁的，就是那些人聽見的時候，撒但就立刻來把撒在他們裏面的道奪去。[16]同樣，那些撒在石地上的，就是那些人聽了道，立刻欣然接受，[17]但是他們心裏沒有根，不能持久，一旦為這道吃苦，或受迫害，他們就立刻被絆倒了。[18]那些撒在荊棘裏的，就是另一些人，這些人就是人聽了道，[19]卻有世上的憂慮、財富的迷惑，以及其他各種私慾紛至沓來，把這道擠住了，結不出果實來。[20]那些撒在沃土裏的，就是那些人聽道，接受了，並且結出果實來，有三十倍，有六十倍，有一百倍的。」

斗底下的燈（路8:16–18）

[21]耶穌又對他們說：「人拿燈來，是放在斗*底下或牀底下嗎？不是放在燈台上嗎？[22]因為隱藏的事沒有不被顯明出來的，掩蓋的事也沒有不被揭露出來的。[23]有耳朵可聽的，就好好聽吧！」

4:21 「斗」為量度容量的器皿，一「斗」相當於今天的8.75升。

[24]耶穌又對他們說：「你們要留心所聽見的。你們用甚麼量器量給人，也要照樣量給你們，並且還要加添給你們。[25]因為那有的，還要賜給他；那沒有的，連他僅有的也要拿走。」

種子長大的比喻

[26]耶穌又說：「 神的國好像一個人把種子撒在地上。[27]他晚上睡覺，白天起來，*種子怎樣發芽生長，他並不明白。[28]土地自然而然地長出穀物，先出苗，後吐穗，然後結出飽滿的子粒。[29]穀物成熟，他就立刻拿起鐮刀去收割，因為收割的時候到了。」

芥菜籽的比喻（太13:31–32；路13:18–19）

[30]耶穌又說：「我們用甚麼來比擬 神的國呢？用甚麼比喻來形容它呢？[31]它好像一粒芥菜籽，種在地上的時候，比地上所有種子都小*，[32]可是種下以後，卻長高起來，長得比所有的蔬菜都大，並且長出粗大的枝條，這樣，空中的飛鳥也能夠在它的蔭下棲息。」

用比喻講道（太13:34–35）

[33]耶穌用了許多這樣的比喻，照他們所能夠聽的，向他們講道。[34]他對他們講話沒有不用比喻的，但私下卻向門徒解釋一切。

使風浪平靜（太8:23–27；路8:22–25）

[35]當天傍晚，耶穌對門徒說：「我們到對岸去吧。」[36]於是門徒離開羣眾，帶着已經在船上的耶穌一同過去；也有其他船和他同行。

4:27 「他晚上睡覺，白天起來」或譯作「他日入而息，日出而作」。
4:31 「都小」：芥菜籽並非所有植物種子中最小的，但猶太拉比的著作也用它來比喻細小。顯然，用芥菜籽代表最小的東西是當時的慣用語。

37大風暴來了，波浪打進船內，船很快就灌滿了水。38耶穌在船尾枕著枕頭睡覺。門徒喚醒他，對他說：「老師，我們快沒命了，你不管嗎？」

39耶穌醒了，斥責風，又對海說：「住了吧！靜了吧！」風就止住，大大平靜了。

40耶穌對門徒說：「為甚麼害怕呢？還是沒有信心嗎？」

41他們大為驚恐*，彼此說：「這人到底是誰？連風和海都聽從他呢！」

5 在格拉森趕鬼

（太8:28–34；路8:26–39）

1他們來到那海的對岸，到了格拉森人的地區。2耶穌剛下船，一個被污靈附身的人就從墓地裏迎着他走來。3那人一向住在墓地裏，沒有人能綁住他，就是用鎖鏈也不行。4過去也常有人用腳鐐和鎖鏈把他鎖住，他卻掙斷鎖鏈，砸碎腳鐐，始終沒有人能制伏他。5他日夜在墓地和山間喊叫，又用石頭砍自己。

6他遠遠看見耶穌，就跑過去跪拜他，7大聲喊叫說：「至高　神的兒子耶穌，我跟你有甚麼關係？我指着　神懇求你，不要折磨我！」8原來耶穌已經對他說：「污靈，從這人身上出來！」

9耶穌問他：「你叫甚麼名字？」

他說：「我的名字叫『大羣』*，因為我們數目眾多。」10他再三懇求耶穌，不要把他們趕出那個地方。

11有一大羣豬正在附近的山上吃食，12污靈就懇求耶穌說：「請打發我們到豬羣面去，讓我們進到牠們羣面去吧。」13耶穌准許他們，污靈就出來，進入豬羣面；那羣豬約有兩千頭，豬羣衝下山崖，掉進海裏，在海裏淹死了。

14於是放豬的人逃跑，在城裏和各鄉村向人講述這事。當地人都來看所發生的是怎麼一回事。15他們來到耶穌那裏，看見那被鬼附身的人，就是曾被大羣鬼所附身的，正坐着，穿了衣服，而且神智清醒，他們就感到害怕。16目睹這事的人向他們述說那被鬼附身的人所遭遇的事，以及那羣豬的事。17眾人就懇求耶穌離開他們的地區。

18耶穌上船的時候，那曾被鬼附身的人懇求耶穌，要跟耶穌在一起。19耶穌不許，卻對他說：「回家去，到你的親人那裏，向他們講述主為你做了多麼大的事，以及他怎樣憐憫你。」20他就去了，開始在低加坡里傳揚耶穌為他做了多麼大的事，大家都感到驚奇。

睚魯的女兒和患血漏病的女人（太9:18–26；路8:40–56）

21耶穌又坐船渡過那海，來到對岸，有一大羣人眾集在他周圍；耶穌還在海邊。22有一個名叫睚魯的會堂主管*前來，看見耶穌，就跪在他腳前，23再三懇求他說：「我的小女兒快要死了，請你去按手在她身上，使她痊愈，可以活過來。」

24耶穌就和他同去。有一大羣人跟着耶穌，簇擁着他。

25有一個女人，患了血漏病十二年，26在許多醫生手裏吃了不少苦，又耗盡了她所有的一切，病情不但毫無起色，反而越來越嚴重。27她聽過耶穌的事，就來到人羣中間、耶穌的背後，摸他的衣服，28因為她想：「即使是他的衣服，我只要摸着了，就一定痊愈。」29這樣，她的血漏立刻止住了，她感到自己身上的病醫好了。

4:41 「大為驚恐」是翻譯原文ἐφοβήθησαν φόβον μέγαν這表達大大驚懼的心情的語句。門徒看見耶穌平定風浪，頓生敬畏之情，而這又跟方才那種因舶天盜地的風浪而來的恐慌，全不一樣，實在提升了一個層次，而畏懼的對象也轉移了。再者，這種大大驚懼的心情，與大大平靜的水面，形成一強烈對比。

5:9 「大羣」直譯作「兵團」，原文指羅馬軍團。這裏可能只是比喻污靈的數目眾多，所以譯作「大羣」。

5:22 「會堂主管」：會堂是當時猶太人宗教和民事生活的核心，負責管理會堂的是受人尊重的領袖。

30與此同時，耶穌感到有能力從自己身上出去了，就在人羣中轉過身來，說：「誰摸了我的衣服？」

31門徒對他說：「你看，羣眾正擠着你，你還問『誰摸我了』？」

32耶穌環視四周，要看看那個做了這事的女人。33那女人知道自己身上所發生的事，就害怕起來，顫抖着上前，俯伏在耶穌跟前，把實情全都告訴他了。

34耶穌對她說：「女兒，你的信心救了你，平安地回去吧，你的病已經痊愈了。」

35耶穌還在說話的時候，有些人從會堂主管家裏來，說：「你的女兒死了，何必還麻煩老師呢？」

36耶穌不理會*他們所說的話，對會堂主管說：「不要怕，只要信！」

37除了彼得、雅各和雅各的兄弟約翰，耶穌不准其他人和他同去。

38他們來到會堂主管的家，耶穌看見一片嘈雜紛亂，眾人大大哀哭號啕。39耶穌走進去，對他們說：「你們為甚麼喧嚷哀哭呢？孩子沒有死，不過是睡着了。」40他們就嘲笑他。

耶穌把所有人都趕出去，然後帶着孩子的父母和跟他一起來的人，進到孩子所在的地方。41耶穌拉住孩子的手，對她說：「大利大，古米！」翻譯出來就是：「小女孩，我對你說，起來！」42那女孩立刻起來走動，因為她已經十二歲了。眾人頓時非常詫異。43耶穌嚴厲地囑咐他們，不可讓任何人知道這件事，又叫人拿東西給她吃。

6 主在家鄉不受尊重
（太13:54–58；路4:16–30）

1耶穌離開那裏，來到自己的家鄉，門徒也跟隨他去了。2到了安息日，他開始在會堂裏教導人，許多人聽了都感到驚訝，說：「這人的這些本事是從哪裏來的呢？賦予他的究竟是怎麼樣的智慧呢？藉着他的手所行的神蹟是

5:36 「不理會」或譯作「無意中聽見」。

怎樣來的？3這人不是那木匠嗎？不是馬利亞的兒子，雅各、約西、猶大、西門的兄弟嗎？他的姊妹不是在這裏跟我們一起嗎？」於是他們不肯相信他。

4耶穌對他們說：「先知只有在家鄉、在親戚當中和自己的家裏才得不到尊重。」

5耶穌無法在那裏行甚麼神蹟，只是按手在幾個病人身上，治好了他們。6耶穌感到驚奇，因為他們不相信。

耶穌差遣十二使徒傳道（太10:1、5–15；路9:1–6）

耶穌走遍周圍的村落，教導眾人。7他叫十二使徒來，差遣他們兩個兩個地出去，又賜給他們降伏污靈的權柄，8並且吩咐他們除了一根手杖，不要帶甚麼東西上路：不要帶食物和行囊，腰袋裏也不要帶銅錢；9只要穿鞋子，也不要穿兩件襯衣。10他又對他們說：「你們無論進哪一家，就住在哪裏，直到離開那地方。11若有甚麼地方的人不接待你們，不聽你們，你們離開那地方的時候，就要跺掉腳上的塵土，以指控他們的不信。*」

12於是他們出去傳道，叫人悔改，13並且趕走了許多鬼，為許多病人抹油，治好了他們。

施洗的約翰被殺（太14:1–12；路9:7–9）

14耶穌聲名大噪，希律王*也聽到了。甚至有人說：「施洗的約翰從死人中復活了，所以他身上有這些能力*在運行。」15但另一些人說：「他是以利亞。」還有人說：「他是先知，像是古時先知中的一位。」16希律聽了

6:11 「以指控他們的不信」直譯作「作為對他們的見證」或「作為反對他們的見證」。「跺掉腳上的塵土」這個動作象徵斷絕關係，這裏表示這些人的罪惡和將要受到的審判與門徒無關（參徒13:51）。「作為對他們的見證」應指這動作代表對他們不信的指控，所以補上「不信」一詞。原文的與格（dative）形式有表示反對的意思。

6:14 「希律王」：大希律王（見第2章）的一個兒子希律·安提帕，在大希律王死後治理加利利和比利亞（公元前4年–公元39年）。「分封王」一詞按字面意思是管理四分之一國土的，但是羅馬政府授予這銜頭的實際依據已不得而知，基本上應指所治理的地方較正式的王（如其父親）小，羅馬政府所容許的自主權也較小。

6:14 「能力」或譯作「異能」。

卻說：「是被我砍了頭的約翰，這個人復活了。」

17原來希律親自差遣人抓住約翰，把他捆起來，關在監牢裏，是為了他兄弟腓力*的妻子希羅底的緣故，因為希律娶了這個女人，18而約翰曾對希律說：「你佔有兄弟的妻子是不合宜的。」*19希羅底從此對約翰懷恨在心，想要殺他，只是不能。20因為希律害怕*約翰，知道他為人正直聖潔，就保護他，雖然聽見他的話，感到十分困惑，但仍然樂意聽他。

21有機可乘的日子來了。希律在他生日那天為大臣、千夫長和加利利的領袖擺設宴席。22希羅底的女兒進來跳舞，很得希律和賓客的歡心。

王對女孩說：「無論你想要甚麼，只要求我，我必賜給你。」23他更鄭重地起誓說：「無論你向我求甚麼，就是我國家的一半，我也賜給你。」

24於是她出去對母親說：「我該求甚麼呢？」

她母親說：「施洗的約翰的頭。」

25她立刻趕忙進去，到了王那裏，求他說：「願王立刻把施洗的約翰的頭放在盤子上給我。」

26王非常苦惱，但因為在賓客面前起了誓，不想拒絕她。27於是王立刻差遣一個衛兵，下令把約翰的頭取來。他就去了，在監裏砍下約翰的頭，28放在盤子上送給女孩，女孩就把它送給母親。29約翰的門徒聽見了，就來領去約翰的屍體，安葬在墳墓裏。

給五千人吃飽（太14:13–21；路9:10–17；約6:1–14）

30使徒在耶穌那裏聚集，向他講述他們所做的和所教導的一切。31耶穌對他們說：「來，你們自己私下到荒野之地歇一歇吧。」這是因為來往的人多，他們連吃飯的時間也沒有。

6:17 「腓力」：全名應為「希律・腓力」；和路加福音3:1提到的另一個分封王腓力並非同一人。

6:18 希律・安提帕休了自己的妻子（亞巴提阿拉伯人的王亞哩達的女兒，參林後11:32），而希羅底也離開了自己的丈夫，跟希律在一起。猶太人的律法（即舊約聖經）明文規定不能與兄弟的妻子有染（見利18:16，20:21），希律和希羅底的行徑顯然與律法相違，所以約翰出言責備。

6:20 「害怕」或譯作「敬畏」。

32於是他們坐船離開，私下往荒野之地去。33有許多人看見他們走了，認出了他們，就從各城一同徒步跑到那裏，而且比他們先到了。34耶穌上了岸，看見一大羣人，就憐憫他們，因為他們好像沒有牧人的羊，於是他開始教導他們許多道理。

35時候已經晚了，門徒來到耶穌那裏說：「這裏是荒野之地，時候又已經晚了，36請打發他們散去，好讓他們到周圍的田舍村莊去給自己買些東西吃。」

37但耶穌回答說：「你們給他們吃的吧。」

門徒說：「要我們去買兩百得拿利*的餅來給他們吃嗎？」

38耶穌說：「你們有多少餅？去看看。」

他們知道了，就說：「有五個，還有兩條魚。」

39耶穌吩咐他們，叫大家一組一組地坐在青草地上。40眾人就一羣一羣地坐下，有的一百人，有的五十人。41耶穌拿起那五個餅和兩條魚，望着天謝恩，然後把餅擘開，遞給門徒，好分發給眾人；又把兩條魚分給大家。42大家都吃了，並且吃飽了。43他們還把餅和魚的零碎拾起來，裝滿了十二個籃子。44吃餅的人，光是男人就有五千。

耶穌在海面上行走（太14:22–33；約6:15–21）

45耶穌隨即催門徒上船，叫他們先到對岸，到伯賽大去；與此同時，他打發眾眾散去。46耶穌與他們道別了，就到山上禱告。

47傍晚，船已到了海的中央，耶穌單獨在岸上。48耶穌看見門徒因為逆風，划船非常吃力。夜裏四更天*，耶穌在海面上行走，向着門徒走去，想要超過他們。49門徒看見耶穌在海面上行走，以為是鬼怪，就喊叫起來，50因為大家看見他，都非常慌張。

6:37 「得拿利」或譯作「銀幣」。「得拿利」是當時的貨幣單位，價值恰好是一般工人一天的工資。

6:48 「四更天」即天快亮的時候。「四更天」或譯作「天將破曉的時候」。羅馬人把黃昏6時至清晨6時這一段時間分為四個「更次」（猶太傳統分為三個，所以這裏是用羅馬制）。「四更」即清晨3時至6時之間。這裏不是要指出準確的時間，只是指出是天快亮的時候。

耶穌立刻對他們說：「打起精神，是我，不要怕！」

[51]於是耶穌上船跟他們在一起，風就止住了。門徒心裏非常詫異；[52]因為他們不領悟分餅的事，他們的心仍然頑梗。

在革尼撒勒治病（太14:34–36）

[53]他們渡過那海，在革尼撒勒上岸，船泊在那裏。[54]他們才下船，眾人立刻認出耶穌來，[55]就跑遍整個地區，他們聽說耶穌在哪裏，就用褥子把病人抬到哪裏。[56]耶穌所到的地方，或村莊，或城裏，或鄉下，眾人都把病人放在集市上，懇求耶穌讓他們摸一摸——即使只是他衣服邊上的帶子。凡是摸着他的人都好了。

7 傳統與誡命的爭論

（太15:1–9）

[1]法利賽人和一些從耶路撒冷來的律法教師，到耶穌那裏聚集。[2]他們看見耶穌的一些門徒用不潔淨的手——就是沒有洗過的手——吃飯。*[3]原來法利賽人和所有的猶太人都固守古人的傳統，若不仔細*洗手，就不吃東西；[4]從集市回來，若不清洗，*也不吃東西。他們還有許多傳承下來要固守的規條，比如洗杯子、罐子、銅器，甚至牀等等。

[5]法利賽人和律法教師問耶穌：「你的門徒為甚麼不遵守古人的傳統，用不潔淨的手吃飯呢？」

[6]耶穌說：「以賽亞針對你們這些偽君子所說的預言，說得好！如經上記着：

『這民用嘴唇尊敬我，
心卻避開我。

[7] 他們把人的規矩
當作教條教導人，
所以敬拜我也是枉然。』

[8]你們是摒棄　神的誡命，固守人的傳統。」

[9]耶穌又說：「你們為了守住自己的傳統，竟巧妙地廢掉　神的誡命。[10]摩西說『應當孝敬你的父母』，又說『咒罵父母的人必須處死』；[11]你們卻說，如果有人對父母說『凡是你可以從我那裏收取的，都已經作了各耳板』（各耳板就是奉獻的意思），[12]你們就容許他不用再供養父母了。[13]這就是你們藉着所繼承的傳統廢除了　神的話。諸如此類的事，你們還做了很多。」

真正的污穢（太15:10–20）

[14]耶穌叫聚眾來，對他們說：「你們全都要聽我的話，也要領悟。[15]從外面進入人裏面的東西，不能使人污穢；從人裏面出來的東西，才使人污穢。」

[17]耶穌離開聚眾，進了屋子，門徒就問他這個比喻的意思。[18]耶穌說：「連你們也是這樣不明白嗎？難道你們不知道，凡是從外面進入人裏面的東西是不能使人污穢的？[19]因為這些東西不是進入人心，而是吞進肚裏，又排泄到廁所去。」（耶穌這樣說，就潔淨了一切的食物。）[20]他又說：「從人裏面出來的東西，才使人污穢。[21]因為從裏面，從人心裏發出的，有種種惡念：淫亂、偷盜、兇殺、[22]通姦、貪婪、邪惡、詭詐、放蕩、嫉妒、毀謗、傲慢、愚妄。[23]這一切的邪惡都是從裏面出來的，並且使人污穢。」

異族婦人的信心（太15:21–28）

[24]耶穌從那裏動身，往推羅地區去。他進了一家，本不想讓任何人知道，但還是無法避開眾人。[25]當下就有一個婦人，她的小女兒被污靈附身，她聽見耶穌的事，就來跪在他腳前。[26]這婦人是希臘人*，屬敘利亞的腓尼基族。她求耶穌把女兒身上的鬼趕出去。

7:2 飯前「洗手」，並不像今天那樣，是為了衛生的理由，而是猶太拉比從猶約的潔淨禮儀引申出來的。
7:3 「不仔細」或譯作「不按規矩」。
7:4 「若不清洗」或譯作「如果沒有洗手」。

7:26 「希臘人」：原文指受希臘文化薰陶的人。

[27]耶穌對她說：「應該先讓孩子吃飽。拿孩子的餅丟給小狗吃，是不恰當的。」

[28]婦人回答說：「主啊，不過桌子底下的小狗，也吃到孩子掉下來的碎餅呀！」

[29]耶穌對她說：「就憑這句話，你可以回去了。鬼已經離開你的女兒了。」

[30]她回到家裏，見孩子躺在牀上，那鬼已經離開了。

醫好聾啞的人

[31]耶穌又離開推羅地區，經過西頓，來到低加坡里*地區內的加利利海。[32]有些人帶了一個耳聾舌結的人到耶穌那裏，懇求他按手在那人身上。[33]耶穌私下領那人離開羣眾，然後把自己的指頭伸進他的耳朵，又吐唾沫抹他的舌頭，[34]望着天歎了一口氣，對他說：「以法大！」意思就是「張開吧」。[35]他的耳朵立刻開了，舌頭的結也解開了，清清楚楚地說起話來。

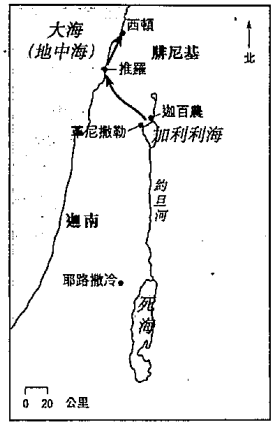
[36]耶穌囑咐他們不要告訴任何人。可是耶穌越是囑咐，他們就越是宣揚。[37]眾人都非常驚訝，說：「他所做的一切實在太妙了，他甚至使聾子聽見，啞巴說話！」

8 給四千人吃飽

（太15:32–39）

[1]那些日子裏，又有一次，有一大羣人來了。他們沒有甚麼東西吃，耶穌就叫門徒來，說：[2]「我憐憫這羣人，因為他們跟我在一起已經三天了，又沒有甚麼東西吃。[3]如果我打發他們餓着肚子回家，他們會在路上暈倒；當中還有些人是從遠處來的呢。」

7:31 「低加坡里」：名字的意思為「十城區」，因該區有十個希臘城市而得名，位於加利利海的東南部。



耶穌由加利利到推羅、西頓傳道，治好一個外族婦人之女。

[4]門徒回答：「誰能夠在這荒野找到餅給這些人吃飽呢？」

[5]耶穌問：「你們有多少餅？」

他們說：「七個。」

[6]耶穌吩咐羣眾坐在地上。他拿起那七個餅，獻上了感謝，然後擘開，遞給門徒分發，他們就分給羣眾。[7]他們還有幾條小魚，耶穌為魚謝恩，然後吩咐把這些也分發出去。[8]大家都吃了，並且吃飽了。他們把剩下的零碎拾起來，裝了七個籮筐。[9]當時約有四千人。耶穌打發眾人散去，[10]隨即和門徒上船，來到了大瑪努他地區。

法利賽人要求神蹟（太16:1–4）

[11]法利賽人出來，跟耶穌辯論起來。他們要求耶穌顯個從天上來的神蹟，想要試探他。[12]耶穌心裏歎了一口氣，然後說：「這世代為甚麼要求

神蹟呢？我實在告訴你們，絕不會有神蹟給這世代了。」[13]於是耶穌離開他們，又上船往對岸去了。

提防法利賽人和希律的酵母（太16:5–12）

[14]門徒忘了帶餅，船上只有一個餅、身邊再沒有其他食物了。[15]耶穌囑咐他們說：「你們要小心，提防法利賽人和希律的酵母。」

[16]門徒彼此議論沒有帶餅的事。[17]耶穌知道了，就說：「你們為甚麼議論沒有帶餅的事呢？你們還不知道，還不領悟嗎？你們的心仍然頑梗嗎？[18]你們有眼怎麼看不見？有耳怎麼聽不到呢？你們不記得，[19]那次我擘開那五個餅分給五千人，你們拾起來的零碎裝滿了多少個籃子？」

他們說：「十二個。」

[20]「那次我擘開七個餅分給四千人， 你們拾起來的零碎裝滿了多少個籮筐？」

他們說：「七個。」

[21]耶穌對他們說：「你們還不領悟嗎？」

治好伯賽大的瞎子

[22]他們來到伯賽大。有人帶來一個瞎子，求耶穌摸他。[23]耶穌拉着瞎子的手，領他到村外，然後吐唾沫在他的眼睛上，按手在他身上，問他：「你看見甚麼？」

[24]他抬頭一看，說：「我看見一些人，看起來好像一些樹木在走路。」

[25]於是耶穌又按手在他的眼睛上，他定睛一看，就復原了，甚麼都看得清清楚楚。[26]耶穌打發他回家去，說：「連這村子你也不要進去。」

彼得認耶穌是基督（太16:13–20；路9:18–21）

[27]耶穌和門徒出去，到凱撒利亞・腓立比的村子去。在路上，耶穌問門徒說：「人們說我是誰？」

[28]他們說：「是施洗的約翰，也有人說是以利亞，還有人說是古時先知中的一位。」

[29]耶穌問他們：「那你們呢？你們說我是誰？」

彼得回答他說：「你是基督。」

[30]耶穌嚴咐他們，不要對任何人說他的身分。

預言自己受難和復活（太16:21–28；路9:22–27）

[31]從那時起，耶穌開始教導他們，說人子必須受許多的苦，被長老、祭司長*和律法教師棄絕，並且被殺害，三天後復活。[32]耶穌明白說這話，彼得就把他拉到一邊責備*他。[33]耶穌轉身看着門徒，責備彼得說：「撒但，退到我後面去！因為你不思想 神的事，只思想人的事。」

[34]於是他叫羣眾和門徒來，對他們說：「如果有人要跟從我，就應當捨己，背起他的十字架*來跟從我。[35]凡是要救自己生命的，必喪失生命；凡是為我和福音喪失生命的，必救自己的生命。[36]人就算賺得全世界，卻賠上自己的生命，有甚麼好處呢？[37]人還能拿甚麼換取自己的生命呢？

[38]「在這個淫亂罪惡的世代，凡是以我和我的話為恥的，人子在他父的榮耀裏和眾聖天使降臨的時候，也必以他為恥。」

9 [1]耶穌又對他們說：「我實在告訴你們，站在這裏的人，有的還沒有嘗到死亡的滋味，就看見 神的國帶着能力來到。」

8:31 「祭司長」或譯作「當權的祭司」。這詞直譯作「大祭司」，但是這裏所用的「大祭司」或「祭司長」一詞是複數的，指的不單是現任的大祭司（只有一個），而是指現任的大祭司和已離任的大祭司（雖然按猶太傳統大祭司是終身的，但是在羅馬政權統治下，因為政治、賄賂等問題，時常更換大祭司），還包括他們所代表的當權的祭司家族（應屬撒都該派）。

8:32 「責備」跟下文耶穌「責備」（33節）彼得的那詞相同。在緊接的下文出現同一個詞，譯文宜前後對應。

8:34 「背起他的十字架」在當時來說，是指被判釘十字架的犯人背着自己的十字架（或十字架的橫木）走向刑場。

耶穌在山上改變形像（太17:1–13；路9:28–36）

2過了六天，耶穌帶着彼得、雅各和約翰，自己私下領他們上了一座高山。耶穌在他們面前改變了形像，3他的衣服放光，極其亮白，地上漂布的人沒有一個能把衣服漂得那麼白。4有以利亞和摩西向他們顯現，並且和耶穌說話。

5彼得對耶穌說：「拉比，*我們在這裏真好！讓我們搭三座棚*，一座給你，一座給摩西，一座給以利亞。」6其實，彼得不知道該說些甚麼，因為他們都很害怕。

7有一片雲彩出現，籠罩住他們；雲彩裏傳出聲音說：「這是我的愛子，你們要聽從他！」8他們猛然環視四周，除了耶穌一人跟他們在一起，再不見任何人了。

9下山的時候，耶穌囑咐他們，人子從死人中復活以前，不要跟任何人講述他們所看見的事。10他們把這話牢記在心裏，互相討論「從死人中復活」是甚麼意思。

11他們問耶穌說：「律法教師為甚麼說，以利亞必須先來呢？」

12耶穌說：「以利亞確實要先來重整一切。而關於人子的事，他要受許多的苦，遭人輕蔑，經上是怎樣記載的呢？13不過我告訴你們，以利亞已經來了，他們卻任意對待他，正如經上指着他所記載的那樣。」

治愈被污靈附身的男孩子（太17:14–21；路9:37–43）

14他們來到其他門徒那裏，見一大羣人圍着門徒，又有些律法教師正和他們爭論。15羣眾一見耶穌，全都感到驚訝，就跑去迎接他。

16耶穌問他們：「你們和他們爭論甚麼？」

9:5 「拉比」的意思是「老師」。

9:5 這裏所說的「棚」，是指用樹枝搭成的臨時住所，像住棚節期間筐太人搭來暫住的棚一樣（參利未記第23章）。按撒迦利亞書14:16–21，在末日所有耶和華　神的敵人都要到耶路撒冷守住棚節，所以彼得有可能以為末日已到。

17羣眾中有個人回答耶穌：「老師，我帶了我的兒子到你這裏來，他被啞的靈附身。*18每當那靈揪住他，把他摔倒，他就口吐白沫，牙關緊咬，身體僵直。我請過你的門徒把那靈趕走，他們卻辦不到。」

19耶穌回答說：「唉，這個不信的世代啊！我還要和你們在一起多久呢？我還要忍受你們多久呢？把孩子帶到我這裏來吧。」

20他們把孩子帶到耶穌那裏。那靈一看見耶穌，就使孩子猛抽了一陣風，倒在地上打滾，口吐白沫。

21耶穌問孩子的父親：「這事發生在他身上有多久了？」

孩子的父親說：「從小就是這樣。22那靈常常把他扔進火裏水裏，要把他弄死。如果你能做甚麼，就請你憐憫我們，幫助我們吧！」

23耶穌對他說：「『如果你能』？對於信的人，一切都能。」

24孩子的父親立刻喊叫說：「我相信，但是我的信心不足，求你幫助！」

25耶穌看見羣眾正一同跑過來，就責備那污靈說：「你這聾啞的靈，我吩咐你從他身上出來，不許再進去！」

26那靈喊叫起來，使孩子猛抽了一陣風，就出來了。孩子變得像死人一樣，所以許多人都說：「他死了。」27耶穌卻拉住他的手，扶他起來，他就站起來了。

28耶穌進了屋子，門徒私下問他：「為甚麼我們趕不走那靈呢？」

29耶穌說：「這一類污靈，非用禱告*，無法趕走。」

第二次預言自己受難和復活（太17:22–23；路9:43–45）

30他們從那裏出來，經過加利利；耶穌不想讓人知道，31因為他正在教導門徒，說：「人子要被交在人的手中，他們要殺害他；他被殺害，三天後，他要復活。」32他們不明白這話，也不敢問他。

9:17 「他被啞的靈附身」指那人的兒子被污靈附身，成了啞巴。

9:29 有抄本加「及禁食」。

天國裏誰為大（太18:1-5；路9:46-48）

33他們來到迦百農。在屋裏的時候，耶穌問門徒：「你們在路上議論甚麼？」34他們默不做聲，因為他們在路上彼此議論誰最大。

35耶穌坐下，叫十二使徒來，對他們說：「誰想要為首的，就要作大家當中最後的，作大家的僕役。」

36於是耶穌領來一個小孩子，讓他站在他們中間，又把他抱起來，對他們說：37「無論誰因我的名接待這樣的小孩子，就是接待我；無論誰接待我，他不是接待我，而是接待那差遣我來的那一位。」

反對與支持（路9:49-50）

38約翰對耶穌說：「老師，我們看見有人奉你的名趕鬼，就阻止他，因為他沒有跟從我們。」

39耶穌對他說：「不要阻止他，因為沒有人奉我的名行神蹟，又隨即來毀謗我。40不敵對我們的，就是支持我們。41無論誰給你們一杯水喝，是因為你們是屬基督的，我實在告訴你們，這人絕不會喪失他的獎賞。」

不要使人絆倒（太18:6-9；路17:1-2）

42「無論誰使這些相信我的小人物中的一個絆倒，倒不如在他的脖子上拴一塊大磨石，把他扔到海裏。43假如你的一隻手使你絆倒，就把它砍下來。你肢體傷殘進入永生，比起雙手俱全下到地獄，到那不滅的火裏還好呢。*45假如你的一隻腳使你絆倒，就把它砍下來。你瘸着腿進入永生，比起雙腳俱全被扔進地獄還好呢。*47假如你的一隻眼睛使你絆倒，就把它剜出來。你獨眼進入　神的國，比起雙眼俱全被扔進地獄還好呢。48在那裏，

9:43　有古抄本加第44節：「在那裏，蟲是不死的，火是不滅的。」經文與第48節相同。
9:45　有古抄本加第46節：「在那裏，蟲是不死的，火是不滅的。」經文與第48節相同。

蟲是不死的，火是不滅的。49每個人都要被火所醃。*50鹽本是好的，但鹽若失去了鹽分，怎能用它調味呢？*你們當中要有鹽，使你們彼此和睦。」

10 論婚姻

（太19:1-12；路16:18）

1耶穌起身離開那裏，來到約旦河對岸的猶太地區。*羣眾又在他周圍聚集，他就照常教導他們。2有些法利賽人來試探耶穌，問他：「男人休妻合宜嗎？」

3耶穌回答他們說：「摩西是怎麼吩咐你們的？」

4他們說：「摩西准許人寫了休書，就可以休妻。」

5耶穌說：「因為你們心硬，摩西才寫這條誡命給你們。6但　神起初創造的時候造人，造男又造女，7『為此，人要離開父母，與妻子結合，*8兩個人成為一體』。這樣，他們不再是兩個人，而是一體了。9所以，　神配合的，人不可分開。」

10進了屋子，門徒又問他這事。11耶穌說：「無論誰休妻另娶，就是犯通姦罪，辜負了妻子。12妻子要是拋棄丈夫，另嫁他人，也是犯通姦罪了。」

耶穌歡迎小孩子（太19:13-15；路18:15-17）

13有人帶着一些小孩子到耶穌那裏，好讓耶穌摸摸他們，門徒卻責備那些人。14耶穌看見了，就很生氣，對門徒說：「讓小孩子到我這裏來，不要攔阻他們，因為　神的國正是屬於這樣的人。15我實在告訴你們，無論誰不像小孩子那樣接受　神的國，絕不能進去。」16於是耶穌把小孩子抱起來，按手在他們身上，祝福他們。

9:49　「每個人都要被火所醃」或譯作「每個人都要被火當作鹽來醃」。
9:50　「怎能用它調味呢？」或譯作「怎能使它再鹹呢？」
10:1　「來到……地區」或譯作「到了猶太地區，就是［到了］約旦河的另一邊」。
10:7　有古抄本沒有「與妻子結合」。

永生的代價（太19:16-30；路18:18-30）

17耶穌正要上路的時候，有一個人跑過來，跪在他跟前，問他：「善良的老師，我該做些甚麼才可以承受永生呢？」

18耶穌對他說：「你為甚麼稱我是善良的呢？除了　神這一位之外，沒有一個是善良的。19誡命你是知道的：不可殺人、不可通姦、不可偷盜、不可作偽證、不可欺詐、要孝敬父母。」

20他對耶穌說：「老師，這一切我從小就遵行了。」

21耶穌看着他，就喜愛他，對他說：「你還缺少一件。去變賣你所擁有的，分給窮人，你就必有財寶在天上，然後來跟從我。」

22那人因耶穌的話，臉色變得陰沉，憂傷地走了，因為他有很多財產。23耶穌環視四周，然後對門徒說：「有錢財的人要進　神的國，可真難啊！」

24門徒因他的話，感到驚奇。耶穌又對他們說：「孩子們，要進　神的國多麼難啊！25駱駝穿過針眼，比財主進入　神的國還容易呢！」

26門徒就越發驚訝，彼此說：「那麼，誰能得救呢？」

27耶穌看着他們，說：「對人來說，是不可能的，但對　神來說，卻不是這樣，因為對　神來說，一切都是可能的。」

28彼得對耶穌說：「你看，我們已經撇下一切，跟從了你。」

29耶穌說：「我實在告訴你們，誰為我和福音撇下房屋、兄弟、姊妹、母親、父親、兒女或田地，30沒有不在今生得到百倍，就是房屋、兄弟、姊妹、母親、兒女、田地，同時要受迫害，在來世*得到永生的。31但是，許多在前的將要在後，在後的將要在前。」

第三次預言自己受難（太20:17-19；路18:31-34）

32在上耶路撒冷的途中，耶穌一直走在前頭，門徒感到驚奇，跟隨的人也感到害怕。耶穌又把十二使徒帶到一邊，告訴他們自己將要遭遇的事：

10:30 「來世」直譯作「那將要來的時代」。

33「看啊，我們現在上耶路撒冷去，人子要被交在祭司長和律法教師的手裏，他們要定他死罪，把他交給外族人；34他們要戲弄他，向他吐唾沫，鞭打他，並且殺害他；三天之後，他要復活。」

雅各和約翰的請求（太20:20-28）

35西庇太的兩個兒子雅各和約翰來到耶穌那裏，對他說：「老師，我們無論向你求甚麼，都想你為我們成全。」

36耶穌說：「你們想我為你們做甚麼呢？」

37他們說：「在你的榮耀裏，請賜我們一個坐在你的右邊，一個坐在你的左邊。」

38耶穌對他們說：「你們不知道自己求的是甚麼。我喝的杯，你們能喝嗎？我受的洗，你們能受嗎？」

39他們說：「能。」

耶穌說：「我喝的杯，你們要喝；我受的洗禮，你們也要受。40但坐在我的左右，卻不是我可以賜的，而是預備了給誰，就賜給誰。」

41其他十個使徒聽見了，就生雅各和約翰的氣。42於是耶穌把他們召來，對他們說：「你們知道，外族人有尊為領袖的人統治他們，有大官管轄他們，43但在你們中間，情況卻不是這樣；你們中間無論誰要為大，就要作你們的僕役；44你們中間無論誰要為首，就要作大家的僕人。45即使是人子，也不是來受人的服侍，反而是要服侍人，還要捨去自己的生命，作許多人的贖價。」

治好瞎子巴底買（太20:29-34；路18:35-43）

46他們到了耶利哥。耶穌和門徒並一大羣人離開耶利哥的時候，有個瞎眼的乞丐坐在路旁，他是底買的兒子巴底買。47他聽見那是拿撒勒人耶穌，就喊叫起來，說：「大衛之子*耶穌啊，可憐我吧！」

10:47 「大衛之子」或譯作「大衛的子孫」，第48節同。

[48]很多人都責備他，叫他不要出聲，他卻喊叫得更響：「大衛之子啊，可憐我吧！」

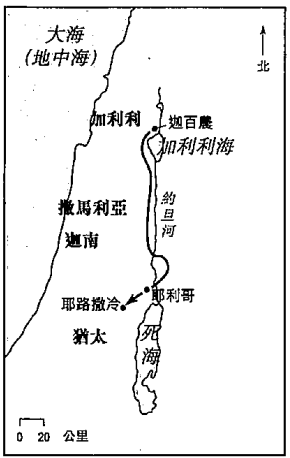
[49]耶穌停下來，說：「叫他過來。」

他們就去叫那瞎子，說：「打起精神！起來，他叫你了。」[50]瞎子丟下外衣，跳起來，走到耶穌那裏。

[51]耶穌對他說：「你想我為你做甚麼呢？」

瞎子說：「拉波尼，*我要看得見。」

[52]耶穌對他說：「去吧，你的信心救了你。」瞎子立刻看得見，就在路上跟隨着耶穌。



耶穌由迦百農出發，過約旦河，經耶利哥往耶路撒冷去。

10:51 「拉波尼」與「拉比」一詞同，意思是「我的老師」。

11 光榮進入耶路撒冷

（太21:1–11；路19:28–40；約12:12–19）

[1]耶穌和門徒走近耶路撒冷，到了橄欖山的伯法其和伯大尼，耶穌就差遣兩個門徒，[2]對他們說：「你們到對面的村子去，一進村就會看見一頭小驢拴在那裏，那小驢是從來沒有人騎過的。你們把牠解開牽來。[3]如果有人對你們說：『為甚麼這樣做？』你們就說：『主要用牠，很快就會把牠送回來。』」

[4]他們去了，看見街上有一頭小驢，拴在門外，就解開牠。[5]站在那裏的人，有幾個對他們說：「你們解開小驢做甚麼？」[6]他們照耶穌所說的話回答，那些人就讓他們牽走了。[7]他們把小驢牽到耶穌那裏，把自己的衣服搭在小驢上，耶穌就騎上去。[8]有很多人把自己的衣服鋪在路上，又有些人從田間砍下枝葉鋪在路上。[9]眾人前呼後擁，喊叫：

「和散那！*

那奉主名來的是應當稱頌的！

[10]那將要來的我們先祖大衛的國是應當稱頌的！

和散那在至高之處！」

[11]耶穌進入耶路撒冷，直接*來到聖殿。他環視四周的一切；天已經晚了，就和十二使徒一同離開，往伯大尼去。

詛咒無花果樹（太21:18–19）

[12]第二天，他們離開伯大尼的時候，耶穌餓了。[13]他遠遠看見一棵長有

11:9 「和散那」為希伯來文的音譯，意思是「求你拯救我們！」後成為歡呼和讚美之詞。這話沒有清楚的含意，所以翻譯時宜用音譯。經文引自詩篇118:25–26。詩篇第113至118篇為聖殿詩班在幾個大節日所頌唱的，特別是住棚節。當詩班唱到「和散那」時，會眾就會搖動手中的柳枝和棕櫚葉。

11:11 「直接」一詞是對應原文句式的語氣而補上的。原文的句子在短短十來字裏面，先後佈置了兩個εἰς，而彼此做一詞之陪，其動作之快，節奏之促，不難想見。再者，這個句式要表達的意思是：耶穌帶進耶路撒冷，旋即走入聖殿。所以補上「直接」一詞，正是要表達原文這一層意思。這個圖景與瑪拉基書3:1所描述的相仿，隱含審判意味，從下文11:15節用相似句式帶出潔淨聖殿一段可見。

葉子的無花果樹，就走過去，看能不能在樹上找到甚麼，但來到那裏，除了葉子，甚麼也找不着，因為這不是收無花果的季節。[14]耶穌對樹說：「從今以後，永遠也沒有人吃你的果子！」他的門徒也聽見了。

潔淨聖殿（太21:12–17；路19:45–48；約2:13–22）

[15]他們來到耶路撒冷。耶穌進了聖殿*，就開始把那些做買賣的人趕走，推翻銀錢兌換人的桌子和販賣鴿子的人的凳子，[16]也不許任何人帶着器具穿過聖殿。[17]他教訓他們說：「經上不是記着『我的殿要稱為萬國禱告的殿』嗎？你們竟使它淪為賊窩！」

[18]祭司長和律法教師聽見了，就設法要除掉耶穌，卻又怕他，因為全體羣眾都對他的教導感到驚訝。

[19]傍晚，他們就到城外去了。

信心的效果（太21:20–22）

[20]早上，他們經過那裏，看見那棵無花果樹連根都枯萎了。[21]彼得想起耶穌的話來，就對他說：「拉比，你看，你所詛咒的無花果樹已經枯萎了。」

[22]耶穌回答說：「你們對　神要有信心。[23]我實在告訴你們，無論誰對這座山說：『去，投進海裏！』並且心裏不疑惑，相信自己所說的一定成就，就必定給他實現。[24]因此，我告訴你們，無論你們為着甚麼禱告祈求，只要相信已經得到*了，就必定給你們實現。[25]你們站着禱告的時候，要是對誰有怨恨，就要寬恕他，好使你們在天上的父也寬恕你們的過犯。」

質疑耶穌的權柄（太21:23–27；路20:1–8）

[27]他們又來到耶路撒冷。耶穌在聖殿裏行走的時候，祭司長、律法教師

11:15 「聖殿」：原文ἱερόν指聖殿整個建築，包括「外院」（即聖殿最外一層的「外族人」院），這節經文提到的市場正是在聖殿的外院裏。

11:24 「已經得到」：原文此詞「得到」是過去不定式，但有未來的指涉。作者是要表達一種很強的確定性，所以用「已經得到」一語翻譯，較為貼切。

和長老來到他那裏，[28]對他說：「你憑甚麼權柄做這些事？是誰給你權柄做這些事？」

[29]耶穌對他們說：「我問你們一件事，你們回答我，我就告訴你們我憑甚麼權柄做這些事。[30]約翰的洗禮是從天上還是從人那裏來的呢？你們回答我吧。」

[31]他們彼此議論說：「如果我們說『是從天上來的』，他就會說：『那你們為甚麼不相信約翰？』[32]但我們說『是從人那裏來的』……」他們又懼怕羣眾，因為所有人都認為約翰確實是個先知。

[33]於是他們回答耶穌說：「我們不知道。」

耶穌對他們說：「我也不告訴你們，我憑甚麼權柄做這些事了。」

12 佃農的比喻（太21:33–46；路20:9–19）

[1]耶穌開始用比喻對他們說：「有一個人開墾了一個葡萄園，在四面圍上籬笆，又挖了一個榨酒池，建了一座守望塔。他把園子租給佃農，然後遠行去了。

[2]「時候到了，他差遣一個僕人到佃農那裏，向他們收取葡萄園的部分果子。[3]那些佃農卻抓住那僕人，毆打他，使他兩手空空地回去。[4]園主又差遣另一個僕人到佃農那裏。他們打傷他的頭，還羞辱他。[5]園主又派另一個去，他們把他殺了。園主還差遣許多其他僕人去，有的被他們毆打，有的被他們殺了。

[6]「園主還有一個可差遣的，就是他的愛子。最後，園主派他到他們那裏去，說：『他們必尊重*我的兒子。』

[7]「可是，那些佃農卻彼此說：『這是承受產業的人啊！來，我們殺了他，產業就歸我們了。』[8]於是他們抓住他，把他殺了，扔在葡萄園外。

12:6 「尊重」：原文此詞也可譯作「尊敬」，但「尊重」一詞更為妥貼，因為「尊敬」側重在態度恭敬，而「尊重」側重在重視，對人對事不輕慢、不遊拗。就上下文來說，「尊重」一詞較貼切。

9「這樣，葡萄園的主人要怎麼做呢？他要來殺掉那些佃農，把葡萄園交給別人。

10-11『工匠丟棄的石頭，
已成為房角首要的基石*。
這是主所成就的，
在我們看來，這真奇妙啊！』

這段話你們沒有唸過嗎？」

12他們知道耶穌說這比喻是針對他們的，就想抓住他，但又懼怕群眾，只好離開他走了。

論納稅（太22:15-22；路20:19-26）

13後來，他們差遣了一些法利賽人和希律黨人到耶穌那裏，要從他的話裏找把柄。

14那些人來了，對耶穌說：「老師，我們知道你是真誠的，任何人你都不顧忌，因為你不看人的情面，只按照真理*教導人　神的道路。向凱撒*交稅*合宜不合宜？我們該不該交呢？」

15耶穌知道他們的虛偽，就對他們說：「為甚麼試探我呢？拿一個得拿利給我看。」

16他們就拿來了。耶穌問他們：「這是誰的肖像和名號？」

他們說：「是凱撒的。」

17耶穌對他們說：「凱撒的東西歸給凱撒，　神的東西歸給　神。」

他們都因他感到驚奇。

12:10-11 「房角首要的基石」：在牆腳的大石，用來決定整間屋的位置，並且把兩邊牆維繫在一起。
12:14 「真理」與同節的「真誠的」為同源詞。
12:14 「凱撒」：凱撒原是公元前44年成為羅馬獨裁統治者的蓋利烏．凱撒的姓，後來成為羅馬皇帝的尊號。
12:14 「稅」或譯作「人頭稅」。

論復活與婚姻（太22:23-33；路20:27-40）

18撒都該人*來到耶穌那裏，他們一向說沒有復活這回事，於是問耶穌說：19「老師，摩西為我們寫了這話：『如果某人的兄弟死了，遺下妻子，沒有留下孩子，他的兄弟就應該娶他的妻子，替他的兄弟延續後裔。』20從前有兄弟七人，老大娶了妻，死了，沒有留下後裔。21老二娶了她，也死了，沒有遺下後裔。老三也是一樣。22這樣，七個人都沒有留下後裔。最後，那女人也死了。23復活的時候，他們都要復活，那女人將會是他們哪一個的妻子呢？因為七個人都娶過她。」

24耶穌對他們說：「你們弄錯了，不正是因為你們不明白聖經*，也不明白　神的能力嗎？25人從死人中復活，既不娶，也不嫁，而是像天上的天使一樣。26關於死人復活的事，難道你們沒有唸過摩西書卷中荊棘叢的故事裏，　神對摩西是怎麼說的？他說：『我是亞伯拉罕的　神，以撒的　神，雅各的　神』。27他不是死人的　神，而是活人的　神。你們錯得很厲害。」

首要的誡命（太22:34-40；路10:25-28）

28有一個律法教師前來，聽到他們的討論，見耶穌回答得好，就問他：「誡命中哪一條是首要的呢？」

29耶穌回答：「首要的就是：『以色列啊，你要聽，主我們的　神，主是獨一的。30你要盡心、盡性、盡意、盡力愛主你的　神。』31其次就是『要愛鄰如己』*。沒有別的誡命比這兩條更重要的了。」

32律法教師對耶穌說：「老師，是的，你說得好，他是獨一的，除了他以外，再沒有別的　神；33並且要盡心、盡智、盡力愛他，又要愛鄰如己，這比獻任何祭物都更重要。」

12:18 「撒都該人」為當時猶太教中的一派，成員多為富有的祭司，政治上，他們傾向與羅馬合作，信仰上，他們強調只以摩西五經為依據，不接受復活，認為人死如燈滅，身體及靈魂皆消失，所以不接受有鬼魂的存在（同時也不接受有天使的存在），與法利賽人不和（參徒23:6-9）。這派人在公元70年耶路撒冷被毀後消失。
12:24 「聖經」相當於基督教的舊約聖經。
12:31 「要愛鄰如己」或譯作「要愛人如己」，第33節同。

34耶穌見他答得有智慧，就對他說：「你離　神的國不遠了。」於是沒有人敢再考問他了。

基督是大衛的子孫（太22:41-46；路20:41-44）

35耶穌在聖殿裏教導人的時候，問：「律法教師怎麼說基督是大衛的子孫呢？36大衛自己受聖靈感動說：

『主*對我的主說，
　你坐在我的右邊，
　等我把你的仇敵放在你腳下。』

37既然大衛稱他*為『主』，他怎麼會是大衛的子孫呢？」

那一大羣人都樂意聽耶穌講話。

提防律法教師（太23:1-36；路20:45-47）

38耶穌教導人的時候，說：「要提防律法教師。他們喜歡穿着長袍走來走去，喜歡人在集市上向他們請安，39喜愛會堂裏的上座和宴會中的首席；40他們侵吞寡婦的房屋，又假意作很長的禱告。這些人必定受到更嚴厲的懲罰。」

寡婦的奉獻（路21:1-4）

41耶穌坐在奉獻箱的對面，看羣眾怎樣把銅錢投進奉獻箱*裏。有很多

12:36 這個「主」，是指耶和華　神，猶太人把希伯來文的「耶和華」一名讀為「主」，避免「妄稱耶和華的名」，希臘文《七十士譯本》也用「主」一詞去翻譯「耶和華」這名字。
12:37 「他」指第36節的「我的主」，即　神叫他坐在自己右邊的那一位。
12:41 「奉獻箱」：根據記載，在聖殿婦女院中放置了13個號角形的奉獻箱，每個上面註明所收奉獻的用途。「奉獻箱」一詞的原文也可指聖殿的庫房，但這裏說他們把獻金「投進」去，理解為奉獻箱較合理。

財主投進了許多金錢。42又有一個窮寡婦來，投了兩個雷普頓*，相等於一個科得拉*。

43耶穌叫門徒來，對他們說：「我實在告訴你們，這窮寡婦投進奉獻箱裏的，比所有人都多，44因為大家都是把自己富餘的投進去，但這婦人儘管窮乏，卻把自己所擁有的一切，就是她賴以維生*的一切，都投進去了。」

13 預言聖殿被毀
（太24:1-2；路21:5-6）

1耶穌從聖殿出來的時候，有一個門徒對他說：「老師，你看，多麼了不起的石頭，多麼了不起的建築啊！」

2耶穌對他說：「你看見這些宏偉的建築嗎？將來這裏的每一塊石頭都要被拆毀，沒有一塊石頭疊在另一塊石頭上。」

時代終結的徵兆（太24:3-14；路21:7-19）

3耶穌在橄欖山上，面對聖殿坐着，彼得、雅各、約翰和安得烈私下問他：4「請告訴我們，這些事在甚麼時候發生呢？這一切事快要成就的時候，有甚麼徵兆呢？」

5耶穌對他們說：「你們要當心，不要讓人迷惑你們。6有很多人將要冒我的名而來，說『我是』*，並且要迷惑許多人。7當你們聽見戰爭和戰爭的種種傳聞，不要驚惶，這些事必須發生，不過，那還不是終結。8民族要起來攻打民族，國家要起來攻擊國家。到處都將會有地震饑荒。這些都是臨產陣痛*的開始。

12:42 「雷普頓」或譯作「小銅錢」，是當時最小面值、最小面積的銅錢，約等於當時普通工人一日工資的1/128。
12:42 「科得拉」或譯作「銅幣」。一個科得拉約等於當時普通工人一日工資的1/64。
12:44 「賴以維生」直譯作「生命」，這裏可以理解為她把自己整個生命投了進去。
13:6 「我是」是照原文直譯。或譯作「我是基督」。
13:8 「臨產陣痛」：原文ὠδίνων一詞，是指臨產時的陣痛，這裏用了隱喻修辭法，意在把當時災難的慘烈情況形象鮮明地表述出來。

9「你們自己要當心，因為人要把你們交給公議會，你們要在會堂裏被
鞭打，又要為我的緣故，站在總督和君王面前，向他們作見證。10這福音必
須先傳給萬族。11人把你們帶走，把你們交出去的時候，不要預先憂慮該說
甚麼。到那時候，賜給你們甚麼話，就說甚麼話，因為說話的不是你們，而
是聖靈。12兄弟要出賣兄弟，置對方於死地；父親對兒女也是一樣；兒女也
要起來與父母為敵，害死他們。13你們為了我的名*要被眾人憎恨，但堅忍到
底的人必定得救。」

大災難（太24:15–28；路21:20–24）

14「當你們看見『那帶來荒涼*的可憎之物』站在不該站的地方（讀者*
必須領會），那時，在猶太的人要逃到山上去，15在房頂上的人不要下來，
也不要進屋子裏拿東西出來，16在田裏的人也不要回去取衣服。17那些日子
裏，懷孕的婦人和奶孩子的女人有禍了！18你們要祈求，好讓這事不在冬天
發生。19因為那些日子必有災難，是從　神起初創造萬物到現在從未發生
過的，將來也必不再發生。20主若不縮短那些日子，沒有一個人能得救。*
不過，為了他所揀選的人，他把那些日子縮短了。

21「那時，如果有人對你們說『看啊，基督在這裏！』『看啊，基督在
那裏！』你們不要相信，22因為假基督和假先知*將會出現，行奇蹟奇事，如
果可能的話，也要迷惑　神所揀選的人。23你們要當心，我把一切都預先告
訴你們了。」

13:13 「名」指耶穌整個人和他所代表的一切。「為了我的名」或可意譯作「由於你們跟從我的緣故」。
13:14 「荒涼」或譯作「毀滅」。
13:14 「讀者」指讀但以理書的人。
13:20 「沒有一個人能得救」或譯作「凡是血肉之軀也不能得救」，宜譯作「一切肉體也不能得救」。
13:22 「假基督和假先知」，兩者都是複數名詞。

人子降臨（太24:29–31；路21:25–28）

24「災難過後，在那些日子裏，
太陽要變得昏黑，
月亮也黯然無光；
25 眾星要自天上隕落，
諸天的權勢*都要被震撼。
26「那時，人要看見人子帶着大能力和榮耀駕着雲彩來到。27那時，他
要差遣天使，從四方，從地極到天邊，召集他所揀選的人。」

無花果樹的比喻（太24:32–35；路21:29–33）

28「你們要學習這個從無花果樹來的比喻。當無花果樹的枝條變得柔
嫩，又長出葉子，你們就知道夏天快到了。29同樣，當你們看到這些事發
生，就知道人子快到了，就在門口了。30我實在告訴你們，這世代還沒有
過去，這一切的事都要發生。31天地都要消逝，我的話卻絕不消逝。」

眾人要隨時警醒（太24:36–44）

32「可是，那日子，那時刻，誰都不知道，連天上的天使也不知道，
子也不知道，只有父知道。33你們要當心，要警醒，因為你們不知道那時間
在甚麼時候來到。34這就好像一個人出外遠行，他離開了家，把權柄交了給
僕人，把工作分派給他們各人，又吩咐看門的人要警醒。35所以你們要
警醒，因為你們不知道這家的主人甚麼時候來，或傍晚，或半夜，或雞叫的
時候，或早晨，36免得他忽然來到，發現你們在睡覺。37我對你們說的話，
也是對眾人說的：你們要警醒！」

13:25 「諸天的權勢」或譯作「天上的萬象」。

14 殺害耶穌的陰謀

（太26:1-5；路22:1-2；約11:45-53）

[1]過兩天就是逾越節和除酵節*，祭司長和律法教師正想法子怎樣用計捉拿耶穌，把他殺掉。[2]他們說：「不可在節日期間，免得引發民眾騷亂。」

耶穌在伯大尼受膏（太26:6-13；約12:1-8）

[3]耶穌在伯大尼痲瘋病人西門家裏坐席的時候，有一個女人拿着一個盛了昂貴的純*哪噠*香膏的玉瓶來。她打破玉瓶，把香膏澆在耶穌的頭上。

[4]有幾個人很生氣，彼此說*：「為甚麼這樣浪費香膏呢？[5]這香膏至少可以賣三百得拿利*，救濟窮人嘛。」他們就責備這女人。

[6]耶穌卻說：「由她吧！為甚麼難為她呢？她在我身上做了一件美事。[7]常有窮人和你們在一起，只要你們願意，隨時都可以向他們行善，可是你們不常有我。[8]她已經盡了所能；她預先把香膏抹在我身上，是為我安葬的事做準備。[9]我實在告訴你們，在全世界任何地方傳這福音，人都要提起她所做的事來記念她。」

猶大出賣耶穌（太26:14-16；路22:3-6）

[10]十二使徒之一的加略人猶大去見祭司長，要把耶穌交給他們。[11]他們聽了就感到喜樂，答應給他銀錢。於是猶大就想法子看怎樣可以趁機把耶穌交出去。

14:1 「逾越節」：以色列人的一個重要節期。該節日是為了記念　神拯救以色列人的先祖離開埃及的恩惠。定於初春第一個月（即猶太曆亞筆月）的第十四日。「除酵節」：參出埃及記12:15-20。這節期是猶太人為記念先祖離開埃及而設，原指逾越節（尼散月十四日）隨後的七天。但按俗例，逾越節加上隨後七天，合共八日，也統稱為除酵節。從尼散月十四日的開始（黃昏時分）猶太人就要把家中的酵清除，直到第八日結束為止。尼散月十四日的下午，每家都要牽一隻羊羔到聖殿獻宰殺，當晚（即尼散月十五日）舉行逾越節晚餐，所以除酵節的頭一天（即尼散月十四日）是預備逾越節晚餐的日子。

14:3 「純」的意思有爭論。部分學者認為該詞是直譯作「阿月渾子樹」的亞蘭文名稱，這種樹的果仁所提煉出的油是當時香膏的主要成分（即馬利亞所擦來的是用哪噠油調和的阿月渾子油，並不太名貴）。但多數學者認為這詞源自另一詞，意思為「可信」、「真實」（即「信心」一詞），可解作「真」或「純」，因為它是純正的膏油，所以貴重。

14:3 「哪噠」即用「甘松香」（一種高大、有香味的多年生植物）煉製的「甘松油」。

14:4 「彼此說」或譯作「心裏說」。

14:5 「三百得拿利」約等於一個工人一年的薪酬。

最後的晚餐（太26:17-25；路22:7-14、21-23；約13:21-30）

[12]除酵節*的第一天，就是宰殺逾越節羊羔的日子，門徒問耶穌：「你要我們到哪裏去，為你預備逾越節的晚餐呢？」

[13]他就差遣兩個門徒，對他們說：「你們進城去，就必有一個人拿着一瓶水迎面而來。你們跟着他，[14]無論他進哪一家，你們就對哪家的主人說，『老師說：讓我和門徒吃逾越節晚餐的客房*在哪裏？』[15]他必給你們看樓上一間佈置好又預備好了的大房間，你們就在那裏為我們預備吧。」

[16]門徒就出去了。進了城，所見到的正如耶穌告訴他們的一樣。他們就預備好了逾越節的晚餐。

[17]傍晚，耶穌和十二使徒來了。[18]他們一同坐席吃飯的時候，耶穌說：「我實在告訴你們，你們當中有一個人要出賣我，這個人正和我一起吃飯。」

[19]他們非常難過，一個一個地問他：「不會是我吧？」*

[20]耶穌對他們說：「是十二使徒之一，就是那和我一同蘸餅在盤子裏的人。[21]人子固然要離去，正如經上指着他所記載的那樣，但出賣人子的那人有禍了！對那人來說，他沒生下來倒好。」

設立聖餐（太26:26-30；路22:14-20；林前11:23-25）

[22]他們吃飯的時候，耶穌拿起餅來，謝了恩，就擘開，遞給門徒，說：「你們拿去吧，這是我的身體。」[23]他又拿起杯來，獻上了感謝，就遞給他們，大家都喝了。[24]耶穌對他們說：「這是我的血，是立約*的血，為許多人

14:14 「客房」：當時，耶路撒冷的居民借出房間讓朝聖的人吃逾越節晚餐是很普遍的事。通常借用房間的人，會把逾越節羊羔的皮和晚餐的餐具留下給屋主作酬謝。

14:19 「不會是我吧」：若把這個問句譯作「是我嗎？」語帶疑慮，不符原文語氣。其實問者心中已有答案，譯作「不是我吧？」應較合適，因為問者期待的是一個否定的答案。

14:24 「約」：有古抄本作「新約」。

流出來。[25]我實在告訴你們，我不再喝這葡萄酒*，直到我在　神的國裏喝新酒的那一天。」

[26]他們唱了詩歌*，就出來往橄欖山去。

耶穌預言彼得不認自己（太26:31–35；路22:31–34；約13:36–38）

[27]耶穌對他們說：「你們所有人都要絆倒，因為經上記着：

『我要擊打牧人，
羊羣就分散了。』

[28]不過，我復活以後，要在你們之前到加利利去。」

[29]彼得對他說：「即或所有人都絆倒，我也不會。」

[30]耶穌對他說：「我實在告訴你，今天，就在今夜*，雞叫兩遍以前，你要三次不認我。」

[31]彼得越發懇切地說：「就是要我跟你一起去死，我也決不會不認你。」大家都是這樣說。

客西馬尼（太26:36–39；路22:39–44）

[32]他們來到一個名叫客西馬尼*的地方，耶穌對門徒說：「你們坐在這裏，我去禱告。」[33]於是他帶着彼得、雅各、約翰一起去了。耶穌驚懼起來，極其難過，[34]就對他們說：「我的心憂傷得要死。你們留在這裏，要警醒。」

[35]往前走了不遠，他就伏在地上，禱告說，如果可能的話，願那時刻離

14:25 「葡萄酒」或譯作「葡萄汁」。原文指葡萄樹的產品。
14:26 「唱了詩歌」：按當時的傳統，逾越節晚餐後會唱詩篇第115至118篇。
14:30 「今天，就在今夜」：猶太人計算一天的方法是由日落開始至明天日落為止。
14:32 「客西馬尼」：這名字的意思是「油榨」。這地方位於汲淪谷的東面、橄欖山的山麓（路22:39；約18:1）。約翰福音告訴我們這裏是一個園子（這節譯作「地方」的那詞也可譯作「莊園」），是耶穌和門徒常去的地方。

開他。[36]他說：「阿爸，父啊，對你來說，一切都是可能的，求你拿走這杯*。但是，不要依我的意思，要依你的旨意。」

吩咐門徒警醒（太26:40–46；路22:45–46）

[37]耶穌回來，見他們睡着了，就對彼得說：「西門，你睡着了嗎？你不能警醒一個小時嗎？[38]你們要警醒、禱告，免得陷入試探。你們的心靈固然願意，肉體卻是軟弱的。」

[39]耶穌又走開，去禱告，說的還是同樣的話。[40]耶穌又回來，見他們睡着了，因為他們的眼皮沉重得睜不開；他們也不知道怎麼回答耶穌。

[41]耶穌第三次回來，對他們說：「你們還要睡覺，還要休息嗎？夠了，時候到了。看啊，人子被交在罪人手裏了。[42]起來，我們走吧。看啊，那個出賣我的人來了！」

耶穌被捕（太26:47–56；路22:47–53；約18:3–12）

[43]耶穌還在說話的時候，十二使徒之一的猶大隨即來到。又有一羣人拿刀拿棒跟着他同來，他們都是祭司長、律法教師和長老派來的。

[44]那個出賣耶穌的人已經和他們定了一個暗號，說：「我親誰，誰就是了。你們要抓住他，帶走他的時候，要嚴密看守。」[45]猶大來了，立刻就到耶穌跟前，說：「拉比！」然後親吻了他。[46]那些人就向耶穌下手，把他抓住。

[47]旁邊站着的人中，有一個拔出刀來，砍了大祭司的僕人一刀，削掉了他的一隻耳朵。

[48]耶穌對那些人說：「你們拿刀拿棒出來捉拿我，好像對付強盜那樣嗎？[49]我天天跟你們在一起，在聖殿裏教導人，你們卻不抓我。不過，這是要應驗經上所記的話。」[50]門徒全都撇下耶穌逃跑了。

14:36 「杯」：在聖經的用法不單指苦難，更指　神的憤怒和審判（參詩11:6，75:7–8；賽51:19、22；耶25:15–16、27–29，49:12，51:57；哀4:21；結23:31–34；哈2:16；亞12:2等）。

[51]有一個年輕人光着身子，只披着一塊麻布，尾隨着耶穌。那些人抓住他，[52]他就丟下麻布，光着身子逃跑了。

耶穌在公議會受審（太26:57–58；路22:54–55、63–71；約18:13–14、19–24）

[53]他們把耶穌帶到大祭司那裏。所有的祭司長、長老和律法教師都來聚集。

[54]彼得遠遠地跟着耶穌，一直到了大祭司的院子裏面，和差役坐在一起，靠近火堆取暖。

[55]祭司長和全公議會*的人都想尋找證據指控耶穌，好處死他，卻找不到甚麼。[56]有許多人作偽證指控耶穌，但他們的見證並不一致。[57]有些人站起來，作偽證指控耶穌，說：[58]「我們曾聽他說：『我要拆毀這座人手所造的聖殿，三天之內另建一座不是人手所造的。』」[59]可是他們連這個見證也是這樣不一致。

[60]大祭司起來站在中間，問耶穌說：「這些人作證告你的事，你甚麼都不回答嗎？」[61]耶穌默不做聲，一句也不回答。

大祭司又問他說：「你是那受稱頌者的兒子基督嗎？」

[62]耶穌說：「我是。你們要看見人子坐在大能者的右邊，並要駕着天上的雲彩來到。」

[63]大祭司就撕破自己的衣服，說：「難道我們還需要證人嗎？[64]你們都聽見這褻瀆的話了。你們認為怎樣？」

他們全都判定他應該處死。[65]於是有些人開始向他吐唾沫，又蒙住他的臉，揮拳打他，對他說：「說預言吧！」*差役也打他耳光。

彼得三次不認耶穌（太26:69–75；路22:56–62；約18:15–18、25–27）

[66]彼得在下面的院子裏，這時，大祭司的一個婢女走過來。[67]她看見

14:55 「公議會」是猶太人的宗教法庭，處理所有與猶太律法有關的宗教事務和訴訟，也負責維持地方的治安。

14:65 有古抄本作「猜猜看，是誰打你啊！」

彼得在取暖，就盯*着他說：「你也是和拿撒勒人耶穌一夥的。」

[68]彼得卻否認，說：「我不知道，也不明白你在說甚麼。」他走了出去，到了前院，雞就叫了。

[69]那婢女看見彼得，又開始對站在旁邊的人說：「這個人是跟他們一夥的。」[70]彼得再次否認。

過了不久，站在旁邊的人又對彼得說：「你肯定是跟他們一夥的，因為你也是加利利人。」

[71]彼得賭咒發誓說：「我不認識你們說的那個人！」

[72]立時，雞叫了第二遍。彼得想起耶穌對他說過的話：「雞叫兩遍以前，你要三次不認我。」他就忍不住哭了。

15 把耶穌押交彼拉多

（太27:1–2、11–26；路23:1–5、13–25；約18:28–19:16）

[1]一到早晨，祭司長和長老、律法教師及全公議會的人商議之後，就把耶穌綁起來，帶去交給彼拉多。

[2]彼拉多問他：「你是猶太人的王嗎？」

耶穌回答：「是你說的。」

[3]祭司長指控了耶穌許多的事。[4]彼拉多又問他說：「你甚麼也不回答嗎？你看，他們控告你的事不少啊。」

[5]耶穌還是甚麼也不回答，使彼拉多感到驚奇。

[6]每逢這節期，彼拉多都會按照羣眾的要求給他們釋放一個囚犯。[7]當時有一個人叫巴拉巴，和作亂的人囚禁在一起，那些作亂的人在動亂中曾殺過人。

[8]羣眾上去，開始要求彼拉多按一向的做法給他們辦理。

[9]彼拉多對他們說：「你們願意我給你們釋放猶太人的王嗎？」[10]他知道祭司長是因為嫉妒才把耶穌交給他。

[11]可是祭司長煽動羣眾，寧願要彼拉多給他們釋放巴拉巴。

14:67 「盯」：這一節前後出現兩個表示「看」的詞。就這個詞來說，不是指一般的看，而是「定睛看」或「盯着」的意思。

12彼拉多又對他們說：「那麼，你們稱為猶太人的王的那個人，你們想我怎樣處置呢？」

13他們喊叫說：「把他釘十字架！」

14彼拉多對他們說：「他到底做了甚麼惡事呢？」

他們卻越發喊叫：「把他釘十字架！」

15彼拉多想要討好羣眾，就給他們釋放了巴拉巴，把耶穌鞭打了，然後把他交給人釘十字架。

士兵戲弄耶穌（太27:27–31；約19:2–3）

16士兵把耶穌帶到總督府的院子裏，召來了全營*的士兵。17他們給耶穌穿上紫色的袍子，又用荊棘編成冠冕，給他戴上，18然後開始向他致敬說：「猶太人的王萬歲！」19他們用一根蘆葦抽打他的頭，向他吐唾沫，又跪下來拜他。20他們戲弄完了，就脫掉他那件紫色的袍子，給他穿上他自己的衣服，帶他去釘十字架。

耶穌被釘十字架（太27:32–44；路23:26–43；約19:17–27）

21有一個古利奈*人西門，是亞歷山大和魯孚的父親，從鄉間來，經過那裏，士兵就強迫*他背上耶穌的十字架。22他們把耶穌帶到各各他地（翻譯出來就是「髑髏地」），23又拿混了沒藥的酒給耶穌，但他不接受。24他們把耶穌釘在十字架上，又分他的衣服，抽籤看誰得甚麼。25他們把耶穌釘在十字架上的時候是第三時*。26他的罪狀牌上寫着：「猶太人的王。」

27他們又把兩個強盜和耶穌一起釘十字架，一個在他右邊，一個在他左邊。*

15:16 「全營」：在羅馬的編制中，「營」是一個「軍團」的1/10，有600人。這裏可能指當時駐守在那裏的所有士兵，而並非正式的軍事名稱。
15:21 「古利奈」是非洲北部省份的重要城鎮，是早期希臘的殖民地。
15:21 「強迫」：羅馬官兵可以隨時徵召路人作腳夫。
15:25 「第三時」即上午9時。

29那些路過的人辱罵*他，搖着頭，說：「嘿，你這個要拆毀聖殿、在三天內再把它建造起來的，30從十字架上下來，救救自己吧！」

31祭司長和律法教師也同樣譏笑他，彼此說：「他救了別人，卻救不了自己。32這個基督，以色列的王，現在就從十字架上下來吧，讓我們看看，我們就相信了。」那些和他一同被釘十字架的人也奚落他。

耶穌之死（太27:45–56；路23:44–49；約19:28–30）

33從第六時*起，黑暗籠罩了整個大地，直到第九時*。34第九時，耶穌大聲喊叫：「以羅伊，以羅伊，拉馬撒巴各大尼？」翻譯出來就是：「我的神，我的 神，為甚麼離棄我？」

35站在旁邊的人，有些聽見了就說：「看啊，他呼叫以利亞呢！」

36有一個人跑去，把海綿蘸滿了醋*，綁在蘆葦上遞給耶穌喝，說：「等一等，讓我們看看以利亞會不會來把他放下來。」

37耶穌大喊一聲，就斷了氣。

38聖殿裏的幔幛從上到下裂成兩半。

39站在耶穌對面的百夫長，看見他這樣斷氣*，就說：「這人真是 神的兒子！」

40還有些婦女從遠處觀看，其中有抹大拉的馬利亞、小雅各和約西的母親馬利亞，以及撒羅米41（耶穌在加利利的時候，她們就跟隨他，服侍他），又有許多別的婦女，都是和耶穌一起上耶路撒冷來的。

15:27 有古抄本加第28節：「這就應驗了經上所記：『他被列在罪犯當中。』」
15:29 「辱罵」直譯作「褻瀆」。
15:33 「第六時」即正午12時。
15:33 「第九時」即下午3時。
15:36 「醋」或譯作「酸酒」。
15:39 「這樣斷氣」：有古抄本作「這樣喊叫斷氣」。

安葬耶穌（太27:57-61；路23:50-56；約19:38-42）

42由於那天是預備日*，就是安息日的前一天，因此，傍晚，43亞利馬太人約瑟就來了，放膽進去見彼拉多，請求要耶穌的遺體。這人是公議會一個尊貴的成員，一向殷切地期待　神的國。44彼拉多聽見耶穌已經死了，感到驚奇，就召來百夫長，問他耶穌是不是死了很久。45他從百夫長那裏知道了這個事實，就把耶穌的遺體給了約瑟。

46於是約瑟買了細麻布，把耶穌取下來，用細麻布裹好，安放在岩石中鑿出來的墳墓裏，又滾來一塊石頭，堵住墳墓門口。47抹大拉的馬利亞和約西的母親馬利亞，都看見安放耶穌的地方。

16 耶穌復活

（太28:1-8；路24:1-12；約20:1-10）

1過了安息日，抹大拉的馬利亞、雅各的母親馬利亞和撒羅米買了香膏，要去抹在耶穌身上。2一週的第一天清早，太陽剛升起，她們就來到墳墓那裏，3彼此說：「誰可以給我們滾開墳墓門口的石頭呢？」4她們抬頭一看，見那石頭已經滾開了，那是一塊很大的石頭。5她們進了墳墓，看見一個身穿白袍的年輕人坐在右邊，就感到驚訝。

6那年輕人對她們說：「不要驚訝，你們尋找那被釘十字架的拿撒勒人耶穌，他已經復活了，不在這裏。來看看安放他的地方。7你們去，告訴他的門徒和彼得：『他要在你們之前到加利利去，你們在那裏將要見到他，正如他曾告訴你們的那樣。』」

8她們渾身顫抖，驚慌失措，就走出來，從墳墓那裏逃走了。她們甚麼也沒有告訴任何人，因為她們害怕。*

15:42 「預備日」是當時稱安息日前一天（約等於今日的星期五）的專有名詞。這一天猶太人要做完安息日不准做的事，預備過安息日（參42-43節），所以叫「預備日」。

16:8 三個結語版本：根據抄本證據，馬可福音這卷書在此之後有三個不同的版本：（1）一個在此結束；（2）一個加上了較長的結語，與在此結束的抄本可靠性相仿；（3）另一個加上了較短的結語，可靠性不高。現把它們一併譯出。

較長的結語：*

耶穌向抹大拉的馬利亞顯現（太28:9-10；約20:11-18）

[9一週的第一天清早，*耶穌復活了，首先向抹大拉的馬利亞顯現；耶穌曾經從她身上趕出七個鬼。10她去告訴那些向來跟隨耶穌的人，那時他們正在哀傷痛哭。11他們聽見耶穌活了，有馬利亞看見這事，他們卻是不相信。]

耶穌向兩個門徒顯現（路24:13-36）

[12這些事以後，門徒中有兩個人往鄉下去，正走着的時候，耶穌用另一個形像向他們顯現。13他們就去告訴其餘的門徒，但那些門徒也是不相信。]

耶穌向十一個門徒顯現（太28:16-20；路24:36-49；約20:19-23；徒1:6-8）

[14後來，十一個使徒坐席的時候，耶穌向他們顯現，責備他們不信和心硬，因為他們不相信那些在他復活以後見過他的人。]

[15他又對他們說：「你們要到全世界去，向所有人*傳福音。16信而受洗的人必定得救，那不信的人必被定罪。17信的人，將有神蹟伴隨着他們：他們要奉我的名趕鬼；說新的方言；18用手拿蛇；若喝了致命的東西，也絕不會受傷害；按手在病人身上，病人就好了。」]

耶穌升天（路24:50-53；徒1:9-11）

[19主耶穌跟他們說完了話以後，就被接到天上去，坐在　神的右邊。20於是門徒出去，到處傳福音。主和他們一起工作，藉着伴隨的神蹟證實所傳的道。]

16:8 「較長的結語」：有部分可靠的古抄本是以下文9-20節來結束這卷福音書的。

16:9 「一週的第一天清早」：參16:2。

16:15 「所有人」直譯作「所有受造物」。

較短的結語：†

[她們立刻††向彼得和他周圍的人講述耶穌所吩咐的一切。這些事以後，耶穌親自藉着他們，把那神聖不朽的、關於永遠救恩的信息，從東到西傳揚出去。阿們。]

† 「較短的結語」：有部分古抄本是以下文的話作為整卷福音書的結尾。
†† 「立刻」或譯作「簡短地」。

The Right Path and Right Responsibilities —the Qur'an

Islam (伊斯蘭教), the religion of Muslims (伊斯蘭教徒), is a global religion with believers all over the world—in Muslim-majority countries such as Egypt (North Africa), Saudi Arabia, Iraq (West Asia), Pakistan (Central Asia) and Indonesia (South-east Asia), and as minority populations in places such as France and China, including Hong Kong. According to a demographic study by an American think tank and public opinion research organization, by 2009, there were 1.57 billion Muslims in the world, nearly one quarter of the humankind[1]. In modern times, Islam-related themes, such as modernization and conservatism in Islam, Islamic finance, and political turmoil in the Muslim-majority states, have come to occupy pages in the international news and academic studies. Islam is so relevant and so close to us, but how much do we know about it? How much do we know about the Qur'an—the Holy Book and the core of the religion?

Islam originated in the seventh century in the city of Mecca (麥加), located in present-day Saudi Arabia. According to the Islamic tradition, Muhammad (570–632), who was born in Mecca, began to receive revelations at the age of 40 and became the messenger of Allah (安拉, 真主), the God of Islam. Muslims believe that Allah—i.e. the God—sent down the same religious faith to earlier prophets such as Abraham, Moses and Jesus (2:135–136), but the Jews and the Christians perverted (2:75) its message afterwards. Therefore, the mission of Muhammad, God's final prophet, was to show the right path to the true or original faith in Allah. After experiencing difficult times in his missionary work, including periods of rejection, persecution and fights against enemies, Muhammad finally revitalized this faith in the one god, and it is called Islam (伊斯蘭). Moreover, in the context

[1] Pew Research Center's Forum on Religion & Public Life. *Mapping the Global Muslim Population: A Report on the Size and Distribution of the World's Muslim Population*. October 2009. http://www.pewforum.org/newassets/images/reports/muslimpopulation/muslimpopulation.pdf. Accessed on 14 Dec 2012.

of polytheism in Mecca, his mission could also be seen as an attempt to unify various clans into one single community by replacing their own family gods with one single God.

The revelation that Muhammad received is what we nowadays call the Qur'an, and Muslims around the world read or recite it every day with the highest esteem. The word *qur'an* in Arabic means reading or recitation. For Muslims, the Qur'an is a word-for-word record of Allah's speeches to Muhammad. The speeches were recited, recorded and later collected as a book by Muhammad's followers. With a total of 114 chapters, the Qur'an is divided into *Suras* (or chapters) of Mecca and *Suras* of Medina (the second city where Muhammad received the revelation). For Muslims, the Qur'an is the most authoritative, greatest and clearest instruction that Allah has given to the world, in which Muslims can find guidance and the road to salvation.

The selected reading here is Sura 2, "The Cow" (黃牛篇). It is the longest in the Qur'an. The reasons for the selection are manifold. First, scholars generally agree that it is the first Medina chapter, which represents the emergence of Islam as a religious and political community. By studying Sura 2, we can analyze the reason why this community came to be, and understand the way of its development, its mission to the world, and expectations placed on its members, i.e. the Muslims. Second, we can also catch a glimpse of the fundamentals of Islam by reading this Sura which outlines some basic Islamic beliefs and duties, including what we now call the Six Articles of Faith (六信) and the Five Pillars (五功). Finally, it discusses the social obligations and rules of this emergent community such as taking up arms for Allah, care of the needy and practices of divorce. While reading it, we can critically re-examine the image of Muslims that is portrayed in the mass media—as associated with violence and male superiority, for example.

The translation of the Qur'an is by Tarif Khalidi, a Muslim professor in Islamic studies, who translated directly from the Arabic scripture.

Andy C. Yu

from

The Qur'an

THE COW

In the name of God,
Merciful to all,
Compassionate to each!

Alif Lam Mim *

[Verses 1–20 are omitted. Men are classified into three groups according to the way they receive Allah's message: the believers, the unbelievers, and those who claim they believe but do not really believers.]

O People! Worship your Lord Who created you as well as those who came before you. Perhaps you will fear Him. [2:21]

It is He Who made the earth a bed for you, the sky a canopy; Who causes water to descend from the sky with which He brings forth fruits as sustenance for you. Do not, therefore, set up any equals to God when you know better.

[* *A glossary of the terms marked with an asterisk is given at the end of the text on p.119.*]

From *The Qur'an*, translated by Tarif Khalidi (Penguin Books, 2008, 2009). Translation copyright © Tarif Khalidi 2008. Reproduced by permission of Penguin Books Ltd.

If you doubt what We revealed to Our servant, bring forth one *sura* like it. And summon your witnesses, any other than God, if you are truthful. But if you do not, and surely you will not, beware of the Fire whose fuel is mankind and stones,
2:24 made ready for the unbelievers.

Proclaim glad tidings to those who have believed and done good deeds: for them there are Gardens beneath which rivers flow. Whenever they are offered its fruits as sustenance, they say: "This is what we were provided with before"—all alike in excellence is their provision.

In these Gardens they have immaculate spouses.
2:25 In them they abide eternally.

God shies not from drawing a parable even from an insect, or else anything large or small.
Those who believe know it is the truth from their Lord.
Those who disbelieve say: "What did God intend by this parable?"
God thereby leads many astray,
And guides many.
But the dissolute alone He leads astray,
They who violate God's covenant after God had established it,
Who sever what God commanded to be joined,
Who sow discord on earth.
2:27 These are the losers.

How can you disbelieve in God when you were once dead, and He granted you life?
He shall cause you to die,
Then He shall resurrect you,
Then to Him you shall return.
It is He Who created for you all that is on earth. Then He ascended to heaven, and arrayed them in seven heavens.
2:29 All-Knowing is He.

And remember when God said to the angels: "I shall appoint a deputy on earth," and they answered: "Will you place therein one who sows discord and sheds blood

while we chant Your praises and proclaim Your holiness?"
God said: "I know what you do not." 2:30

He taught Adam the names of all things. Then He displayed them to the angels and said: "Tell me the names of these things, if you are truthful."
They said: "Glory be to You! We have no knowledge except what You taught us. You! You are All-Knowing, All-Wise." 2:32
God said: "O Adam, reveal to them their names." When Adam revealed their names, God said: "Did I not tell you that I know the Unseen of the heavens and the earth? That I know what you make public and what you hide?" 2:33

And remember when God said to the angels: "Kneel before Adam"; they knelt, all except Satan, who disdained, grew proud and became an unbeliever.
We said: "O Adam, inhabit the Garden, you and your wife. Eat from it in comfort and ease, wherever you wish. But do not come near this tree, or else you will transgress." Satan seduced them away from it, and caused them to leave their earlier abode.
We said: "Go down, an enemy each to each! On earth you will find habitation and a certain term of life." 2:36

And Adam obeyed the words of his Lord, and his Lord pardoned him.
He is Ever-Ready to pardon; He is Compassionate to each.
We said: "Go down from it, all of you. And when My guidance comes to you, whoever follows My guidance, no fear shall fall upon them, nor shall they grieve. But those who disbelieve and call Our wonders lies, these are the people of the Fire, in which they shall abide for ever." 2:39

Children of Israel, remember My bounty which I bestowed upon you.
Fulfil My covenant and I shall fulfil yours. It is Me you should fear!
Believe in that which I have revealed, confirming what you possess.
Do not be the first to blaspheme against it.
Do not sell away My revelations for a paltry sum. It is Me you should revere!
Do not confound truth with falsehood, and knowingly repress the truth.
Offer up prayers; hand out alms; kneel in prayer with those who kneel.
How can you command people to do good and forget yourselves, all the while reciting the Book? Do you not understand?

Seek help in patience and prayer, prayer that is indeed burdensome except for the devout, for those who believe they will meet their Lord, and that to Him they
2:46 shall return.

[Verses 47–66 are omitted. The Children of Israel are called upon to remember the story of their ancestors. It was with God's help that Moses and his fellow Israelites were able to leave Egypt and be free from the persecution of the Pharaoh. God gave Moses the Book and the Criterion as guidance, and was forgiving and compassionate even though the Israelites became evil and disobedient, worshipping the calf as idol, killing their prophets, etc.]

[2:67] Remember when Moses said to his people: "God commands you to slaughter a cow."

They said: "Are you mocking us?"

He said: "God be my refuge that I should traduce His message!"

They said: "Pray to your Lord that He spell out for us what she may be."

He said: "God says it is a cow, neither old nor a heifer, but midway between. So perform what you have been commanded."

They said: "Pray to your Lord that He spell out her colour for us."

He said: "He says it is a yellow cow, very bright in colour, a joy to behold."

They said: "Pray to your Lord that He point her out to us, for cows are all alike to us and we, God willing, shall be guided."

He said: "He says it is a cow neither yoked to plough the earth nor to water the sown, a cow wholesome and all of one colour."

They said: "Now you speak the truth."

2:71 So they slaughtered it, having come close to not doing so.

Remember when you killed a soul, and how you quarrelled about the matter. But God always reveals what you hide.

So We said: "Strike the dead man with a piece of the cow."

This is how God resurrects the dead and reveals His wonders to you; perhaps you will understand.

Then your hearts grew hard,
Becoming like rocks, or even harder;
For among rocks there are some from which streams gush,
And some have cracks from which water flows,

And some which roll down from fear of God.
But God is not unmindful of what you do. 2:74

Do you really expect them to believe in the message sent to you, when a group among them would hear the speech of God and then pervert it, knowingly, after having grasped its meaning?

Thus, when they meet the believers, they tell them: "We believe." But when they meet one another in private, they say: "Do you speak to them of what God has revealed to you so that they dispute with you before your Lord? Have you no understanding?"

Know they not that God knows what they conceal and what they proclaim? 2:77

Among them too are unlettered folk who understand Scripture only as false hopes. But they are living in illusion.

Wretched too are those who write Scripture with their own hands and then claim it to be from God, that they may sell it for a small price!

Woe to them for what their hands have written!

Woe to them for the profit they made! 2:79

They say: "The Fire shall touch us for a few days only."

Say to them: "Have you a compact with God? God does not go back on His pledge. Or do you impute to God that which you know not?"

Rather, he who engenders an evil deed, and his sin engulfs him—these are the inhabitants of the Fire, dwelling therein for ever.

But those who believe and do good works, they are the inhabitants of the Garden, dwelling therein for ever. 2:82

Remember when We made a covenant with the Children of Israel that "You worship none but God; be kind to parents, kinsmen, orphans and the poor; speak kindly to people; perform the prayer and give alms." Then you turned away, all but a few among you, recanting. 2:83

Remember when We made a covenant with you that "You shall not shed one another's blood, nor shall you drive one another out of your homes." You compacted thus and you yourselves stood witness. But there you are, killing one another and

driving one party among you from their homes, joining forces against them in sin and aggression. Yet, if they come to you as captives, you pay their ransom, even though their expulsion was a thing forbidden to you.

Do you then believe in one portion of the Book and disbelieve in another?

What recompense for one who does this but shame in this present life, and on the Day of Resurrection, away to a punishment most dire?

2:85 God is not unmindful of what you do.

Those who have purchased the present life in exchange for the afterlife, for them
2:86 punishment shall not be lightened, nor shall they find any to help them.

We revealed the Book to Moses, and We sent after him messengers in succession; and We granted Jesus son of Mary evident miracles and strengthened him with the Holy Spirit. Whenever a messenger came to you with a message contrary to your whims, did you not grow arrogant, calling some liars and killing others? They said: "Our hearts are shrouded." Rather, God cursed them for their unbelief. Little is their
2:88 faith.

[Verses 89–108 are omitted. The Children of Israel are further criticized for their lack of faith in God's revelations and for worshipping many gods. They were unhappy that God's grace should extend beyond them to reach whomsoever He wills. They would accept only older revelations and prophets, rejecting the new Truth conveyed by later prophets like Jesus and Muhammad.]

Among the People of the Book there are many who wish they could turn you back to unbelief after you have embraced the faith. This they do out of the envy of their souls, and once the truth has become clear to them.
Forgive and pardon—that is, until God reveals His command.
2:109 God has power over all things.

Perform the prayer and hand out alms.
Any good deed you do, laid by for your souls in this life,
You shall surely find with God.
2:110 God sees full well what you do.

They say: "Only Jews and Christians will enter the Garden." Such are their fancies!

Say to them: "Show me your proof if you speak the truth."

Yes, indeed. He who surrenders his face to God in all piety shall receive his reward from his Lord. No fear shall fall upon them, nor shall they grieve. 2:112

The Jews say the Christians count for nothing; the Christians say the Jews count for nothing; yet both recite the Book. The ignorant repeat their statements.

God shall judge between them on the Day of Resurrection regarding that upon which they differ. 2:113

Who is more impious than he who forbids the houses of God's worship from mention of His name, and devotes himself to their destruction? These shall not enter them except in fear. Shame is their lot in this world, and terrible punishment in the next. 2:114

To God belongs the East and the West.
Wherever you turn, there is the face of God.
God is All-Encompassing, All-Knowing.
They say: "God has fathered a child."
Glory be to Him! To Him, rather, belongs all that is in the heavens and on earth.
All mankind obeys Him.
Marvellous Creator of the heavens and the earth!
When He decrees a matter, He merely says to it: "Be!" and it is. 2:117

The ignorant say: "If only God would speak to us! If only a sign would descend upon us!"

This too was said by past generations, word for word. Their minds are much alike.

But We have made clear these signs to a people of firm faith. 2:118

We have sent you with the Truth,
A herald of good tidings,
A bearer of warning.
You are not accountable for the denizens of hell. 2:119

Jews and Christians will not approve of you unless you follow their religion.

Say: "God's guidance is true guidance."

If you follow their whims after the Knowledge which has come to you, you will have in God neither patron nor champion. Those to whom We revealed the Book recite it as it should rightly be recited. They believe in it. But those who
2:121 repudiate it, they are truly lost.

Children of Israel, remember My bounty, and that I preferred you above all mankind. Fear a Day when no soul can atone one whit for another; when no ransom is accepted for it, when no intercession can do it any good, and no helpers are
2:123 at hand.

Remember when his Lord tested Abraham with certain rulings and how Abraham fulfilled them.

God said: "I shall appoint you an exemplar to mankind."

Abraham said: "And also my descendants."

God said: "Evildoers shall not enjoy My covenant."

Remember when We set up the House as a place frequented by mankind, a sanctuary: "Take the station of Abraham as a place of worship." And We thus commanded Abraham and Ishmael: "To sanctify My House for those who circle around it, those who seclude themselves in it and those who bow and prostrate
2:125 themselves in prayer."

Remember when Abraham said: "Lord, make this city a sanctuary and bless its people with sustenance, those of them who believe in God and the Last Day."

God said: "As for him who disbelieves, I shall grant him brief enjoyment and
2:126 then shall consign him to the torment of the Fire, a wretched fate indeed."

Remember when Abraham and Ishmael were raising up the foundations of the House:
"Our Lord, accept this from us,
You are All-Hearing, All-Knowing.
Our Lord, make us surrender ourselves to You,
And from our descendants a nation which surrenders itself to You.

Show us our holy rituals,
And forgive us. You are All-Forgiving, All-Merciful.
Our Lord, send them a messenger, of their number,
Who shall recite to them Your verses,
Teaching them the Book and the Wisdom,
And who shall purify them.
You are the Almighty, the All-Wise." 2:129

Who can wilfully abandon the religion of Abraham unless it be one who makes a fool of himself? We chose Abraham in this world, and in the hereafter he shall be among the righteous. 2:130

Remember when his Lord said to him: "Surrender!" and he said: "I surrender to the Lord of the Worlds." Abraham entrusted his children with this commandment, as did Jacob: "My children, God has chosen the pure religion for you. Depart not from this life except as those who surrender."

Or were you witnesses when death came to Jacob?

When he said to his sons: "Whom will you worship when I am gone?"

They said: "We shall worship your Lord, and the Lord of your fathers Abraham, Ishmael and Isaac: One God. To Him we surrender." 2:133

That was a nation which passed away.
They have earned their reward, and you have earned yours.
You will not be held responsible for what they did. 2:134

They say: "Become Jews or Christians and you will be guided aright."

Say: "Rather, the religion of Abraham, of pristine faith. Nor was he a polytheist."
Say: "We believe in God, and in what was revealed to us,
In what was revealed to Abraham, to Ishmael, to Isaac and Jacob and the Tribes,
In what was revealed to Moses and Jesus,
In what was revealed to prophets by their Lord.
We make no distinction between any of them,
And to Him we surrender." 2:136

If they then believe in what you believe, they are guided aright. If they turn away, it is they who are in discord. God will deal with them on your behalf. He is All-Hearing, All-Knowing.

The hue of God is upon us! And what better hue than God's?

It is Him we worship.

Say: "Do you argue with us concerning God, He being our Lord and your Lord, and we have our works and you have yours, while to Him we remain sincere? Or are you saying that Abraham, Ishmael, Isaac, Jacob and the Tribes were Jews or Christians?"

Say: "Are you more knowledgeable or is God?"

Who is more unjust than he who keeps hidden a testament he has from God?

2:140 God is not unaware of what you do.

That was a nation which passed away.
They have earned their reward, and you have earned yours.
2:141 You will not be held responsible for what they did.

Foolish people shall say: "What turned them away from the direction of prayer they once followed?"

Say: "To God belongs the East and the West. He guides whomsoever He wills
2:142 onto a straight path."

Thus, We have appointed you as a median nation,
To be witnesses for mankind,
And the Prophet to be a witness for you.

And We did not appoint the direction of prayer which you once followed, except to distinguish him who follows the Prophet from him who turns on his heels. This change of direction was indeed a grave matter, except for those whom God has guided. But God would not allow your earlier faith to have been in vain.

2:143 Towards mankind, God is All-Caring, Compassionate to each.

We have seen you turning your face from side to side in the heavens,
So We will now turn you towards a direction that will please you:
Turn your face towards the Sacred Mosque.
Wherever you may be, turn your faces towards it.

Those granted the Book know that this is the truth from their Lord.
God is not unaware of what they do. 2:144

Were you to come to those granted the Book with every kind of manifest proof, they would not follow your direction. Nor will you follow their direction. Nor indeed do some of them follow the direction of others. Were you to follow their whims, after having received Knowledge, you would then be truly unjust.

Those to whom We brought the Book know it as well as they know their own children.

Some of them suppress the truth knowingly.

This is the Truth from your Lord: be not among those who doubt. 2:147

For every community there is a direction towards which it turns;
Therefore, hasten to charitable deeds.
Wherever you may be, God will ultimately gather you in.
God has power over all things.
From any place you leave, turn your face towards the Sacred Mosque.
It is indeed the Truth from your Lord;
God is not unaware of what you do.
From any place you leave, turn your face towards the Sacred Mosque.
In any place you may be, turn your faces towards it,
So that people can have no argument against you, except for the unfair among them.
These you should not fear.
Rather, fear Me, so that I can complete My bounty upon you,
And that you may be guided aright. 2:150

Likewise, We sent among you a messenger, reciting Our verses to you, purifying you,
And teaching you the Book and Wisdom:
Teaching you that which you knew not.
So remember Me and I will remember you. 2:152
Give Me thanks, and do not blaspheme.

O believers, seek help in patience and prayer;
God stands with those who are patient.
Do not say about those who are killed in the cause of God that they are dead;
2:154 They are indeed alive, but you do not perceive them.

We shall be testing you with some fear and famine, with loss of wealth, lives and crops:
But give glad tidings to the patient,
To those who, when calamity strikes;
Say: "We belong to God, and to Him we shall return."
Upon them descend blessings from God and mercy.
2:157 They are guided aright.

Al-Safa and al-Marwa* are among the rites of God. As for him who performs the Greater Pilgrimage to the Sacred House or else the Lesser, no blame shall attach to him if he circumambulates them. He who voluntarily does so, in piety, to him God shall be All-Acknowledging, All-Knowing. Those, however, who suppress what We brought down of evident signs and Guidance, after We have made it clear to mankind in the Book, those God shall curse, and all who curse shall curse them—except for those who repent and reform their conduct and proclaim their faith. These
2:160 I shall forgive. And I am All-Forgiving, Compassionate to each.

Those who blaspheme and die as unbelievers, upon them shall descend the curse of God, of the angels and of all mankind, and under that curse they shall abide eternally. Their torment shall not be lessened, nor shall any defence be accepted from them.
Your God is One God. There is no god but He, Merciful to all, Compassionate
2:163 to each.

In the creation of the heavens and the earth,
In the cycle of night and day,
In ships that plough the sea, to mankind's benefit,
In what God causes to descend from the sky of water,
Giving life to the earth, hitherto dead,

And peopling it with all manner of crawling creatures,
In varying the winds and clouds, which run their course between sky and earth—
In these are signs for people who reflect. 2:164

Among people there are those who, instead of God, attach themselves to peers whom they love as much as they love God. But the faithful love God most. If only the unjust would realize, when they face torment, that all power belongs to God, that God is terrible in punishment! Those who were followed would then disown their followers, they would see the torment, and the links between them would be severed. The followers will say: "If only we could have another chance, we would disown them as they disowned us." Thus will God show them their deeds as deepest remorse. Nor will they ever leave the Fire. 2:167

O mankind, eat what issues from the earth: all is licit and good for you. Do not follow in the footsteps of Satan. He is indeed your manifest enemy. He merely commands you to commit evil and debauchery and to speak about God that which you do not know. 2:169

And when it is said to them: "Follow what God has brought down," they answer: "We would rather follow that which we found our ancestors have practised." How so, when their ancestors understood nothing, nor were rightly guided? The likeness of those who disbelieve is like one who bellows to a creature that cannot give ear to anything save "Come!" or "Go!"
Deaf.
Dumb.
Blind.
They do not understand. 2:171

O believers, eat from the good things We have provided you, and give thanks to God if it is Him you truly worship. He merely made illicit for you carrion, blood, flesh of pig and whatever has been consecrated to other than God. But he who is forced to do so, not in transgression nor in defiance, no sin shall attach to him.
God is All-Forgiving, Compassionate to each. 2:172

Those who suppress what God has revealed of the Book, and sell it for a paltry profit, those shall eat only fire in their bellies. God shall not speak to them on the Day of Resurrection, nor shall He cleanse them. A painful torment awaits them. They are those who bartered error for right guidance, and torment for forgiveness. How patiently will they endure the Fire! This is because God has brought down the Book with the Truth, but they who differ regarding the Book are sunk deep in
2:176 discord.

Virtue does not demand of you to turn your faces eastwards or westwards. Virtue rather is:

He who believes in God, the Last Day, the angels, the Book and the prophets;

Who dispenses money, though dear, to kinsmen, orphans, the needy, the traveller, beggars and for ransom;

Who performs the prayer and pays the alms;

Who fulfil their contracts when they contract;

Who are steadfast in hardship, calamity and danger;

These are the true believers.

2:177 These are truly pious.

O believers, retaliation for the slain is ordained upon you:

A free man for a free man, a slave for a slave, a female for a female.

But if a brother is forgiven by another regarding what is ordained, then gracious pardon must be offered, and seemly deliverance of payment made. This is an act of leniency from your Lord and a mercy. Whoever commits aggression thereafter, painful torment awaits him.

The prospect of retaliation saves lives, O you who are possessed of minds—
2:179 perhaps you will fear God.

It has been ordained upon you, when death is near to one of you, leaving wealth behind, to make a will in favour of parents and close relatives, impartially. This is incumbent upon the pious. If any person alters it after hearing it, sin will fall upon those who alter it. God is All-Hearing, All-Knowing.

But if a person suspects unfairness or sin from a testator, then brings about harmony among them, no sin shall fall upon him. God is All-Forgiving,
2:182 Compassionate to each.

O believers, the fast is ordained upon you, as it was ordained upon those who came before you—perhaps you will fear God—for a number of days. Whoever is sick among you or on a journey, then a number of other days. Upon those who can bear it, a penance: the feeding of a poor person. He who willingly proffers good, this would be better for him. To fast is better for you, if only you knew. The month of Ramadan is the one in which the Qur'an was sent down—right Guidance to mankind, and clear signs of Guidance and Distinction of truth from falsehood. Those among you who witness it, let him fast therein. Whoever is sick or on a journey, then a number of other days.

God desires ease for you, and desires not hardship.

Thus may you fulfil the number of days assigned, magnify God for having guided you, and perhaps you will be thankful.

If My worshippers ask you about Me, I am near.

I answer the prayer of him who prays when he prays to Me.

So let them obey Me, and believe in Me—perhaps they will be guided aright. 2:186

It is licit for you, on a night of fasting, to lie down with your wives. They are as a garment to you, and you are as a garment to them. God knows you used to cheat, but He has turned His face towards you and forgiven you. But now go in and lie with them, and seek what God has foreordained for you, and eat and drink until the white streak of dawn can be distinguished from the black streak. Then complete your fast until night-time. Do not lie with them in periods when you retire for devotional prayers in mosques.

These are the bounds set by God: do not infringe them. Thus does God make clear His signs to mankind—perhaps they will grow pious. 2:187

Do not consume each other's wealth in falsehood, nor argue the matter with judges in order to consume a portion of people's wealth unjustly, knowing well what you are doing. 2:188

They ask you about the new moons.

Say: "They are times appointed for mankind, and for the Pilgrimage." It is not a virtue that you approach houses from their backs. Virtue is to be pious. So approach houses from the front, and fear God—perhaps you will achieve your quest. 2:189

Fight in the cause of God those who fight you, but do not commit aggression: God loves not the aggressors. Slay them wherever you fall upon them, and expel them from where they had expelled you; apostasy by force is indeed more serious than slaying. Do not fight them near the Holy Mosque unless they fight you therein. If they fight you therein, slay them: such is the reward of unbelievers. But if they desist, then God is All-Forgiving, Compassionate to each. Fight them until there is no longer forced apostasy, and the religion is God's. If they desist, no aggression is permitted except against the wicked. A Holy Month will substitute for a Holy Month, and sacrilege calls for retaliation. Whoever commits aggression against you, retaliate against him in the same measure as he committed against you. Fear
2:194 God and know that God stands by the pious.

Spend wealth in the cause of God and do not, with your own hands, hurl yourself
2:195 into destruction. Be generous, for God loves the generous.

Carry out the Greater Pilgrimage and the Lesser, for the sake of God. If fear prevents you, make a sacrificial offering of whatever is ready to hand. Do not shave your heads until your offering reaches its appointed place. For those among you who are ill or are diseased in the head, expiation is set: fasting or else a gift of alms, or sacrifice. When you feel secure, then whoever breaks his state of consecration in the period between the Lesser and the Greater Pilgrimage shall make an offering of whatever is ready to hand. He who has nothing to offer must fast for three days during the Greater Pilgrimage and for seven when you return, making ten full days. This is ordained for one whose family is not present at the Holy Mosque. So fear
2:196 God and know that God is severe in punishment.

The Pilgrimage occurs in familiar months. He who undertakes the Pilgrimage during these months, from him no promiscuity, no vice and no discord is allowed during the Pilgrimage. Whatever good you do is known to God. Lay up stores for yourselves, but the best store is piety. Be pious towards Me, O you who are
2:197 possessed of minds.

No blame attaches to you if you seek bounty from your Lord. When you return from 'Arafat,* remember God at the Holy Shrine. Remember how He guided you

when before you had been astray. Then return by way of the rest of the people, and seek God's forgiveness. God is All-Forgiving, Compassionate to each.

When you have completed your sacred rites, remember God as you remember your own parents, or even more intensely. For among people is one who says: "Lord, give us in this world." But he shall have no share of the life hereafter. Among them are those who say: "Lord, grant us good in this world and good in the world hereafter, and spare us the torment of the Fire." To these shall fall a share of what they earned. God is swift in reckoning. Remember God during days appointed. He who leaves in haste after two days commits no sin; he who tarries commits no sin, provided he is God-fearing. Fear God and be assured that to Him you will ultimately be gathered. 2:202

Among people is one who speaks of this present life in a manner that pleases you. He calls upon God to witness what is in his heart, all the while being the staunchest of enemies. But when he departs, he plies the land in order to corrupt it, destroying cultivation and flocks. God loves not corruption. If it is said to him: "Fear God," he waxes proud of his crime. Let hell suffice him, an evil cradle indeed! 2:206

Among people is one who sells his soul seeking the pleasure of God. God is Tender towards His worshippers. 2:207

O believers! Enter the fold of peace, all of you. Do not follow in the footsteps of Satan, for he is to you a manifest enemy. If you slip after clear signs have been revealed to you, be assured that God is Almighty, All-Wise. Are they really waiting for God to come to them in the shadowy folds of clouds, with His angels, when judgement is pronounced and all revert to God? 2:210

Ask the Children of Israel how many a manifest sign We revealed to them. Whoever traduces the bounty of God after it has come to him—God is severe in punishment. 2:211

[Verses 212–215 are omitted. Mankind is seen as one community. God bestows abundance on whomsoever he wills and guides them to a straight path. To enter the Garden one may first undergo violence and injury, as those before them did. One should share wealth with kinsmen and also the needy.]

Fighting has been prescribed for you, although it is a matter hateful to you.
And yet, for all you know, you may hate something—and it is good for you.
For all you know, you may love something—and it is harmful to you.
2:216 God knows, and you do not know.

They ask you about the Sacred Month: is there fighting in it? Say: "Fighting in it is a grave sin. But obstructing the path to God and blasphemy against Him and the Sacred Mosque, and the expulsion of its inhabitants from it, is a graver sin with God.

"Forcing people into unbelief is a graver sin than slaughter."

They will persist in fighting you until they turn you away from your religion, if they can. He among you who retracts his religion and dies an unbeliever, these are people whose works shall come to nothing in this world and the next. These are
2:217 the people of the Fire, in which they shall abide for ever.

Those who believed, and those who emigrated and exerted themselves in the path of God—these can indeed expect the mercy of God. God is All-Forgiving,
2:218 Compassionate to each.

They ask you about wine and gambling.

Say: "In them both lies grave sin, though some benefit, to mankind. But their sin is more grave than their benefit."

They ask you what they shall spend.

Say: "The surplus of possessions."

Thus does God make clear His signs to you. Perhaps you will reflect, in this world and the next.

They ask you about orphans.

Say: "Probity in what concerns them is a virtue.

"Should you associate with them, they are your brothers.

"God knows the dishonest from the honest. Had God willed, He could have
2:220 caused you hardship." God is Almighty, All-Wise.

Do not marry polytheistic women unless they believe. A female slave, who is a

believer, is better than a polytheistic woman, even if winning your admiration. Do not give in marriage to polytheists unless they believe. A male slave who is a believer is better than a polytheistic man, even if winning your admiration. These people will lead you to the Fire, but God leads to the Garden and forgiveness, by His leave.

He makes clear His signs to mankind; perhaps they will remember and reflect. 2:221

They ask you about menstruation.

Say: "It is a sore. So keep away from women in menstruation, and do not come near them until they become clean. When clean, approach them from where God ordered you."

God loves those who constantly repent, who constantly cleanse themselves.

Your women are your sowing field: approach your field whenever you please. Lay up good works for yourselves and fear God, and know that you shall surely meet Him. Proclaim glad tidings to the believers. 2:222

Do not make an oath by God an excuse for you not to do good works, to fear God or to act honourably towards people. God is All-Hearing, All-Knowing. God does not hold you to account for carelessness in pronouncing oaths, but He holds you to account for what your hearts have earned. God is All-Forgiving, All-Forbearing. 2:225

For those who forsake their wives is prescribed a waiting period of four months. If they go back on their oath, God is All-Forgiving, Compassionate to each. If they are determined on divorce, God is All-Hearing, All-Knowing. Divorced women shall refrain from remarriage for three menstrual cycles. Nor is it licit for them to hide what God has created in their wombs, if they truly believe in God and the Last Day. Meanwhile, their husbands have a better right to take them back if they desire reconciliation. Women have the selfsame rights and obligations in conformity with fairness, but men are a grade more responsible than them. God is Almighty, All-Wise. 2:228

Divorce can be uttered twice, to be followed either by holding her back in friendship or letting her go in fairness. It is not licit for you to take back anything you have given them unless the two of them fear that they cannot conform to the bounds of God. If you fear that the two of them will not conform to the bounds of God, no blame attaches to them both if the woman gives back that with which she sets herself

free. These are the bounds set by God; do not transgress them. Whoso transgresses the bounds of God, these are indeed sinners. If he divorces her, she shall not be licit to him again until she marries another husband. If the other husband divorces her, no blame attaches to them if they return to each other, provided they believe they can conform to the bounds of God.

And these are the bounds of God, which He makes plain to people who
2:230 understand.

If you divorce women, and they reach their appointed term, hold them back in amity or let them go in amity. Do not hold them back out of malice, to be vindictive. Whoso does this does himself an injustice. Do not treat the revelations of God as matters for jesting. Remember the bounties of God upon you and what He revealed to you of the Book and Wisdom, wherewith He edifies and instructs you. Fear God
2:231 and know that God is Omniscient.

If you divorce women, and they reach their appointed term, do not deter them from marrying their former husbands, provided they both freely agree to do so, and in an affable manner. Through this commandment are edified and instructed those among you who believe in God and the Last Day. This would be better for you and more pure in heart.

2:232 God knows and you do not know.

Mothers nurse their infants two full years for one who desires to complete the course of nursing. Upon the father rests the duty of maintenance and clothing, affably granted.

No soul is burdened except with what it can bear.

No mother is to be harmed through her child, nor father through his.

The same duty rests upon the heir.

If the two of them desire to wean their child through mutual agreement and consultation, no blame attaches to them. If you wish to deliver your children to a wet-nurse, no blame attaches to you provided you pay what you have agreed upon, fairly and affably.

2:233 Fear God and know that God sees all that you do.

As for those among you who die and leave wives behind, their widows are to hold themselves apart for a period of four months and ten nights. When they reach their appointed term, no blame shall attach to you regarding what they might honourably do with themselves. God is All-Experienced as to what you do. Nor shall any blame attach to you if you allude to a marriage proposal with these widows or else keep this to yourselves. God knows that you shall propose to them. But do not make promises to them in secret, unless it be in fair and honourable speech. Do not tie the knot of marriage until the recorded period has reached its term.

Know that God knows what is in your hearts. So fear Him and know that God is All-Forgiving, All-Forbearing. 2:235

No blame attaches to you if you divorce women, not having touched them yet or settled any marriage settlement upon them. But provide for them—a rich man what he can bear and a poor man what he can bear. Let this be provided fairly and affably, and let this be an obligation upon men of good conduct. But if you divorce them, not having touched them yet though having settled upon them a marriage settlement, then half of what you settled, unless they forgo this right or else he who holds the knot of marriage in his hand forgoes it. Yet, if you forgo this right, it would be nearer to piety.

Do not forget to be generous one to another. God sees all that you do. 2:237

Perform your prayers regularly and the afternoon prayer, and stand in God's presence in humility and devotion. But if you are in a state of fear, then pray while walking or mounted. When again you feel secure, remember God and how He taught you that which you knew not. 2:239

Those among you who die leaving wives behind are to leave a bequest to their wives: maintenance for a year and no eviction. If they leave, then no blame attaches to you regarding what they do with themselves, if they do so honourably.

God is Almighty, All-Wise. 2:240

For divorced women, maintenance is decreed, fair and affable. This is an obligation upon the pious. Thus does God make plain His revelations to you; perhaps you will understand. 2:242

[Verses 243–255 are omitted. Those who fight in the cause of God will be rewarded many times over. The story of Moses continued, followed by references to Saul and Jesus. Notable Israelites had asked for a king who would lead them to fight in the cause of God; yet when God gave them Moses, all but a few turned away from fighting. The king Saul tested his army's faith by telling them God forbids their drinking from a river they will pass by; only a few passed the test, among whom, David was steadfast enough to triumph over Goliath and was rewarded with kingship and wisdom. God bestowed wonders on Jesus son of Mary and strengthened him with the Holy Spirit; but people fell into discord after he came. The verses end with a distinction between unbelievers and believers and a praise of God.]

There is no compulsion in religion.
Right guidance has been distinguished from error.
He who repudiates idols and believes in God
Has grasped a handle most firm, unbreakable.
2:256 God is All-Hearing, All-Knowing.

God is the Patron of the believers:
He leads them from the folds of darkness to the light.
As for the unbelievers, their patrons are the idols:
They lead them from the light to the folds of darkness.
2:257 These are the people of the Fire, in which they abide for ever.

[Verses 258–260 are omitted. Granted kingship by God, Abraham shows good faith in God as giver of life and dealer of death. Witness is given of God's being the omnipotent one, who brought to life even birds that Abraham had cut into pieces.]

[2:261] The likeness of those who spend their wealth in the cause of God is like a grain which brought forth seven ears, in each ear a hundred grains. God multiplies His bounty to whomsoever He pleases. And God is All-Generous, All-Knowing. Those who spend their wealth in the cause of God, and do not follow up what they spent by demanding gratitude or causing offence, shall have their reward with their Lord.
2:262 No fear shall fall upon them, nor shall they grieve.

A kind word followed by magnanimity is better than charity followed by rudeness.
God is All-Sufficient, All-Forbearing. 2:263

O believers, nullify not your alms-giving by demanding gratitude or causing offence, like one who spends his wealth in order to flaunt it before people but believes neither in God nor in the Last Day. His likeness is like a boulder upon which is some earth. A downpour strikes it, leaving it hard and smooth. Such people can do nothing with what they have earned. God guides not the impious.

But the likeness of those who spend their wealth, desiring the pleasure of God and to fortify their own faith, is like a garden upon a hill. A downpour strikes it and it produces double its harvest; if not a downpour, then a mere shower. God sees full well all that you do. Would any of you wish to have a garden of palm trees and vines, beneath which rivers flow, and in which he has all kinds of fruit, and then old age overtakes him, and he has heirs who are minors—now a fiery tempest batters it and it burns down? Thus does God make clear His signs; perhaps you will reflect. 2:266

O believers, expend from the good things that you have earned, and from what We brought forth for your benefit from the earth. Do not give in alms the inferior portion thereof, since you yourselves would not accept such unless you turn a blind eye to it. Know that God is All-Sufficient, All-Praiseworthy. Satan promises you poverty and commands you to commit sin; God promises you forgiveness from Him and bounty. God is All-Encompassing, Omniscient. 2:268

He grants wisdom to whomsoever He wills,
And he to whom wisdom is granted has been granted abundant good.
But none remembers except the prudent. 2:269

Whatever sum you spend,
Whatever vow you take,
All is known to God.
The unjust shall have no champions. 2:270

If you make public your gifts, freely given, that would be worthy. But if you conceal them and donate them to the poor, that would be even better for you. God
2:271 will thereby pardon your sins. God is All-Experienced with what you do.

It is not up to you to guide them. It is God, rather, Who guides whomsoever He wills.

Whatever good you expend is for your own souls. Do not expend anything except to seek the pleasure of God, and whatever good you expend will be paid back to you; you shall not be wronged. It should go to the poor, those who are constrained in the cause of God and are unable to journey in the land: an ignorant person would think them rich because of their self-restraint. You will recognize them by their outward appearance. They do not importune people. Whatever good you expend,
2:273 God knows it well.

Those who spend their wealth, night and day, in secret or in public, shall have their reward with their Lord. No fear shall fall upon them, nor shall they grieve.

Those who consume usury shall not rise from the dead except like one whom Satan causes to babble from madness. This is because they allege that commerce is the same as usury. But God has made commerce licit and usury illicit. So he to whom a word of counsel from his Lord has reached, and desists, may keep his previous profit, and his affair is up to God. But he who relapses, these are the inhabitants of the Fire, in which they dwell eternally. God annuls usury and augments free gifts.
2:276 God loves not every impious lawbreaker.

Those who believe, do good deeds, perform their prayers and offer alms shall have their reward with their Lord. No fear shall fall upon them, nor shall they
2:277 grieve.

O believers, fear God and abandon what remains of usury if you are true believers. If you do not, be forewarned of conflict with God and His Messenger. If you repent, you will keep the capital of your wealth, neither wronging nor wronged. If a person is in difficulties, let there be respite until a time of ease. And if you give freely, it

would be better for you, if only you knew. Fear a Day in which you shall return to God, when each soul shall be paid back that which it has earned. And they shall not be wronged. 2:281

O believers, if you contract a debt among yourselves for a set term, write it down. Let a scribe write it down in your presence, in all fairness. Let no scribe refrain from writing as God has taught him. So let him write, and let the debtor dictate. Let him fear God, his Lord, and let him not reduce a jot from it. If the debtor is foolish or feeble or is unable to dictate, let his guardian dictate, in all fairness. Summon two witnesses from among your men. If two men are not at hand, then a man and two women from witnesses of whom you approve. If one woman forgets, the one will remind the other. Nor should witnesses be reluctant if summoned. And do not be reluctant to write it down, whether small or large, up to its set term, for this is fairer in God's eyes, more equitable for testimony, and less cause for you to be distrustful. However, if it concerns an immediate commercial deal that you transact among yourselves, no blame attaches to you if you do not write it down. If you trade with one another, summon witnesses and let no scribe or witness come to any harm. If you do them harm, this would be an offence on your part. Fear God and God will instruct you. And God is Omniscient. 2:282

If you are on a journey and do not find a scribe, let there be a surety handed over. If you trust one another, let the trustee fulfil his trust and let him fear God, his Lord. And do not conceal testimony; whoever conceals it, his heart is sinful and God knows full well what you do. 2:283

To God belongs all that is in the heavens and all that is on earth. Whether you reveal what lies in your souls or whether you conceal it, God will hold you to account, forgiving whomever He wills and punishing whomever He wills. God is Omnipotent. 2:284

The Messenger believes in what was revealed to him from his Lord, as do the believers. All believe in God, His angels, His Books and His messengers. We make no distinction between any of His messengers. They say: "We hear and obey. We await Your forgiveness, O Lord. To You is the journey's end."

God charges not any soul except with what it can bear. To its credit belongs what it has earned: upon it falls the burden of what it has deserved.
Our Lord,
Take us not to task if we forget or err.
Our Lord,
Do not lay upon us a heavy burden, as You laid upon those who came before us.
Our Lord,
Do not lay upon us what we have no power to bear.
Pardon us, forgive us, be merciful towards us.
2:286 You are our Patron, so grant us Your support against the impious.

GLOSSARY

Alif Lam Mim Twenty-nine chapters of the Qur'an begin with the names of Arabic letters in various combinations. These are the so-called 'mysterious letters' of the Qur'an whose meaning, according to most exegetes, is best left with God.

'Arafat The name of a plain and hill to the east of Mecca, central to the rite of pilgrimage.

Harut and Marut Mysterious fallen angels of Babylon and teachers of sorcery.

Sabeans An ancient Near Eastern religious community considered by the Qur'an to belong to the **People of the Book**.

al-Safa and al-Marwa Two hills adjoining the Ka'ba of Mecca, a square structure in the middle of the Meccan sanctuary and the centre of Muslim pilgrimage and devotions.

People of the Book Arabic *Ahl al-Kitab*; a Qur'anic term denoting religious communities to whom a divine scripture had been revealed. These include Jews, Christians, **Sabeans** and Magians.

Part III

Self in Social Institutions

建制中的自我

聖君之道與學院風骨
——《明夷待訪錄》

黃宗羲（1610年–1695年），浙江餘姚人，生於晚明。父尊素（1584年–1626年）為東林書院中人，因彈劾宦官魏忠賢及其黨羽下獄，死於獄中。崇禎元年（1628年），黃宗羲矢志為父報仇，身懷鐵錐入京頌冤，在公堂上錐擊閹黨爪牙。魏黨伏誅後，宗羲加入復社，繼續與朝中黑暗勢力抗爭。明亡後，黃宗羲曾在家鄉組織義軍，扶助明宗室魯王朱以海抗清。魯王敗後，黃屢遭清廷追捕，四處流徙。黃作詩自謂「半生瀕十死」[1]，總結了他倥傯坎坷的前半生。

宗羲學問淵博，為清代浙東學派的開創者。浙東學派講求貫通經史，經世致用。黃受父命師事明末大儒劉宗周（1578年–1645年），清兵入關後，宗周絕食殉國，其為學為人，對宗羲影響甚深。中年後隱居故鄉潛心著述，終生不仕清朝，黃著作等身，對明代史實尤見精研。所編之《明儒學案》為研究明代學術的重要典籍，也開創了中國學術史類著作之先河；其他著作除經史外，還包括天文地理，曆法音樂等。《明夷待訪錄》成於康熙二年（1663年），今存二十一篇，論述範圍包括君臣之道、法制、田制、兵制及財政等，是黃宗羲總結歷史教訓，反省明朝覆亡現實後提出的治國綱領。

黃宗羲指出自三代以下有亂無治，原因在於秦廢封建，行郡縣，大權集中於皇帝一人手中，君主視天下為其私產，而臣子則視君如父，以討好君主為職志；甚至法律亦是為鞏固皇族統治的一家之法。黃大膽提出「天下為主，君為客」（《原君》）的主張，從君臣職分、法律以至兵農之制，一概以此為基礎。明太祖朱元璋（1328年–1398年）廢宰相，集大權於一身，黃則視廢相為有明一代「無善治」之始，故於《明夷待訪錄》中特重宰相之職，期以「傳賢不傳子」之宰輔，補君主「傳子不傳賢」之不足。此外，黃亦重視學校師生議政及監察之職能，以求「天下之是非」出於學校。雖說黃推崇三代之治，而孟子已有「民貴君輕」之說，但從根本的君民關係思考問題，視

[1] 黃宗羲《五月復遇火》，《南留詩曆》卷一，收錄於《黃宗羲全集》（杭州：浙江古籍出版社，2005年），第11冊，頁246。

「家天下」為歷代「有亂無治」之源，並以民本思想作為治國的綱要，則是黃宗羲獨特之貢獻。

清末維新運動領袖梁啟超說，《明夷待訪錄》是他年青時代「刺激青年最有力的興奮劑」，對他影響極深。[2]中國今天雖已不行帝制，但書中倡導的民本思想，是否已經實現？黃認為學校是清議之地，師生有監察時政之責，這對我們反省大學生的社會責任應當有所啟發；然而《學校》篇中一些具體措施會否矯枉過正，甚至有狹隘專制之處？梁啟超以至前中文大學校長金耀基均認為黃可與盧梭相比；[3]我們讀過盧梭《社會契約論》後可自行比較判斷。

何偉明

2 梁啟超《中國近三百年學術思想史》之五《陽明學派之餘波及其修正》（湖南：湖南文藝出版社，2011）；梁啟超著，朱維錚校注，《梁啟超論清學史二種》（上海：復旦大學出版社，1985），頁146–147。

3 梁啟超《中國學術思想變遷之大勢》之《趕明亡以迄今日》，收錄於梁啟超《近代中國學術論叢》（香港：崇文書店，1973），頁16；金耀基《中國民本思想之史底發展》（台北：嘉新文化基金會，1964），第六章第一節，頁127；金耀基《中國民本思想史》（台北：台灣商務印書館，1993），頁155。（本書為《中國民本思想之史底發展》的新修訂版。）

《明夷待訪錄》

節錄

黃宗羲 著

題辭

余嘗疑孟子「一治一亂」[1]之言，何三代[2]而下之有亂無治也？乃觀胡翰[3] 1
所謂「十二運」[4]者，起周敬王甲子[5]以至於今，皆在一亂之運；向後二十年

1 《孟子・滕文公・下》指世界自有生民以來，即有「一治一亂」的循環，治或亂由君主是否賢明決定。孟子又在《公孫丑・下》提出「五百年必有王者興，其間必有名世者」的說法，指賢明的君主是由天授的，賢臣也會相應而出現，天如果希望平治亂世就會讓賢主出現。

2 夏、商、周。孟子說明治亂時，是以三代為例。

3 胡翰，字仲申。元末明初的經史學者，浙江金華人。

4 十二運是一種視天下的治亂興衰為一循環過程，源自秦曉山，過程中各階段的長短和發生時間均有定數。循環過程中每個階段叫「運」，而十二運即十二個階段共11,520年為一個大周期，六十四卦則分別配進這十二運裏。第一運為「天地否泰之運」，共有720年，即自周文王至周敬王四十三年（公元前477年），黃氏認為此為三代以前，屬於治世。自周敬王四十三年（公元前477年）至康熙二十二年（1683年）為第二運「男女交親之運」，合共2,160年，即黃氏認為至他於康熙元年（1662年）寫《明夷待訪錄》時，皆屬於亂世，黃又說「向後二十年交入『大壯』，始得一治」，意指約康熙二十二年（1683年）以後遇入共計1,152年的第三運「陽晶守政之運」，屬於治世。但《明夷待訪錄》成書三十年後，時局顯然沒有進入黃宗羲所言之「大壯」，黃宗羲的著作還是沒有被實踐，他因此又寫下《破邪論》，宣稱「秦曉山十二運之言，無乃欺人」。（根據王汎森先生2010年12月16日於國立台灣師範大學講座記錄。）

5 周敬王甲子，即指公元前477年或前476年。甲子即甲子年，古人以天干地支記年。《史記・十二諸侯年表》終於這一年，或有人認為春秋時代在這年結束。

節錄自黃宗羲《明夷待訪錄》，註釋由香港中文大學自學中心吳立仁、陳美亞、陳惠超撰寫，大學通識教育部何偉明編輯。

交入「大壯」[6]，始得一治，則三代之盛猶未絕望也。前年壬寅[7]夏，條具為治大法，未卒數章，遇火而止。今年自藍水[8]返於故居，整理殘帙，此卷猶未失落於擔頭舶底。兒子某某謂完之。冬十月，雨窗削筆[10]，喟然而嘆曰：昔王冕[11]倣《周禮》[12]著書一卷，自謂「吾未即死，持此以遇明主，伊呂事業不難致也」[13]，終不得少試[14]以死。冕之書未得見，其可致治與否，固未可知。然亂運未終，亦何能為？「大壯」之交，吾雖老矣，如箕子之見訪[15]，或庶幾焉！豈因夷之初旦，明而未融[16]，遂祕其言也。癸卯[17]梨洲老人[18]識。

識：記錄
[癹] zi³ (志)
[袭] zhi⁴

6 交入大壯，指天下轉入治世。見上注4。交入，即交接轉入。大壯，《周易》六十四卦之一，震上乾下，是陽剛增長，漸成壯盛的卦象。

7 康熙元年，即公元1662年。

8 當指藍溪市，即今日的浙江省餘姚市陸埠鎮。《黃宗羲年譜》載當年事云：「九月，徙住藍溪市，即陸家埠。」

9 這裏指「遇火」後殘留的書籍，本指殘缺的書卷。

10 刪改定稿。

11 王冕，明諸暨（今浙江）人，字元章，家貧好學，終成通儒。善書梅，自號梅花屋主。太祖下婺州，冕之幕府，授諮議參軍。曾倣《周禮》著書，今不存。

12 原名《周官》，又名《周官經》，共六篇。是書記載周代六官的職務，於西漢末列為經書，與《儀禮》、《禮記》並稱三禮，也是十三經之一。

13 語出《明史》卷285。這是王冕倣倣《周禮》著書，書成時所作之豪語，意謂以他的才幹，若得遇明主，必可輔助人君建國興邦，重現周朝盛世，伊指伊尹，為商湯相；呂指呂尚，姜姓，亦稱姜太公，輔助文王、武王。伊、呂所事朝代不同，但二人均為開國元勳，是輔助君王興邦建國者的典範。

14 少，稍微。少試，稍微試行其治國興邦之道。

15 箕子是紂王的叔父（一說為庶兄），封於箕，因名。紂王淫亂，箕子假裝瘋狂去當奴隸，後來被紂所囚。周武王敗紂，立時釋放箕子並向他求教，箕子於是以治國方略傾囊相授。箕子處亂世而不改其志，且能韜光養晦，以俟盛世。這段正好與下句引文互相呼應。

16 此句謂拂曉之時太陽初出，雖有陽光卻仍未大亮。明夷是《周易》六十四卦中的第三十六卦，即離下坤上。卦辭：「利艱貞。」《漢語大辭典》指此卦「比喻昏君在上，賢人遭受艱難或不得志。」

17 康熙二年，即公元1663年。

18 作者自稱，黃宗羲號梨洲。

原君

原君[1]

有生之初，人各自私也，人各自利也；天下有公利而莫或興之，有公害而莫或除之。有人者出[2]，不以一己之利為利，而使天下受[3]其利；不以一己之害為害，而使天下釋[4]其害。此其人之勤勞，必千萬於天下之人。夫以千萬倍之勤勞，而己又不享其利，必非天下之人情所欲居也[5]。故古之人君，量[6]而不欲入[7]者，許由[8]、務光[9]是也；入而又去[10]之者，堯、舜是也；初不欲入而不得去者，禹[11]是也。豈古之人有所異哉？好逸惡勞，亦猶夫人之情也。 2

後之為人君者不然。以為天下利害之權皆出於我，我以天下之利盡歸於己，以天下之害盡歸於人，亦無不可。使天下之人不敢自私，不敢自利，以我之大私為天下之公。始而慚焉，久而安焉。視天下為莫大之產業，傳之子孫，受享無窮。漢高帝所謂「某業所就，孰與仲多」[12]者，其逐利之情，不覺溢之於辭矣。此無他，古者以天下為主，君為客，凡君之所畢世而經營 3

1 推源君主，指論析君主的來源及作用。原，是一種文體，屬議論類，運用議論及說明技巧論析對象的本源、性質及功能，以期說服讀者接受自己的觀點。

2 有（這麼）一個人出來。

3 承接、獲得。

4 免除、解除。

5 必非天下之人情所欲居，即從常情君，人一定不會想擔任這個位置。居，指居其位。

6 考量，衡量。

7 進入，指入居帝位。

8 許由，唐堯時的高士，《莊子．消遙遊》記載堯要將天下讓給他，但他卻拒絕了。

9 務光，商朝的高士，《莊子．讓王》記載商湯伐桀後，以務光為仁者，要將王位讓給他，但務光認為湯伐桀廢君，是不仁不義的行為，所以不但拒絕接受王位，還不要生活在無道之世，最後抱石投水自盡。

10 去，即離開，指離開某地，如去國，指離開國家，此處則指去位，即放棄王位。

11 禹，夏朝的開國之君。舜傳位給禹，禹起初不肯接受，但天下諸侯不擁戴舜的兒子商均，而擁戴禹，所以禹還是即位為天子。後來禹想傳位給輔助他治理天下的益，但益決定讓禹的兒子啟接位，天下人也擁戴啟而不擁戴益，啟繼位，成為史書明載首個直承父位的天子，公天下由此變為家天下。

12 未央宮建成後，漢高祖劉邦向自己的父親說酒時，說出了這一番話。「某業所就，孰與仲多」，即我所成就的功業，與老二的（比較），哪一個多。

交入「大壯」[6]，始得一治，則三代之盛猶未絕望也。前年壬寅[7]夏，條具為治大法，未卒數章，遇火而止。今年自藍水[8]返於故居，整理殘帙[9]，此卷猶未失落於搶頭觸底。兒子某某請完之。冬十月，雨窗削筆[10]，喟然而嘆曰：昔王冕[11]做《周禮》[12]著書一卷，自謂「吾未即死，持此以遇明主，伊呂事業不難致也」[13]，終不得少試[14]以死。冕之書未得見，其可致治與否，固未可知。然亂道未終，亦何能為？「大壯」之交，吾雖老矣，如箕子之見訪[15]，或庶幾焉！豈因夷之初旦，明而未融[16]，遂祕其言也。癸卯[17]梨洲老人[18]識。

識：記錄
[尊]zi¹(志)
[差]zhi¹

6 交入大壯，指天下轉入治世。見上注4。交入，即交接轉入。大壯，《周易》六十四卦之一，震上乾下，是陽剛增長，漸成壯盛的卦象。

7 康熙元年，即公元1662年。

8 當指藍溪市，即今日的浙江省餘姚市陸埠鎮。《黃宗羲年譜》載當年事云：「九月，徙住藍溪市，即陸家埠。」

9 這裏指「遇火」後殘留的書籍，本指殘缺的書卷。

10 刪改定稿。

11 王冕，明諸暨（今浙江）人，字元章，家貧好學，終成通儒。善畫梅，自號梅花屋主，太祖下婺州，置之幕府，授諮議參軍，曾做《周禮》著書，今不存。

12 原名《周官》，又名《周官經》，共六篇。是書記載周代六官的職務，於西漢未列為經書，與《儀禮》、《禮記》並稱三禮，也是十三經之一。

13 語出《明史》卷285。這是王冕做做《周禮》著書，書成時所作之豪語，意謂以他的才幹，若得遇明主，必可輔助人君建國興邦，重現周朝盛世。伊指伊尹，為商湯相；呂指呂尚，姜姓，亦稱姜太公，輔助文王、武王。伊、呂所事朝代不同，但二人均為開國元勳，是輔助君主興邦建國者的典範。

14 少，稍微。少試，稍微試行其治國興邦之道。

15 箕子是紂王的叔父（一說為庶兄），封於箕，因名。紂王淫亂，箕子假裝瘋狂去當奴隸，後來被紂所囚。周武王敗紂，立時釋放箕子並向他求教，箕子於是以治國方略領袖相授。箕子遭亂世而不改其志，且能韜光養晦，以俟盛世。這段正好與下句引文互相呼應。

16 此句謂拂曉之時太陽初出，雖有陽光卻仍未大亮。明夷是《周易》六十四卦中的第三十六卦，即離下坤上。卦辭：「利艱貞。」《漢語大辭典》指此卦「比喻昏君在上，賢人遭受艱難或不得志。」

17 康熙二年，即公元1663年。

18 作者自稱，黃宗羲號梨洲。

原君

原君[1]

有生之初，人各自私也，人各自利也；天下有公利而莫或興之，有公害而莫或除之。有人者出[2]，不以一己之利為利，而使天下受[3]其利；不以一己之害為害，而使天下釋[4]其害。此其人之勤勞，必千萬於天下之人。夫以千萬倍之勤勞，而己又不享其利，必非天下之人情所欲居也[5]。故古之人君，量[6]而不欲入[7]者，許由[8]、務光[9]是也；入而又去[10]之者，堯、舜是也；初不欲入而不得去者，禹[11]是也。豈古之人有所異哉？好逸惡勞，亦猶夫人之情也。 2

後之為人君者不然。以為天下利害之權皆出於我，我以天下之利盡歸於己，以天下之害盡歸於人，亦無不可。使天下之人不敢自私，不敢自利，以我之大私為天下之公。始而慚焉，久而安焉。視天下為莫大之產業，傳之子孫，受享無窮。漢高帝所謂「某業所就，孰與仲多」[12]者，其逐利之情，不覺溢之於辭矣。此無他，古者以天下為主，君為客，凡君之所畢世而經營 3

1 推源君主，指論析君主的來源及作用。原，是一種文體，屬議論類，運用議論及說明技巧論析對象的本源、性質及功能，以期說服讀者接受自己的觀點。

2 有（這麼）一個人出來。

3 承接、獲得。

4 免除、解除。

5 必非天下之人情所欲居，即從常情看，人一定不會想擔任這個位置。居，指居其位。

6 考量，衡量。

7 進入，指入居帝位。

8 許由，唐堯時的高士，《莊子・消遙遊》記載堯要將天下讓給他，但他卻拒絕了。

9 務光，商朝的高士，《莊子・讓王》記載商湯伐桀後，以務光為仁者，要將王位讓給他，但務光認為湯伐桀廢君，是不仁不義的行為，所以不但拒絕接受王位，還不要生活在無道之世，最後抱石投水自盡。

10 去，即離開，指離開某地，如去國，指離開國家，此處則指去位，即放棄王位。

11 禹，夏朝的開國之君。舜傳位給禹，禹起初不肯接受，但天下諸侯不擁戴舜的兒子商均，而擁戴禹，所以禹還是即位為天子。後來禹想傳位給輔助他治理天下的益，但益決定讓禹的兒子啟接位，天下人也擁戴啟而不擁戴益，啟繼位，成為史書明載首個直承父位的天子。公天下由此變為家天下。

12 未央宮建成後，漢高祖劉邦向自己的父親說酒時，說出了這一番話。「某業所就，孰與仲多」，即我所成就的功業，與老二的（比較），哪一個多。

者[13]，為天下也；今也以君為主，天下為客，凡天下之無地而得安寧者[14]，為君也。是以其未得之也，屠毒天下之肝腦，離散天下之子女，以博我一人之產業，曾不慘然[15]，曰：「我固[16]為子孫創業也。」其既得之也，敲剝天下之骨髓[17]，離散天下之子女，以奉我一人之淫樂，視為當然，曰：「此我產業之花息[18]也。」然則為天下之大害者，君而已矣！向使[19]無君，人各得自私也，人各得自利也。嗚呼！豈設君之道固如是乎？

4 古者天下之人愛戴其君，比之如父，擬之如天，誠不為過也。今也天下之人，怨惡其君，視之如寇讎[20]，名之為獨夫[21]，固其所也[22]。而小儒[23]規規[24]焉以君臣之義無所逃於天地之間，至桀、紂之暴，猶謂湯、武不當誅之[25]，而妄傳伯夷、叔齊無稽之事[26]。乃兆人萬姓崩潰之血肉，曾不異夫腐鼠[27]！豈天地之大，於兆人萬姓之中，獨私其一人一姓乎？是故武王，聖人也；孟子

竟然，居然
[粵]zang¹(增)
[普]zeng¹

：竟然，豈
[粵]zang¹(增)
[普]zeng¹

13 所有君主弄生謀劃治理的東西。這裏是指治理國家。
14 天下沒有一個地方可以讓人安居生活。
15 曾不慘然，即竟然不（以此為）慘酷。
16 本來。
17 榨取勒索天下人之所有。
18 利息。
19 假如。
20 視君主如賊寇仇敵。語出《孟子・離婁》：「君之視臣如草芥，則臣之視君如寇讎。」
21 稱呼他因為凶殘無道而孤寡之人。獨夫，又稱一夫，見《孟子・梁惠王下》，參註28。
22 固其所也，即確實（適合）他的啊！
23 不能通解大道理，只執着小文小義的儒者。
24 本指惘然若失的樣子，但在這裏形容一種瞪着眼東西，讓人覺得很不大方，態度極保守的樣子。
25 據《漢書・儒林傳》記載，黃生與轅固生於漢景帝前辯論。轅固生以湯、武誅桀、紂為順應民心，事屬當然，而黃生則認為當時是臣子的湯、武「不能正言匡過以尊天子，反因過而誅之，以代立踐南面，非弒而何也？」可算是完全違反了君臣之道。
26 黃宗羲認為小儒傳聞兩個缺乏事實根據（無可稽考）的人物 — 伯夷及叔齊。兩人的事只有《史記・伯夷叔齊列傳》有較詳細的記載。他們是孤竹君的兒子。後來，武王滅紂，「天下宗周」，兩人「義不食周粟」，隱居於首陽山採野菜而食，終餓死。
27 崩潰之血肉，即指像山石崩潰那樣堆疊起來的軀體，具體呈現蒼生受苦之貌。指豈會（面對）堆疊無數的百姓軀體，竟然（把他們當成）與腐爛的老鼠沒有不同。

原君

之言[28]，聖人之言也。後世之君，欲以如父如天之空名，禁人之窺伺者，皆不便於其言[29]，至廢孟子而不立[30]，非導源於小儒乎？

雖然，使後之為君者，果能保此產業，傳之無窮，亦無怪乎其私之也。既以產業視之，人之欲得產業，誰不如我[31]？擐鍼縢，固扃鐍[32]，一人之智力，不能勝天下欲得之者之眾。遺者數世，近者及身；其血肉之崩潰，在其子孫矣。昔人願世世無生帝王家[33]，而毅宗之語公主，亦曰：「若何為生我家[34]！」痛哉斯言！回思創業時，其欲得天下之心，有不嫌然擂沮[35]者乎？是故明乎為君之職分，則唐虞之世，人人能讓[36]，許由、務光非絕塵[37]也；不明乎為君之職分，則市井之間，人人可欲[38]，許由、務光所以曠後世而不聞[39]也。然君之職分雖明，以佄嗛[40]淫樂，不易無窮之悲，雖愚者亦明之矣！

5

擐縢
[粵]gaam¹tang⁴(堅騰)
[普]jian¹teng²

扃
[粵]gwing¹或gwing²(炯)
[普]jiong¹

鐍
[粵]kyut³(決)
[普]jue²

語：告訴
[粵]jyu⁶(預)
[普]yu⁴

28 指孟子與齊宣王的一段對話。《孟子・梁惠王下》云：「齊宣王問曰：『湯放桀，武王伐紂，有諸？』孟子對曰：『於傳有之。』曰『臣弒其君可乎？』曰：『賊仁者謂之賊，賊義者謂之殘，殘賊之人，謂之一夫。聞誅一夫紂，未聞弒君也。』」
29 均以孟子之言（對他們）為不利。
30 明太祖朱元璋讀到《孟子》書中「君之視臣為草芥，則臣之視君為寇讎」、「民為貴、君為輕」等反對絕對權力、以民為本的思想，認為內容「非臣子所宜言」，一怒之下，罷絕對孟子的祭祀，孔廟中孟子的配祀牌位因而要全部搬走。
31 哪一個不像我（一樣）？
32 擐鍼縢，固扃鐍，即指綑紮篋子，鎖牢箱子，比喻君主運用禮法等來保護國家，防止別人竊取，語出《莊子・胠篋》。擐，收緊；鍼縢均指綑綁箱篋用的繩索；固，緊牢或固定；扃，箱櫃上的插關；鐍，箱子上的鎖扭。
33 《資治通鑑・齊紀一》記南朝宋順帝，被迫禪位於齊事云：「帝泣而彈指曰：『願後身世世勿復出帝王家。』」
34 明思宗，後又改稱毅宗，在李自成攻進北京時，到壽寧宮，揮劍砍殺拉着他的衣服啼哭的長平公主；當時思宗對長平公主說：「汝何故生我家！」結果砍斷了她的左臂，事見《明史・公主傳》。
35 廢然，灰心喪志貌：摧沮，沮喪，兩者近義並列。
36 人人能辭讓君位。
37 超絕於塵世，指許由和務光，是這個世間絕無僅有的。
38 人人可欲求為君。
39 曠後世而不聞，是後世曠而不聞的倒裝，意思是後世很久也再沒有聽聞（有這樣的人）。曠，久歷時日。
40 一刻、瞬間。

原臣

有人焉，視於無形，聽於無聲[1]，以事其君，可謂之臣乎？曰：否。殺其身以事其君，可謂之臣乎？曰：否。夫視於無形，聽於無聲，資於事父也[2]；殺其身者，無私之極則也；而猶不足以當之[3]，則臣道如何而後可？曰：緣夫天下之大，非一人之所能治，而分治之以群工。故我之出而仕也，為天下，非為君也；為萬民，非為一姓也。吾以天下萬民起見，非其道，即君以形聲強我[4]，未之敢從也，況於無形無聲乎！非其道，即立身於其朝，未之敢許也，況於殺其身乎！不然，而以君之一身一姓起見，君有無形無聲之嗜慾[5]，吾從而視之聽之，此宦官宮妾之心也。君為己死而為己亡，吾從而[6]死之亡之[7]，此其私暱者[8]之事也。是乃臣、不臣之辨也。

世之為臣者昧於此義，以謂臣為君而設者也，君分吾以天下而後治之，君授吾以人民而後牧[9]之，視天下人民，為人君橐[10]中之私物。今以四方之勞擾，民生之憔悴，足以危吾君也，不得不講治之牧之之術。苟無係於社稷[11]之存亡，則四方之勞擾，民生之憔悴，雖有誠臣，亦以為纖芥之疾也[12]。夫古之為臣者，於此乎，於彼乎？

蓋天下之治亂，不在一姓之興亡，而在萬民之憂樂。是故桀、紂之亡，乃所以為治也；秦政、蒙古之興，乃所以為亂也；晉、宋、齊、梁[13]之

橐]tok³(托) [普]tuo²

1 對方心意未溢於言表，已如親聽親視，了然於胸。
2 資，用、取。語出《孝經・士》：「資於事父以事母而愛同；資於事父以事君而敬同。故母取其愛，而君取其敬。兼之者父也。」原指以侍奉父親的孝敬態度作為事母和事君之本。
3 當，符合，指符合臣道。
4 形聲，指疾言厲色。此句指君主疾言厲色，強逼臣下順從其意願。
5 嗜好和欲望。
6 我以死相從。
7 為君死為君亡。
8 所親近寵愛之人。
9 統治。
10 盛物的袋子。
11 社，土神；稷，穀神。社稷借代國家。
12 微不足道的問題。
13 晉、宋、齊、梁借代魏晉南北朝這段分裂時期。

興亡，無與於治亂者也。為臣者，輕視斯民之水火，即能輔君而興，從君而亡，其於臣道固未嘗不背[14]也。夫治天下猶曳大木然[15]，前者唱邪，後者唱許[16]。君與臣，共曳木之人也；若手不執紼[17]，足不履地，曳木者唯娛笑於曳木者之前，從曳木者以為良，而曳木之職荒矣。

嗟乎！後世驕君自恣，不以天下萬民為事，其所求乎草野者[18]，不過欲得奔走服役之人。乃使草野之應於上者，亦不出夫奔走服役；一時免於寒餓，遂感在上之知遇，不復計其禮之備與不備，躋之僕妾之間而以為當然。萬曆初，神宗之待張居正[19]，其禮稍優，比於古之師傅未能百一，當時論者，駭然居正之受，無人臣禮[20]。夫居正之罪，正坐不能以師傅自待[21]，聽指使於僕妾，而責之反是，何也？是則耳目浸淫於流俗之所謂臣者以為鵠[22]矣，又豈知臣之與君，名異而實同耶！

或曰：臣不與子並稱乎？曰：非也。父子一氣[23]，子分父之身而為身。故孝子雖異身，而能日近其氣，久之無不通矣；不孝之子，分身而後，日遠日疏，久之而氣不相似矣。君臣之名，從天下而有之者也。吾無天下之責，則吾在君為路人。出而仕於君也，不以天下為事，則君之僕妾也；以天下為事，則君之師友也。夫然，謂之臣，其名累變；夫父子固不可變者也。

與：有問 [粵]jyu⁶(預) [普]yu⁴

邪 [粵]je⁴(蛇) [普]ye²

9 許 [粵]fu²(苦) [普]hu³

躋 [粵]zai¹(擠)

縛 [粵]guk¹(谷)

10

14 違背。
15 跟拉大木頭一樣。
16 邪許，眾人一齊用力時的呼喊聲，語出《淮南子・道應》，為舉重勸力之歌。「前者唱邪，後者唱許」指曳木者互相呼應，同時用力，比喻君臣同為治理國家而努力。
17 牽引木頭的大繩。
18 草野，與朝廷相對，指民間。求乎草野，在民間選任官員。
19 張居正（1525年–1582年）為明神宗朝首輔。明太祖廢宰相之制，首輔多由內閣大學士充任，而職責與宰相無異。自神宗十歲起輔助國政逾十年，主導政治、經濟、軍事、教育各方面的改革，最為人稱道的是簡化稅制的一條鞭法和評考官員政績的考成法等。神宗對張優禮有加。萬曆十年張居正病逝，神宗追封他為上柱國，謚文宗。張生前備極恩榮，卻在其死後不到兩年間被抄家、剝奪封謚，兒子或枉死或革職，親信遭到嚴懲。其升沉榮辱見證人君之視人臣為僕妾，隨其喜怒妄加賞罰。
20 張居正為神宗主持經筵、日講，講解經史典籍，又協助神宗主持國政，因此神宗從不直呼其名，而以先生、元輔相稱。
21 正坐不能以師傅自待，此處的坐即由於。自待，指看待評價自己，自居。全句意思是張居正的錯，正由於不能以師傅之尊自居。
22 箭靶的中心，引伸為目的、標準。
23 人的氣稟，與生俱來的氣質。

原法

11 三代以上有法[1]，三代以下無法。何以言之？二帝、三王[2]，知天下之不可無養也，為之授田以耕之；知天下之不可無衣也，為之授地以桑麻之；知天下之不可無教也，為之學校以興之；為之婚姻之禮以防其淫；為之卒乘之賦[3]以防其亂。此三代以上之法也，固未嘗為一己而立也[4]。後之人主，既得天下，唯恐其祚命[5]之不長也，子孫之不能保有也，思患於未然以為之法[6]。然則其所謂法者，一家之法而非天下之法也。是故秦變封建而為郡縣，以郡縣得私於我也[7]；漢建庶孽，以其可以藩屏於我也[8]；宋解方鎮[9]之權，以方鎮之不利於我也。此其法何曾有一毫為天下之心哉，而亦可謂之法乎？

草 (草) 戎jit⁶(熱) [普]nie⁴

12 三代之法，藏天下於天下者也[10]。山澤之利，不必其盡取，刑賞之權，不疑其旁落[11]；貴不在朝廷也，賤不在草莽也[12]。在後世方議其法之疏，而天下之人，不見上之可欲，不見下之可惡，法愈疏而亂愈不作，所謂無法之法也[13]。後世之法，藏天下於筐篋者也[14]。利不欲其遺於下，福必欲其斂

筐 [粵]hong¹(康) [普]kuang¹

篋 [粵]haap⁶(俠) [普]qie⁴

1 三代見〈題辭〉註2；法指國家的法律、制度。
2 二帝指堯、舜；三王指夏禹、商湯、周文王，另一說為商湯、周文王及周武王。
3 徵募軍隊。卒為步兵，乘為兵車，二者泛指軍隊；賦，兵役。
4 此總結三代以上之法，非為一人（而是為百姓）而立，以對比三代以下的君主所立的「一家之法」。
5 上天賜予的福佑。此處指帝王的統治。
6 在禍患發生前就考慮為一己立法。思，禍患；未然，還沒成為事實。
7 古代帝王把爵位、土地分封予諸侯，諸侯在封地內建立邦國，稱為封建。黃宗羲認為秦始皇廢除封建制，改行郡縣制，是因為郡縣制對其統治有利。
8 漢初郡縣與封建制並行，漢高祖分封同姓子弟，以保衛王室。庶孽，家庭庶出的子弟，與嫡相對。屏藩，保衛。
9 方鎮，總領兵權，鎮守一方的軍事將領，也稱藩鎮。鑑於唐代藩鎮之禍，宋太祖遂解除方鎮兵權，以加強中央集權。
10 讓天下成為天下人的天下。
11 山林湖泊所產，不必盡歸君主所有；應開與獎賞大權，不擔心旁落到別人手裏。原文此句的主語是三代的君主。
12 朝廷不是尊貴的所在，民間也不是卑賤的地方。草莽，民間，與朝廷相對。
13 法度愈疏闊，愈不發生禍亂，這就是沒有法的法。
14 以天下作為一己之私產。筐篋，家用收藏財物的方形竹器。

於上[15]；用一人焉，則疑其自私，而又用一人以制其私；行一事焉，則慮其可欺，而又設一事以防其欺。天下之人，共知其筐篋[16]之所在，吾亦鰓鰓然日唯筐篋之是慮[17]，故其法不得不密，法愈密而天下之亂，即生於法之中，所謂非法之法[18]也。

鰓 [粵]saai²(徙) [普]xi³

論者謂：一代有一代之法，子孫以法祖[19]為孝。夫非法之法，前王不勝[20]其利欲之私以創之，後王或不勝其利欲之私以壞之；壞之者固足以害天下，其創之者亦未始[21]非害天下者也。乃必欲周旋於此膠彼漆[22]之中，以博憲章之餘名[23]，此俗儒之勦說[24]也。即[25]論者謂天下之治亂，不繫於法之存亡。夫古今之變，至秦而一盡[26]，至元而又一盡，經此二盡之後，古聖王之所惻隱愛人而經營者，蕩然無具[27]；苟[28]非為之遠思深覽，一一通變，以復井田[29]、封建、學校、卒乘之舊，雖小小更革，生民之戚戚終無已時也[30]。即論者謂有治人無治法[31]，吾以謂有治法而後有治人。自非法之法桎梏[32]天下人之手足，即有能治之人，終

13

勦：抄襲 [粵]caau¹(抄) [普]chao¹

桎 [粵]zat⁶(侄) [普]zhi⁴

梏 [粵]guk¹(谷) [普]gu⁴

15 利益不願給予人民，享受必集中於君主。證，留給。斂，聚集。
16 此處指君主的權力。
17 每天都在擔憂失去統治的權力。鰓鰓然，恐懼的樣子。慮，憂慮。此句是黃宗羲從三代以後的君主的角度寫。
18 不合法的法。
19 效法祖宗，遵守祖宗的法度。
20 不勝，經不起，受不住。經不起私利欲望（的誘惑）而訂立（這些不合法之法）。
21 未嘗。
22 膠漆都是黏結之物，此處比喻拘泥於成法，不知變通。乃字在古漢語裏的用法很多，此處作連詞用，可是、然而之意。
23 憲，效法、遵守。憲章，遵守祖宗之法。餘名，死後的虛名。
24 抄襲別人的言論。
25 現在。
26 徹底改變。
27 具，有。蕩然無具，指聖王的法律、制度蕩然無存。
28 如果。
29 復，恢復。井田，商、周時代的一種土地制度。以地一方里劃成九區，山八家各佔百畝，稱為私田，中間百畝為公田。因形如井字，故稱井田。
30 戚戚，憂慮害怕。無已時，沒有終止的時候。
31 有治理天下的人才，而無治理天下的法則。意即治理國家要靠有能力的人，而不是靠法制。《荀子．君道》：「有亂君，無亂國，有治人，無治法。」
32 古代刑具，腳鐐手銬，後多比喻為束縛。

原臣

6 有人焉，視於無形，聽於無聲[1]，以事其君，可謂之臣乎？曰：否。殺其身以事其君，可謂之臣乎？曰：否。夫視於無形，聽於無聲，資於事父也[2]；殺其身者，無私之極則也；而猶不足以當之[3]，則臣道如何而後可？曰：緣夫天下之大，非一人之所能治，而分治之以群工。故我之出而仕也，為天下，非為君也；為萬民，非為一姓也。吾以天下萬民起見，非其道，即君以形聲強我[4]，未之敢從也，況於無形無聲乎！非其道，即立身於其朝，未之敢許也，況於殺其身乎！不然，而以君之一身一姓起見，若有無形無聲之嗜慾[5]，吾從而視之聽之，此宦官宮妾之心也。君為己死而為己亡，吾從而[6]死之亡之[7]，此其私暱者[8]之事也。是乃臣、不臣之辨也。

7 世之為臣者昧於此義，以謂臣為君而設者也，君分吾以天下而後治之，君授吾以人民而後牧[9]之，視天下人民，為人君橐[10]中之私物。今以四方之勞攘，民生之憔悴，足以危吾君也，不得不講治之牧之之術。苟無係於社稷[11]之存亡，則四方之勞攘，民生之憔悴，雖有誠臣，亦以為纖芥之疾也[12]。夫古之為臣者，於此乎，於彼乎？

橐 [粵] tok³(託) [普] tuo²

8 蓋天下之治亂，不在一姓之興亡，而在萬民之憂樂。是故桀、紂之亡，乃所以為治也；秦政、蒙古之興，乃所以為亂也；晉、宋、齊、梁[13]之

1 對方心意未滋於言表，已如親聽親視了然於胸。
2 資，用、取。語出《孝經・士》：「資於事父以事母而愛同；資於事父以事君而敬同。故母取其愛，而君取其敬。兼之者父也。」原指以侍奉父親的孝敬態度作為事母和事君之本。
3 當，符合，指符合臣道。
4 形聲，指疾言厲色。此句指若主疾言厲色，強迫臣下順從其意願。
5 嗜好和欲望。
6 我以死相從。
7 為君死為君亡。
8 所親近寵愛之人。
9 統治。
10 盛物的袋子。
11 社，土神；稷，穀神。社稷借代國家。
12 微不足道的問題。
13 晉、宋、齊、梁借代魏晉南北朝這段分裂時期。

興亡，無與於治亂者也。為臣者，輕視斯民之水火，即能輔君而興，從君而亡，其於臣道固未嘗不背[14]也。夫治天下猶曳大木然[15]，前者唱邪，後者唱許[16]。君與臣，共曳木之人也；若手不執紼[17]，足不履地，曳木者唯娛笑於曳木者之前，從曳木者以為良，而曳木之職荒矣。

嗟乎！後世驕君自恣，不以天下萬民為事，其所求乎草野者[18]，不過欲得奔走服役之人。乃使草野之應於上者，亦不出夫奔走服役：一時免於寒餓，遂感在上之知遇，不復計其禮之備與不備，蹐之儇妾之間而以為當然。萬曆初，神宗之待張居正[19]，其禮稍優，比於古之師傅未能百一，當時論者，赧然居正之受，無人臣禮[20]。夫居正之罪，正坐不能以師傅自待[21]，聽指使於僕妾，而責之反是，何也？是則耳目浸淫於流俗之所謂臣者以為鵠[22]矣，又豈知臣之與君，名異而實同耶！

與：有開 [粵] jyu⁶(禦) [普] yu⁴

邪 [粵] je⁴(爺) [普] ye²

許 [粵] hɐi²(喜) [普] hu³

蹐 [粵] zai¹(擠)

鵠 [粵] guk¹(谷)

或曰：臣不與子並稱乎？曰：非也。父子一氣[23]，子分父之身而為身。故孝子雖異身，而能日近其氣，久之無不通矣；不孝之子，分身而後，日遠日疏，久之而氣不相似矣。君臣之名，從天下而有之者也。吾無天下之責，則吾在君為路人。出而仕於君也，不以天下為事，則君之僕妾也；以天下為事，則君之師友也。夫然，謂之臣，其名累變；夫父子固不可變者也。

14 違背。
15 跟拉大木頭一樣。
16 邪許，眾人一齊用力時的呼喊聲，語出《淮南子・道應》，為舉重勸力之歌。「前者唱邪，後者唱許」指曳木者互相呼應，同時用力，比喻君臣同為治理國家而努力。
17 牽引木頭的大繩。
18 草野，與朝廷相對，指民間。求乎草野，在民間選任官員。
19 張居正（1525年–1582年）為明神宗朝首輔。明太祖廢宰相之制，首輔多由內閣大學士充任，而職責與宰相無異。自神宗十歲起輔助國政達十年，主導政治、經濟、軍事、教育各方面的改革，最為人稱道的是簡化稅制的一條鞭法和評考官員政績的考成法等。神宗對張優禮有加。萬曆十年張居正病逝，神宗追封他為上柱國，謚文忠。張生前備極恩榮，卻在其死後不到兩年間被抄家、剝奪封謚，兒子或枉死或革職，親信遭到嚴懲。其升沉榮辱見證人君之視人臣為僕妾，隨其喜怒妄加賞罰。
20 張居正為神宗主持經筵、日講，講解經史典籍，又協助神宗主持國政，因此神宗從不直呼其名，而以先生、元輔相稱。
21 正坐不能以師傅自待，此處的坐即由於。自待，指看待評價自己，自居。全句意思是張居正的錯，正由於不能以師傅之尊自居。
22 箭靶的中心，引伸為目的、標準。
23 人的氣質，與生俱來的氣質。

原法

11

三代以上有法[1]，三代以下無法。何以言之？二帝、三王[2]，知天下之不可無養也，為之授田以耕之；知天下之不可無衣也，為之授地以桑麻之；知天下之不可無教也，為之學校以興之；為之婚姻之禮以防其淫；為之卒乘之賦[3]以防其亂。此三代以上之法也，固未嘗為一己而立也[4]。後之人主，既得天下，唯恐其祚命[5]之不長也，子孫之不能保有也，思患於未然以為之法[6]。然則其所謂法者，一家之法而非天下之法也。是故秦變封建而為郡縣，以郡縣得私於我也[7]；漢建庶孽，以其可以藩屏於我也[8]；宋解方鎮[9]之權，以方鎮之不利於我也。此其法何曾有一毫為天下之心哉，而亦可謂之法乎？

革 p⁶(業)或jit⁶(熱) [普]nie⁴

12

三代之法，藏天下於天下者也[10]。山澤之利，不必其盡取，刑賞之權，不疑其旁落[11]；貴不在朝廷也，賤不在草莽也[12]。在後世方議其法之疏，而天下之人，不見上之可欲，不見下之可惡，法愈疏而亂愈不作，所謂無法之法也[13]。後世之法，藏天下於篋笥者也[14]。利不欲其遺於下，福必欲其斂

黌 [粵]hong¹(康) [普]kuang¹

篋 [粵]haap⁶(俠) [普]qie⁴

1 三代見〈題辭〉註2；法指國家的法律、制度。
2 二帝指堯、舜；三王指夏禹、商湯、周文王，另一說為商湯、周文王及周武王。
3 徵募軍隊。卒為步兵，乘為兵車，二者泛指軍隊；賦，兵役。
4 此總結三代以上之法，非為一人（而是為百姓）而立，以對比三代以下的君主所立的「一家之法」。
5 上天賜予的福佑。此處指帝王的統治。
6 在禍患發生前就考慮為一己立法。患，禍患；未然，還沒成為事實。
7 古代帝王把爵位、土地分封予諸侯，諸侯在封地內建立邦國，稱為封建。黃宗羲認為秦始皇廢除封建制，改行郡縣制，是因為郡縣制對其統治有利。
8 漢初郡縣與封建制並行，漢高祖分封同姓子弟，以保衛王室。庶孽，家庭庶出的子弟，與嫡相對。屏藩，保衛。
9 方鎮，總領兵權，鎮守一方的軍事將領，也稱藩鎮。鑑於唐代藩鎮之禍，宋太祖逐解除方鎮兵權，以加強中央集權。
10 讓天下成為天下人的天下。
11 山林湖泊所產，不必盡歸君主所有；懲罰與獎賞大權，不擔心旁落到別人手裏。原文此句的主語是三代的君主。
12 朝廷不是尊貴的所在，民間也不是卑賤的地方。草莽，民間，與朝廷相對。
13 法度愈疏闊，愈不發生禍亂，這就是沒有法的法。
14 以天下作為一己之私產。篋笥，家用收藏財物的方形竹器。

於上[15]；用一人焉，則疑其自私，而又用一人以制其私；行一事焉，則慮其可欺，而又設一事以防其欺。天下之人，共知其篋笥[16]之所在，吾亦鰥鰥然日唯篋笥之是虞[17]，故其法不得不密，法愈密而天下之亂，即生於法之中，所謂非法之法[18]也。

鰥 [粵]saai¹(生) [普]xi¹

論者謂：一代有一代之法，子孫以法祖[19]為孝。夫非法之法，前王不勝[20]其利欲之私以創之，後王或不勝其利欲之私以壞之；壞之者固足以害天下，其創之者亦未始[21]非害天下者也。乃必欲周旋於此膠彼漆之中，以博憲章之餘名[23]，此俗儒之勦說[24]也。即[25]論者謂天下之治亂，不繫於法之存亡。夫古今之變，至秦而一盡[26]，至元而又一盡，經此二盡之後，古聖王之所惻隱愛人而經營者，蕩然無具[27]；苟[28]非為之遠思深覽，一一通變，以復井田[29]、封建、學校、卒乘之舊，雖小小更革，生民之戚戚終無已時也[30]。即論者謂有治人無治法[31]，吾以謂有治法而後有治人。自非法之法桎梏[32]天下人之手足，即有能治之人，終

13

勦：抄襲 [粵]caau¹(抄) [普]chao¹

桎 [粵]zat⁶(佐) [普]zhi⁴

梏 [粵]guk¹(谷) [普]gu⁴

15 利益不願給予人民，享受必集中於君主。遠，留給。斂，聚集。
16 此處指君主的權力。
17 每天都在擔憂失去統治的權力。鰥鰥然，恐懼的樣子。虞，憂慮。此句是黃宗羲從三代以後的君主的角度寫。
18 不合法的法。
19 效法祖宗，遵守祖宗的法度。
20 不勝，經不起，受不住。經不起私利欲望（的誘惑）而訂立（這些不合法之法）。
21 未嘗。
22 膠漆都是黏結之物，此處比喻拘泥於成法，不知變通。乃字在古漢語裏的用法很多，此處作連詞用，可是、然而之意。
23 憲，效法、遵守。憲章，遵守祖宗之法。餘名，死後的虛名。
24 抄襲別人的言論。
25 現在。
26 徹底改變。
27 具，有。蕩然無具，指聖王的法律、制度蕩然無存。
28 如果。
29 復，恢復。井田，商、周時代的一種土地制度。以地一方里劃成九區，由八家各佔百畝，稱為私田，中間百畝為公田。因形如井字，故稱井田。
30 戚戚，憂慮害怕。無已時，沒有終止的時候。
31 有治理天下的人才，而無治理天下的法則。意即治理國家要靠有能力的人，而不是靠法制。《荀子．君道》：「有亂君，無亂國，有治人，無治法。」
32 古代刑具，腳鐐手銬，後多比喻為束縛。

分：職分
[粵] fen⁶
[普] fen⁴

不勝其牽挽嫌疑之顧盼[33]；有所設施，亦就其分之所得，安於苟簡[34]，而不能有度外之功名[35]。使[36]先王之法而在，莫不有法外之意[37]存乎其間。其人是也[38]，則可以無不行[39]之意；其人非也，亦不至深刻羅網[40]，以害天下。故曰有治法而後有治人。

33 牽挽，牽絆躲肘。顧盼，觀望不前。此句謂即使有能夠治理天下的人，終究會受到這些非法之法的掣肘或為避嫌而觀望不前。
34 苟且簡略。
35 度外，法度以外。此句謂不能有超出現行法度以外的功績。
36 假使，如果。
37 法規以外的美意。即前面說的古聖王惻隱愛人之心。
38 其人指治理天下的人；是也，意指是賢能的人。
39 不能推行（先王之法）。
40 深刻，嚴苛刻薄；羅網，本是捕捉鳥獸的網，比喻用以箝制百姓的嚴刑峻法。

置相

有明之無善治，自高皇帝罷丞相始也[1]。 14

原夫作君之意，所以治天下也。天下不能一人而治，則設官以治之；是官者，分身之君也。孟子曰：「天子一位，公一位，侯一位，伯一位，子男同一位，凡五等。君一位，卿一位，大夫一位，上士一位，中士一位，下士一位，凡六等[2]。」蓋自外而言之[3]，天子之去公，猶公、侯、伯、子、男之遞相去[4]；自內而言之[5]，君之去卿，猶卿、大夫、士之遞相去。非獨至於天子遂截然無等級也。昔者伊尹[6]、周公[7]之攝政，以宰相而攝天子，亦不殊[8]於大夫之攝卿，士之攝大夫耳。後世君驕臣諂，天子之位，始不列於卿、大夫、士之間，而小儒遂河漢其攝位之事[9]；以至君崩子立，忘哭泣衰絰[10] 15

衰絰：衰服
[粵] ceoi¹(崔)dit⁶(佚)
[普] cuī'dié²

1 高皇帝，明太祖朱元璋；罷丞相，指朱元璋廢除左右丞相，並不准後人再設此職一事。
2 語出《孟子・萬章下》，這一段是在說明周室的官爵等級。天子、公、侯、伯、子及男等五等是周王朝的爵位等級；君、卿、大夫、上士、中士及下士等六等是諸侯國的爵位等級。
3 專就外在於諸侯國，即周王室本身的等級來說。
4 天子之位相距公之位，（就）好比公、侯、伯、子、男之位各級間依次相距。遞，依次。
5 從諸侯國內說明這個等級，參註4。
6 伊尹，商朝初年主政賢臣。據《史記・殷本紀》記載，伊尹輔助商湯攻滅夏桀，立國開朝。成湯逝世後，他還分別輔助了他兩個依次繼位的兒子，外丙及中壬。後來，成湯的長孫太甲即位，伊尹也一樣輔助他，但因為太甲暴虐，不遵守成湯留下的法規，所以伊尹把他放逐到了桐宮。三年後，太甲改過遷善，伊尹才迎返太甲，歸還政權。
7 周公，周武王之弟，輔助武王建立周朝。武王逝世後，其子誦嗣位，是為成王，但當時成王年少，所以周公決定「攝行政當國」。攝政七年後，成王成長，周公歸政成王，自己當回了臣子。
8 差別、差異。
9 鄒陋的儒生（就）把伊尹、周公攝政的事當成虛空無實，不可掌握。河漢，本指星河，此處用作動詞，借喻廣博虛空，無法理解之意。
10 麻布造的喪服。衰，喪服胸前當心處的一片長麻布；絰，服喪期間戴在頭上或結在腰間的麻帶。

之哀，講禮樂征伐之治[11]，君臣之義未必全，父子之恩已先絕矣[12]。不幸國無長君，委之母后，為宰相者方避嫌而處，寧[13]使[14]其決裂敗壞，貽笑千古。無乃視天子之位過高所致乎！

16 古者君之待臣也，臣拜，君必答拜。秦、漢以後，廢而不講；然丞相進，天子御座為起，在輿為下[15]。宰相既罷，天子更無與為禮者矣；遂謂百官之設，所以事我，能事我者我賢之，不能事我者我否之。設官之意既訛[16]，尚能得作君之意乎？古者不傳子而傳賢，其視天子之位，去留猶夫宰相也[17]。其後天子傳子，宰相不傳子。天子之子不皆賢，尚賴宰相傳賢，足相補救，則天子亦不失傳賢之意。宰相既罷，天子之子一不賢，更無與為賢者矣，不亦并傳子之意而失者乎？

17 或謂後之入閣辦事，無宰相之名，有宰相之實也。曰：不然。入閣辦事者，職在批答[18]，猶開府之書記也；其事既輕，而批答之意，又必自內授之而後擬之[19]，可謂有其實乎？吾以謂有宰相之實者，今之宮奴也。蓋大權不能無所寄；彼宮奴者，見宰相之政事墜地不收，從而設為科條[20]，增其職

11 國家的內外政務，對內制禮作樂，對外征伐開闢。「忘哭泣衰絰之哀，講禮樂征伐之治」這兩句是指繼位的皇帝忘了喪親之痛，而只講求國家內外政務的治理，可見他只急於要掌握天下。

12 《論語．八佾》：「君使臣以禮，臣事君以忠」，孔子認為君臣各有本份，所以有君臣之義。太子與皇帝有君臣與父子的雙重關係，所以既有君臣之義，也有父子之恩。黃宗羲認為，太子急於取代亡君，是忘義而負恩的表現。

13 此處指乃或竟然。副詞。

14 代詞，指國家。

15 天子由座位上站起來，由車乘上下來。句子倒裝，一般的語序應為「天子起御座，下輿」。

16 謬誤。

17 免除和任命，（就）好像宰相（的位置）。

18 職務在於批示答覆。明代殿閣大學士的職責在於審閱奏章，擬出意見供皇帝裁決，稱票擬，可參註19。

19 又必定由皇帝提出意見然後才擬出批示，這是票擬的其中一種情況。《明史》也記載了不同的票擬情況，殿閣大學士可能先與皇帝商討，後擬定奏章的批答，但更多是先擬好批答，後呈請皇帝「批紅」。

20 法令條文，規章條例。

置相

掌，生殺予奪，出自宰相者，次第[21]而盡歸焉。有明之閣下[22]，賢者貧其殘膏剩馥[23]，不賢者假其喜笑怒罵[24]，道路傳之，國史書之，則以為其人之相業[25]矣。故使宮奴有宰相之實者，則罷丞相之過也。閣下之賢者，盡其能事則曰法祖[26]；亦非為祖宗之必足法也，其事位既輕，不得不假祖宗以壓後王，以塞宮奴。祖宗之所行未必皆當，宮奴之黠[27]者又復條舉其疵行[28]，亦曰法祖，而法祖之論荒[29]矣。使宰相不罷，自得以古聖哲王之行，磨切[30]其主，其主亦有所畏而不敢不從也。

宰相一人，參知政事[31]無常員。每日便殿[32]議政，天子南面，宰相、六卿[33]、諫官[34]東西面以次坐。其執事皆用士人。凡章奏進呈，六科給事中[35]主之；給事中以白[36]宰相，宰相以白天子，同議可否。天子批紅[37]；天子不能盡，則宰相批之，下六部施行。更不用呈之御前，轉發閣中票擬[38]，閣中

21 逐步、一個一個地。這裏指前句提到，可以關涉多個範圍的各種權力。

22 內閣中的大學士。

23 賢良的人借用宦官沒有完全包攬的殘餘權力（行事），殘膏剩馥，殘餘的膏澤，剩餘的芳香，借喻殘餘的權力。

24 不賢的人迎合宦官的好惡（行事）。

25 宰相的功業。

26 內閣中賢良的大學士，傾盡本領（做到）的事就說（要）效法祖宗。

27 狡猾、奸詐。

28 做成災難的行為。這裏說的疵行，是專指祖宗那些做成災難的行為。

29 荒廢，指變成沒有用。

30 砥礪，規勸之意。

31 相當於副宰相。朱元璋於洪武九年（1376年），裁汰了參知政事一職。

32 正殿以外的別殿，是皇帝休息和安排飲宴之所。

33 六卿，此處應指朱元璋所置的通政司、大理寺、太常寺、光祿寺、太僕寺及鴻臚寺等六個部門的負責人，他們的職銜都是「卿」。另有一個說法以為六卿是指六部尚書。

34 專責向皇帝進諫，指出皇帝過失的官員，明代並無專職諫官，六科給事中和御史兼行勸諫皇帝之職。

35 朱元璋承宋、元舊制，設給事中。給事中是一批既輔助皇帝處理奏章，又負責監督六部屬吏的官員。

36 稟告。

37 皇帝以朱筆批示呈上的奏章。

38 參註19。

覆
[粵] fuk^{1}(福)
[普] fù^{4}

相：丞相

黠
[粵] hat^{6}(核)或kit^{3}(揭)
[普] xiá^{2}

18

又綴[39]之御前，而後下該衙門，如故事[40]往返，使大權自宮奴出也。

19 宰相設政事堂[41]，使新進士主之，或用待詔者[42]。唐張說為相[43]，列五房於政事堂之後：一曰吏房，二曰樞機房，三曰兵房，四曰戶房，五曰刑禮房，分曹以主眾務，此其例也。四方上書言利弊者，及待詔之人，皆集焉，凡事無不得達。

39 交付、交出。
40 以往的事例、舊的規則。
41 唐代置政事堂，為中書、門下、尚書三省宰相會眾議事之處。唐代三省，中書出政令、門下駁封駁，尚書則掌執行，政事堂讓三省長官，特別是中書和門下兩省，可以討論政策，解決分歧，商定後，再奏報皇帝。宋代仍沿唐制，設立政事堂，但元、明、清三朝卻沒有再設置。
42 等待詔命的人，即是可以召用，但未有正式官位的人。
43 張說（667年–730年），唐代名相，名詩人。

學校

學校，所以養士也。然古之聖王，其意不僅此也；必使治天下之具皆出於學校，而後設學校之意始備。非謂班朝[1]、布令[2]、養老、恤孤、訊馘[3]，大師旅則會將士[4]，大獄訟則期吏民[5]，大祭祀則享始祖[6]，行之自辟雍也[7]。蓋使朝廷之上，閭閻[8]之細，漸摩濡染[9]，莫不有詩書覽大之氣；天子之所是未必是，天子之所非未必非，天子亦遂不敢自為非是，而公其非是於學校。是故養士為學校之一事，而學校不僅為養士而設也。

三代[10]以下，天下之是非，一出於朝廷。天子榮之[11]，則群趨以為是；天子辱之，則群嗤以[12]為非。簿書、期會、錢穀、戎獄[13]，一切委之俗吏。時風眾勢之外，稍有人焉，便以為學校中無當於緩急[14]之習氣。而其所謂學校者，科舉囂爭，富貴熏心，亦遂以朝廷之勢利，一變其本領[15]；而士之有才能學術者，且往往自拔於草野之間，於學校初無與也[16]，究竟[17]養士一事亦失之矣。

1 整肅朝班。
2 發佈命令。
3 訊，俘虜。馘，死而截耳者。古人征戰割取敵人左耳以計算戰功，故名。訊馘在此表示戰勝。
4 古代五百人為旅，五旅為師，以為軍隊編制，引申指戰事。
5 期作動詞用，表示約會；期吏民即會合官吏和百姓。
6 享，動詞，表示祭獻，在此表示祭祀祖先。
7 辟雍原指西周天子為教育貴族子弟所設的大學，同時也是周天子及貴族成員舉行禮樂大典、祭祀活動、習射樂舞等活動的場所。辟，通璧，象壁圓。雍，池沼。辟雍表示校址圓形，圍以水池。全句「非謂……行之自辟雍也」指「不是說…（整肅朝班以至祭祀祖先等事）…由學校執行」。
8 閭指里巷的大門，閻指里巷內的門，用以借代民間。
9 如耳濡目染，指因長期接觸而受到感染。
10 見（題辭）註2。
11 榮，使動用法，使之光榮，此處指表彰、讚揚。
12 指摘、指責。
13 簿書為記錄財物出納的簿冊。期會指在期限內實施政令，此處指按時交納稅項。錢穀指錢幣、穀物，此處指賦稅的管理。戎獄指軍政和司法。
14 不切實際，非危急所需。
15 原來的職能。
16 與，參與。「於學校初無與也」指與學校無關。
17 到最後、結果。

20
馘
[粵]gwik^{1}(隔)或gwak^{3}(
[普]guo^{2}

辟
[粵]pik^{1}(劈)
[普]bi^{4}

雍
[粵]jung^{1}(翁)
[普]yong^{1}

21
閭
[粵]loei^{4}(雷)
[普]lv^{2}

閻
[粵]jim^{4}(炎)
[普]yan^{2}

「無與」之「與」
[粵]jyu^{4}(預)
[普]yu^{4}

於是學校變而為書院。有所非也，則朝廷必以為是而榮之；有所是也，則朝廷必以為非而辱之。偽學之禁，書院之毀，必欲以朝廷之權與之爭勝。其不仕者有刑，曰：「此率天下士大夫而背朝廷者也。」其始也，學校與朝廷無與；其繼也，朝廷與學校相反；不特不能養士，且至於害士，猶然循其名而立之，何與？

與」之「與」[粵]jyu⁴(余)[普]yu²

東漢太學三萬人，危言深論，不隱豪強，公卿避其貶議[18]；宋諸生伏闕搥鼓，請起李綱[19]。三代遺風，惟此猶為相近。使當日之在朝廷者，以其所非是為非是，將見盜賊奸邪，愧心於正氣霜雪之下，君安而國可保也。乃論者目之為衰世之事，不知其所以亡者，收捕黨人，編管陳、歐[20]，正坐破壞學校所致，而反咎學校之人乎！

嗟乎！天之生斯民也，以教養托之於君。授田之法廢，民買田而自養，猶賦稅以擾之；學校之法廢，民蚩蚩[21]而失教，猶勢利以誘之。是亦不仁之甚，而以其空名諛之曰「君父，君父」，則吾誰欺！

[粵]ci¹(雌)[普]chi¹

郡縣學官，毋得出自選除[22]；郡縣公議，請名儒主之。自布衣以至宰相之謝事者，皆可當其任，不拘已仕未仕也。其人稍有干於清議[23]，則諸生得

18 太學為古代設於京城的最高學府。危言指不畏危難而敢於直言。東漢太學生人數眾多，學生以天下為己任，針砭時弊、臧否人物，其輿論力量足與朝廷抗衡。

19 李綱（1083年–1140年）為宋朝抗金主戰派將領，歷北宋、南宋兩朝，官至太常少卿、宰相。北宋宋靖康元年（1126年），金人圍攻宋京城開封，宋將姚平仲率精兵夜襲金營，大敗而還。是次挫敗令主和派得勢，朝廷為與金人議和，罷免李綱，其時宰相李邦彥等主張棄城割地以求和，太學諸生陳東等及都民數萬人伏闕上書，請復用李綱，又指李邦彥等與李綱爭權，憚其成功，罷免李綱是中了金人的圈套。群情激憤，大罵李邦彥，又敲打登聞鼓，山呼勤地。宋欽宗恐生內變，於是復用李綱為右丞，充京城防禦使。

20 陳指太學生陳東（1086年–1127年），歐指歐陽澈（1091年–1127年），南宋高宗即位，陳東上書請留李綱而罷免黃潛善、汪伯彥，又請親征以還徽欽二帝，治諸將不進兵之罪，以壯士氣；並請高宗師返京師，勿赴金陵。其時歐陽澈亦上書言事，黃潛善為剷除異己，建議高宗誅殺二人，以免陳東等人再次鼓眾伏闕。二人遂同斬於市。編管指籍放遠方州郡，編入該地戶籍，並由地方官管束，但陳歐二人被殺而非編管，黃說與史實不符。

21 無知之貌。

22 選拔、任用。

23 社會輿論。

學校

共起而易之，曰：「是不可以為吾師也。」其下有五經師，兵法、曆算、醫、射各有師，皆聽學官自擇。凡邑之生童皆裹糧[24]從學，離城煙火聚落之處士人眾多者，亦置經師。民間童子十人以上，則以諸生之老而不仕者，充為蒙師[25]。故郡邑無無師之士；而士之學行成者，非主六曹[26]之事，則主分教之務，亦無不用之人。

學宮以外，凡在城在野寺觀庵堂，大者改為書院，經師[27]領之；小者改為小學，蒙師領之；以分處諸生受業。其寺產即隸於學，以贍諸生之貧者。二氏之徒[28]，分別其有學行者，歸之學宮，其餘則各還其業。 26

太學祭酒[29]，推擇當世大儒，其重與宰相等，或宰相退處為之。每朔[30]日，天子臨幸太學，宰相、六卿[31]、諫議皆從之。祭酒南面講學，天子亦就弟子之列。政有缺失，祭酒直言無諱。 27

天子之子年至十五，則與大臣之子就學於太學，使知民之情偽[32]，且使之稍習於勞苦。毋得閉置宮中，其所聞見，不出宦官宮妾之外，妄自崇大也。 28

郡縣朔望[33]，大會一邑之縉紳士子。學官講學，郡縣官就弟子列，北面再拜，師弟子各以疑義相質難。其以簿書期會，不至者罰之。郡縣官政事缺失，小則糾繩[34]，大則伐鼓號於眾。其或僻郡下縣，學官不得聚得名儒，而郡縣官之學行過之者，則朔望之會，郡縣官南面講學可也。若郡縣官少年無實學，妄自歷老儒而上之者，則士子譁而退之。 29

縉[粵]zocn¹(笋)[普]jin⁴

24 攜帶熟食乾糧。

25 啟蒙老師。

26 兵、刑、工、禮、戶、吏。

27 講授經書的學者。

28 居於寺觀庵堂的佛道信徒。

29 祭酒原為古代饗宴酹酒祭神的長者，後來亦指位尊者。此處指太學的主管。

30 朔日，陰曆每月初一。

31 見〈置相〉註33。

32 真偽與虛偽。

33 朔日和望日，舊曆每月初一和十五。

34 糾舉懲處。

30 解：遣送 [粵] gaai¹(界) [普] jie⁴ 與 [粵] jyu⁵(預) [普] yu⁴

擇名儒以提督學政[35]；然學官不隸屬於提學，以其學行名望相師友也。每三年，學官送其俊秀於提學而考之，補博士弟子；送博士弟子於提學而考之，以解[36]禮部，更不別遣考試官。發榜所遺之士，有平日優於學行者，學官咨[37]於提學補入之。其弟子之罷黜，學官以生平定之，而提學不與焉。

31 曉 [粵] zeot¹(出) 或 zyut¹(卒) [普] chu⁴

學曆者，能算氣朔[38]，即補博士弟子；其精者同入解額[39]，使禮部考之，官於欽天監[40]。學醫者，送提學考之，補博士弟子，方許行術[41]。歲終，稽其生死效否之數，書之於冊。分為三等：下等黜之；中等行術如故；上等解試禮部，入太醫院而官之。

32 凡鄉飲酒，合一郡一縣之縉紳士子[42]。士人年七十以上，生平無玷清議者，庶民年八十以上，無過犯者，皆以齒南面[43]，學官、郡縣官皆北面，憲老乞言[44]。

33 凡鄉賢名宦祠，毋得以勢位及子弟為進退。功業氣節則考之國史，文章則稽之傳世，理學則定之言行。此外鄉曲之小譽，時文之聲名，講章之經學，依附之事功，已經入祠者皆罷之。

34 凡郡邑書籍，不論行世藏家，博搜重購。每書鈔印三冊，一冊上祕府[45]，一冊送太學，一冊存本學。時人文集，古文非有師法，語錄非有心得，奏議無裨實用，序事無補史學者，不許傳刻。其時文、小說、詞曲、

35 提督，管理監察。提督學政指管理學校及地方考試、視察師生教學情況及選拔人才。
36 解，勸詞，指鄉舉。此處指由地方舉薦入京。
37 諮詢。
38 氣，自然界冷熱陰晴等現象，即陰、陽、風、雨、晦、明，共六氣。朔指農曆每月初一，月球運行到太陽和地球之間，地面上不見月光的自然現象。氣朔指天文曆算方面的知識。
39 解送的名額。
40 職官名，掌管一切天文事宜，順治元年（1644年）設。
41 行醫。
42 古時官吏把笏插在紳帶間，因此仕宦又稱「縉紳」。笏是朝會時臣下手中用以記事的狹長板子。
43 按年齡排列，向南而坐。
44 取法於年長者及向其求教。
45 宮廷收藏圖書祕記之地。

應酬代筆，已刻者皆追板燒之。士子選場屋之文及私試義策[46]，蠱惑坊市者，弟子員黜革，見任官落職，致仕官奪告身[47]。

見：即「現」

35 錯 [粵] am¹(庵) [普] an¹

民間吉凶，一依《朱子家禮》行事[48]。庶民未必通諳，其喪服之制度，木主[49]之尺寸，衣冠之式，宮室之制，在市肆工藝者，學官定而付之。離城聚落，蒙師相其禮以革習俗。

36 凡一邑之名蹟及先賢陵墓祠宇，其修飾表章[50]，皆學官之事。淫祠[51]通行拆毀，但留土穀[52]，設主祀之。故入其境，有違禮之祀，有非法之服，市懸無益之物，土留未掩之喪，優歌[53]在耳，鄙語滿街，則學官之職不修也。

46 場屋，科舉考試之地。義策指經義和策論，分別考核考生對經書的理解及對時務的見解。
47 告身為古代授官的文憑。
48 朱熹（1130年--1200年）撰《家禮》五卷，附錄一卷。《家禮》主要記載冠、婚、喪和祭等禮儀。
49 木製的神主牌位，上書死者姓名以供祭祀之用。
50 表彰，讚其事揚。
51 未經官方認可而濫設的祠廟。
52 土地神和五穀神。
53 優人唱的歌曲。

Sovereign Power of the People
—*The Social Contract*

Feeble as the influence of one voice may be on public affairs, Jean-Jacques Rousseau (1712–1778) affirms his right and duty to speak as a citizen. In *The Social Contract*, he tells us why.

The full title of *The Social Contract* is *The Social Contract or Principles of Political Right*. The idea of "principles of political right" shows Rousseau's intent to investigate what gives a person or a people the right to rule, while the idea of the "contract" shows Rousseau's concern with the relation between the ruler and the ruled. To raise questions about "legitimate rule" (Book I, para. 2) was no small matter during Rousseau's times, because kings in Europe had for centuries claimed "divine right" from God to justify their rule over entire peoples. Rousseau thinks this or any kind of absolutism does not make sense because a human being—unless being forced to—does not obey another merely because this other person is physically stronger, or holds material powers like wealth or weapon. For Rousseau, no one is born a slave, nor would anyone choose to be one.

If everyone is born free and equal, why would people come together to form a state that rules over themselves? Rousseau says that when people exercise natural freedom, they act according to impulse and appetite (Book I, Chapter VIII, para. 1). They can only think of their own lives and properties when they act. Their relation to each other is always one of domination and submission. However, when a people choose to come together and be bound by the social contract, they enjoy civil liberty. This liberty is guided by reason, which transforms everyone from an animal to an intelligent being whose acts are morally driven. They become citizens or members of the Sovereign sharing equally the power to rule themselves (Book I, Chapter VI, para. 11). They obey a legitimate force and they become responsible for themselves and for each other.

The Sovereign's power has limits, too. It acts according to the "general will" (公意). "General" means relevant to all. The general will always addresses the

"common good" (Book II, Chapter I, para. 1), whereas the "particular will" (私意) addresses the partial interest of one person or one group of people (Book II, Chapter I, para. 3–4). In a "civil order"(Book I, para. 2), the general will is expressed as the law, which is also general in the sense that it does not name particular persons or families to which the law applies (Book II, Chapter VI, para. 6). Before the law, all citizens are free and equal.

Rousseau's affirmation of the human capacity to reason has a long history. (We may recall Aristotle's idea of the human function of acting according to reason.) Many Enlightenment thinkers of Rousseau's times shared the view, although he was critical of the intellectual movement himself. *The Social Contract* was published in 1762, as was Rousseau's other work *Emile: or 'On Education'*. Both works had been banned or confiscated. For several years, Rousseau had to live like a fugitive. During the last years of his life, he retreated into solitude in the French countryside, studying botany, and writing autobiographical works like *Reveries of the Solitary Walker* (1782) and *The Confessions* (1782–89).

The Social Contract addresses issues about government and its relation to the governed that are pertinent to modern societies. We may find Rousseau's understanding of legitimate rule illuminating on how we conduct our lives as citizens from different societies.

Our reading is a translation by G.D.H. Cole. It is chosen for its readability and accessibility.

Yeung Yang

from

The Social Contract

by Jean-Jacques Rousseau

FOREWORD

This little treatise is part of a longer work which I began years ago without realizing my limitations, and long since abandoned. Of the various fragments that might have been extracted from what I wrote, this is the most considerable, and, I think, the least unworthy of being offered to the public. The rest no longer exists.

BOOK I

I mean to inquire if, in the civil order, there can be any sure and legitimate rule of 1
administration, men being taken as they are and laws as they might be. In this inquiry I shall endeavour always to unite what right sanctions with what is prescribed by interest, in order that justice and utility may in no case be divided.

I enter upon my task without proving the importance of the subject. I shall be 2
asked if I am a prince or a legislator, to write on politics. I answer that I am neither, and that is why I do so. If I were a prince or a legislator, I should not waste time in saying what wants doing; I should do it, or hold my peace.

From Jean-Jacques Rousseau, *The Social Contract and Discourses*, translated by G.D.H. Cole.

3 As I was born a citizen of a free State, and a member of the Sovereign, I feel that, however feeble the influence my voice can have on public affairs, the right of voting on them makes it my duty to study them: and I am happy, when I reflect upon governments, to find my inquiries always furnish me with new reasons for loving that of my own country.

CHAPTER I SUBJECT OF THE FIRST BOOK

1 Man is born free; and everywhere he is in chains. One thinks himself the master of others, and still remains a greater slave than they. How did this change come about? I do not know. What can make it legitimate? That question I think I can answer.

2 If I took into account only force, and the effects derived from it, I should say: "As long as a people is compelled to obey, and obeys, it does well; as soon as it can shake off the yoke, and shakes it off, it does still better; for, regaining its liberty by the same right as took it away, either it is justified in resuming it, or there was no justification for those who took it away." But the social order is a sacred right which is the basis of all other rights. Nevertheless, this right does not come from nature, and must therefore be founded on conventions. Before coming to that, I have to prove what I have just asserted.

CHAPTER II THE FIRST SOCIETIES

1 The most ancient of all societies, and the only one that is natural, is the family: and even so the children remain attached to the father only so long as they need him for their preservation. As soon as this need ceases, the natural bond is dissolved. The children, released from the obedience they owed to the father, and the father, released from the care he owed his children, return equally to independence. If they remain united, they continue so no longer naturally, but voluntarily; and the family itself is then maintained only by convention.

2 This common liberty results from the nature of man. His first law is to provide for his own preservation, his first cares are those which he owes to himself; and, as soon as he reaches years of discretion, he is the sole judge of the proper means of preserving himself, and consequently becomes his own master.

The family then may be called the first model of political societies: the ruler 3
corresponds to the father, and the people to the children; and all, being born free and equal, alienate their liberty only for their own advantage. The whole difference is that, in the family, the love of the father for his children repays him for the care he takes of them, while, in the State, the pleasure of commanding takes the place of the love which the chief cannot have for the peoples under him.

Grotius denies that all human power is established in favour of the governed, 4
and quotes slavery as an example. His usual method of reasoning is constantly to establish right by fact.[1] It would be possible to employ a more logical method, but none could be more favourable to tyrants.

It is then, according to Grotius, doubtful whether the human race belongs to 5
a hundred men, or that hundred men to the human race: and, throughout his book, he seems to incline to the former alternative, which is also the view of Hobbes. On this showing, the human species is divided into so many herds of cattle, each with its ruler, who keeps guard over them for the purpose of devouring them.

As a shepherd is of a nature superior to that of his flock, the shepherds of men, 6
i.e. their rulers, are of a nature superior to that of the peoples under them. Thus, Philo tells us, the Emperor Caligula reasoned, concluding equally well either that kings were gods, or that men were beasts.

The reasoning of Caligula agrees with that of Hobbes and Grotius. Aristotle, 7
before any of them, had said that men are by no means equal naturally, but that some are born for slavery, and others for dominion.

Aristotle was right; but he took the effect for the cause. Nothing can be 8
more certain than that every man born in slavery is born for slavery. Slaves lose everything in their chains, even the desire of escaping from them: they love their servitude, as the comrades of Ulysses loved their brutish condition.[2] If then there are slaves by nature, it is because there have been slaves against nature. Force made the first slaves, and their cowardice perpetuated the condition.

I have said nothing of King Adam, or Emperor Noah, father of the three great 9
monarchs who shared out the universe, like the children of Saturn, whom some

[1] "Learned inquiries into public right are often only the history of past abuses; and troubling to study them too deeply is a profitless infatuation" (*Essay on the Interests of France in Relation to its Neighbours, by the Marquis d'Argenson*). This is exactly what Grotius has done.

[2] See a short treatise of Plutarch's entitled "That Animals Reason".

scholars have recognized in them. I trust to getting due thanks for my moderation; for, being a direct descendant of one of these princes, perhaps of the eldest branch, how do I know that a verification of titles might not leave me the legitimate king of the human race? In any case, there can be no doubt that Adam was sovereign of the world, as Robinson Crusoe was of his island, as long as he was its only inhabitant; and this empire had the advantage that the monarch, safe on his throne, had no rebellions, wars, or conspirators to fear.

CHAPTER III THE RIGHT OF THE STRONGEST

1 The strongest is never strong enough to be always the master, unless he transforms strength into right, and obedience into duty. Hence the right of the strongest, which, though to all seeming meant ironically, is really laid down as a fundamental principle. But are we never to have an explanation of this phrase? Force is a physical power, and I fail to see what moral effect it can have. To yield to force is an act of necessity, not of will—at the most, an act of prudence. In what sense can it be a duty?

2 Suppose for a moment that this so-called "right" exists. I maintain that the sole result is a mass of inexplicable nonsense. For, if force creates right, the effect changes with the cause: every force that is greater than the first succeeds to its right. As soon as it is possible to disobey with impunity, disobedience is legitimate; and, the strongest being always in the right, the only thing that matters is to act so as to become the strongest. But what kind of right is that which perishes when force fails? If we must obey perforce, there is no need to obey because we ought; and if we are not forced to obey, we are under no obligation to do so. Clearly, the word "right" adds nothing to force: in this connection, it means absolutely nothing.

3 Obey the powers that be. If this means yield to force, it is a good precept, but superfluous: I can answer for its never being violated. All power comes from God, I admit; but so does all sickness: does that mean that we are forbidden to call in the doctor? A brigand surprises me at the edge of a wood: must I not merely surrender my purse on compulsion; but, even if I could withhold it, am I in conscience bound to give it up? For certainly the pistol he holds is also a power.

4 Let us then admit that force does not create right, and that we are obliged to obey only legitimate powers. In that case, my original question recurs.

CHAPTER IV SLAVERY

Since no man has a natural authority over his fellow, and force creates no right, we must conclude that conventions form the basis of all legitimate authority among men. 1

If an individual, says Grotius, can alienate his liberty and make himself the slave of a master, why could not a whole people do the same and make itself subject to a king? There are in this passage plenty of ambiguous words which would need explaining; but let us confine ourselves to the word *alienate*. To alienate is to give or to sell. Now, a man who becomes the slave of another does not give himself; he sells himself, at the least for his subsistence: but for what does a people sell itself? A king is so far from furnishing his subjects with their subsistence that he gets his own only from them; and, according to Rabelais, kings do not live on nothing. Do subjects then give their persons on condition that the king takes their goods also? I fail to see what they have left to preserve. 2

It will be said that the despot assures his subjects civil tranquillity. Granted; but what do they gain, if the wars his ambition brings down upon them, his insatiable avidity, and the vexatious conduct of his ministers press harder on them than their own dissensions would have done? What do they gain, if the very tranquillity they enjoy is one of their miseries? Tranquillity is found also in dungeons; but is that enough to make them desirable places to live in? The Greeks imprisoned in the cave of the Cyclops lived there very tranquilly, while they were awaiting their turn to be devoured. 3

To say that a man gives himself gratuitously, is to say what is absurd and inconceivable; such an act is null and illegitimate, from the mere fact that he who does it is out of his mind. To say the same of a whole people is to suppose a people of madmen; and madness creates no right. 4

Even if each man could alienate himself, he could not alienate his children: they are born men and free; their liberty belongs to them, and no one but they has the right to dispose of it. Before they come to years of discretion, the father can, in their name, lay down conditions for their preservation and well-being, but he cannot give them irrevocably and without conditions: such a gift is contrary to the ends of nature, and exceeds the rights of paternity. It would therefore be necessary, 5

in order to legitimize an arbitrary government, that in every generation the people should be in a position to accept or reject it; but, were this so, the government would be no longer arbitrary.

6 To renounce liberty is to renounce being a man, to surrender the rights of humanity and even its duties. For him who renounces everything no indemnity is possible. Such a renunciation is incompatible with man's nature; to remove all liberty from his will is to remove all morality from his acts. Finally, it is an empty and contradictory convention that sets up, on the one side, absolute authority, and, on the other, unlimited obedience. Is it not clear that we can be under no obligation to a person from whom we have the right to exact everything? Does not this condition alone, in the absence of equivalence or exchange, in itself involve the nullity of the act? For what right can my slave have against me, when all that he has belongs to me, and, his right being mine, this right of mine against myself is a phrase devoid of meaning?

7 Grotius and the rest find in war another origin for the so-called right of slavery. The victor having, as they hold, the right of killing the vanquished, the latter can buy back his life at the price of his liberty; and this convention is the more legitimate because it is to the advantage of both parties.

8 But it is clear that this supposed right to kill the conquered is by no means deducible from the state of war. Men, from the mere fact that, while they are living in their primitive independence, they have no mutual relations stable enough to constitute either the state of peace or the state of war, cannot be naturally enemies. War is constituted by a relation between things, and not between persons; and, as the state of war cannot arise out of simple personal relations, but only out of real relations, private war, or war of man with man, can exist neither in the state of nature, where there is no constant property, nor in the social state, where everything is under the authority of the laws.

9 Individual combats, duels and encounters, are acts which cannot constitute a state; while the private wars, authorized by the Establishments of Louis IX, King of France, and suspended by the Peace of God, are abuses of feudalism, in itself an absurd system if ever there was one, and contrary to the principles of natural right and to all good polity.

War then is a relation, not between man and man, but between State and State, 10
and individuals are enemies only accidentally, not as men, nor even as citizens,[3] but as soldiers; not as members of their country, but as its defenders. Finally, each State can have for enemies only other States, and not men; for between things disparate in nature there can be no real relation.

Furthermore, this principle is in conformity with the established rules of 11
all times and the constant practice of all civilised peoples. Declarations of war are intimations less to powers than to their subjects. The foreigner, whether king, individual, or people, who robs, kills or detains the subjects, without declaring war on the prince, is not an enemy, but a brigand. Even in real war, a just prince, while laying hands, in the enemy's country, on all that belongs to the public, respects the lives and goods of individuals: he respects rights on which his own are founded. The object of the war being the destruction of the hostile State, the other side has a right to kill its defenders, while they are bearing arms; but as soon as they lay them down and surrender, they cease to be enemies or instruments of the enemy, and become once more merely men, whose life no one has any right to take. Sometimes it is possible to kill the State without killing a single one of its members; and war gives no right which is not necessary to the gaining of its object. These principles are not those of Grotius: they are not based on the authority of poets, but derived from the nature of reality and based on reason.

The right of conquest has no foundation other than the right of the strongest. 12
If war does not give the conqueror the right to massacre the conquered peoples, the right to enslave them cannot be based upon a right which does not exist. No one has a right to kill an enemy except when he cannot make him a slave, and the right to enslave him cannot therefore be derived from the right to kill him. It is accordingly

[3] The Romans, who understood and respected the right of war more than any other nation on earth, carried their scruples on this head so far that a citizen was not allowed to serve as a volunteer without engaging himself expressly against the enemy, and against such and such an enemy by name. A legion in which the younger Cato was seeing his first service under Popilius having been reconstructed, the elder Cato wrote to Popilius that, if he wished his son to continue serving under him, he must administer to him a new military oath, because, the first having been annulled, he was no longer able to bear arms against the enemy. The same Cato wrote to his son telling him to take great care not to go into battle before taking this new oath. I know that the siege of Clusium and other isolated events can be quoted against me; but I am citing laws and customs. The Romans are the people that least often transgressed its laws; and no other people has had such good ones.

an unfair exchange to make him buy at the price of his liberty his life, over which the victor holds no right. Is it not clear that there is a vicious circle in founding the right of life and death on the right of slavery, and the right of slavery on the right of life and death?

13 Even if we assume this terrible right to kill everybody, I maintain that a slave made in war, or a conquered people, is under no obligation to a master, except to obey him as far as he is compelled to do so. By taking an equivalent for his life, the victor has not done him a favour; instead of killing him without profit, he has killed him usefully. So far then is he from acquiring over him any authority in addition to that of force, that the state of war continues to subsist between them: their mutual relation is the effect of it, and the usage of the right of war does not imply a treaty of peace. A convention has indeed been made; but this convention, so far from destroying the state of war, presupposes its continuance.

14 So, from whatever aspect we regard the question, the right of slavery is null and void, not only as being illegitimate, but also because it is absurd and meaningless. The words *slave* and *right* contradict each other, and are mutually exclusive. It will always be equally foolish for a man to say to a man or to a people: "I make with you a convention wholly at your expense and wholly to my advantage; I shall keep it as long as I like, and you will keep it as long as I like."

CHAPTER V THAT WE MUST ALWAYS GO BACK TO A FIRST CONVENTION

1 Even if I granted all that I have been refuting, the friends of despotism would be no better off. There will always be a great difference between subduing a multitude and ruling a society. Even if scattered individuals were successively enslaved by one man, however numerous they might be, I still see no more than a master and his slaves, and certainly not a people and its ruler; I see what may be termed an aggregation, but not an association; there is as yet neither public good nor body politic. The man in question, even if he has enslaved half the world, is still only an individual; his interest, apart from that of others, is still a purely private interest. If this same man comes to die, his empire, after him, remains scattered and without unity, as an oak falls and dissolves into a heap of ashes when the fire has consumed it.

A people, says Grotius, can give itself to a king. Then, according to Grotius, 2
a people is a people before it gives itself. The gift is itself a civil act, and implies public deliberation. It would be better, before examining the act by which a people gives itself to a king, to examine that by which it has become a people; for this act, being necessarily prior to the other, is the true foundation of society.

Indeed, if there were no prior convention, where, unless the election were 3
unanimous, would be the obligation on the minority to submit to the choice of the majority? How have a hundred men who wish for a master the right to vote on behalf of ten who do not? The law of majority voting is itself something established by convention, and presupposes unanimity, on one occasion at least.

CHAPTER VI THE SOCIAL COMPACT

I suppose men to have reached the point at which the obstacles in the way of their 1
preservation in the state of nature show their power of resistance to be greater than the resources at the disposal of each individual for his maintenance in that state. That primitive condition can then subsist no longer; and the human race would perish unless it changed its manner of existence.

But, as men cannot engender new forces, but only unite and direct existing 2
ones, they have no other means of preserving themselves than the formation, by aggregation, of a sum of forces great enough to overcome the resistance. These they have to bring into play by means of a single motive power, and cause to act in concert.

This sum of forces can arise only where several persons come together: but, as 3
the force and liberty of each man are the chief instruments of his self-preservation, how can he pledge them without harming his own interests, and neglecting the care he owes to himself? This difficulty, in its bearing on my present subject, may be stated in the following terms:

"The problem is to find a form of association which will defend and protect 4
with the whole common force the person and goods of each associate, and in which each, while uniting himself with all, may still obey himself alone, and remain as

free as before." This is the fundamental problem of which the *Social Contract* provides the solution.

5 The clauses of this contract are so determined by the nature of the act that the slightest modification would make them vain and ineffective; so that, although they have perhaps never been formally set forth, they are everywhere the same and everywhere tacitly admitted and recognized, until, on the violation of the social compact, each regains his original rights and resumes his natural liberty, while losing the conventional liberty in favour of which he renounced it.

6 These clauses, properly understood, may be reduced to one—the total alienation of each associate, together with all his rights, to the whole community; for, in the first place, as each gives himself absolutely, the conditions are the same for all; and, this being so, no one has any interest in making them burdensome to others.

7 Moreover, the alienation being without reserve, the union is as perfect as it can be, and no associate has anything more to demand: for, if the individuals retained certain rights, as there would be no common superior to decide between them and the public, each, being on one point his own judge, would ask to be so on all; the state of nature would thus continue, and the association would necessarily become inoperative or tyrannical.

8 Finally, each man, in giving himself to all, gives himself to nobody; and as there is no associate over which he does not acquire the same right as he yields others over himself, he gains an equivalent for everything he loses, and an increase of force for the preservation of what he has.

9 If then we discard from the social compact what is not of its essence, we shall find that it reduces itself to the following terms:

10 *"Each of us puts his person and all his power in common under the supreme direction of the general will, and, in our corporate capacity, we receive each member as an indivisible part of the whole."*

11 At once, in place of the individual personality of each contracting party, this act of association creates a moral and collective body, composed of as many members as the assembly contains votes, and receiving from this act its unity, its common identity, its life, and its will. This public person, so formed by the union of

all other persons, formerly took the name of *city*,[4] and now takes that of *Republic* or *body politic*; it is called by its members *State* when passive, *Sovereign* when active, and *Power* when compared with others like itself. Those who are associated in it take collectively the name of *people*, and severally are called *citizens*, as sharing in the sovereign power, and *subjects*, as being under the laws of the State. But these terms are often confused and taken one for another: it is enough to know how to distinguish them when they are being used with precision.

CHAPTER VII THE SOVEREIGN

This formula shows us that the act of association comprises a mutual undertaking 1
between the public and the individuals, and that each individual, in making a contract, as we may say, with himself, is bound in a double capacity; as a member of the Sovereign he is bound to the individuals, and as a member of the State to the Sovereign. But the maxim of civil right, that no one is bound by undertakings made to himself, does not apply in this case; for there is a great difference between incurring an obligation to yourself and incurring one to a whole of which you form a part.

Attention must further be called to the fact that public deliberation, while 2
competent to bind all the subjects to the Sovereign, because of the two different capacities in which each of them may be regarded, cannot, for the opposite reason, bind the Sovereign to itself; and that it is consequently against the nature of the

[4] The real meaning of this word has been almost wholly lost in modern times; most people mistake a town for a city, and a townsman for a citizen. They do not know that houses make a town, but citizens a city. The same mistake long ago cost the Carthaginians dear. I have never read of the title of citizens being given to the subjects of any prince, not even the ancient Macedonians or the English of today, though they are nearer liberty than any one else. The French alone everywhere familiarly adopt the name of citizens, because, as can be seen from their dictionaries, they have no idea of its meaning; otherwise they would be guilty in usurping it, of the crime of *lèse-majesté*: among them, the name expresses a virtue, and not a right. When Bodin spoke of our citizens and townsmen, he fell into a bad blunder in taking the one class for the other. M. d'Alembert has avoided the error, and, in his article on Geneva, has clearly distinguished the four orders of men (or even five, counting mere foreigners) who dwell in our town, of which two only compose the Republic. No other French writer, to my knowledge, has understood the real meaning of the word citizen.

body politic for the Sovereign to impose on itself a law which it cannot infringe. Being able to regard itself in only one capacity, it is in the position of an individual who makes a contract with himself; and this makes it clear that there neither is nor can be any kind of fundamental law binding on the body of the people—not even the social contract itself. This does not mean that the body politic cannot enter into undertakings with others, provided the contract is not infringed by them; for in relation to what is external to it, it becomes a simple being, an individual.

3 But the body politic or the Sovereign, drawing its being wholly from the sanctity of the contract, can never bind itself, even to an outsider, to do anything derogatory to the original act, for instance, to alienate any part of itself, or to submit to another Sovereign. Violation of the act by which it exists would be self-annihilation; and that which is itself nothing can create nothing.

4 As soon as this multitude is so united in one body, it is impossible to offend against one of the members without attacking the body, and still more to offend against the body without the members resenting it. Duty and interest therefore equally oblige the two contracting parties to give each other help; and the same men should seek to combine, in their double capacity, all the advantages dependent upon that capacity.

5 Again, the Sovereign, being formed wholly of the individuals who compose it, neither has nor can have any interest contrary to theirs; and consequently the sovereign power need give no guarantee to its subjects, because it is impossible for the body to wish to hurt all its members. We shall also see later on that it cannot hurt any in particular. The Sovereign, merely by virtue of what it is, is always what it should be.

6 This, however, is not the case with the relation of the subjects to the Sovereign, which, despite the common interest, would have no security that they would fulfil their undertakings, unless it found means to assure itself of their fidelity.

7 In fact, each individual, as a man, may have a particular will contrary or dissimilar to the general will which he has as a citizen. His particular interest may speak to him quite differently from the common interest: his absolute and naturally independent existence may make him look upon what he owes to the common cause as a gratuitous contribution, the loss of which will do less harm to others than the payment of it is burdensome to himself; and, regarding the moral person which constitutes the State as a *persona ficta*, because not a man, he may

wish to enjoy the rights of citizenship without being ready to fulfil the duties of a subject. The continuance of such an injustice could not but prove the undoing of the body politic.

In order then that the social compact may not be an empty formula, it tacitly 8
includes the undertaking, which alone can give force to the rest, that whoever refuses to obey the general will shall be compelled to do so by the whole body. This means nothing less than that he will be forced to be free; for this is the condition which, by giving each citizen to his country, secures him against all personal dependence. In this lies the key to the working of the political machine; this alone legitimises civil undertakings, which, without it, would be absurd, tyrannical, and liable to the most frightful abuses.

CHAPTER VIII THE CIVIL STATE

The passage from the state of nature to the civil state produces a very remarkable 1
change in man, by substituting justice for instinct in his conduct, and giving his actions the morality they had formerly lacked. Then only, when the voice of duty takes the place of physical impulses and right of appetite, does man, who so far had considered only himself, find that he is forced to act on different principles, and to consult his reason before listening to his inclinations. Although, in this state, he deprives himself of some advantages which he got from nature, he gains in return others so great, his faculties are so stimulated and developed, his ideas so extended, his feelings so ennobled, and his whole soul so uplifted, that, did not the abuses of this new condition often degrade him below that which he left, he would be bound to bless continually the happy moment which took him from it for ever, and, instead of a stupid and unimaginative animal, made him an intelligent being and a man.

Let us draw up the whole account in terms easily commensurable. What 2
man loses by the social contract is his natural liberty and an unlimited right to everything he tries to get and succeeds in getting; what he gains is civil liberty and the proprietorship of all he possesses. If we are to avoid mistake in weighing one against the other, we must clearly distinguish natural liberty, which is bounded only by the strength of the individual, from civil liberty, which is limited by the general will; and possession, which is merely the effect of force or the right of the first occupier, from property, which can be founded only on a positive title.

3 We might, over and above all this, add, to what man acquires in the civil state, moral liberty, which alone makes him truly master of himself; for the mere impulse of appetite is slavery, while obedience to a law which we prescribe to ourselves is liberty. But I have already said too much on this head, and the philosophical meaning of the word liberty does not now concern us.

CHAPTER IX REAL PROPERTY

1 Each member of the community gives himself to it, at the moment of its foundation, just as he is, with all the resources at his command, including the goods he possesses. This act does not make possession, in changing hands, change its nature, and become property in the hands of the Sovereign; but, as the forces of the city are incomparably greater than those of an individual, public possession is also, in fact, stronger and more irrevocable, without being any more legitimate, at any rate from the point of view of foreigners. For the State, in relation to its members, is master of all their goods by the social contract, which, within the State, is the basis of all rights; but, in relation to other powers, it is so only by the right of the first occupier, which it holds from its members.

2 The right of the first occupier, though more real than the right of the strongest, becomes a real right only when the right of property has already been established. Every man has naturally a right to everything he needs; but the positive act which makes him proprietor of one thing excludes him from everything else. Having his share, he ought to keep to it, and can have no further right against the community. This is why the right of the first occupier, which in the state of nature is so weak, claims the respect of every man in civil society. In this right we are respecting not so much what belongs to another as what does not belong to ourselves.

3 In general, to establish the right of the first occupier over a plot of ground, the following conditions are necessary: first, the land must not yet be inhabited; secondly, a man must occupy only the amount he needs for his subsistence; and, in the third place, possession must be taken, not by an empty ceremony, but by labour and cultivation, the only sign of proprietorship that should be respected by others, in default of a legal title.

4 In granting the right of first occupancy to necessity and labour, are we not really stretching it as far as it can go? Is it possible to leave such a right unlimited? Is it to be enough to set foot on a plot of common ground, in order to be able to call yourself at once the master of it? Is it to be enough that a man has the strength to expel others for a moment, in order to establish his right to prevent them from ever returning? How can a man or a people seize an immense territory and keep it from the rest of the world except by a punishable usurpation, since all others are being robbed, by such an act, of the place of habitation and the means of subsistence which nature gave them in common? When Nuñez Balboa, standing on the seashore, took possession of the South Seas and the whole of South America in the name of the crown of Castille, was that enough to dispossess all their actual inhabitants, and to shut out from them all the princes of the world? On such a showing, these ceremonies are idly multiplied, and the Catholic King need only take possession all at once, from his apartment, of the whole universe, merely making a subsequent reservation about what was already in the possession of other princes.

5 We can imagine how the lands of individuals, where they were contiguous and came to be united, became the public territory, and how the right of Sovereignty, extending from the subjects over the lands they held, became at once real and personal. The possessors were thus made more dependent, and the forces at their command used to guarantee their fidelity. The advantage of this does not seem to have been felt by ancient monarchs, who called themselves Kings of the Persians, Scythians, or Macedonians, and seemed to regard themselves more as rulers of men than as masters of a country. Those of the present day more cleverly call themselves Kings of France, Spain, England, etc.: thus holding the land, they are quite confident of holding the inhabitants.

6 The peculiar fact about this alienation is that, in taking over the goods of individuals, the community, so far from despoiling them, only assures them legitimate possession, and changes usurpation into a true right and enjoyment into proprietorship. Thus the possessors, being regarded as depositaries of the public good, and having their rights respected by all the members of the State and maintained against foreign aggression by all its forces, have, by a cession which benefits both the public and still more themselves, acquired, so to speak, all that they gave up. This paradox may easily be explained by the distinction between the rights which the Sovereign and the proprietor have over the same estate, as we shall see later on.

7 It may also happen that men begin to unite one with another before they possess anything, and that, subsequently occupying a tract of country which is enough for all, they enjoy it in common, or share it out among themselves, either equally or according to a scale fixed by the Sovereign. However the acquisition be made, the right which each individual has to his own estate is always subordinate to the right which the community has over all: without this, there would be neither stability in the social tie, nor real force in the exercise of Sovereignty.

8 I shall end this chapter and this book by remarking on a fact on which the whole social system should rest: i.e. that, instead of destroying natural inequality, the fundamental compact substitutes, for such physical inequality as nature may have set up between men, an equality that is moral and legitimate, and that men, who may be unequal in strength or intelligence, become every one equal by convention and legal right.[5]

BOOK II

CHAPTER I THAT SOVEREIGNTY IS INALIENABLE

1 The first and most important deduction from the principles we have so far laid down is that the general will alone can direct the State according to the object for which it was instituted, i.e. the common good: for if the clashing of particular interests made the establishment of societies necessary, the agreement of these very interests made it possible. The common element in these different interests is what forms the social tie; and, were there no point of agreement between them all, no society could exist. It is solely on the basis of this common interest that every society should be governed.

[5] Under bad governments, this equality is only apparent and illusory: it serves only to keep the pauper in his poverty and the rich man in the position he has usurped. In fact, laws are always of use to those who possess and harmful to those who have nothing: from which it follows that the social state is advantageous to men only when all have something and none too much.

I hold then that Sovereignty, being nothing less than the exercise of the 2
general will, can never be alienated, and that the Sovereign, who is no less than a collective being, cannot be represented except by himself: the power indeed may be transmitted, but not the will.

In reality, if it is not impossible for a particular will to agree on some point 3
with the general will, it is at least impossible for the agreement to be lasting and constant; for the particular will tends, by its very nature, to partiality, while the general will tends to equality. It is even more impossible to have any guarantee of this agreement; for even if it should always exist, it would be the effect not of art, but of chance. The Sovereign may indeed say: "I now will actually what this man wills, or at least what he says he wills"; but it cannot say: "What he wills tomorrow, I too shall will" because it is absurd for the will to bind itself for the future, nor is it incumbent on any will to consent to anything that is not for the good of the being who wills. If then the people promises simply to obey, by that very act it dissolves itself and loses what makes it a people; the moment a master exists, there is no longer a Sovereign, and from that moment the body politic has ceased to exist.

This does not mean that the commands of the rulers cannot pass for general 4
wills, so long as the Sovereign, being free to oppose them, offers no opposition. In such a case, universal silence is taken to imply the consent of the people. This will be explained later on.

CHAPTER II THAT SOVEREIGNTY IS INDIVISIBLE

Sovereignty, for the same reason as makes it inalienable, is indivisible; for will 1
either is, or is not, general;[6] it is the will either of the body of the people, or only of a part of it. In the first case, the will, when declared, is an act of Sovereignty and constitutes law: in the second, it is merely a particular will, or act of magistracy—at the most a decree.

But our political theorists, unable to divide Sovereignty in principle, divide 2

[6] To be general, a will need not always be unanimous; but every vote must be counted: any exclusion is a breach of generality.

it according to its object: into force and will; into legislative power and executive power; into rights of taxation, justice and war; into internal administration and power of foreign treaty. Sometimes they confuse all these sections, and sometimes they distinguish them; they turn the Sovereign into a fantastic being composed of several connected pieces: it is as if they were making man of several bodies, one with eyes, one with arms, another with feet, and each with nothing besides. We are told that the jugglers of Japan dismember a child before the eyes of the spectators; then they throw all the members into the air one after another, and the child falls down alive and whole. The conjuring tricks of our political theorists are very like that; they first dismember the body politic by an illusion worthy of a fair, and then join it together again we know not how.

3 This error is due to a lack of exact notions concerning the Sovereign authority, and to taking for parts of it what are only emanations from it. Thus, for example, the acts of declaring war and making peace have been regarded as acts of Sovereignty; but this is not the case, as these acts do not constitute law, but merely the application of a law, a particular act which decides how the law applies, as we shall see clearly when the idea attached to the word "law" has been defined.

4 If we examined the other divisions in the same manner, we should find that, whenever Sovereignty seems to be divided, there is an illusion: the rights which are taken as being part of Sovereignty are really all subordinate, and always imply supreme wills of which they only sanction the execution.

5 It would be impossible to estimate the obscurity this lack of exactness has thrown over the decisions of writers who have dealt with political right, when they have used the principles laid down by them to pass judgment on the respective rights of kings and peoples. Every one can see, in Chapters III and IV of the first book of Grotius, how the learned man and his translator, Barbeyrac, entangle and tie themselves up in their own sophistries, for fear of saying too little or too much of what they think, and so offending the interests they have to conciliate. Grotius, a refugee in France, ill-content with his own country, and desirous of paying his court to Louis XIII, to whom his book is dedicated, spares no pains to rob the peoples of all their rights and invest kings with them by every conceivable artifice. This would also have been much to the taste of Barbeyrac, who dedicated his translation to George I of England. But unfortunately the expulsion of James II, which he called his "abdication," compelled him to use all reserve, to shuffle and to tergiversate, in order to avoid making William

out a usurper. If these two writers had adopted the true principles, all difficulties would have been removed, and they would have been always consistent; but it would have been a sad truth for them to tell, and would have paid court for them to no one save the people. Moreover, truth is no road to fortune, and the people dispenses neither ambassadorships, nor professorships, nor pensions.

CHAPTER III WHETHER THE GENERAL WILL IS FALLIBLE

It follows from what has gone before that the general will is always right and tends 1
to the public advantage; but it does not follow that the deliberations of the people are always equally correct. Our will is always for our own good, but we do not always see what that is; the people is never corrupted, but it is often deceived, and on such occasions only does it seem to will what is bad.

There is often a great deal of difference between the will of all and the general 2
will; the latter considers only the common interest, while the former takes private interest into account, and is no more than a sum of particular wills: but take away from these same wills the pluses and minuses that cancel one another,[7] and the general will remains as the sum of the differences.

If, when the people, being furnished with adequate information, held its 3
deliberations, the citizens had no communication one with another, the grand total of the small differences would always give the general will, and the decision would always be good. But when factions arise, and partial associations are formed at the expense of the great association, the will of each of these associations becomes general in relation to its members, while it remains particular in relation to the State: it may then be said that there are no longer as many votes as there are men, but only as many as there are associations. The differences become less numerous and give a less general result. Lastly, when one of these associations is so great as to prevail over all the rest, the result is no longer a sum of small differences, but

[7] "Every interest," says the Marquis d'Argenson, "has different principles. The agreement of two particular interests is formed by opposition to a third." He might have added that the agreement of all interests is formed by opposition to that of each. If there were no different interests, the common interest would be barely felt, as it would encounter no obstacle; all would go on of its own accord, and politics would cease to be an art.

a single difference; in this case there is no longer a general will, and the opinion which prevails is purely particular.

4 It is therefore essential, if the general will is to be able to express itself, that there should be no partial society within the State, and that each citizen should think only his own thoughts:[8] which was indeed the sublime and unique system established by the great Lycurgus. But if there are partial societies, it is best to have as many as possible and to prevent them from being unequal, as was done by Solon, Numa and Servius. These precautions are the only ones that can guarantee that the general will shall be always enlightened, and that the people shall in no way deceive itself.

CHAPTER IV THE LIMITS OF THE SOVEREIGN POWER

1 If the State is a moral person whose life is in the union of its members, and if the most important of its cares is the care for its own preservation, it must have a universal and compelling force, in order to move and dispose each part as may be most advantageous to the whole. As nature gives each man absolute power over all his members, the social compact gives the body politic absolute power over all its members also; and it is this power which, under the direction of the general will, bears, as I have said, the name of Sovereignty.

2 But, besides the public person, we have to consider the private persons composing it, whose life and liberty are naturally independent of it. We are bound then to distinguish clearly between the respective rights of the citizens and the Sovereign,[9] and between the duties the former have to fulfil as subjects, and the natural rights they should enjoy as men.

3 Each man alienates, I admit, by the social compact, only such part of his

[8] "In fact," says Machiavelli, "there are some divisions that are harmful to a Republic and some that are advantageous. Those which stir up sects and parties are harmful; those attended by neither are advantageous. Since, then, the founder of a Republic cannot help enmities arising, he ought at least to prevent them from growing into sects" (*History of Florence*, Book vii). [Rousseau quotes the Italian.]

[9] Attentive readers, do not, I pray, be in a hurry to charge me with contradicting myself. The terminology made it unavoidable, considering the poverty of the language; but wait and see.

powers, goods and liberty as it is important for the community to control; but it must also be granted that the Sovereign is sole judge of what is important.

Every service a citizen can render the State he ought to render as soon as 4
the Sovereign demands it; but the Sovereign, for its part, cannot impose upon its subjects any fetters that are useless to the community, nor can it even wish to do so; for no more by the law of reason than by the law of nature can anything occur without a cause.

The undertakings which bind us to the social body are obligatory only 5
because they are mutual; and their nature is such that in fulfilling them we cannot work for others without working for ourselves. Why is it that the general will is always in the right, and that all continually will the happiness of each one, unless it is because there is not a man who does not think of "each" as meaning him, and consider himself in voting for all? This proves that equality of rights and the idea of justice which such equality creates originate in the preference each man gives to himself, and accordingly in the very nature of man. It proves that the general will, to be really such, must be general in its object as well as its essence; that it must both come from all and apply to all; and that it loses its natural rectitude when it is directed to some particular and determinate object, because in such a case we are judging of something foreign to us, and have no true principle of equity to guide us.

Indeed, as soon as a question of particular fact or right arises on a point not 6
previously regulated by a general convention, the matter becomes contentious. It is a case in which the individuals concerned are one party, and the public the other, but in which I can see neither the law that ought to be followed nor the judge who ought to give the decision. In such a case, it would be absurd to propose to refer the question to an express decision of the general will, which can be only the conclusion reached by one of the parties and in consequence will be, for the other party, merely an external and particular will, inclined on this occasion to injustice and subject to error. Thus, just as a particular will cannot stand for the general will, the general will, in turn, changes its nature, when its object is particular, and, as general, cannot pronounce on a man or a fact. When, for instance, the people of Athens nominated or displaced its rulers, decreed honours to one, and imposed penalties on another, and, by a multitude of particular decrees, exercised all the functions of government indiscriminately, it had in such cases no longer a general will in the strict sense; it was acting no

longer as Sovereign, but as magistrate. This will seem contrary to current views; but I must be given time to expound my own.

7 It should be seen from the foregoing that what makes the will general is less the number of voters than the common interest uniting them; for, under this system, each necessarily submits to the conditions he imposes on others: and this admirable agreement between interest and justice gives to the common deliberations an equitable character which at once vanishes when any particular question is discussed, in the absence of a common interest to unite and identify the ruling of the judge with that of the party.

8 From whatever side we approach our principle, we reach the same conclusion, that the social compact sets up among the citizens an equality of such a kind, that they all bind themselves to observe the same conditions and should therefore all enjoy the same rights. Thus, from the very nature of the compact, every act of Sovereignty, i.e. every authentic act of the general will, binds or favours all the citizens equally; so that the Sovereign recognizes only the body of the nation, and draws no distinctions between those of whom it is made up. What, then, strictly speaking, is an act of Sovereignty? It is not a convention between a superior and an inferior, but a convention between the body and each of its members. It is legitimate, because based on the social contract, and equitable, because common to all; useful, because it can have no other object than the general good, and stable, because guaranteed by the public force and the supreme power. So long as the subjects have to submit only to conventions of this sort, they obey no one but their own will; and to ask how far the respective rights of the Sovereign and the citizens extend, is to ask up to what point the latter can enter into undertakings with themselves, each with all, and all with each.

9 We can see from this that the sovereign power, absolute, sacred and inviolable as it is, does not and cannot exceed the limits of general conventions, and that every man may dispose at will of such goods and liberty as these conventions leave him; so that the Sovereign never has a right to lay more charges on one subject than on another, because, in that case, the question becomes particular, and ceases to be within its competency.

10 When these distinctions have once been admitted, it is seen to be so untrue that there is, in the social contract, any real renunciation on the part of the

individuals that the position in which they find themselves as a result of the contract is really preferable to that in which they were before. Instead of a renunciation, they have made an advantageous exchange: instead of an uncertain and precarious way of living they have got one that is better and more secure; instead of natural independence they have got liberty, instead of the power to harm others security for themselves, and instead of their strength, which others might overcome, a right which social union makes invincible. Their very life, which they have devoted to the State, is by it constantly protected; and when they risk it in the State's defence, what more are they doing than giving back what they have received from it? What are they doing that they would not do more often and with greater danger in the state of nature, in which they would inevitably have to fight battles at the peril of their lives in defence of that which is the means of their preservation? All have indeed to fight when their country needs them; but then no one has ever to fight for himself. Do we not gain something by running, on behalf of what gives us our security, only some of the risks we should have to run for ourselves, as soon as we lost it?

CHAPTER V THE RIGHT OF LIFE AND DEATH

The question is often asked how individuals, having no right to dispose of their 1
own lives, can transfer to the Sovereign a right which they do not possess. The difficulty of answering this question seems to me to lie in its being wrongly stated. Every man has a right to risk his own life in order to preserve it. Has it ever been said that a man who throws himself out of the window to escape from a fire is guilty of suicide? Has such a crime ever been laid to the charge of him who perishes in a storm because, when he went on board, he knew of the danger?

The social treaty has for its end the preservation of the contracting parties. 2
He who wills the end wills the means also, and the means must involve some risks, and even some losses. He who wishes to preserve his life at others' expense should also, when it is necessary, be ready to give it up for their sake. Furthermore, the citizen is no longer the judge of the dangers to which the law desires him to expose himself; and when the prince says to him: "It is expedient for the State that you

should die," he ought to die, because it is only on that condition that he has been living in security up to the present, and because his life is no longer a mere bounty of nature, but a gift made conditionally by the State.

3 The death-penalty inflicted upon criminals may be looked on in much the same light: it is in order that we may not fall victims to an assassin that we consent to die if we ourselves turn assassins. In this treaty, so far from disposing of our own lives, we think only of securing them, and it is not to be assumed that any of the parties then expects to get hanged.

4 Again, every malefactor, by attacking social rights, becomes on forfeit a rebel and a traitor to his country; by violating its laws he ceases to be a member of it; he even makes war upon it. In such a case the preservation of the State is inconsistent with his own, and one or the other must perish; in putting the guilty to death, we slay not so much the citizen as an enemy. The trial and the judgment are the proofs that he has broken the social treaty, and is in consequence no longer a member of the State. Since, then, he has recognised himself to be such by living there, he must be removed by exile as a violator of the compact, or by death as a public enemy; for such an enemy is not a moral person, but merely a man; and in such a case the right of war is to kill the vanquished.

5 But, it will be said, the condemnation of a criminal is a particular act. I admit it: but such condemnation is not a function of the Sovereign; it is a right the Sovereign can confer without being able itself to exert it. All my ideas are consistent, but I cannot expound them all at once.

6 We may add that frequent punishments are always a sign of weakness or remissness on the part of the government. There is not a single ill-doer who could not be turned to some good. The State has no right to put to death, even for the sake of making an example, any one whom it can leave alive without danger.

7 The right of pardoning or exempting the guilty from a penalty imposed by the law and pronounced by the judge belongs only to the authority which is superior to both judge and law, i.e. the Sovereign; even its right in this matter is far from clear, and the cases for exercising it are extremely rare. In a well-governed State, there are few punishments, not because there are many pardons, but because criminals are rare; it is when a State is in decay that the multitude of crimes is a guarantee of impunity. Under the Roman Republic, neither the Senate nor the Consuls ever attempted to pardon; even the people never did so, though it sometimes revoked its

own decision. Frequent pardons mean that crime will soon need them no longer, and no one can help seeing whither that leads. But I feel my heart protesting and restraining my pen; let us leave these questions to the just man who has never offended, and would himself stand in no need of pardon.

CHAPTER VI LAW

By the social compact we have given the body politic existence and life; we have now by legislation to give it movement and will. For the original act by which the body is formed and united still in no respect determines what it ought to do for its preservation. 1

What is well and in conformity with order is so by the nature of things and independently of human conventions. All justice comes from God, who is its sole source; but if we knew how to receive so high an inspiration, we should need neither government nor laws. Doubtless, there is a universal justice emanating from reason alone; but this justice, to be admitted among us, must be mutual. Humanly speaking, in default of natural sanctions, the laws of justice are ineffective among men: they merely make for the good of the wicked and the undoing of the just, when the just man observes them towards everybody and nobody observes them towards him. Conventions and laws are therefore needed to join rights to duties and refer justice to its object. In the state of nature, where everything is common, I owe nothing to him whom I have promised nothing; I recognize as belonging to others only what is of no use to me. In the state of society all rights are fixed by law, and the case becomes different. 2

But what, after all, is a law? As long as we remain satisfied with attaching purely metaphysical ideas to the word, we shall go on arguing without arriving at an understanding; and when we have defined a law of nature, we shall be no nearer the definition of a law of the State. 3

I have already said that there can be no general will directed to a particular object. Such an object must be either within or outside the State. If outside, a will which is alien to it cannot be, in relation to it, general; if within, it is part of the State, and in that case there arises a relation between whole and part which makes them two separate beings, of which the part is one, and the whole minus the part 4

the other. But the whole minus a part cannot be the whole; and while this relation persists, there can be no whole, but only two unequal parts; and it follows that the will of one is no longer in any respect general in relation to the other.

5 But when the whole people decrees for the whole people, it is considering only itself; and if a relation is then formed, it is between two aspects of the entire object, without there being any division of the whole. In that case the matter about which the decree is made is, like the decreeing will, general. This act is what I call a law.

6 When I say that the object of laws is always general, I mean that law considers subjects *en masse* and actions in the abstract, and never a particular person or action. Thus the law may indeed decree that there shall be privileges, but cannot confer them on anybody by name. It may set up several classes of citizens, and even lay down the qualifications for membership of these classes, but it cannot nominate such and such persons as belonging to them; it may establish a monarchical government and hereditary succession, but it cannot choose a king, or nominate a royal family. In a word, no function which has a particular object belongs to the legislative power.

7 On this view, we at once see that it can no longer be asked whose business it is to make laws, since they are acts of the general will; nor whether the prince is above the law, since he is a member of the State; nor whether the law can be unjust, since no one is unjust to himself; nor how we can be both free and subject to the laws, since they are but registers of our wills.

8 We see further that, as the law unites universality of will with universality of object, what a man, whoever he be, commands of his own motion cannot be a law; and even what the Sovereign commands with regard to a particular matter is no nearer being a law, but is a decree, an act, not of sovereignty, but of magistracy.

9 I therefore give the name "Republic" to every State that is governed by laws, no matter what the form of its administration may be: for only in such a case does the public interest govern, and the *res publica* rank as a *reality*. Every legitimate government is republican;[10] what government is I will explain later on.

10 Laws are, properly speaking, only the conditions of civil association. The people, being subject to the laws, ought to be their author: the conditions of the

[10] I understand by this word, not merely an aristocracy or a democracy, but generally any government directed by the general will, which is the law. To be legitimate, the government must be, not one with the Sovereign, but its minister. In such a case even a monarchy is a Republic. This will be made clearer in the following book.

society ought to be regulated solely by those who come together to form it. But how are they to regulate them? Is it to be by common agreement, by a sudden inspiration? Has the body politic an organ to declare its will? Who can give it the foresight to formulate and announce its acts in advance? Or how is it to announce them in the hour of need? How can a blind multitude, which often does not know what it wills, because it rarely knows what is good for it, carry out for itself so great and difficult an enterprise as a system of legislation? Of itself the people wills always the good, but of itself it by no means always sees it. The general will is always in the right, but the judgment which guides it is not always enlightened. It must be got to see objects as they are, and sometimes as they ought to appear to it; it must be shown the good road it is in search of, secured from the seductive influences of individual wills, taught to see times and spaces as a series, and made to weigh the attractions of present and sensible advantages against the danger of distant and hidden evils. The individuals see the good they reject; the public wills the good it does not see. All stand equally in need of guidance. The former must be compelled to bring their wills into conformity with their reason; the latter must be taught to know what it wills. If that is done, public enlightenment leads to the union of understanding and will in the social body: the parts are made to work exactly together, and the whole is raised to its highest power. This makes a legislator necessary.

CHAPTER VII THE LEGISLATOR

In order to discover the rules of society best suited to nations, a superior intelligence 1
beholding all the passions of men without experiencing any of them would be needed. This intelligence would have to be wholly unrelated to our nature, while knowing it through and through; its happiness would have to be independent of us, and yet ready to occupy itself with ours; and lastly, it would have, in the march of time, to look forward to a distant glory, and, working in one century, to be able to enjoy in the next.[11] It would take gods to give men laws.

[11] A people becomes famous only when its legislation begins to decline. We do not know for how many centuries the system of Lycurgus made the Spartans happy before the rest of Greece took any notice of it.

2 What Caligula argued from the facts, Plato, in the dialogue called the *Politicus*, argued in defining the civil or kingly man, on the basis of right. But if great princes are rare, how much more so are great legislators? The former have only to follow the pattern which the latter have to lay down. The legislator is the engineer who invents the machine, the prince merely the mechanic who sets it up and makes it go. "At the birth of societies," says Montesquieu, "the rulers of Republics establish institutions, and afterwards the institutions mould the rulers."[12]

3 He who dares to undertake the making of a people's institutions ought to feel himself capable, so to speak, of changing human nature, of transforming each individual, who is by himself a complete and solitary whole, into part of a greater whole from which he in a manner receives his life and being; of altering man's constitution for the purpose of strengthening it; and of substituting a partial and moral existence for the physical and independent existence nature has conferred on us all. He must, in a word, take away from man his own resources and give him instead new ones alien to him, and incapable of being made use of without the help of other men. The more completely these natural resources are annihilated, the greater and the more lasting are those which he acquires, and the more stable and perfect the new institutions; so that if each citizen is nothing and can do nothing without the rest, and the resources acquired by the whole are equal or superior to the aggregate of the resources of all the individuals, it may be said that legislation is at the highest possible point of perfection.

4 The legislator occupies in every respect an extraordinary position in the State. If he should do so by reason of his genius, he does so no less by reason of his office, which is neither magistracy, nor Sovereignty. This office, which sets up the Republic, nowhere enters into its constitution; it is an individual and superior function, which has nothing in common with human empire; for if he who holds command over men ought not to have command over the laws, he who has command over the laws ought not any more to have it over men; or else his laws would be the ministers of his passions and would often merely serve to perpetuate his injustices: his private aims would inevitably mar the sanctity of his work.

5 When Lycurgus gave laws to his country, he began by resigning the throne. It was the custom of most Greek towns to entrust the establishment of their laws

[12] Montesquieu, *The Greatness and Decadence of the Romans*, ch. i.

to foreigners. The Republics of modern Italy in many cases followed this example; Geneva did the same and profited by it.[13] Rome, when it was most prosperous, suffered a revival of all the crimes of tyranny, and was brought to the verge of destruction, because it put the legislative authority and the sovereign power into the same hands.

Nevertheless, the decemvirs themselves never claimed the right to pass any 6
law merely on their own authority. "Nothing we propose to you," they said to the people, "can pass into law without your consent. Romans, be yourselves the authors of the laws which are to make you happy."

He, therefore, who draws up the laws has, or should have, no right of legislation, 7
and the people cannot, even if it wishes, deprive itself of this incommunicable right, because, according to the fundamental compact, only the general will can bind the individuals, and there can be no assurance that a particular will is in conformity with the general will, until it has been put to the free vote of the people. This I have said already; but it is worth while to repeat it.

Thus in the task of legislation we find together two things which appear to be 8
incompatible: an enterprise too difficult for human powers, and, for its execution, an authority that is no authority.

There is a further difficulty that deserves attention. Wise men, if they try to 9
speak their language to the common herd instead of its own, cannot possibly make themselves understood. There are a thousand kinds of ideas which it is impossible to translate into popular language. Conceptions that are too general and objects that are too remote are equally out of its range: each individual, having no taste for any other plan of government than that which suits his particular interest, finds it difficult to realize the advantages he might hope to draw from the continual privations good laws impose. For a young people to be able to relish sound principles of political theory and follow the fundamental rules of statecraft, the effect would have to become the cause; the social spirit, which should be created by these institutions, would have to preside over their very foundation; and men would have to be before law what they should become by means of law. The legislator therefore, being

[13] Those who know Calvin only as a theologian much underestimate the extent of his genius. The codification of our wise edicts, in which he played a large part, does him no less honour than his Institute. Whatever revolution time may bring in our religion, so long as the spirit of patriotism and liberty still lives among us, the memory of this great man will be for ever blessed.

unable to appeal to either force or reason, must have recourse to an authority of a different order, capable of constraining without violence and persuading without convincing.

10 This is what has, in all ages, compelled the fathers of nations to have recourse to divine intervention and credit the gods with their own wisdom, in order that the peoples, submitting to the laws of the State as to those of nature, and recognizing the same power in the formation of the city as in that of man, might obey freely, and bear with docility the yoke of the public happiness.

11 This sublime reason, far above the range of the common herd, is that whose decisions the legislator puts into the mouth of the immortals, in order to constrain by divine authority those whom human prudence could not move.[14] But it is not anybody who can make the gods speak, or get himself believed when he proclaims himself their interpreter. The great soul of the legislator is the only miracle that can prove his mission. Any man may grave tablets of stone, or buy an oracle, or feign secret intercourse with some divinity, or train a bird to whisper in his ear, or find other vulgar ways of imposing on the people. He whose knowledge goes no further may perhaps gather round him a band of fools; but he will never found an empire, and his extravagances will quickly perish with him. Idle tricks form a passing tie; only wisdom can make it lasting. The Judaic law, which still subsists, and that of the child of Ishmael, which, for ten centuries, has ruled half the world, still proclaim the great men who laid them down; and, while the pride of philosophy or the blind spirit of faction sees in them no more than lucky impostures, the true political theorist admires, in the institutions they set up, the great and powerful genius which presides over things made to endure.

12 We should not, with Warburton, conclude from this that politics and religion have among us a common object, but that, in the first periods of nations, the one is used as an instrument for the other.

[14] "In truth," says Machiavelli, "there has never been, in any country, an extraordinary legislator who has not had recourse to God; for otherwise his laws would not have been accepted: there are, in fact, many useful truths of which a wise man may have knowledge without their having in themselves such clear reasons for their being so as to be able to convince others" (*Discourses on Livy*, Bk. V, ch. xi). [Rousseau quotes the Italian.]

[. . .]

CHAPTER IX THE PEOPLE (CONTINUED)

As nature has set bounds to the stature of a well-made man, and, outside those 1
limits, makes nothing but giants or dwarfs, similarly, for the constitution of a State to be at its best, it is possible to fix limits that will make it neither too large for good government, nor too small for self-maintenance. In every body politic there is a *maximum* strength which it cannot exceed and which it only loses by increasing in size. Every extension of the social tie means its relaxation; and, generally speaking, a small State is stronger in proportion than a great one.

A thousand arguments could be advanced in favour of this principle. First, 2
long distances make administration more difficult, just as a weight becomes heavier at the end of a longer lever. Administration therefore becomes more and more burdensome as the distance grows greater; for, in the first place, each city has its own, which is paid for by the people: each district its own, still paid for by the people: then comes each province, and then the great governments, satrapies, and vice-royalties, always costing more the higher you go, and always at the expense of the unfortunate people. Last of all comes the supreme administration, which eclipses all the rest. All these overcharges are a continual drain upon the subjects; so far from being better governed by all these different orders, they are worse governed than if there were only a single authority over them. In the meantime, there scarce remain resources enough to meet emergencies; and, when recourse must be had to these, the State is always on the eve of destruction.

This is not all; not only has the government less vigour and promptitude 3
for securing the observance of the laws, preventing nuisances, correcting abuses, and guarding against seditious undertakings begun in distant places; the people has less affection for its rulers, whom it never sees, for its country, which, to its eyes, seems like the world, and for its fellow citizens, most of whom are unknown to it. The same laws cannot suit so many diverse provinces with different customs, situated in the most various climates, and incapable of enduring a uniform government. Different laws lead only to trouble and confusion among peoples which, living under the same rulers and in constant communication one

with another, intermingle and intermarry, and, coming under the sway of new customs, never know if they can call their very patrimony their own. Talent is buried, virtue unknown and vice unpunished, among such a multitude of men who do not know one another, gathered together in one place at the seat of the central administration. The leaders, overwhelmed with business, see nothing for themselves; the State is governed by clerks. Finally, the measures which have to be taken to maintain the general authority, which all these distant officials wish to escape or to impose upon, absorb all the energy of the public, so that there is none left for the happiness of the people. There is hardly enough to defend it when need arises, and thus a body which is too big for its constitution gives way and falls crushed under its own weight.

4 Again, the State must assure itself a safe foundation, if it is to have stability, and to be able to resist the shocks it cannot help experiencing, as well as the efforts it will be forced to make for its maintenance; for all peoples have a kind of centrifugal force that makes them continually act one against another, and tend to aggrandize themselves at their neighbours' expense, like the vortices of Descartes. Thus the weak run the risk of being soon swallowed up; and it is almost impossible for any one to preserve itself except by putting itself in a state of equilibrium with all, so that the pressure is on all sides practically equal.

5 It may therefore be seen that there are reasons for expansion and reasons for contraction; and it is no small part of the statesman's skill to hit between them the mean that is most favourable to the preservation of the State. It may be said that the reason for expansion, being merely external and relative, ought to be subordinate to the reasons for contraction, which are internal and absolute. A strong and healthy constitution is the first thing to look for; and it is better to count on the vigour which comes of good government than on the resources a great territory furnishes.

6 It may be added that there have been known States so constituted that the necessity of making conquests entered into their very constitution, and that, in order to maintain themselves, they were forced to expand ceaselessly. It may be that they congratulated themselves greatly on this fortunate necessity, which nonetheless indicated to them, along with the limits of their greatness, the inevitable moment of their fall.

CHAPTER X THE PEOPLE (CONTINUED)

A body politic may be measured in two ways—either by the extent of its territory, or 1
by the number of its people; and there is, between these two measurements, a right relation which makes the State really great. The men make the State, and the territory sustains the men; the right relation therefore is that the land should suffice for the maintenance of the inhabitants, and that there should be as many inhabitants as the land can maintain. In this proportion lies the maximum strength of a given number of people; for, if there is too much land, it is troublesome to guard and inadequately cultivated, produces more than is needed, and soon gives rise to wars of defence; if there is not enough, the State depends on its neighbours for what it needs over and above, and this soon gives rise to wars of offence. Every people, to which its situation gives no choice save that between commerce and war, is weak in itself: it depends on its neighbours, and on circumstances; its existence can never be more than short and uncertain. It either conquers others, and changes its situation, or it is conquered and becomes nothing. Only insignificance or greatness can keep it free.

No fixed relation can be stated between the extent of territory and the 2
population that are adequate one to the other, both because of the differences in the quality of land, in its fertility, in the nature of its products, and in the influence of climate, and because of the different tempers of those who inhabit it; for some in a fertile country consume little, and others on an ungrateful soil much. The greater or less fecundity of women, the conditions that are more or less favourable in each country to the growth of population, and the influence the legislator can hope to exercise by his institutions, must also be taken into account. The legislator therefore should not go by what he sees, but by what he foresees; he should stop not so much at the state in which he actually finds the population, as at that to which it ought naturally to attain. Lastly, there are countless cases in which the particular local circumstances demand or allow the acquisition of a greater territory than seems necessary. Thus, expansion will be great in a mountainous country, where the natural products, i.e. woods and pastures, need less labour, where we know from experience that women are more fertile than in the plains, and where a great expanse of slope affords only a small level tract that can be counted on for vegetation. On the other hand, contraction is possible on the coast, even in lands of rocks and nearly barren sands, because there fishing makes up to a great extent for

the lack of land-produce, because the inhabitants have to congregate together more in order to repel pirates, and further because it is easier to unburden the country of its superfluous inhabitants by means of colonies.

3 To these conditions of law-giving must be added one other which, though it cannot take the place of the rest, renders them all useless when it is absent. This is the enjoyment of peace and plenty; for the moment at which a State sets its house in order is, like the moment when a battalion is forming up, that when its body is least capable of offering resistance and easiest to destroy. A better resistance could be made at a time of absolute disorganization than at a moment of fermentation, when each is occupied with his own position and not with the danger. If war, famine, or sedition arises at this time of crisis, the State will inevitably be overthrown.

4 Not that many governments have not been set up during such storms; but in such cases these governments are themselves the State's destroyers. Usurpers always bring about or select troublous times to get passed, under cover of the public terror, destructive laws, which the people would never adopt in cold blood. The moment chosen is one of the surest means of distinguishing the work of the legislator from that of the tyrant.

5 What people, then, is a fit subject for legislation? One which, already bound by some unity of origin, interest, or convention, has never yet felt the real yoke of law; one that has neither customs nor superstitions deeply ingrained, one which stands in no fear of being overwhelmed by sudden invasion; one which, without entering into its neighbours' quarrels, can resist each of them single-handed, or get the help of one to repel another; one in which every member may be known by every other, and there is no need to lay on any man burdens too heavy for a man to bear; one which can do without other peoples, and without which all others can do;[15] one which is neither rich nor poor, but self-sufficient; and, lastly, one which unites the consistency of an ancient people with the docility of a new

[15] If there were two neighbouring peoples, one of which could not do without the other, it would be very hard on the former, and very dangerous for the latter. Every wise nation, in such a case, would make haste to free the other from dependence. The Republic of Thlascala, enclosed by the Mexican Empire, preferred doing without salt to buying from the Mexicans, or even getting it from them as a gift. The Thlascalans were wise enough to see the snare hidden under such liberality. They kept their freedom, and that little State, shut up in that great Empire, was finally the instrument of its ruin.

one. Legislation is made difficult less by what it is necessary to build up than by what has to be destroyed; and what makes success so rare is the impossibility of finding natural simplicity together with social requirements. All these conditions are indeed rarely found united, and therefore few States have good constitutions.

There is still in Europe one country capable of being given laws—Corsica. 6
The valour and persistency with which that brave people has regained and defended its liberty well deserves that some wise man should teach it how to preserve what it has won. I have a feeling that some day that little island will astonish Europe.

Self-Interest for Common Good?
—*The Wealth of Nations*

The full title of *The Wealth of Nations* (1776) is *An Inquiry into the Nature and Causes of the Wealth of Nations*. Adam Smith (1723–1790) began asking questions about wealth when Europe was going through industrialization, "a process that transformed agrarian and handicraft centred economies into economies distinguished by industry and machine manufacture"[1]. Breakthroughs in technological development like the steam engine and the mechanization of the cotton industry first took place in Britain and Scotland, where Smith was from. He saw great potential in manufacture to create "general opulence" (para. 17), i.e. wealth not only for some privileged ranks of society like princes and nobles, but also for everyone. He proposes that a market accessible to everyone enables them to exchange their labour for the "necessaries and conveniences of life" (para. 1). This will bring about a commercial society marking the progress of humankind from economies of hunting, pasture, and agriculture.

Smith's ideas on the economy are grounded on the way he understands human nature and society. In *The Wealth of Nations*, he talks about how human beings have the natural propensity to "truck, barter, and exchange one thing for another" (para. 17) in "their own interest" (para. 18). He discusses how this regard of self-interest contributes to the "better accommodation and conveniency of the species" (para. 21) as a whole.

Besides self-interest, the mention of Smith's name may remind us of the phrase "the invisible hand." Smith has used this metaphor three times in three different works. The first time was in his early work *History of Astronomy*. Smith talks about the "invisible hand of Jupiter" when discussing polytheist religions in antiquity. Later, in his *Theory of Moral Sentiments*, he remarks how the rich are

---

[1] Bentley, Jerry H. and Ziegler, Herbert F. *Traditions and Encounters: A Global Perspective on the Past*. International Edition. (New York: McGraw-Hill, 2008), 818.

led by the "invisible hand" of the divine force of "providence"[2] to divide their produce with the poor. In *The Wealth of Nations* (Book IV), Smith talks about how the individual who intends his own gain is "led by an invisible hand" to promote the interest of the society as well. It is difficult to determine by the way Smith uses the phrase whether there is any single idea that the metaphor consistently refers to. What is evident, however, is Smith's breadth of interest as a thinker, which could be traced back to his education.

Young Smith learned classical Greek and Latin at his hometown of Kirkcaldy. He then went on to study moral philosophy at the University of Glasgow. He was awarded a scholarship to attend Oxford University, but he was critical of its system of remunerating professors with a fixed income regardless of teaching performance and student enrolment. For him, competition would have contributed to better teaching. At age 39, he obtained the title of Doctor of Laws (LL.D.) at the University of Glasgow.

Do we share Smith's optimism that self-interest brings common good to all? Are markets free and open for people holding different positions in society? Smith's ideas help us reflect upon the relation between economic life and a fair society where wealth is for all.

Yeung Yang

[2] Smith, Adam. *The Theory of Moral Sentiments*. (Mineola, N.Y.: Dover Publications, 2006), 182.

from

The Wealth of Nations

by Adam Smith

INTRODUCTION AND PLAN OF THE WORK

The annual labour of every nation is the fund which originally supplies it with all the necessaries and conveniences of life which it annually consumes, and which consist always either in the immediate produce of that labour, or in what is purchased with that produce from other nations.

1 *The produce of annual labour supplies annual consumption.*

According therefore, as this produce, or what is purchased with it, bears a greater or smaller proportion to the number of those who are to consume it, the nation will be better or worse supplied with all the necessaries and conveniencies for which it has occasion.

2 *better or worse according to the proportion of produce to people.*

But this proportion must in every nation be regulated by two different circumstances; first, by the skill, dexterity, and judgment with which its labour is generally applied; and, secondly, by the proportion between the number of those who are employed in useful labour, and that of those who are not so employed. Whatever be the soil, climate, or extent of territory of any particular nation, the abundance or scantiness of its annual supply must, in that particular situation, depend upon those two circumstances.

3 *which proportion is regulated by the skill, etc., of the labour and the proportion of useful labourers.*

From Adam Smith, *The Wealth of Nations* (fifth edition), edited and annotated by Edwin Cannan, published 1904 by Methuen & Co., Ltd. Reprinted from the public domain.

4 *and more by the skill, etc., than by the proportion of useful labourers, as is shown by the greater produce of civilised societies.*

The abundance or scantiness of this supply too seems to depend more upon the former of those two circumstances than upon the latter. Among the savage nations of hunters and fishers, every individual who is able to work, is more or less employed in useful labour, and endeavours to provide, as well as he can, the necessaries and conveniencies of life, for himself, or such of his family or tribe as are either too old or too young, or too infirm to go a hunting and fishing. Such nations, however, are so miserably poor, that from mere want, they are frequently reduced, or, at least think themselves reduced, to the necessity sometimes of directly destroying, and sometimes of abandoning their infants, their old people, and those afflicted with lingering diseases, to perish with hunger, or to be devoured by wild beasts. Among civilized and thriving nations, on the contrary, though a great number of people do not labour at all, many of whom consume the produce of ten times, frequently of a hundred times more labour than the greater part of those who work; yet the produce of the whole labour of the society is so great, that all are often abundantly supplied, and a workman, even of the lowest and poorest order, if he is frugal and industrious, may enjoy a greater share of the necessaries and conveniencies of life than it is possible for any savage to acquire.

5 *The causes of improvement and natural distribution are the subject of Book I.*

The causes of this improvement, in the productive powers of labour, and the order, according to which its produce is naturally distributed among the different ranks and conditions of men in the society, make the subject of the First Book of this Inquiry.

[. . .]

BOOK I

OF THE CAUSES OF IMPROVEMENT IN THE PRODUCTIVE POWERS OF LABOUR, AND OF THE ORDER ACCORDING TO WHICH ITS PRODUCE IS NATURALLY DISTRIBUTED AMONG THE DIFFERENT RANKS OF THE PEOPLE.

CHAPTER I
OF THE DIVISION OF LABOUR

6 *Division of labour is the great cause of its increased powers, as may be better understood from a particular example.*

The greatest improvement in the productive powers of labour, and the greater part of the skill, dexterity, and judgment with which it is any where directed, or applied, seem to have been the effects of the division of labour.

7

The effects of the division of labour, in the general business of society, will be more easily understood, by considering in what manner it operates in some particular manufactures. It is commonly supposed to be carried furthest in some very trifling ones; not perhaps that it really is carried further in them than in others of more importance: but in those trifling manufactures which are destined to supply the small wants of but a small number of people, the whole number of workmen must necessarily be small; and those employed in every different branch of the work can often be collected into the same workhouse, and placed at once under the view of the spectator. In those great manufactures, on the contrary, which are destined to supply the great wants of the great body of the people, every different branch of the work employs so great a number of workmen, that it is impossible to collect them all into the same workhouse. We can seldom see more, at one time, than those employed in one single branch. Though in such manufactures, therefore, the work may really be divided into a much greater number of parts, than in those of a more trifling nature, the division is not near so obvious, and has accordingly been much less observed.

8 *such as pin-making.*

To take an example, therefore, from a very trifling manufacture; but one in which the division of labour has been very often taken notice of, the trade of the pin-maker; a workman not educated to this business (which the division of labour has rendered a distinct trade), nor acquainted with the use of the machinery employed in it (to the invention of which the same division of labour has probably given occasion), could scarce, perhaps, with his utmost industry, make one pin in a day, and certainly could not make twenty. But in the way in which this business is now carried on, not only the whole work is a peculiar trade, but it is divided into a number of branches, of which the greater part are likewise peculiar trades. One man draws out the wire, another straights it, a third cuts it, a fourth points it, a fifth grinds it at the top for receiving the head; to make the head requires two or three distinct operations; to put it on, is a peculiar business, to whiten the pins is another; it is even a trade by itself to put them into the paper; and the important business of making a pin is, in this manner, divided into about eighteen distinct operations, which, in some manufactories, are all performed by distinct hands, though in others the same man will sometimes perform two or three of them. I have seen a small manufactory of this kind where ten men only were employed, and where some of them consequently performed two or three distinct operations. But though they were very poor, and therefore but indifferently accommodated with the necessary machinery, they could, when they exerted themselves, make among them about twelve pounds of pins in a day. There are in a pound upwards of four thousand pins of a middling size. Those ten persons, therefore, could make among them upwards of forty-eight thousand pins in a day. Each person, therefore, making a tenth part of forty-eight thousand pins, might be considered as making four thousand eight hundred pins in a day. But if they had all wrought separately and independently, and without any of them having been educated to this peculiar business, they certainly could not each of them have made twenty, perhaps not one pin in a day; that is, certainly, not the two hundred and fortieth, perhaps not the four thousand eight hundredth part of what they are at present capable of performing, in consequence of a proper division and combination of their different operations.

The effect is similar in all trades and also in the division of employments. 9

In every other art and manufacture, the effects of the division of labour are similar to what they are in this very trifling one; though, in many of them, the labour can neither be so much subdivided, nor reduced to so great a simplicity of operation. The division of labour, however, so far as it can be introduced, occasions, in every

art, a proportionable increase of the productive powers of labour. The separation of different trades and employments from one another, seems to have taken place, in consequence of this advantage. [. . .]

10 *The advantage is due to three circumstances,*

This great increase of the quantity of work, which, in consequence of the division of labour, the same number of people are capable of performing, is owing to three different circumstances; first, to the increase of dexterity in every particular workman; secondly, to the saving of the time which is commonly lost in passing from one species of work to another; and lastly, to the invention of a great number of machines which facilitate and abridge labour, and enable one man to do the work of many.

11 *(1) improved dexterity;*

First, the improvement of the dexterity of the workman necessarily increases the quantity of the work he can perform; and the division of labour, by reducing every man's business to some one simple operation, and by making this operation the sole employment of his life, necessarily increases very much the dexterity of the workman. A common smith, who, though accustomed to handle the hammer, has never been used to make nails, if upon some particular occasion he is obliged to attempt it, will scarce, I am assured, be able to make above two or three hundred nails in a day, and those too very bad ones. A smith who has been accustomed to make nails, but whose sole or principal business has not been that of a nailer, can seldom with his utmost diligence make more than eight hundred or a thousand nails in a day. I have seen several boys under twenty years of age who had never exercised any other trade but that of making nails, and who, when they exerted themselves, could make, each of them, upwards of two thousand three hundred nails in a day. The making of a nail, however, is by no means one of the simplest operations. The same person blows the bellows, stirs or mends the fire as there is occasion, heats the iron, and forges every part of the nail: In forging the head too he is obliged to change his tools. The different operations into which the making of a pin, or of a metal button, is subdivided, are all of them much more simple, and the dexterity of the person, of whose life it has been the sole business to perform them, is usually much greater. The rapidity with which some of the operations of those manufactures are performed, exceeds what the human hand could, by those who had never seen them, be supposed capable of acquiring.

12 *(2) saving of time,*

Secondly, the advantage which is gained by saving the time commonly lost in passing from one sort of work to another, is much greater than we should at

first view be apt to imagine it. It is impossible to pass very quickly from one kind of work to another, that is carried on in a different place, and with quite different tools. A country weaver, who cultivates a small farm, must lose a good deal of time in passing from his loom to the field, and from the field to his loom. When the two trades can be carried on in the same workhouse, the loss of time is no doubt much less. It is even in this case, however, very considerable. A man commonly saunters a little in turning his hand from one sort of employment to another. When he first begins the new work he is seldom very keen and hearty; his mind, as they say, does not go to it, and for some time he rather trifles than applies to good purpose. The habit of sauntering and of indolent careless application, which is naturally, or rather necessarily acquired by every country workman who is obliged to change his work and his tools every half hour, and to apply his hand in twenty different ways almost every day of his life; renders him almost always slothful and lazy, and incapable of any vigorous application even on the most pressing occasions. Independent, therefore, of his deficiency in point of dexterity, this cause alone must always reduce considerably the quantity of work which he is capable of performing.

13 *and application of machinery, invented by workmen.*

Thirdly, and lastly, every body must be sensible how much labour is facilitated and abridged by the application of proper machinery. It is unnecessary to give any example. I shall only observe, therefore, that the invention of all those machines by which labour is so much facilitated and abridged, seems to have been originally owing to the division of labour. Men are much more likely to discover easier and readier methods of attaining any object, when the whole attention of their minds is directed towards that single object, than when it is dissipated among a great variety of things. But in consequence of the division of labour, the whole of every man's attention comes naturally to be directed towards some one very simple object. It is naturally to be expected, therefore, that some one or other of those who are employed in each particular branch of labour should soon find out easier and readier methods of performing their own particular work, wherever the nature of it admits of such improvement. A great part of the machines made use of in those manufactures in which labour is most subdivided, were originally the inventions of common workmen, who, being each of them employed in some very simple operation, naturally turned their thoughts towards finding out easier and readier methods of performing it. Whoever has been much accustomed to visit

such manufactures, must frequently have been shewn very pretty machines, which were the inventions of such workmen, in order to facilitate and quicken their own particular part of the work. In the first fire-engines, a boy was constantly employed to open and shut alternately the communication between the boiler and the cylinder, according as the piston either ascended or descended. One of those boys, who loved to play with his companions, observed that, by tying a string from the handle of the valve which opened this communication to another part of the machine, the valve would open and shut without his assistance, and leave him at liberty to divert himself with his play-fellows. One of the greatest improvements that has been made upon this machine, since it was first invented, was in this manner the discovery of a boy who wanted to save his own labour.

14 *or by machine-makers and philosophers.*

All the improvements in machinery, however, have by no means been the inventions of those who had occasion to use the machines. Many improvements have been made by the ingenuity of the makers of the machines, when to make them became the business of a peculiar trade; and some by that of those who are called philosophers or men of speculation, whose trade it is not to do any thing, but to observe every thing; and who, upon that account, are often capable of combining together the powers of the most distant and dissimilar objects. In the progress of society, philosophy or speculation becomes, like every other employment, the principal or sole trade and occupation of a particular class of citizens. Like every other employment too, it is subdivided into a great number of different branches, each of which affords occupation to a peculiar tribe or class of philosophers; and this subdivision of employment in philosophy, as well as in every other business, improves dexterity, and saves time. Each individual becomes more expert in his own peculiar branch, more work is done upon the whole, and the quantity of science is considerably increased by it.

15 *Hence the universal opulence of a well-governed society.*

It is the great multiplication of the productions of all the different arts, in consequence of the division of labour, which occasions, in a well-governed society, that universal opulence which extends itself to the lowest ranks of the people. Every workman has a great quantity of his own work to dispose of beyond what he himself has occasion for; and every other workman being exactly in the same situation, he is enabled to exchange a great quantity of his own goods for a great quantity, or, what comes to the same thing, for the price of a great quantity of theirs. He supplies them abundantly with what they have occasion for, and they

accommodate him as amply with what he has occasion for, and a general plenty diffuses itself through all the different ranks of the society.

16 *even the day-labourer's coat eing the produce of a vast number of workmen.*

Observe the accommodation of the most common artificer or day-labourer in a civilized and thriving country, and you will perceive that the number of people of whose industry a part, though but a small part, has been employed in procuring him this accommodation, exceeds all computation. The woollen coat, for example, which covers the day-labourer, as coarse and rough as it may appear, is the produce of the joint labour of a great multitude of workmen. The shepherd, the sorter of the wool, the wool-comber or carder, the dyer, the scribbler, the spinner, the weaver, the fuller, the dresser, with many others, must all join their different arts in order to complete even this homely production. How many merchants and carriers, besides, must have been employed in transporting the materials from some of those workmen to others who often live in a very distant part of the country! how much commerce and navigation in particular, how many ship-builders, sailors, sail-makers, rope-makers, must have been employed in order to bring together the different drugs made use of by the dyer, which often come from the remotest corners of the world! What a variety of labour too is necessary in order to produce the tools of the meanest of those workmen! To say nothing of such complicated machines as the ship of the sailor, the mill of the fuller, or even the loom of the weaver, let us consider only what a variety of labour is requisite in order to form that very simple machine, the shears with which the shepherd clips the wool. The miner, the builder of the furnace for smelting the ore, the feller of the timber, the burner of the charcoal to be made use of in the smelting-house, the brick-maker, the brick-layer, the workmen who attend the furnace, the mill-wright, the forger, the smith, must all of them join their different arts in order to produce them. Were we to examine, in the same manner, all the different parts of his dress and household furniture, the coarse linen shirt which he wears next his skin, the shoes which cover his feet, the bed which he lies on, and all the different parts which compose it, the kitchen-grate at which he prepares his victuals, the coals which he makes use of for that purpose, dug from the bowels of the earth, and brought to him perhaps by a long sea and a long land carriage, all the other utensils of his kitchen, all the furniture of his table, the knives and forks, the earthen or pewter plates upon which he serves up and divides his victuals, the different hands employed in preparing his bread and his beer, the glass window which lets in the heat and the light, and keeps out the wind and

the rain, with all the knowledge and art requisite for preparing that beautiful and happy invention, without which these northern parts of the world could scarce have afforded a very comfortable habitation, together with the tools of all the different workmen employed in producing those different conveniencies; if we examine, I say, all these things, and consider what a variety of labour is employed about each of them, we shall be sensible that without the assistance and co-operation of many thousands, the very meanest person in a civilized country could not be provided, even according to, what we very falsely imagine, the easy and simple manner in which he is commonly accommodated. Compared, indeed, with the more extravagant luxury of the great, his accommodation must no doubt appear extremely simple and easy; and yet it may be true, perhaps, that the accommodation of an European prince does not always so much exceed that of an industrious and frugal peasant, as the accommodation of the latter exceeds that of many an African king, the absolute master of the lives and liberties of ten thousand naked savages.

CHAPTER II
OF THE PRINCIPLE WHICH GIVES OCCASION TO THE DIVISION OF LABOUR

17 *The division of labour arises from a propensity in human nature to exchange.*

This division of labour, from which so many advantages are derived, is not originally the effect of any human wisdom, which foresees and intends that general opulence to which it gives occasion. It is the necessary, though very slow and gradual, consequence of a certain propensity in human nature which has in view no such extensive utility; the propensity to truck, barter, and exchange one thing for another.

18 *This propensity is found in man alone.*

Whether this propensity be one of those original principles in human nature, of which no further account can be given; or whether, as seems more probable, it be the necessary consequence of the faculties of reason and speech, it belongs not to our present subject to enquire. It is common to all men, and to be found in no other race of animals, which seem to know neither this nor any other species of contracts. Two greyhounds, in running down the same hare, have sometimes the appearance of acting in some sort of concert. Each turns her towards his companion, or endeavours to intercept her when his companion turns her towards himself. This,

however, is not the effect of any contract, but of the accidental concurrence of their passions in the same object at that particular time. Nobody ever saw a dog make a fair and deliberate exchange of one bone for another with another dog. Nobody ever saw one animal by its gestures and natural cries signify to another, this is mine, that yours; I am willing to give this for that. When an animal wants to obtain something either of a man or of another animal, it has no other means of persuasion but to gain the favour of those whose service it requires. A puppy fawns upon its dam, and a spaniel endeavours by a thousand attractions to engage the attention of its master who is at dinner, when it wants to be fed by him. Man sometimes uses the same arts with his brethren, and when he has no other means of engaging them to act according to his inclinations, endeavours by every servile and fawning attention to obtain their good will. He has not time, however, to do this upon every occasion. In civilized society he stands at all times in need of the co-operation and assistance of great multitudes, while his whole life is scarce sufficient to gain the friendship of a few persons. In almost every other race of animals each individual, when it is grown up to maturity, is entirely independent, and in its natural state has occasion for the assistance of no other living creature. But man has almost constant occasion for the help of his brethren, and it is in vain for him to expect it from their benevolence only. He will be more likely to prevail if he can interest their self-love in his favour, and shew them that it is for their own advantage to do for him what he requires of them. Whoever offers to another a bargain of any kind, proposes to do this. Give me that which I want, and you shall have this which you want, is the meaning of every such offer; and it is in this manner that we obtain from one another the far greater part of those good offices which we stand in need of. It is not from the benevolence of the butcher, the brewer, or the baker, that we expect our dinner, but from their regard to their own interest. We address ourselves, not to their humanity but to their self-love, and never talk to them of our own necessities but of their advantages. Nobody but a beggar chuses to depend chiefly upon the benevolence of his fellow-citizens. Even a beggar does not depend upon it entirely. The charity of well-disposed people, indeed, supplies him with the whole fund of his subsistence. But though this principle ultimately provides him with all the necessaries of life which he has occasion for, it neither does nor can provide him with them as he has occasion for them. The greater part of his occasional wants are supplied in the same manner as those of other people, by treaty, by barter, and by

purchase. With the money which one man gives him he purchases food. The old cloaths which another bestows upon him he exchanges for other old cloaths which suit him better, or for lodging, or for food, or for money, with which he can buy either food, cloaths, or lodging, as he has occasion.

19 *It is encouraged by self-interest and leads to division of labour.*

As it is by treaty, by barter, and by purchase, that we obtain from one another the greater part of those mutual good offices which we stand in need of, so it is this same trucking disposition which originally gives occasion to the division of labour. In a tribe of hunters or shepherds a particular person makes bows and arrows, for example, with more readiness and dexterity than any other. He frequently exchanges them for cattle or for venison with his companions; and he finds at last that he can in this manner get more cattle and venison, than if he himself went to the field to catch them. From a regard to his own interest, therefore, the making of bows and arrows grows to be his chief business, and he becomes a sort of armourer. Another excels in making the frames and covers of their little huts or moveable houses. He is accustomed to be of use in this way to his neighbours, who reward him in the same manner with cattle and with venison, till at last he finds it his interest to dedicate himself entirely to this employment, and to become a sort of house-carpenter. In the same manner a third becomes a smith or a brazier; a fourth a tanner or dresser of hides or skins, the principal part of the clothing of savages. And thus the certainty of being able to exchange all that surplus part of the produce of his own labour, which is over and above his own consumption, for such parts of the produce of other men's labour as he may have occasion for, encourages every man to apply himself to a particular occupation, and to cultivate and bring to perfection whatever talent or genius he may possess for that particular species of business.

20 *thus giving rise to differences of talent more important than the natural differences.*

The difference of natural talents in different men is, in reality, much less than we are aware of; and the very different genius which appears to distinguish men of different professions, when grown up to maturity, is not upon many occasions so much the cause, as the effect of the division of labour. The difference between the most dissimilar characters, between a philosopher and a common street porter, for example, seems to arise not so much from nature, as from habit, custom, and education. When they came into the world, and for the first six or eight years of their existence, they were, perhaps, very much alike, and neither their parents nor playfellows could perceive any remarkable difference. About that age, or soon after, they come to be employed in very different occupations. The difference of talents

comes then to be taken notice of, and widens by degrees, till at last the vanity of the philosopher is willing to acknowledge scarce any resemblance. But without the disposition to truck, barter, and exchange, every man must have procured to himself every necessary and conveniency of life which he wanted. All must have had the same duties to perform, and the same work to do, and there could have been no such difference of employment as could alone give occasion to any great difference of talents.

21 *and rendering se differences useful.*

As it is this disposition which forms that difference of talents, so remarkable among men of different professions, so it is this same disposition which renders that difference useful. Many tribes of animals acknowledged to be all of the same species, derive from nature a much more remarkable distinction of genius, than what, antecedent to custom and education, appears to take place among men. By nature a philosopher is not in genius and disposition half so different from a street porter, as a mastiff is from a greyhound, or a greyhound from a spaniel, or this last from a shepherd's dog. Those different tribes of animals, however, though all of the same species, are of scarce any use to one another. The strength of the mastiff is not in the least supported either by the swiftness of the greyhound, or by the sagacity of the spaniel, or by the docility of the shepherd's dog. The effects of those different geniuses and talents, for want of the power or disposition to barter and exchange, cannot be brought into a common stock, and do not in the least contribute to the better accommodation and conveniency of the species. Each animal is still obliged to support and defend itself, separately and independently, and derives no sort of advantage from that variety of talents with which nature has distinguished its fellows. Among men, on the contrary, the most dissimilar geniuses are of use to one another; the different produces of their respective talents, by the general disposition to truck, barter, and exchange, being brought, as it were, into a common stock, where every man may purchase whatever part of the produce of other men's talents he has occasion for.

CHAPTER III
THAT THE DIVISION OF LABOUR IS LIMITED BY THE EXTENT OF THE MARKET

22 As it is the power of exchanging that gives occasion to the division of labour, so

Division of labour is limited by the extent of the power of exchanging.

the extent of this division must always be limited by the extent of that power, or, in other words, by the extent of the market. When the market is very small, no person can have any encouragement to dedicate himself entirely to one employment, for want of the power to exchange all that surplus part of the produce of his own labour, which is over and above his own consumption, for such parts of the produce of other men's labour as he has occasion for.

23 *Various trades cannot be carried on except in towns.*

There are some sorts of industry, even of the lowest kind, which can be carried on no where but in a great town. A porter, for example, can find employment and subsistence in no other place. A village is by much too narrow a sphere for him; even an ordinary market town is scarce large enough to afford him constant occupation. In the lone houses and very small villages which are scattered about in so desert a country as the Highlands of Scotland, every farmer must be butcher, baker and brewer for his own family. In such situations we can scarce expect to find even a smith, a carpenter, or a mason, within less than twenty miles of another of the same trade. The scattered families that live at eight or ten miles distance from the nearest of them, must learn to perform themselves a great number of little pieces of work, for which, in more populous countries, they would call in the assistance of those workmen. Country workmen are almost every where obliged to apply themselves to all the different branches of industry that have so much affinity to one another as to be employed about the same sort of materials. A country carpenter deals in every sort of work that is made of wood: a country smith in every sort of work that is made of iron. The former is not only a carpenter, but a joiner, a cabinet maker, and even a carver in wood, as well as a wheelwright, a ploughwright, a cart and waggon maker. The employments of the latter are still more various. It is impossible there should be such a trade as even that of a nailer in the remote and inland parts of the Highlands of Scotland. Such a workman at the rate of a thousand nails a day, and three hundred working days in the year, will make three hundred thousand nails in the year. But in such a situation it would be impossible to dispose of one thousand, that is, of one day's work in the year.

24 *Water-carriage widens the market[.]*

As by means of water-carriage a more extensive market is opened to every sort of industry than what land-carriage alone can afford it, so it is upon the sea-coast, and along the banks of navigable rivers, that industry of every kind naturally begins to subdivide and improve itself, and it is frequently not till a long time after that those improvements extend themselves to the inland parts of the country. [. . .]

CHAPTER IV
OF THE ORIGIN AND USE OF MONEY

25 *ivision of labour cing established, ery man lives by exchanging.*

When the division of labour has been once thoroughly established, it is but a very small part of a man's wants which the produce of his own labour can supply. He supplies the far greater part of them by exchanging that surplus part of the produce of his own labour, which is over and above his own consumption, for such parts of the produce of other men's labour as he has occasion for. Every man thus lives by exchanging, or becomes in some measure a merchant, and the society itself grows to be what is properly a commercial society.

[. . .]

26 *ie next inquiry is rules determine hangeable value.*

It is in this manner that money has become in all civilized nations the universal instrument of commerce, by the intervention of which goods of all kinds are bought and sold, or exchanged for one another.

27

What are the rules which men naturally observe in exchanging them either for money or for one another, I shall now proceed to examine. These rules determine what may be called the relative or exchangeable value of goods.

28 *Value may mean either value in use or value in exchange.*

The word VALUE, it is to be observed, has two different meanings, and sometimes expresses the utility of some particular object, and sometimes the power of purchasing other goods which the possession of that object conveys. The one may be called "value in use;" the other, "value in exchange." The things which have the greatest value in use have frequently little or no value in exchange; and on the contrary, those which have the greatest value in exchange have frequently little or no value in use. Nothing is more useful than water: but it will purchase scarce any thing; scarce any thing can be had in exchange for it. A diamond, on the contrary, has scarce any value in use; but a very great quantity of other goods may frequently be had in exchange for it.

29 *Three questions.*

In order to investigate the principles which regulate the exchangeable value of commodities, I shall endeavour to shew,

(1) wherein 30 *sts the real price of commodities,*

First, what is the real measure of this exchangeable value; or, wherein consists the real price of all commodities.

(2) what are 31 *ie different parts of this price,*

Secondly, what are the different parts of which this real price is composed or made up.

32 *(3) why the market price sometimes diverges from this price.*

will be answered in the next three chapters.

And, lastly, what are the different circumstances which sometimes raise some or all of these different parts of price above, and sometimes sink them below their natural or ordinary rate; or, what are the causes which sometimes hinder the market price, that is, the actual price of commodities, from coinciding exactly with what may be called their natural price. I shall endeavour to explain, as fully and distinctly as I can, those three subjects in the three following chapters, for which I must very earnestly entreat both the patience and attention of the reader: his patience in order to examine a detail which may perhaps in some places appear unnecessarily tedious; and his attention in order to understand what may, perhaps, after the fullest explication which I am capable of giving of it, appear still in some degree obscure. I am always willing to run some hazard of being tedious in order to be sure that I am perspicuous; and after taking the utmost pains that I can to be perspicuous, some obscurity may still appear to remain upon a subject in its own nature extremely abstracted.

CHAPTER V
OF THE REAL AND NOMINAL PRICE OF COMMODITIES, OR OF THEIR PRICE IN LABOUR, AND THEIR PRICE IN MONEY

33 *Labour is the real measure of exchangeable value.*

Every man is rich or poor according to the degree in which he can afford to enjoy the necessaries, conveniencies, and amusements of human life. But after the division of labour has once thoroughly taken place, it is but a very small part of these with which a man's own labour can supply him. The far greater part of them he must derive from the labour of other people, and he must be rich or poor according to the quantity of that labour which he can command, or which he can afford to purchase. The value of any commodity, therefore, to the person who possesses it, and who means not to use or consume it himself, but to exchange it for other commodities, is equal to the quantity of labour which it enables him to purchase or command. Labour, therefore, is the real measure of the exchangeable value of all commodities.

34 *and the first price paid for all things.*

The real price of every thing, what every thing really costs to the man who wants to acquire it, is the toil and trouble of acquiring it. What every thing is really worth to the man who has acquired it, and who wants to dispose of it or

exchange it for something else, is the toil and trouble which it can save to himself, and which it can impose upon other people. What is bought with money or with goods is purchased by labour, as much as what we acquire by the toil of our own body. That money or those goods indeed save us this toil. They contain the value of a certain quantity of labour which we exchange for what is supposed at the time to contain the value of an equal quantity. Labour was the first price, the original purchase-money that was paid for all things. It was not by gold or by silver, but by labour, that all the wealth of the world was originally purchased; and its value, to those who possess it, and who want to exchange it for some new productions, is precisely equal to the quantity of labour which it can enable them to purchase or command.

35 *Ith is power of hasing labour.*

Wealth, as Mr. Hobbes says, is power. But the person who either acquires, or succeeds to a great fortune, does not necessarily acquire or succeed to any political power, either civil or military. His fortune may, perhaps, afford him the means of acquiring both, but the mere possession of that fortune does not necessarily convey to him either. The power which that possession immediately and directly conveys to him is the power of purchasing; a certain command over all the labour, or over all the produce of labour which is then in the market. His fortune is greater or less, precisely in proportion to the extent of this power; or to the quantity either of other men's labour, or, what is the same thing, of the produce of other men's labour, which it enables him to purchase or command. The exchangeable value of every thing must always be precisely equal to the extent of this power which it conveys to its owner.

36 *But value is not commonly estimated by hour; because our is difficult to measure.*

But though labour be the real measure of the exchangeable value of all commodities, it is not that by which their value is commonly estimated. It is often difficult to ascertain the proportion between two different quantities of labour. The time spent in two different sorts of work will not always alone determine this proportion. The different degrees of hardship endured, and of ingenuity exercised, must likewise be taken into account. There may be more labour in an hour's hard work than in two hours easy business; or in an hour's application to a trade which it cost ten years labour to learn, than in a month's industry at an ordinary and obvious employment. But it is not easy to find any accurate measure either of hardship or ingenuity. In exchanging indeed the different productions of different sorts of labour for one another, some allowance is commonly made for both. It is adjusted, however, not by any accurate measure, but by the higgling and bargaining

of the market, according to that sort of rough equality which, though not exact, is sufficient for carrying on the business of common life.

Every commodity besides, is more frequently exchanged for, and thereby compared with, other commodities than with labour. It is more natural therefore, to estimate its exchangeable value by the quantity of some other commodity than by that of the labour which it can purchase. The greater part of people too understand better what is meant by a quantity of a particular commodity, than by a quantity of labour. The one is a plain palpable object; the other an abstract notion, which, though it can be made sufficiently intelligible, is not altogether so natural and obvious.

37 *and commodities are more frequently exchanged for other commodities.*

But when barter ceases, and money has become the common instrument of commerce, every particular commodity is more frequently exchanged for money than for any other commodity. [. . .]

38 *especially money, which is therefore more frequently used in estimating value.*

[. . .] Equal quantities of labour, at all times and places, may be said to be of equal value to the labourer. In his ordinary state of health, strength and spirits; in the ordinary degree of his skill and dexterity, he must always lay down the same portion of his ease, his liberty, and his happiness. The price which he pays must always be the same, whatever may be the quantity of goods which he receives in return for it. Of these, indeed, it may sometimes purchase a greater and sometimes a smaller quantity; but it is their value which varies, not that of the labour which purchases them. At all times and places that is dear which it is difficult to come at, or which it costs much labour to acquire; and that cheap which is to be had easily, or with very little labour. Labour alone, therefore, never varying in its own value, is alone the ultimate and real standard by which the value of all commodities can at all times and places be estimated and compared. It is their real price; money is their nominal price only.

39

But though equal quantities of labour are always of equal value to the labourer, yet to the person who employs him they appear sometimes to be of greater and sometimes of smaller value. He purchases them sometimes with a greater and sometimes with a smaller quantity of goods, and to him the price of labour seems to vary like that of all other things. It appears to him dear in the one case, and cheap in the other. In reality, however, it is the goods which are cheap in the one case, and dear in the other.

40 *although the employer regards labour as varying in value.*

In this popular sense, therefore, labour, like commodities, may be said to have a real and a nominal price. Its real price may be said to consist in the quantity of

41

So regarded, 'our has a real and a nominal price.

the necessaries and conveniencies of life which are given for it; its nominal price, in the quantity of money. The labourer is rich or poor, is well or ill rewarded in proportion to the real, not to the nominal price of his labour.

[. . .]

CHAPTER VI
OF THE COMPONENT PARTS OF THE PRICE OF COMMODITIES

42 *ntity of labour s originally the 'y rule of value.*

In that early and rude state of society which precedes both the accumulation of stock and the appropriation of land, the proportion between the quantities of labour necessary for acquiring different objects seems to be the only circumstance which can afford any rule for exchanging them for one another. If among a nation of hunters, for example, it usually costs twice the labour to kill a beaver which it does to kill a deer, one beaver should naturally exchange for or be worth two deer. It is natural that what is usually the produce of two days or two hours labour, should be worth double of what is usually the produce of one day's or one hour's labour.

43 *llowance being ade for superior hardship.*

If the one species of labour should be more severe than the other, some allowance will naturally be made for this superior hardship; and the produce of one hour's labour in the one way may frequently exchange for that of two hours labour in the other.

44 *d for uncommon dexterity and ingenuity.*

Or if the one species of labour requires an uncommon degree of dexterity and ingenuity, the esteem which men have for such talents, will naturally give a value to their produce, superior to what would be due to the time employed about it. Such talents can seldom be acquired but in consequence of long application, and the superior value of their produce may frequently be no more than a reasonable compensation for the time and labour which must be spent in acquiring them. In the advanced state of society, allowances of this kind, for superior hardship and superior skill, are commonly made in the wages of labour; and something of the same kind must probably have taken place in its earliest and rudest period.

45 *te whole produce en belongs to the labourer.*

In this state of things, the whole produce of labour belongs to the labourer; and the quantity of labour commonly employed in acquiring or producing any commodity, is the only circumstance which can regulate the quantity of labour which it ought commonly to purchase, command, or exchange for.

46

As soon as stock has accumulated in the hands of particular persons, some of them will naturally employ it in setting to work industrious people, whom they will supply with materials and subsistence, in order to make a profit by the sale of their work, or by what their labour adds to the value of the materials. In exchanging the complete manufacture either for money, for labour, or for other goods, over and above what may be sufficient to pay the price of the materials, and the wages of the workmen, something must be given for the profits of the undertaker of the work who hazards his stock in this adventure. The value which the workmen add to the materials, therefore, resolves itself in this case into two parts, of which the one pays their wages, the other the profits of their employer upon the whole stock of materials and wages which he advanced. He could have no interest to employ them, unless he expected from the sale of their work something more than what was sufficient to replace his stock to him; and he could have no interest to employ a great stock rather than a small one, unless his profits were to bear some proportion to the extent of his stock.

but when stock is used, something must be given for the profits of the undertaker, and the value of work resolves itself into wages and profits.

47 *Profits are not merely wages of inspection and direction.*

The profits of stock, it may perhaps be thought, are only a different name for the wages of a particular sort of labour, the labour of inspection and direction. They are, however, altogether different, are regulated by quite sufficient principles, and bear no proportion to the quantity, the hardship, or the ingenuity of this supposed labour of inspection and direction. They are regulated altogether by the value of the stock employed, and are greater or smaller in proportion to the extent of this stock. Let us suppose, for example, that in some particular place, where the common annual profits of manufacturing stock are ten per cent, there are two different manufactures, in each of which twenty workmen are employed at the rate of fifteen pounds a year each, or at the expence of three hundred a year in each manufactory. Let us suppose too, that the coarse materials annually wrought up in the one cost only seven hundred pounds, while the finer materials in the other cost seven thousand. The capital annually employed in the one will in this case amount only to one thousand pounds; whereas that employed in the other will amount to seven thousand three hundred pounds. At the rate of ten per cent, therefore, the undertaker of the one will expect an yearly profit of about one hundred pounds only; while that of the other will expect about seven hundred and thirty pounds. But though their profits are so very different, their labour of inspection and direction may be either altogether or very nearly the same. In many great works, almost the whole labour of this kind is committed to some principal clerk. His wages properly

express the value of this labour of inspection and direction. Though in settling them some regard is had commonly, not only to his labour and skill, but to the trust which is reposed in him, yet they never bear any regular proportion to the capital of which he oversees the management; and the owner of this capital, though he is thus discharged of almost all labour, still expects that his profits should bear a regular proportion to his capital. In the price of commodities, therefore, the profits of stock constitute a component part altogether different from the wages of labour, and regulated by quite different principles.

48 *The labourer shares with the employer, and labour alone no anger regulates value.*

In this state of things, the whole produce of labour does not always belong to the labourer. He must in most cases share it with the owner of the stock which employs him. Neither is the quantity of labour commonly employed in acquiring or producing any commodity, the only circumstance which can regulate the quantity which it ought commonly to purchase, command, or exchange for. An additional quantity, it is evident, must be due for the profits of the stock which advanced the wages and furnished the materials of that labour.

49 *en land has all become private property, rent stitutes a third ponent part of e price of most commodities.*

As soon as the land of any country has all become private property, the landlords, like all other men, love to reap where they never sowed, and demand a rent even for its natural produce. The wood of the forest, the grass of the field, and all the natural fruits of the earth, which, when land was in common, cost the labourer only the trouble of gathering them, come, even to him, to have an additional price fixed upon them. He must give up to the landlord a portion of what his labour either collects or produces. This portion, or, what comes to the same thing, the price of this portion, constitutes the rent of land, and in the price of the greater part of commodities makes a third component part.

50 *The real value all three parts s measured by labour.*

The real value of all the different component parts of price, it must be observed, is measured by the quantity of labour which they can, each of them, purchase or command. Labour measures the value not only of that part of price which resolves itself into labour, but of that which resolves itself into rent, and of that which resolves itself into profit.

51 *n an improved ociety all three are generally present, [. . .]*

In every society the price of every commodity finally resolves itself into some one or other, or all of those three parts; and in every improved society, all the three enter more or less, as component parts, into the price of the far greater part of commodities.

[. . .]

CHAPTER VII
OF THE NATURAL AND MARKET PRICE OF COMMODITIES

52 *Ordinary or average rates of wages, profit.*

There is in every society or neighbourhood an ordinary or average rate both of wages and profit in every different employment of labour and stock. This rate is naturally regulated, as I shall show hereafter, partly by the general circumstances of the society, their riches or poverty, their advancing, stationary, or declining condition; and partly by the particular nature of each employment.

53 *and rent*

There is likewise in every society or neighbourhood an ordinary or average rate of rent, which is regulated too, as I shall show hereafter, partly by the general circumstances of the society or neighbourhood in which the land is situated, and partly by the natural or improved fertility of the land.

54 *may be called natural rates.*

These ordinary or average rates may be called the natural rates of wages, profit, and rent, at the time and place in which they commonly prevail.

55 *to pay which a commodity is sold at its natural price.*

When the price of any commodity is neither more nor less than what is sufficient to pay the rent of the land, the wages of the labour, and the profits of the stock employed in raising, preparing, and bringing it to market, according to their natural rates, the commodity is then sold for what may be called its natural price.

56 *or for what it really costs, which includes profit.*

The commodity is then sold precisely for what it is worth, or for what it really costs the person who brings it to market; for though in common language what is called the prime cost of any commodity does not comprehend the profit of the person who is to sell it again, yet if he sells it at a price which does not allow him the ordinary rate of profit in his neighbourhood, he is evidently a loser by the trade; since by employing his stock in some other way he might have made that profit. His profit, besides, is his revenue, the proper fund of his subsistence. As, while he is preparing and bringing the goods to market, he advances to his workmen their wages, or their subsistence; so he advances to himself, in the same manner, his own subsistence, which is generally suitable to the profit which he may reasonably expect from the sale of his goods. Unless they yield him this profit, therefore, they do not repay him what they may very properly be said to have really cost him.

57 *since no one will go on selling without profit.*

Though the price, therefore, which leaves him this profit, is not always the lowest at which a dealer may sometimes sell his goods, it is the lowest at which

he is likely to sell them for any considerable time; at least where there is perfect liberty, or where he may change his trade as often as he pleases.

58 *Market price*

The actual price at which any commodity is commonly sold is called its market price. It may either be above, or below, or exactly the same with its natural price.

59 *gulated by the antity brought narket and the ctual demand.*

The market price of every particular commodity is regulated by the proportion between the quantity which is actually brought to market, and the demand of those who are willing to pay the natural price of the commodity, or the whole value of the rent, labour, and profit, which must be paid in order to bring it thither. Such people may be called the effectual demanders, and their demand the effectual demand; since it may be sufficient to effectuate the bringing of the commodity to market. It is different from the absolute demand. A very poor man may be said in some sense to have a demand for a coach and six; he might like to have it; but his demand is not an effectual demand, as the commodity can never be brought to market in order to satisfy it.

60 *en the quantity ight falls short of the effectual demand, the ket price rises ve the natural;*

When the quantity of any commodity which is brought to market falls short of the effectual demand, all those who are willing to pay the whole value of the rent, wages, and profit, which must be paid in order to bring it thither, cannot be supplied with the quantity which they want. Rather than want it altogether, some of them will be willing to give more. A competition will immediately begin among them, and the market price will rise more or less above the natural price, according as either the greatness of the deficiency, or the wealth and wanton luxury of the competitors, happen to animate more or less the eagerness of the competition. Among competitors of equal wealth and luxury the same deficiency will generally occasion a more or less eager competition, according as the acquisition of the commodity happens to be of more or less importance to them. Hence the exorbitant price of the necessaries of life during the blockade of a town or in a famine.

61 *hen it exceeds the effectual and the market ice falls below the natural;*

When the quantity brought to market exceeds the effectual demand, it cannot be all sold to those who are willing to pay the whole value of the rent, wages and profit, which must be paid in order to bring it thither. Some part must be sold to those who are willing to pay less, and the low price which they give for it must reduce the price of the whole. The market price will sink more or less below the natural price, according as the greatness of the excess increases more or less the competition of the sellers, or according as it happens to be more or less important to them to get immediately rid of the commodity. The same excess in the importation

of perishable, will occasion a much greater competition than in that of durable commodities; in the importation of oranges, for example, than in that of old iron.

62 *when it is just equal to the effectual demand the market and natural price coincide.*

When the quantity brought to market is just sufficient to supply the effectual demand and no more, the market price naturally comes to be either exactly, or as nearly as can be judged of, the same with the natural price. The whole quantity upon hand can be disposed of for this price, and cannot be disposed of for more. The competition of the different dealers obliges them all to accept of this price, but does not oblige them to accept of less.

63 *It naturally suits itself to the effectual demand.*

The quantity of every commodity brought to market naturally suits itself to the effectual demand. It is the interest of all those who employ their land, labour, or stock, in bringing any commodity to market, that the quantity never should exceed the effectual demand; and it is the interest of all other people that it never should fall short of that demand.

64 *When it exceeds that demand, some of the component parts of its price are below their natural rate;*

If at any time it exceeds the effectual demand, some of the component parts of its price must be paid below their natural rate. If it is rent, the interest of the landlords will immediately prompt them to withdraw a part of their land; and if it is wages or profit, the interest of the labourers in the one case, and of their employers in the other, will prompt them to withdraw a part of their labour or stock from this employment. The quantity brought to market will soon be no more than sufficient to supply the effectual demand. All the different parts of its price will rise to their natural rate, and the whole price to its natural price.

65 *when it falls short, some of the component parts are above their natural rate.*

If, on the contrary, the quantity brought to market should at any time fall short of the effectual demand, some of the component parts of its price must rise above their natural rate. If it is rent, the interest of all other landlords will naturally prompt them to prepare more land for the raising of this commodity; if it is wages or profit, the interest of all other labourers and dealers will soon prompt them to employ more labour and stock in preparing and bringing it to market. The quantity brought thither will soon be sufficient to supply the effectual demand. All the different parts of its price will soon sink to their natural rate, and the whole price to its natural price.

66 *Natural price is the central price to which actual prices gravitate.*

The natural price, therefore, is, as it were, the central price, to which the prices of all commodities are continually gravitating. Different accidents may sometimes keep them suspended a good deal above it, and sometimes force them down even somewhat below it. But whatever may be the obstacles which hinder

them from settling in this center of repose and continuance, they are constantly tending towards it.

[. . .]

67 *but market price ay be kept above atural for a long time.*

But though the market price of every particular commodity is in this manner continually gravitating, if one may say so, towards the natural price, yet sometimes particular accidents, sometimes natural causes, and sometimes particular regulations of police, may, in many commodities, keep up the market price, for a long time together, a good deal above the natural price.

68 *consequence of want of general owledge of high profits,*

When by an increase in the effectual demand, the market price of some particular commodity happens to rise a good deal above the natural price, those who employ their stocks in supplying that market are generally careful to conceal this change. If it was commonly known, their great profit would tempt so many new rivals to employ their stocks in the same way, that, the effectual demand being fully supplied, the market price would soon be reduced to the natural price, and perhaps for some time even below it. If the market is at a great distance from the residence of those who supply it, they may sometimes be able to keep the secret for several years together, and may so long enjoy their extraordinary profits without any new rivals. Secrets of this kind, however, it must be acknowledged, can seldom be long kept; and the extraordinary profit can last very little longer than they are kept.

69 *in consequence of secrets in manufactures.*

Secrets in manufactures are capable of being longer kept than secrets in trade. A dyer who has found the means of producing a particular colour with materials which cost only half the price of those commonly made use of, may, with good management, enjoy the advantage of his discovery as long as he lives, and even leave it as a legacy to his posterity. His extraordinary gains arise from the high price which is paid for his private labour. They properly consist in the high wages of that labour. But as they are repeated upon every part of his stock, and as their whole amount bears, upon that account, a regular proportion to it, they are commonly considered as extraordinary profits of stock.

70 *ch may operate or long periods [. . .]*

Such enhancements of the market price are evidently the effects of particular accidents, of which, however, the operation may sometimes last for many years together.

[. . .]

71

A monopoly granted either to an individual or to a trading company has the same effect as a secret in trade or manufactures. The monopolists, by keeping the

market constantly under-stocked, by never fully supplying the effectual demand, sell their commodities much above the natural price, and raise their emoluments, whether they consist in wages or profit, greatly above their natural rate.

A monopoly has the same effect as a trade secret.

72 *the price of monopoly being the highest which can be got.*

The price of monopoly is upon every occasion the highest which can be got. The natural price, or the price of free competition, on the contrary, is the lowest which can be taken, not upon every occasion indeed, but for any considerable time together. The one is upon every occasion the highest which can be squeezed out of the buyers, or which, it is supposed, they will consent to give: The other is the lowest which the sellers can commonly afford to take, and at the same time continue their business.

73 *Corporation privileges, etc., are enlarged monopolies.*

The exclusive privileges of corporations, statutes of apprenticeship, and all those laws which restrain, in particular employments, the competition to a smaller number than might otherwise go into them, have the same tendency, though in a less degree. They are a sort of enlarged monopolies, and may frequently, for ages together, and in whole classes of employments, keep up the market price of particular commodities above the natural price, and maintain both the wages of the labour and the profits of the stock employed about them somewhat above their natural rate.

74

Such enhancements of the market price may last as long as the regulations of police which give occasion to them.

75 *Market price is seldom long below natural price, [...]*

The market price of any particular commodity, though it may continue long above, can seldom continue long below, its natural price. Whatever part of it was paid below the natural rate, the persons whose interest it affected would immediately feel the loss, and would immediately withdraw either so much land, or so much labour, or so much stock, from being employed about it, that the quantity brought to market would soon be no more than sufficient to supply the effectual demand. Its market price, therefore, would soon rise to the natural price. This at least would be the case where there was perfect liberty.

[. . .]

CHAPTER VIII
OF THE WAGES OF LABOUR

Produce is the natural wages of labour.

76

The produce of labour constitutes the natural recompence or wages of labour.

77 *Originally the ... belonged to the labourer.*

78 *If this had continued, all ... would have come cheaper. [...]*

79 *This state was ended by the appropriation of land and accumulation of stock.*

80 *Being the first deduction.*

81 *And profit the second, both in agriculture,*

82 *other arts and manufactures.*

83 *independent workman gets its as well as wages,*

In that original state of things, which precedes both the appropriation of land and the accumulation of stock, the whole produce of labour belongs to the labourer. He has neither landlord nor master to share with him.

Had this state continued, the wages of labour would have augmented with all those improvements in its productive powers, to which the division of labour gives occasion. All things would gradually have become cheaper. They would have been produced by a smaller quantity of labour; and as the commodities produced by equal quantities of labour would naturally in this state of things be exchanged for one another, they would have been purchased likewise with the produce of a smaller quantity.

[. . .]

But this original state of things, in which the labourer enjoyed the whole produce of his own labour, could not last beyond the first introduction of the appropriation of land and the accumulation of stock. It was at an end, therefore, long before the most considerable improvements were made in the productive powers of labour, and it would be to no purpose to trace further what might have been its effects upon the recompence or wages of labour.

As soon as land becomes private property, the landlord demands a share of almost all the produce which the labourer can either raise, or collect from it. His rent makes the first deduction from the produce of the labour which is employed upon land.

It seldom happens that the person who tills the ground has wherewithal to maintain himself till he reaps the harvest. His maintenance is generally advanced to him from the stock of a master, the farmer who employs him, and who would have no interest to employ him, unless he was to share in the produce of his labour, or unless his stock was to be replaced to him with a profit. This profit makes a second deduction from the produce of the labour which is employed upon land.

The produce of almost all other labour is liable to the like deduction of profit. In all arts and manufactures the greater part of the workmen stand in need of a master to advance them the materials of their work, and their wages and maintenance till it be compleated. He shares in the produce of their labour, or in the value which it adds to the materials upon which it is bestowed; and in this share consists his profit.

It sometimes happens, indeed, that a single independent workman has stock sufficient both to purchase the materials of his work, and to maintain himself till it be compleated. He is both master and workman, and enjoys the whole produce

of his own labour, or the whole value which it adds to the materials upon which it is bestowed. It includes what are usually two distinct revenues, belonging to two distinct persons, the profits of stock, and the wages of labour.

Such cases, however, are not very frequent, and in every part of Europe, twenty workmen serve under a master for one that is independent; and the wages of labour are every where understood to be, what they usually are, when the labourer is one person, and the owner of the stock which employs him another.

84 *but this case is infrequent.*

What are the common wages of labour, depends every where upon the contract usually made between those two parties, whose interests are by no means the same. The workmen desire to get as much, the masters to give as little as possible. The former are disposed to combine in order to raise, the latter in order to lower the wages of labour.

85 *Wages depend on contract between masters and workmen.*

It is not, however, difficult to foresee which of the two parties must, upon all ordinary occasions, have the advantage in the dispute, and force the other into a compliance with their terms. The masters, being fewer in number, can combine much more easily; and the law, besides, authorises, or at least does not prohibit their combinations, while it prohibits those of the workmen. We have no acts of parliament against combining to lower the price of work; but many against combining to raise it. In all such disputes the masters can hold out much longer. A landlord, a farmer, a master manufacturer, or merchant, though they did not employ a single workman, could generally live a year or two upon the stocks which they have already acquired. Many workmen could not subsist a week, few could subsist a month, and scarce any a year without employment. In the long-run the workman may be as necessary to his master as his master is to him, but the necessity is not so immediate.

86 *The masters have the advantage.*

We rarely hear, it has been said, of the combinations of masters, though frequently of those of workmen. But whoever imagines, upon this account, that masters rarely combine, is as ignorant of the world as of the subject. Masters are always and every where in a sort of tacit, but constant and uniform combination, not to raise the wages of labour above their actual rate. To violate this combination is every where a most unpopular action, and a sort of reproach to a master among his neighbours and equals. We seldom, indeed, hear of this combination, because it is the usual, and one may say, the natural state of things which nobody ever hears of. Masters too sometimes enter into particular combinations to sink the wages of

87 *though less is heard of masters' combinations than of workmen's.*

labour even below this rate. These are always conducted with the utmost silence and secrecy, till the moment of execution, and when the workmen yield, as they sometimes do, without resistance, though severely felt by them, they are never heard of by other people. Such combinations, however, are frequently resisted by a contrary defensive combination of the workmen; who sometimes too, without any provocation of this kind, combine of their own accord to raise the price of their labour. Their usual pretences are, sometimes the high price of provisions; sometimes the great profit which their masters make by their work. But whether their combinations be offensive or defensive, they are always abundantly heard of. In order to bring the point to a speedy decision, they have always recourse to the loudest clamour, and sometimes to the most shocking violence and outrage. They are desperate, and act with the folly and extravagance of desperate men, who must either starve, or frighten their masters into an immediate compliance with their demands. The masters upon these occasions are just as clamorous upon the other side, and never cease to call aloud for the assistance of the civil magistrate, and the rigorous execution of those laws which have been enacted with so much severity against the combinations of servants, labourers, and journeymen. The workmen, accordingly, very seldom derive any advantage from the violence of those tumultuous combinations, which, partly from the interposition of the civil magistrate, partly from the superior steadiness of the masters, partly from the necessity which the greater part of the workmen are under of submitting for the sake of present subsistence, generally end in nothing, but the punishment or ruin of the ring-leaders.

lut masters not reduce ages below a certain te, namely, ubsistence a man and ething over or a family.

88 But though in disputes with their workmen, masters must generally have the advantage, there is however a certain rate below which it seems impossible to reduce, for any considerable time, the ordinary wages even of the lowest species of labour.

89 A man must always live by his work, and his wages must at least be sufficient to maintain him. They must even upon most occasions be somewhat more; otherwise it would be impossible for him to bring up a family, and the race of such workmen could not last beyond the first generation. Mr. Cantillon seems, upon this account, to suppose that the lowest species of common labourers must every where earn at least double their own maintenance, in order that one with another they may be enabled to bring up two children; the labour of the wife, on account of

her necessary attendance on the children, being supposed no more than sufficient to provide for herself. But one-half the children born, it is computed, die before the age of manhood. The poorest labourers, therefore, according to this account, must, one with another, attempt to rear at least four children, in order that two may have an equal chance of living to that age. But the necessary maintenance of four children, it is supposed, may be nearly equal to that of one man. The labour of an able-bodied slave, the same author adds, is computed to be worth double his maintenance; and that of the meanest labourer, he thinks, cannot be worth less than that of an able-bodied slave. Thus far at least seems certain, that, in order to bring up a family, the labour of the husband and wife together must, even in the lowest species of common labour, be able to earn something more than what is precisely necessary for their own maintenance; but in what proportion, whether in that above mentioned, or in any other, I shall not take upon me to determine.

[. . .]

Labour: Being Human Again—"Wages of Labour" and "Estranged Labour" in the Economic and Philosophic Manuscripts of 1844

Work as physical or mental labour takes up a large part of an adult's life. But what makes work itself meaningful? What kind of work life is worth living?

In "Wages of Labour" (WL) and "Estranged Labour" (EL; also translated as "Alienated Labour"), Karl Marx argues that human beings at work should find themselves free and spontaneous. When labouring, we are in a state of well-being and self-fulfillment by being conscious of ourselves and at the same time, of our being members of the human community. We are also conscious of being part of nature, and our ability to engage with it as a material to work on and an object for thinking beyond our physical needs.

Marx's ideal, however, is quite far from the reality workers faced. Division of labour in factories was widespread and intense in Europe when the manuscripts were written. While Adam Smith believes that this mode of manufacture promotes wealth for all, Marx sees in the division of labour a mechanism for the oppression and systematic brutalization of the worker. Capitalists accumulate social power with their wealth whereas workers keep struggling to find buyers for their labour. They have to put up with long working hours and they suffer from premature death. Marx calls this "estrangement" (or "alienation") of the worker, the central concept in our reading.

Marx argues that there are four ways that workers are estranged. First, they do not recognize the products they make in that they do not own them and in face of the world of objects they produce, they see not their lives but a hostile enemy. Second, they are forced to produce for capitalists; the activity of labour becomes a system of coercion. Third, they are estranged from their essential humanity—in

performing this labour, they act not as human beings but as machines. Lastly, they are estranged from others because they encounter fellow humans only as workers, not as free and whole beings. When we are estranged, we cannot actualize ourselves as human beings.

As a strong believer of equality, Marx advocated radical social change. *The Communist Manifesto*, written by Marx and his life long friend Friedrich Engels (1820–1895), was published in 1848. It is a vehement attack on the way the bourgeoisie (or ruling class that took power from the aristocrats) exploit the proletariat (or property-less working class). The manifesto places a greater emphasis on analyzing the separation of human beings into classes in the history of human society, addressing workers directly at times, and calling them to action. Our reading from the earlier Marx employs a similar style of expression, but it focuses more on the reason for Marx's call for revolution: the dehumanization imposed on the worker by the conditions of production in bourgeois society.

"Wages of Labour" and "Estranged Labour" were originally collected in the *Economic and Philosophic Manuscripts of 1844* or *Paris Manuscripts*, fully published in 1932. Many of the ideas were to become the monumental *Das Kapital, Volume I* (or, in English, *Capital, Volume I*), itself a product of Marx's own labour.

Our reading is selected because of the way much of the phenomena described by Marx still rings true in contemporary societies. As our syllabus comes to a close, these manuscripts address yet again the central question running through the course: how to live well as individuals among others.

Our translation is by Rodney Livingstone and Gregor Benton from *Early Writings*. We made our selection with reference to the Chicago Great Books Foundation selection.

Yeung Yang

from

Economic and Philosophic Manuscripts of 1844

by Karl Marx

WAGES OF LABOUR

Wages are determined by the fierce struggle between capitalist and worker. The capitalist inevitably wins. The capitalist can live longer without the worker than the worker can without him. Combination among capitalists is habitual and effective, while combination among the workers is forbidden and has painful consequences for them. In addition to that, the landowner and the capitalist can increase their revenues with the profits of industry, while the worker can supplement his income from industry with neither ground rent nor interest on capital. This is the reason for the intensity of competition among the workers. It is therefore only for the worker that the separation of capital, landed property and labour is a necessary, essential and pernicious separation. Capital and landed property need not remain constant in this abstraction, as must the labour of the workers. 1

So for the worker the separation of capital, ground rent and labour is fatal. 2

From Karl Marx, "Wages of Labour", "Estranged Labour", translated by Rodney Livingstone and Gregor Benton in *Early Writings*, published by Penguin Books in association with New Left Review, London 1995. Reproduced by permission of New Left Review.

3 For wages the lowest and the only necessary rate is that required for the subsistence of the worker during work and enough extra to support a family and prevent the race of workers from dying out. According to Smith, the normal wage is the lowest which is compatible with common humanity, i.e. with a bestial existence.[1]

4 *The demand for men necessarily regulates the production of men, as of every other commodity.* If the supply greatly exceeds the demand, then one section of the workers sinks into beggary or starvation. The existence of the worker is therefore reduced to the same condition as the existence of every other commodity. The worker has become a commodity, and he is lucky if he can find a buyer. And the demand on which the worker's life depends is regulated by the whims of the wealthy and the capitalists. If supply exceeds demand, one of the elements which go to make up the price—profit, ground rent, wages—will be paid below its *price*. A part of these elements is therefore withdrawn from this application, with the result that the market price gravitates towards the natural price as the central point. But (1) it is very difficult for the worker to direct his labour elsewhere where there is a marked division of labour; and (2) because of his subordinate relationship to the capitalist, he is the first to suffer.

5 *So the worker is sure to lose and to lose most from the gravitation of the market price towards the natural price.* And it is precisely the ability of the capitalist to direct his capital elsewhere which either drives the worker, who is restricted to one particular branch of employment, into starvation or forces him to submit to all the capitalist's demands.

6 The sudden chance fluctuations in market price hit ground rent less than that part of the price which constitutes profit and wages, but they hit profit less than wages. For every wage which rises, there is generally one which remains *stationary* and another which *falls*.

7 *The worker does not necessarily gain when the capitalist gains, but he necessarily loses with him.* For example, the worker does not gain if the capitalist keeps the market price above the natural price by means of a manufacturing or trade secret, a monopoly or a favourably placed property.

8 Moreover, *the prices of labour are much more constant than the prices of provisions*. They are often in inverse proportion. In a dear year, wages drop because

[1] Adam Smith, *The Wealth of Nations*, 2 vols., Everyman edition, Vol. I, p. 61.

of a drop in demand and rise because of an increase in the price of provisions. They therefore balance. In any case, some workers are left without bread. In cheap years wages rise on account of the rise in demand and fall on account of the fall in the price of provisions. So they balance.[2]

Another disadvantage for the worker: 9

The price of the labour of different kinds of workers varies much more than the *profits of the various branches in which capital is put to use*. In the case of labour, all the natural, spiritual and social variations in individual activity are manifested and variously rewarded, whereas dead capital behaves in a uniform way and is indifferent to *real* individual activity. 10

In general, we should note that where worker and capitalist both suffer, the worker suffers in his very existence while the capitalist suffers in the profit on his dead mammon. 11

The worker has not only to struggle for his physical means of subsistence; he must also struggle for work, i.e. for the possibility and the means of realizing his activity. 12

Let us consider the three main conditions which can occur in society and their effect on the worker. 13

(1) If the wealth of society is decreasing, the worker suffers most, for although the working class cannot gain as much as the property owners when society is prospering, *none suffers more cruelly from its decline than the working class*.[3] 14

(2) Let us now consider a society in which wealth is increasing. This condition is the only one favourable to the worker. Here competition takes place among the capitalists. The demand for workers outstrips supply. But: 15

In the first place the rise in wages leads to *overwork* among the workers. The more they want to earn the more they must sacrifice their time and freedom and work like slaves in the service of avarice. In doing so they shorten their lives. But this is all to the good of the working class as a whole, since it creates a renewed demand. This class must always sacrifice a part of itself if it is to avoid total destruction. 16

Furthermore, when is a society in a condition of increasing prosperity? When the capitals and revenues of a country are growing. But this is only possible 17

[2] Smith, op. cit., I, pp. 76–7.

[3] ibid., p. 230.

18 (a) as a result of the accumulation of a large quantity of labour, for capital is accumulated labour; that is to say, when more and more of the worker's products are being taken from him, when his own labour increasingly confronts him as alien property and the means of his existence and of his activity are increasingly concentrated in the hands of the capitalist.

19 (b) The accumulation of capital increases the division of labour, and the division of labour increases the number of workers; conversely, the growth in the number of workers increases the division of labour, just as the growth in the division of labour increases the accumulation of capital. As a consequence of this division of labour on the one hand and the accumulation of capitals on the other, the worker becomes more and more uniformly dependent on labour, and on a particular, very one-sided and machine-like type of labour. Just as he is depressed, therefore, both intellectually and physically to the level of a machine, and from being a man becomes an abstract activity and a stomach, so he also becomes more and more dependent on every fluctuation in the market price, in the investment of capital and in the whims of the wealthy. Equally, the increase in that class of men who do nothing but work increases the competition among the workers and therefore lowers their price. In the factory system conditions such as these reach their climax.

20 (c) In a society which is becoming increasingly prosperous, only the very richest can continue to live from the interest on money. All the rest must run a business with their capital, or put it on the market. As a result the competition among the capitalists increases, there is a growing concentration of capital, the big capitalists ruin the small ones and a section of the former capitalists sinks into the class of the workers which, because of this increase in numbers, suffers a further depression of wages and becomes even more dependent on the handful of big capitalists. Because the number of capitalists has fallen, competition for workers hardly exists any longer, and because the number of workers has increased, the competition among them has become all the more considerable, unnatural and violent. Hence a section of the working class is reduced to beggary or starvation with the same necessity as a section of the middle capitalists ends up in the working class.

21 So even in the state of society most favourable to him, the inevitable consequence for the worker is overwork and early death, reduction to a machine, enslavement to capital which piles up in threatening opposition to him, fresh competition and starvation or beggary for a section of the workers.

An increase in wages arouses in the worker the same desire to get rich as in the 22
capitalist, but he can only satisfy this desire by sacrificing his mind and his body. An increase in wages presupposes, and brings about, the accumulation of capital, and thus opposes the product of labour to the worker as something increasingly alien to him. Similarly, the division of labour makes him more and more one-sided and dependent, introducing competition from machines as well as from men. Since the worker has been reduced to a machine, the machine can confront him as a competitor. Finally, just as the accumulation of capital increases the quantity of industry and therefore the number of workers, so it enables the same quantity of industry to produce a *greater quantity of products*. This leads to overproduction and ends up either by putting a large number of workers out of work or by reducing their wages to a pittance.

Such are the consequences of a condition of society which is most favourable 23
to the worker, i.e. a condition of *growing* wealth.

But in the long run the time will come when this state of growth reaches 24
a peak. What is the situation of the worker then?

(3) 'In a country which had acquired that full complement of riches ... both 25
the wages of labour and the profits of stock would probably be very low ... the competition for employment would necessarily be so great as to reduce the wages of labour to what was barely sufficient to keep up the number of labourers, and, the country being already fully peopled, that number could never be augmented.'[4]

The surplus population would have to die. 26

So in a declining state of society we have the increasing misery of the worker; 27
in an advancing state, complicated misery; and in the terminal state, static misery.

Smith tells us that a society of which the greater part suffers is not happy.[5] But 28
since even the most prosperous state of society leads to suffering for the majority and since the economic system [*Nationalökonomie*], which is a society based on private interests, brings about such a state of prosperity, it follows that society's distress is the goal of the economic system.

[...]

[4] ibid., p. 84.

[5] ibid., p. 70.

ESTRANGED LABOUR

29 We have started out from the premises of political economy. We have accepted its language and its laws. We presupposed private property; the separation of labour, capital and land, and likewise of wages, profit and capital; the division of labour; competition; the concept of exchange value, etc. From political economy itself, using its own words, we have shown that the worker sinks to the level of a commodity, and moreover the most wretched commodity of all; that the misery of the worker is in inverse proportion to the power and volume of his production [...].

30 Political economy proceeds from the fact of private property. It does not explain it. It grasps the *material* process of private property, the process through which it actually passes, in general and abstract formulae which it then takes as *laws*. It does not *comprehend* these laws, i.e. it does not show how they arise from the nature of private property. Political economy fails to explain the reason for the division between labour and capital, between capital and land. For example, when it defines the relation of wages to profit it takes the interests of the capitalists as the basis of its analysis; i.e. it assumes what it is supposed to explain. Similarly, competition is frequently brought into the argument and explained in terms of external circumstances. Political economy teaches us nothing about the extent to which these external and apparently accidental circumstances are only the expression of a necessary development. We have seen how exchange itself appears to political economy as an accidental fact. The only wheels which political economy sets in motion are *greed* and the *war of the avaricious—competition*.

[...]

31 We must avoid repeating the mistake of the political economist, who bases his explanations on some imaginary primordial condition. Such a primordial condition explains nothing. It simply pushes the question into the grey and nebulous distance. It assumes as facts and events what it is supposed to deduce, namely the necessary relationship between two things, between, for example, the division of labour and exchange. Similarly, theology explains the origin of evil by the fall of man, i.e. it assumes as a fact in the form of history what it should explain.

32 We shall start out from a *present-day* economic fact.

33 The worker becomes poorer the more wealth he produces, the more his production increases in power and extent. The worker becomes an ever cheaper

commodity the more commodities he produces. The *devaluation* of the human world grows in direct proportion to the *increase in value* of the world of things. Labour not only produces commodities; it also produces itself and the workers as a *commodity* and it does so in the same proportion in which it produces commodities in general.

This fact simply means that the object that labour produces, its product, 34 stands opposed to it as *something alien*, as a *power independent* of the producer. The product of labour is labour embodied and made material in an object, it is the *objectification* of labour. The realization of labour is its objectification. In the sphere of political economy this realization of labour appears as a *loss of reality* for the worker, objectification as *loss of and bondage to the object*, and appropriation as *estrangement*, as *alienation* [*Entäusserung*].

So much does the realization of labour appear as loss of reality that the worker 35 loses his reality to the point of dying of starvation. So much does objectification appear as loss of the object that the worker is robbed of the objects he needs most not only for life but also for work. Work itself becomes an object which he can only obtain through an enormous effort and with spasmodic interruptions. So much does the appropriation of the object appear as estrangement that the more objects the worker produces the fewer can he possess and the more he falls under the domination of his product, of capital.

All these consequences are contained in this characteristic, that the worker is 36 related to the *product of his labour* as to an *alien* object. For it is clear that, according to this premise, the more the worker exerts himself in his work, the more powerful the alien, objective world becomes which he brings into being over against himself, the poorer he and his inner world become, and the less they belong to him. It is the same in religion. The more man puts into God, the less he retains within himself. The worker places his life in the object; but now it no longer belongs to him, but to the object. The greater his activity, therefore, the fewer objects the worker possesses. What the product of his labour is, he is not. Therefore, the greater this product, the less is he himself. The externalization [*Entäusserung*] of the worker in his product means not only that his labour becomes an object, an *external* existence, but that it exists *outside him*, independently of him and alien to him, and begins to confront him as an autonomous power; that the life which he has bestowed on the object confronts him as hostile and alien.

37 Let us now take a closer look at *objectification*, at the production of the worker, and the *estrangement*, the *loss* of the object, of his product, that this entails.

38 The worker can create nothing without *nature*, without the *sensuous external world*. It is the material in which his labour realizes itself, in which it is active and from which and by means of which it produces.

39 But just as nature provides labour with the *means of life* in the sense that labour cannot *live* without objects on which to exercise itself, so also it provides the *means of life* in the narrower sense, namely the means of physical subsistence of the *worker*.

40 The more the worker *appropriates* the external world, sensuous nature, through his labour, the more he deprives himself of the *means of life* in two respects: firstly, the sensuous external world becomes less and less an object belonging to his labour, a *means of life* of his labour; and secondly, it becomes less and less a *means of life* in the immediate sense, a means for the physical subsistence of the worker.

41 In these two respects, then, the worker becomes a slave of his object; firstly in that he receives an *object of labour*, i.e. he receives work, and secondly in that he receives *means of subsistence*. Firstly, then, so that he can exist as a *worker*, and secondly as a *physical subject*. The culmination of this slavery is that it is only as a *worker* that he can maintain himself as a *physical subject* and only as a *physical subject* that he is a worker.

42 (The estrangement of the worker in his object is expressed according to the laws of political economy in the following way: the more the worker produces, the less he has to consume; the more values he creates, the more worthless he becomes; the more his product is shaped, the more misshapen the worker; the more civilized his object, the more barbarous the worker; the more powerful the work, the more powerless the worker; the more intelligent the work, the duller the worker and the more he becomes a slave of nature.)

43 *Political economy conceals the estrangement in the nature of labour by ignoring the direct relationship between the worker* (labour) *and production.* It is true that labour produces marvels for the rich, but it produces privation for the worker. It produces palaces, but hovels for the worker. It produces beauty, but deformity for the worker. It replaces labour by machines, but it casts some of the workers back into barbarous forms of labour and turns others into machines. It produces intelligence, but it produces idiocy and cretinism for the worker.

The direct relationship of labour to its products is the relationship of the 44
worker to the objects of his production. The relationship of the rich man to the objects of production and to production itself is only a *consequence* of this first relationship, and confirms it. Later we shall consider this second aspect. Therefore when we ask what is the essential relationship of labour, we are asking about the relationship of the worker to production.

Up to now we have considered the estrangement, the alienation of the 45
worker only from one aspect, i.e. his *relationship to the products of his labour.* But estrangement manifests itself not only in the result, but also in the *act of production*, within the *activity of production* itself. How could the product of the worker's activity confront him as something alien if it were not for the fact that in the act of production he was estranging himself from himself? After all, the product is simply the résumé of the activity, of the production. So if the product of labour is alienation, production itself must be active alienation, the alienation of activity, the activity of alienation. The estrangement of the object of labour merely summarizes the estrangement, the alienation in the activity of labour itself.

What constitutes the alienation of labour? 46

Firstly, the fact that labour is *external* to the worker, i.e. does not belong to 47
his essential being; that he therefore does not confirm himself in his work, but denies himself, feels miserable and not happy, does not develop free mental and physical energy, but mortifies his flesh and ruins his mind. Hence the worker feels himself only when he is not working; when he is working he does not feel himself. He is at home when he is not working, and not at home when he is working. His labour is therefore not voluntary but forced, it is *forced labour*. It is therefore not the satisfaction of a need but a mere *means* to satisfy needs outside itself. Its alien character is clearly demonstrated by the fact that as soon as no physical or other compulsion exists it is shunned like the plague. External labour, labour in which man alienates himself, is a labour of self-sacrifice, of mortification. Finally, the external character of labour for the worker is demonstrated by the fact that it belongs not to him but to another, and that in it he belongs not to himself but to another. Just as in religion the spontaneous activity of the human imagination, the human brain and the human heart detaches itself from the individual and reappears as the alien activity of a god or of a devil, so the activity of the worker is not his own spontaneous activity. It belongs to another, it is a loss of his self.

48 The result is that man (the worker) feels that he is acting freely only in his animal functions—eating, drinking and procreating, or at most in his dwelling and adornment—while in his human functions he is nothing more than an animal.

49 It is true that eating, drinking and procreating, etc., are also genuine human functions. However, when abstracted from other aspects of human activity and turned into final and exclusive ends, they are animal.

50 We have considered the act of estrangement of practical human activity, of labour, from two aspects: (1) the relationship of the worker to the *product of labour* as an alien object that has power over him. This relationship is at the same time the relationship to the sensuous external world, to natural objects, as an alien world confronting him in hostile opposition. (2) The relationship of labour to the *act of production* within *labour*. This relationship is the relationship of the worker to his own activity as something which is alien and does not belong to him, activity as passivity [*Leiden*], power as impotence, procreation as emasculation, the worker's *own* physical and mental energy, his personal life—for what is life but activity?—as an activity directed against himself, which is independent of him and does not belong to him. *Self-estrangement*, as compared with the estrangement of the *object* [*Sache*] mentioned above.

51 We now have to derive a third feature of *estranged labour* from the two we have already looked at.

52 Man is a species-being, not only because he practically and theoretically makes the species—both his own and those of other things—his object, but also—and this is simply another way of saying the same thing—because he looks upon himself as the present, living species, because he looks upon himself as a *universal* and therefore free being.

53 Species-life, both for man and for animals, consists physically in the fact that man, like animals, lives from inorganic nature; and because man is more universal than animals, so too is the area of inorganic nature from which he lives more universal. Just as plants, animals, stones, air, light, etc., theoretically form a part of human consciousness, partly as objects of science and partly as objects of art—his spiritual inorganic nature, his spiritual means of life, which he must first prepare before he can enjoy and digest them—so too in practice they form a part of human life and human activity. In a physical sense man lives only from these natural products, whether in the form of nourishment, heating, clothing,

shelter, etc. The universality of man manifests itself in practice in that universality which makes the whole of nature his *inorganic* body, (1) as a direct means of life and (2) as the matter, the object and the tool of his life activity. Nature is man's *inorganic body*, that is to say nature in so far as it is not the human body. Man *lives* from nature, i.e. nature is his *body*, and he must maintain a continuing dialogue with it if he is not to die. To say that man's physical and mental life is linked to nature simply means that nature is linked to itself, for man is a part of nature.

Estranged labour not only (1) estranges nature from man and (2) estranges 54
man from himself, from his own active function, from his vital activity; because of this it also estranges man from his *species*. It turns his *species-life* into a means for his individual life. Firstly it estranges species-life and individual life, and secondly it turns the latter, in its abstract form, into the purpose of the former, also in its abstract and estranged form.

For in the first place labour, *life activity*, *productive life* itself appears to 55
man only as a *means* for the satisfaction of a need, the need to preserve physical existence. But productive life is species-life. It is life-producing life. The whole character of a species, its species-character, resides in the nature of its life activity, and free conscious activity constitutes the species-character of man. Life itself appears only as a *means of life*.

The animal is immediately one with its life activity. It is not distinct from 56
that activity; it *is* that activity. Man makes his life activity itself an object of his will and consciousness. He has conscious life activity. It is not a determination with which he directly merges. Conscious life activity directly distinguishes man from animal life activity. Only because of that is he a species-being. Or rather, he is a conscious being, i.e. his own life is an object for him, only because he is a species-being. Only because of that is his activity free activity. Estranged labour reverses the relationship so that man, just because he is a conscious being, makes his life activity, his *being* [*Wesen*], a mere means for his *existence*.

The practical creation of an *objective world*, the *fashioning* of inorganic 57
nature, is proof that man is a conscious species-being, i.e. a being which treats the species as its own essential being or itself as a species-being. It is true that animals also produce. They build nests and dwellings, like the bee, the beaver, the ant, etc. But they produce only their own immediate needs or those of their young; they produce one-sidedly, while man produces universally; they produce only when

immediate physical need compels them to do so, while man produces even when he is free from physical need and truly produces only in freedom from such need; they produce only themselves, while man reproduces the whole of nature; their products belong immediately to their physical bodies, while man freely confronts his own product. Animals produce only according to the standards and needs of the species to which they belong, while man is capable of producing according to the standards of every species and of applying to each object its inherent standard; hence man also produces in accordance with the laws of beauty.

58 It is therefore in his fashioning of the objective that man really proves himself to be a *species-being*. Such production is his active species-life. Through it nature appears as *his* work and his reality. The object of labour is therefore the *objectification of the species-life of man*: for man reproduces himself not only intellectually, in his consciousness, but actively and actually, and he can therefore contemplate himself in a world he himself has created. In tearing away the object of his production from man, estranged labour therefore tears away from him his *species-life*, his true species-objectivity, and transforms his advantage over animals into the disadvantage that his inorganic body, nature, is taken from him.

59 In the same way as estranged labour reduces spontaneous and free activity to a means, it makes man's species-life a means of his physical existence.

60 Consciousness, which man has from his species, is transformed through estrangement so that species-life becomes a means for him.

61 (3) Estranged labour therefore turns *man's species-being*—both nature and his intellectual species-powers—into a being *alien* to him and a *means* of his *individual existence*. It estranges man from his own body, from nature as it exists outside him, from his spiritual essence [*Wesen*], his *human* essence.

62 (4) An immediate consequence of man's estrangement from the product of his labour, his life activity, his species-being, is the *estrangement of man from man*. When man confronts himself, he also confronts *other* men. What is true of man's relationship to his labour, to the product of his labour and to himself, is also true of his relationship to other men, and to the labour and the object of the labour of other men.

63 In general, the proposition that man is estranged from his species-being means that each man is estranged from the others and that all are estranged from man's essence.

Man's estrangement, like all relationships of man to himself, is realized and 64
expressed only in man's relationship to other men.

In the relationship of estranged labour each man therefore regards the other 65
in accordance with the standard and the situation in which he as a worker finds himself.

We started out from an economic fact, the estrangement of the worker and 66
of his production. We gave this fact conceptual form: *estranged, alienated* labour. We have analysed this concept, and in so doing merely analysed an economic fact.

Let us now go on to see how the concept of estranged, alienated labour must 67
express and present itself in reality.

If the product of labour is alien to me and confronts me as an alien power, to 68
whom does it then belong?

To a being *other* than me. 69

Who is this being? 70

The *gods*? It is true that in early times most production—e.g. temple building, 71
etc., in Egypt, India and Mexico—was in the service of the gods, just as the product belonged to the gods. But the gods alone were never the masters of labour. The same is true of *nature*. And what a paradox it would be if the more man subjugates nature through his labour and the more divine miracles are made superfluous by the miracles of industry, the more he is forced to forgo the joy of production and the enjoyment of the product out of deference to these powers.

The *alien* being to whom labour and the product of labour belong, in whose 72
service labour is performed and for whose enjoyment the product of labour is created, can be none other than *man* himself.

If the product of labour does not belong to the worker, and if it confronts him 73
as an alien power, this is only possible because it belongs to *a man other than the worker*. If his activity is a torment for him, it must provide *pleasure* and enjoyment for someone else. Not the gods, not nature, but only man himself can be this alien power over men.

Consider the above proposition that the relationship of man to himself 74
becomes *objective* and *real* for him only through his relationship to other men. If therefore he regards the product of his labour, his objectified labour, as an *alien*, *hostile* and powerful object which is independent of him, then his relationship to that object is such that another man—alien, hostile, powerful and independent of

him—is its master. If he relates to his own activity as unfree activity, then he relates to it as activity in the service, under the rule, coercion and yoke of another man.

75 Every self-estrangement of man from himself and nature is manifested in the relationship he sets up between other men and himself and nature. Thus religious self-estrangement is necessarily manifested in the relationship between layman and priest, or, since we are here dealing with the spiritual world, between layman and mediator, etc. In the practical, real world, self-estrangement can manifest itself only in the practical, real relationship to other men. The medium through which estrangement progresses is itself a *practical* one. So through estranged labour man not only produces his relationship to the object and to the act of production as to alien and hostile powers[1]; he also produces the relationship in which other men stand to his production and product, and the relationship in which he stands to these other men. Just as he creates his own production as a loss of reality, a punishment, and his own product as a loss, a product which does not belong to him, so he creates the domination of the non-producer over production and its product. Just as he estranges from himself his own activity, so he confers upon the stranger an activity which does not belong to him.

[...]

[1] In the original manuscript Marx wrote the word *Menschen* (men) and not *Mächten* (powers).